

Philosophy of Religion

Religionsfilosofi

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Alte dubitat, qui altius credit.

(He doubts more deeply who believes more deeply.)

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Preface to the Third Edition

When I worked out my *Philosophy of Religion* in the years 1896–1901, I had not yet given any fuller account of epistemology. Nor had I arrived at one when the second edition was due to appear (1906). Later I set out my epistemological position in “The Human Thought” (1910) and in a series of investigations bearing on the subject of the present book (on Totality 1917, on Relation 1921, and on Analogy 1923). It has thereby been possible, in this third edition, to shorten the epistemological section; on several points I could now simply refer to the works named, which would otherwise have required detailed justification. Only the strictly necessary epistemological content has been retained. In the religious-psychological section too I was able to refer to works that threw light on the topics (“The Great Humour” 1916; “Experiences and Interpretations” 1918; “Leading Thoughts in the Nineteenth Century” 1920; together with the essay “Foreword and Postscript to my Philosophy of Religion,” printed in “Minor Works”). I have besides carried out a consolidation of the two groupings of religious-psychological types, determined by different points of view, between which I earlier thought it possible to distinguish. Of the notes, a number have been omitted as outdated or superfluous. Where it was necessary, I have added new notes.

The book’s fundamental thought has remained the same. Its significance has confirmed itself to me over the years by what I have experienced or learned. Often it is precisely objections that have led to fresh corroboration. The book’s fundamental thought is not a key that unlocks everywhere, but it leads one to pose fruitful questions and to enter upon investigations that one would otherwise be inclined to think superfluous. It warns against dogmatism of every kind, and it points at the same time to a deep-lying human need that can hardly die out so long as the life of the spirit is not being extinguished. It does not solve the great problem it treats, but it can lead to ever-renewed reflection. And I hope that the book will continue to work in the direction here indicated.

Carlsberg, 28 February 1924.

HARALD HØFFDING.

Chapter 1

Problem and Procedure

Οὐκ ἔστι λύειν ἀγνοοῦντα τὸ δεσμόν.

ARISTOTLE.

(One cannot loose a knot without knowing where the binding lies).

1. By *philosophy of religion* one could mean either a thinking that springs from religion and builds on religion, or a thinking that takes religion as its object. It is in this latter sense that the term shall be taken here. The thinking that springs from and builds on religion itself belongs to the subject matter of the philosophy of religion and should not be called philosophy of religion.

By religion we think first of all of a state of mind in which feeling and need, fear and hope, enthusiasm and devotion play a larger role than reflection and inquiry, and in which intuition and image hold more sway than investigation and reasoning. To be sure, again and again in the religious life there will arise an involuntary need to give an account of one's condition and of its content—of the worth of one's motives and the validity of one's thoughts. But the religious thinking that thus arises does not pose the religious problem in a decisive way. Its problems arise within religion, but religion itself does not become a problem. No other starting point is yet recognized than religion itself; in any case other starting points are so subordinate in relation to religion that they do not acquire decisive significance. Of this kind is religious thinking in those times in which religion is everything on the spiritual plane. These are the classical times of religion: partly the great times of origins, in which religion with all the power of originality draws all strength and interest to itself; partly the great times of organization, in which all existing culture is shaped or bent into obedience under the highest religious ideas. In such classical times there is a great unity, or at least a great harmony, in the domain of

spiritual life; the division of labour that sets in at a certain stage of cultural development has not yet made itself felt in this domain. Christianity had such a classical time in the age of the primitive Christian community, and later in the great organizational period at the height of the Middle Ages. A religious problem forms only when other sides of spiritual life—science and art, morality and social life—begin to free themselves and to appear with the claim of having independent value. They then judge religion from their points of view and by their standards, whereas religion in its classical times either simply ignored them—as in the times of origins—or—as in the times of organization—valued them from its own point of view and by its own standard, so that the question became whether these two different evaluations could be brought into mutual harmony.—There must be definite historical conditions present before the religious problem can be posed in a decisive way. It is, if one will, only in unhappy times that a religious problem exists. For this problem is the expression of a spiritual disharmony: the different elements of spiritual life no longer work together in so unified a way as before; they lead in different directions, among which one must perhaps ultimately choose. But then both the necessity and the possibility of an investigation are also present.

That religion is made into a problem will be offensive to many. But thought must have the right to investigate everything, once it has awakened, and only thought itself can mark out its boundaries. Who else should mark out its boundaries? He who perceives no problem has of course no reason to think; but neither has he any reason to prevent others from thinking. He who fears losing his spiritual support must keep away. No one wishes to rob the poor man of his only lamb—but then the poor man must not unnecessarily come dragging it along the highway and demand that traffic be stopped on his account. Experience shows, moreover, that it is rather the oxen than the lambs that loudly announce themselves with their indignation in season and out of season (especially out of season). It is not so much the genuinely poor in spirit as the stiff and blustering dogmatists who take offense when free inquiry claims the right to stir on the religious plane as on any other.

The investigation I wish to undertake here addresses itself neither to those who are finished nor to those who are fearful. The finished are found in every camp, not least among the so-called “freethinkers”—a class of people who, like the “Worms” in Linnaeus’s system, can be characterized only by negative predicates, because the class is supposed to encompass so many different forms. The finished are in possession of a definite negative or positive solution to the religious problem and have thereby lost the sense for further thinking about it. The fearful dare not think about it.—Rather, the

investigation addresses itself to those who are *becoming*. “One who is becoming will always be grateful”—no matter in which direction his becoming goes.

Philosophy is, as is well known, richer in ideas, perspectives, and discussions than in definitive results, and the philosopher would often be in a sorry state if he did not believe that the constant striving after truth belongs to the highest spiritual values, which it is the task of all true religion to uphold. Even if we could learn nothing else from a philosophy-of-religion investigation, we could perhaps learn something about the causes of the strife that rages over religious questions, and about this strife’s significance for the development of spiritual life. And should the religious problem prove insoluble, we might perhaps learn why it is insoluble.

2. The philosophy of religion should not proceed from a finished philosophical system. In a certain sense all thinking must be systematic, for “system” literally means “that which stands together,” and it is an inexorable demand placed on our thoughts that they must be able to “stand together” with one another. There is an inner coherence and consistency which in every domain is the ultimate mark of truth, and which must therefore also be required in the domain of the philosophy of religion. But the philosophy-of-religion enterprise will be most fruitful where religion and its phenomena are not placed in relation to some completed philosophical conception or other, but are illuminated by a philosophizing that is itself in the process of investigating whether a completion is possible at all. The task is to discuss religion’s relation to spiritual life. Religion is itself a kind of or form of spiritual life, and it is judged rightly only when seen in its relation to other kinds or forms. It is no alien standard that is thereby applied to religion. For there is a service from which no spiritual power—even if it appears under the greatest names—can exempt itself, namely to serve the deep and rich development of spiritual life. The philosophy-of-religion task will therefore above all be to find the means for investigating whether religion, under the conditions of our spiritual culture, can continue to render such service. In solving, or better: in treating this task, the philosophy of religion cannot come equipped with other presuppositions than those which every other science brings to the treatment of its subject. Very often it will surely be compelled to declare that there are questions that cannot be answered, because the conditions in the spiritual domain are more complex and more diverse than positive and negative dogmatists suppose. Yet it is not without significance that the problems are discussed. The conscious insight into the impossibility of a solution (*docta ignorantia*) naturally invites one to investigate whether it is then so absolutely necessary that a solution be found. In addition, one’s eye will be sharpened for the particular conditions under which

our spiritual culture lives, and above all for the significance of the division of labour in the spiritual domain, through which the religious problem becomes a special form of the general problem of culture.

A philosophy-of-religion investigation can suitably be arranged so as to consist of an epistemological, a psychological, and an ethical part.

In its classical times, religion satisfies all of humankind's spiritual needs, including its drive for knowledge. Religious ideas then contain for human beings the explanation of existence in its entirety and in its individual parts. But when an independent science has developed, another kind of understanding or explanation appears alongside the religious one, and the question becomes whether these two kinds are compatible. Many hold that the relation is this, that the new, scientific mode of explanation increasingly replaces the religious explanation where particulars are concerned, but that it cannot be applied to existence considered as a whole—to what one customarily calls the "first" or the "last" questions. Then one must discuss whether religion is able to solve the riddles that science cannot solve. If it should then turn out that religious conceptions, whether with respect to the whole or to the particular, cannot help with anything that could rightly be called understanding or explanation, then one must raise the question what significance these conceptions can still have.

This last question leads from the epistemological philosophy of religion to the psychological. For if religious conceptions no longer have cognitive value, the value they might possess must consist in being expressions of sides of the life of the soul other than the intellectual. An attempt must then be made to describe the religious life of the soul, especially the relation of conceptions to religious experience and religious feeling. Through this it will become apparent that religion in its innermost nature has to do not with the understanding of existence but with the *evaluation* of it, and that religious conceptions express the relation in which factual existence, as we know it, stands to that which for us gives life its highest value. The core of religion is—according to the hypothesis to which we are led—a faith in the persistence of value in existence. This faith appears in great, vivid images in the popular religions, especially in the highest among them. Even in those who stand outside every popular religion, such a faith may stir, even though it does not here take definite shape.

The transition from psychological to ethical philosophy of religion is naturally motivated by the question: what ethical value does it have that one believes in the persistence of value? Ethics concerns the production of values, and the possibility cannot be dismissed that the work of producing values leaves no time and no strength for living

in the thought of their persistence. The ethical philosophy of religion forms a parallel to the epistemological. In its classical times, religion directly and indirectly determines the evaluation of all actions and all conditions of life. The religious problem arises on this point when an independent ethics has developed that seeks, by its own path, the grounding and motivation for the evaluation of human actions. And on this point the problem is posed in the sharpest and most pressing way, for the ultimate standard for judging religion must belong to the ethical domain, where the final reckoning of the spiritual account takes place.—

Within the framework here indicated, we shall be able to find room for all essential aspects of the religious problem. I wish to treat this problem not only with the intellectual interest that is aroused by a great and comprehensive subject, but also in the mood that comes from the consciousness of standing before a spiritual form of life in which the human race through millennia has deposited some of its deepest and most inward experiences.

3. Before we enter upon the individual parts of the philosophy of religion, it will be useful to give a somewhat more detailed characterization of the content of the religious problem.

In the Protestant world it is fairly generally acknowledged that one must distinguish between knowledge and faith. The Catholic Church does not acknowledge this distinction in its full extent and therefore does not acknowledge any religious problem in the intellectual domain. It maintains that God's existence can be proved by the paths that Thomas Aquinas, supported by Aristotle, pointed out, and it has even declared it a matter of faith to accept that these proofs suffice. The tradition from the great time of the Middle Ages, when "one did not doubt and was therefore nearer to the truth" (to use a sentence from one of Thomas Aquinas's modern biographers), is continually upheld, and it is not acknowledged that a disharmony has really entered into spiritual life. The distinction between knowledge and faith concedes that such a disharmony is present—that the unity of spiritual life is broken. Is this distinction itself then only a station on the way, in that development will lead to an elimination of all religion from spiritual life, because only that can endure which can enter into a harmonious relation with the other elements of life?—Whether one now assumes that it is only the classical time of religion that is past, or that its time is altogether past, the question cannot be set aside whether spiritual value is lost in the process of dissolution that has set in, or whether a replacement can be found for the spiritual unity and self-containment that was lost. This consideration alone shows that the question of the persistence of value is an essential aspect of the religious problem,

whatever solution one inclines toward. It is not least from this side that philosophy in the last century and a half (from the time of Rousseau, Lessing, and Kant onward) has treated the religious problem. Both Romantics and Positivists have been attentive to this aspect of it.—It must of course be remembered that even if one could show that no spiritual energy was lost in the dissolution of religion, it does not follow that the energy would under the new conditions receive as valuable an application as in the classical times of religion. In the spiritual domain no less than in the material, the conservation of energy is not without further ado the same as the persistence of value. Energy can persist without value persisting, while the reverse cannot well be imagined, since energy in and of itself will be a condition for the persistence and development of what is valuable. Many freethinkers proceed without further ado from the assumption that human life will become more powerful and richer when religion falls away—an assumption that is not self-evident and that rests on the presupposition that psychic equivalents are present—equivalents both in terms of value and in terms of energy. The task will then be to demonstrate these equivalents and thereby establish the persistence of value. But it is a great question and an essential aspect of the religious problem whether such equivalents can be demonstrated.—Moreover, the problem of the persistence of value will also arise within the Church, for religion and the religious life undergo constant changes; and the question becomes whether the values from the classical times of religion persist through these changes—e.g., whether primitive Christianity, both in terms of value and in terms of energy, is preserved in the Christianity of our day. In its sharpest form this problem has appeared in the assertion: “the Christianity of the New Testament no longer exists.”—

But the religious problem concerns not only the persistence of value within the human world. It raises not only a psychological but also a cosmological question, namely about the relation between that which stands as the highest value for human beings and the whole of existence. Is there any connection between values and the laws and forces of existence? Are these laws and forces perhaps even ultimately determined by the highest values? Or can we perhaps not ascribe any validity to the concept of value beyond the domain of human life?

The hypothesis that will later (in the psychological philosophy of religion) be sought to be grounded holds that the proposition of the persistence of value is the actual religious axiom, which is expressed in different ways in the different religions and at the different religious standpoints. The religious problem thus concerns the question whether this axiom can really be taken to hold. And at the same time this axiom, insofar as it expresses the fundamental thought of all religion, can be used as a standard for the consistency and

significance of the individual religion or the individual religious standpoint. Finally—as already noted—the relation between ethics and religion can, with the help of this axiom, be expressed in a very simple way: how does faith in the persistence of value relate to the work of finding, producing, and preserving values?—

If the proposition of the persistence of value were to be discussed in its full scope, the discussion would become interminable, and clear starting points for conducting it would soon be lacking. I therefore emphasize at once the limits within which my investigation will move, and which must be kept in mind throughout all that follows.—When I attempt to show that the said proposition is the fundamental thought of all religion, this attempt will not have failed because it turns out that no religion expresses the proposition with clarity and consistency. It will be sufficient if an explicit need or tendency to hold fast to this fundamental thought can be demonstrated, so that the standard for the evaluation of religions in their mutual relations becomes the degree to which they are able to articulate and carry through the proposition.—When the persistence of value is spoken of, this could be understood to mean that value does not vanish, but that there is constantly value in existence, whether it decreases or increases or alternates between decrease and increase. But I understand the expression *the persistence of value* in analogy with the expression *the conservation of energy*, such that the proposition asserts a constant persistence of value through all changes of form. It will perhaps be necessary here to distinguish between potential and actual value, just as one distinguishes between potential and actual energy, and the one distinction is just as clear and just as justified as the other.—But the persistence of value through all changes of form and despite the difference between possibility and actuality is nonetheless only a minimum. It may be maintained that the mere persistence of value is not satisfying and actually contains a contradiction, since value can persist only by growing, since mere repetition dulls, while on the other hand change is valuable only when it brings enhancement. That an increase of value does not conflict with the conservation of energy needs no further demonstration; the increase of value presupposes only a new and more perfect application of energy, not an increase of energy as a whole. It is for the sake of simplicity that I limit the investigation to the persistence of value. And it will also turn out that religious consciousness has at bottom limited itself to this as well. The persistence of value will present us with difficulties and tasks enough, even if we do not enter into everything that lies in the unavoidable consequence that value can persist only if it increases. Yet we must not forget that this consequence is present.—Finally, when the persistence of value is under discussion, one might ask: which value and how much value? I enter into these questions only insofar

as the difference between the different religions and religious standpoints essentially depends on the different answers they give to them. It is clear that the proposition of the persistence of value can be accepted whatever answers one gives. The hypothesis that the persistence of value is the fundamental religious proposition is not shaken by the fact that the different religions and religious standpoints diverge greatly from one another with respect to the character and extent of the valuable in whose persistence they believe.

Value is the property of something that it brings about a real satisfaction or can become the means to such. Value can therefore be immediate or mediate. Immediate value we seek to hold fast when it is given, and to produce when it is not given. We thus make it our end. That we make something an end presupposes, conversely, that we have an experience or a supposition of its immediate value. Mediate value belongs to that which serves the attainment of an end—that is, of an immediate value. Mediate value need not be potential value. For what serves as a means for attaining something of immediate value itself acquires value in our eyes, even though its value stands as derived. There are all possible transitions between mediate and immediate value, and through the shifting of motives the former passes over into the latter, so that what at first had value only as a means now acquires value as an end. Potential value, on the other hand, often means only the possibility that something will acquire value as a means—that is, the possibility of mediate value.—Which values are experienced and therefore acknowledged at the different standpoints will depend on the different character of those standpoints. It is a being's nature that determines its need, and it is its need that determines what acquires value for it. The religious axiom thus shows the necessity of a religion's character being determined by the nature and need of the human beings who profess it. For one cannot seriously believe in the persistence of values that one does not know at least approximately from one's own experience.—

Every application of the concept of value presupposes a relation to a whole whose persistence and development require definite conditions. Such wholes are organisms, personalities, societies, and finally the human race. In an individual whole endowed with consciousness (a personality), feelings of pleasure and displeasure, in all their various degrees and forms, appear as symptoms of a need to maintain or to call forth the conditions of the whole's persistence. Here, then, value is known by immediate experience. But by way of analogy the concept of value—and with it the concept of wholeness, which makes rational discussion of values possible—can be applied to all wholes.—A fuller demonstration than can be given here of the significant connection

between the concepts of value and wholeness I have attempted in *Den menneskelige Tanke* (pp. 238–241; 346–349) and in *Totalitet som Kategori*, ch. 5.

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Chapter 2

Epistemological Philosophy of Religion

2.1 Understanding

Ihm ziemt's die Welt im Innern zu bewegen.

GOETHE.

(It befits him to move the world from within.)

4. Against the supposition I have put forward, that the core of religion is faith in the persistence of value, it might seem to tell that theoretical motives have after all played, and still for many play, a considerable role in the development of religious ideas. I have moreover already remarked that since religion in its classical times is everything for the human being, it in such times also satisfies its drive for knowledge—that is, provides it with means for and forms of understanding and explanation of existence. In the classical times of religion there exists no independent drive for knowledge, any more than special means and forms for satisfying such a drive. The distinction between knowledge and faith, between understanding and evaluation, comes forward only in the critical times—that is, in the times when religion has become a problem. This distinction began to make its way only after a number of violent collisions between religion and science. Only reluctantly has one begun, from the religious side, to learn that it is not religion's business to give us a scientific understanding of the world. What all theologians now repeat, that the Bible is not to teach us natural science, no one would hear when Bruno, Galileo, and Spinoza said it. The persecution of heretics ran its course, and only afterwards did one see the rightness of what the heretics had said. In other domains the same conflict

repeats itself; in our days it is the humanities whose independence is at stake.

Every great religion appears in history with a world-view, in that it gathers up within itself, in a distinctive manner, the whole circle of ideas of its time. Christianity, for example, stood in the first centuries as attractive to many by its intellectual content as well. TATIAN thus went over to Christianity because this “philosophy of the barbarians,” as he called it, seemed to him to explain what he had not before understood: “the coming-to-be of the world.” The old apologists stood generally at the standpoint that Christianity contained the best solution to the riddles of thought. When Plato and other Greek philosophers seemed to hint at similar solutions, this was to be explained, according to Justin Martyr, either by their having been influenced by the Israelite prophets, or else by the fact that “the Word” (Logos), before it became flesh, had worked illuminatingly within human beings. In comparison with the earlier religions, Christianity had—as is generally the case with the higher religions in relation to the lower—a certain rational character, and above all a simplicity, a plain grandeur, which could not but work attractively on many who knew only the earlier religions with their motley mythologies. In so far as the world-view given in the biblical writings was not detailed enough, the Church Fathers and the Schoolmen supplemented it by the aid of Greek science.

Just as Christianity does for the western portion of humanity, so Buddhism stands for the eastern portion not merely as a great religion, but as a great world-view, whose ideas have a certain rational character and cannot be understood without acquaintance with the antecedent Indian thought.

When the opposition between religious and scientific understanding of existence is spoken of, the weight is as a rule laid on the fact that science—especially in the domains of astronomy, geology, and biology—has led to results that conflict with religion’s transmitted teachings. A great part of the work of the modern apologists accordingly goes to showing the compatibility of the transmitted religious ideas with those scientific results that really stand firm. Towards modern natural science one applies, with greater or lesser success—and with greater or lesser taste—the same process of accommodation that the apologists of antiquity applied towards Greek science. But for the illumination of the religious problem as a whole, this entire discussion for and against is of slight interest, except perhaps in so far as it furnishes characteristic examples of the accommodation which the life of religious ideas—like everything living—undergoes, or strives to undergo, in the face of new conditions of life. What is the main matter, on the contrary, is that it is two wholly different kinds or types of “understanding” that here stand over against one another. They are two ways of thinking and of explaining events—two ways so

different that once one has begun with the one, one will not be able to find any point at which it is justified and possible to go over to the other. The whole mental condition is so heterogeneous that the word “understanding” is in reality used here in two wholly different senses. Let me take a single example. A sudden storm and tidal flood, which brings about the destruction of many fishermen at sea, is explained in natural-scientific fashion by the states of the air and the sea in the preceding days. But in the funeral oration over the drowned, the “understanding” of what has happened is found in this, that God wished to give the survivors a sign, that they should be converted.¹ At what point in the series of natural causes can one now suppose that this divine intervention has taken place? The natural causes form a connected series, from which no link can be taken out. A choice must be made between the two “understandings.” The one kind of understanding aims, so far as possible, to form connected series of links, each of which can be pointed out in experience. The more the state of the air and the sea at the moment of the catastrophe has been brought into connected sequence with their states in the preceding days, the better—according to the one type of understanding—one is said to understand the catastrophe. According to the other type, it is understood by the value it acquires through its influence on the minds of those who suffer under it, and this value is regarded as intended—as the purpose of a divine intervention.

The scientific type of understanding has developed in a clear and fruitful manner especially in the course of the last three centuries. It does not exclude a religious evaluation, but it excludes a confusion of this evaluation with explanation proper. It is the task of philosophical epistemology to investigate the presuppositions and the forms of thought that lie at the foundation of scientific knowledge, and it will be of philosophy-of-religion interest to bring out these presuppositions and forms of thought and to compare them with the foundation of religious “understanding.” Through this we shall be able to obtain information as to how far religion will still be able to have significance for the satisfaction of our drive for knowledge.

2.1.1 Causal Explanation

5. When one sets up the proposition that every event has its cause—the so-called causal principle—one thereby establishes the principle that existence is intelligible. This proposition can never become more than a hypothesis, since we can never understand everything, never point out causes for all events. But it contains the presupposition with which we involuntarily meet events that awaken our attention; at any rate it is the presupposition that brings us to look about for earlier events when an event has

occurred.

We can here disregard entirely the question of the causal principle's justification and origin, since the mutually divergent conceptions here offered need not acquire any philosophy-of-religion significance. Whether the acknowledgement of this proposition is due to habit or to an inner necessity in our nature, the need to find causes stirs more or less in everyone, and the religious conception bears witness to it as well as the scientific. Indeed, religious ideas have a peculiar epistemological interest precisely in this, that they testify how deeply the need to find causes lies in human nature, since it expresses itself even there where no independent scientific interest has yet arisen. The opposition between religion and science comes forward only when regard is had to the *character* of the causes one acknowledges as right, real causes (*veræ causæ*). *Both religious and scientific understanding are a leading back of the unknown to the known; the difference between them rests on what this known is.*

Scientific understanding requires that the cause of an event be demonstrated in events that themselves establish themselves in experience just as well as the event to be explained. The task here becomes to interpret the series of events by finding as many individual links in this series, and as close a connection between them, as possible. The aim is to interpret nature by nature itself, just as one interprets a passage in a book by comparing it with other passages in the same book. Religious understanding does not make the demand that the cause should stand in continuous connection with the effect and itself be demonstrated as an experience just as well as the event to be explained. It does not investigate its causes in the critical manner that science does. It does not explain nature by nature itself, but by something that is different from or stands outside nature, that "pushes in from without." Thus, at any rate, religious understanding most frequently appears in history. In contrast to this religious understanding, the special form that empirical science—in both the mental and the material domains—gives to the causal principle can be designated as *the principle of natural causes*. If it cannot be applied, we understand nothing, when it is the scientific type of understanding and the corresponding intellectual habit that prevail in us.

Only the principle of natural causes satisfies the need for a special explanation of the particular, determinate event. Galileo thus showed that in the debate between the different contending astronomical hypotheses it could be of no use to appeal to God's intervention, since for God's omnipotence it is just as easy to let the sun move round the earth as to let the earth move round the sun. This cause therefore cannot help us to a choice between the hypotheses. It is a key that unlocks everywhere; but it is not such a

master key that science seeks; science's interest is to investigate the peculiar character of the different locks, and it therefore demands a key of its own for every lock. If a master key were sufficient, the difference of the locks would become meaningless—and would contain an unsolved problem!—To appeal to God's will gives no scientific understanding, but is—scientifically regarded—an admission that one does not understand the event.

The deepest justification for the principle of natural causes I find in a need for continuity, which lies in the nature of our consciousness and which already shows itself in the general need to find causes. Our consciousness strives involuntarily to gather up and hold together its elements and to preserve unity with itself, even when it stands before a new content. This new content it then strives to shape, alter, and arrange, so that the new shows itself to be a new form of something old. Self-recognition then becomes possible in spite of the shifting of content, and the unity of the personal life mirrors itself in the continuity thereby brought about. The work of knowledge is here closely bound up with the work on the development of character. We speak of a character—in the pronounced sense—only where unity and continuity prevail in the whole striving, and where there is not again and again a leaping over to something new. In analogy with this, knowledge seeks to find as much unity and continuity as possible, to exhibit the new as a transformation or continuation of the old; and only where this succeeds is a full appropriation and understanding won. The principle of natural causes, which leads one to build series as long and as continuous as possible, is therefore no accident, but is closely bound up with the very nature of personality. It is therefore incorrect when personality and science are set in sharp opposition to one another. Scientific work is a work of personality. And the more this work succeeds, the more does causal explanation approach grounding and recognition. The differences in existence are reduced to the least possible when we survey, at a single glance, “under the form of eternity,” great regions of existence.

Religious understanding too—in the mythical and dogmatic forms in which it most frequently appears in history—leads the unknown back to the known. But this known is here as a rule the will of one or more personal beings. The religious consciousness supposes itself to know what the divine will aims at, and recognizes in events the expression of this will. Its interest is not to find an inner connection among events themselves, but to see all events (in the whole of nature, or in some single domain) as the expression of one and the same power. It places itself at the centre, or supposes itself to be at the centre, and from there it surveys the whole circle of existence.

The difficulty for the religious conception here becomes this, that the radius with

which this circle is described is not known. From one and the same centre many different circles can be described. Therefore every “central” consideration (as it has moreover been attempted not only on religious presuppositions, but also in speculative philosophical form) will be powerless with respect to the understanding of the special events. A theological or speculative epistemology will therefore not be able to be carried through. There do not even exist serious attempts at one; but we must hold to the epistemology that empirical and critical philosophy has developed on the basis of the history of empirical science.

6. When the scientific type of understanding has begun to prevail, but is excluded at certain selected points where religious understanding still claims dominion, there arises the bastard concept called wonder, *miracle*. The miracle presupposes that both types make themselves felt, but that there is a leap over from the one type to the other. Where either a certain degree of scientific understanding or of knowledge is not present, the miracle can only mean a deviation from the accustomed. The natural man wonders when the hitherto unseen or unheard-of happens. But the miracle proper presupposes a certain knowledge of natural laws—a continuity that is broken—a rule from which an exception is made. Miracles must therefore occur according to the law of parsimony; if they come so frequently that they become the rule, they form a continuous connection, and the concept of miracle is abolished.

If one does not set up the principle of natural causes in a wholly dogmatic manner, one cannot maintain in advance the impossibility of miracles. But the decisive thing is here again the way the problem is posed and the intellectual habit. For him who asks and sets up his problems according to the scientific type, for him a miracle can never come to be. He may come to stand before something he cannot explain, since no cause (in the sense in which he speaks of cause) can be found, or at any rate has hitherto been found. But he can never discover that there is no natural cause. The religious consciousness itself cannot—without ascribing omniscience to itself—maintain that an event *cannot* be explained according to natural laws. To know that something falls outside the laws of nature, one must know them all and know all possible special applications of them. Only by a revelation could one come to know that in the particular case a miracle is present. It is not the miracle that confirms the revelation, but the revelation that decides what is a miracle. And since a revelation is itself a miracle, one can only by a miracle come to know whether a miracle has happened.—It is consistent when the Catholic Church, which decides what is revelation, also demands to decide what is a miracle and what is not. Nothing may be taken for a miracle unless it is sanctioned as such by “apostolic and

ordained authority.”²

In the case of miracles of which one is not oneself an eyewitness, the question will particularly be whether the report is so securely transmitted, and whether the eyewitness has been so keen an observer, that one will sooner be able to assume a deviation from the laws of nature than an error in transmission and observation. A report that does not derive from an observer who has sufficient acquaintance with the natural conditions and natural laws in question has no scientific significance.

7. The preceding consideration rested on the scientific concept of cause, according to which an event is understood by being seen in its inner connection with other events, as a continuation of them or as a transformation into new form of their content. The presupposition of all such causal explanation is a principle of unity that makes connection possible. We reach this principle by analysis of the very concept of causal connection or reciprocal action. It is the bond that holds existence together and makes it a whole, more than a chaos of elements—even if it is a whole we cannot survey.

The principle of unity at which we have thus arrived recalls the concept of God. But the customary line of thought often reaches its concept of God by another road: not by going back to the presupposition of the causal series, to the principle that makes such a series possible at all, but by continuing the causal series backwards to a “first cause.” By virtue of this line of thought one will say, in the face of the preceding development: “Religion gladly leaves it to science—a few supernatural events excepted—to find the finite causes and to spin out the causal series as far as possible. The causes that science can find are nevertheless always subordinate, derived causes (*causæ secundæ*). What religion maintains is that existence becomes meaningless if we do not at last find the origin of the whole causal series in a first cause, an absolute cause, in which thought finds rest—where all further questioning falls away—and from which the full, clear light streams out over everything.”

This line of thought stems from ARISTOTLE and is taken up by THOMAS AQUINAS, on whose authority it is still espoused by Catholic theology,³ as well as by many Protestant theologians. It is the so-called cosmological proof of God’s existence—the most important of all “proofs”—that we here stand before.

That the series of causes must be limited is inferred from the consideration that otherwise no complete explanation of any link whatever in the series of events would have been reached. “If there is no first,” says ARISTOTLE, “there is no cause at all.” It is thus the condition of existence’s intelligibility that one here supposes oneself to be relying on. It is a rationalistic tendency that lies at the foundation of this theological

line of thought. Existence must be comprehensible!—that is the underlying postulate. Aristotle does not, however, assume that the first cause began to work at a definite point of time, so that “the world” has a beginning. And Thomas also concedes that it is only by the way of faith that one comes to assume that the world has a beginning (*mundum incepisse, sola fide tenetur*).

KANT has subjected this proof to a criticism that leads him to the result that it rests on “a false self-satisfaction of human reason.” In the main his criticism stands in force to this very day. In what follows I make use in part of his objections, adding to them some other misgivings.

Even if we could build a connected causal series, at what point should we then break off our search for finite causes in order to hang the whole chain on a “first cause”—as Zeus in Homer threatens to hang the whole world on a peak of Mount Olympus? What mark can we have that we are at the “next to first” cause, so that we must now set about making the decisive leap?—And why should the causal series not be able to be infinite? That an infinite series is unthinkable is a dogmatic assertion. There can be series which, by virtue of the law that holds for the relation between their links, can always be continued. Such series we think—not by running through all the links, which is of course impossible—but by thinking the law of their connection. Such a series is the causal series. It is built by virtue of the causal principle, which says that everything that happens has its cause. This proposition must—if it is accepted at all—also be accepted as holding for every single link in the series, for the “first” one has gone back to as well as for all the others. The assumption of an absolutely first cause would thus conflict with the causal principle—although it was precisely to be justified by existence’s absolute intelligibility, and so by the causal principle!—

Popular theology will especially hold to the form of the cosmological proof that runs thus: “Since everything has its cause, the world too must have its cause.” One operates here with the concept “world” without noticing that it contains the same or similar difficulties as those that just showed themselves in the concept of God. If by “world” one understands the sum total of all that exists, or at any rate of all “finite” existing things, then it is a concept that can never be completed. The given is never completed; new experiences are always coming in, which make new conceptual determinations necessary. We therefore never come, by the road of scientific inquiry, to a point at which there could be a question of a cause of “the whole world.” The given constitutes a whole, which we analyse in order to find its laws and its elements; but every given whole points over to other wholes; we seek to work all given wholes together into a still higher whole;

but however far this work be continued, the same task will always present itself anew. There is here a series of like kind with the causal series—a series that by virtue of its own law cannot be completed. The concept “world” is therefore properly a false concept, though one operates with it so briskly, plays with it as with a ball.

2.1.2 The World of Space

8. When the religious consciousness historically shows a tendency to limit the series of causes, this is in part to be explained by the need for intuitive vividness. The religious consciousness wants a vivid image of its object, and such an image presupposes limitation. With this in turn hangs together its tendency to refer the divine to definite places in space. Spatial ideas are our clearest ideas, and what we wish to represent clearly we therefore seek to shape into spatial images or schemata. With this there naturally combines the idea that everything that exists must belong at a definite place in the world, must be localized. What is not at some definite place seems, to the childlike conception, which is decidedly realistic, not to be at all. Just as, with respect to the explanation of the world, it would be the simplest thing if we could come upon the deity by following the series of causes link by link, so also, with respect to the conception of the world, it would be the simplest thing if the human being needed only to lift his eyes upward to find the deity, or at any rate could behold its dwelling.

Antiquity's conception of the world met this need. For it the world was limited. The earth stood at the world's centre, and the vault of heaven, which was not thought to be extraordinarily far off, formed the world's outermost boundary. The bright sky has, especially for the Indo-Germanic peoples, been regarded as deity or as the seat of the deity. The stem from which many of the Indo-Germanic languages form their word for “God” properly denotes sky or heavenly. Thus the Indian *devas*, the Persian *deva*, the Greek Ζεύς (Δίος), the Latin *deus*, and so on. Herodotus says of the Persians that they call the sky Zeus, and with this agrees the fact that the natural background of the god Ahura Mazda (Ormuzd) is assumed by the more recent history of religion to be the sky. The Greeks supposed, indeed, in the oldest time, that the gods dwelt more particularly on Mount Olympus, but later thought of the sky or “the aether” as their dwelling. Aristotle says: “All human beings assume that there are gods, and all, both barbarians and Hellenes, assign to the deity the uppermost place.” The opposition between heaven and earth thus became quite naturally, for antiquity, one with the opposition between the divine and the human, between the eternal and the changeable, between the perfect and the imperfect. The expressions “the higher” and “the lower” had originally a literal meaning;

the symbolic meaning is here, as everywhere, the later one. Aristotle's incorporation of antiquity's astronomical conception into his system became of decisive importance. Since both this conception and his whole system seemed to be compatible with the biblical circle of ideas, and capable of serving for the further working-out of it, they were taken up by ecclesiastical theology and through it became dominant right into the modern age.

Among the Jewish people too we meet with the great religious significance of the opposition between heaven and earth. In the opinion of some, Jahveh was originally a thunder-god; at any rate he reveals himself with special majesty in the heavenly phenomena. Heaven is his seat, and the earth his footstool. The New Testament conception stands here entirely on the ground of the Old. There is sometimes talk of several heavens (2 Corinthians XII, 2; Ephesians IV, 10), and God's dwelling is then the heavenly holy of holies, which is above all the heavens. Accounts such as that of Jesus's visible ascension and of Paul's rapture to the third heaven testify that the ancient picture of the world is presupposed. As these accounts stand, they are plainly to be taken literally, though the more recent theology (even the orthodox) is on this point inclined to apply the rationalistic explanation.

There was both vividness and security in the narrow frame within which the picture of the world thus presented itself. Without being disturbed and disquieted by infinite distances, the religious consciousness could give itself wholly to the great experiences of life and regard the all-decisive process of redemption—resolved on in heaven and accomplished on earth—as that about which the whole outer life of the world also turned. There was as it were a ladder between heaven and earth; the two worlds, the world of the highest value and the world of contending values, stood in vivid reciprocal action. Poets like Homer and Dante are testimony to what foothold and what support the limited picture of the world afforded the human imagination.

But within the religious consciousness itself there shows itself, at a somewhat higher stage of development, an opposite tendency, which at the cost of vividness aims at abolishing the localization of the content of religious ideas. It came to appear an imperfection that the deity should really have its dwelling at a definite place, so that it must either move through space in order to come to the human being, or the human being must travel long roads to meet his God. God must be omnipresent and all-embracing if he is not to be limited and imperfect, as a human being is. However short the distance between heaven and earth was thought to be, it nevertheless became too long for the religious need. The deity had to stand in a far more intimate relation to the human being

than localization at definite places made possible.

In the biblical writings and among the ecclesiastical theologians we find, then, a double current. Vividness is held fast; but where it is the inwardness of feeling, rather than the imagination's need for intuition, that leads the word, there the significance of the spatial relation is abolished. God dwells in heaven—but he is truly not far from us, for in him we are and live and move. Jesus ascends to heaven and shall come thence again—but he lives in believers and is with them all their days.

The religious conception has here, in its classical times, a *Both—And*, which later is gradually replaced by an *Either—Or*.

9. What made it possible for the theologians of earlier times to hold fast to this Both—And was the bold use they made of allegorical or symbolic interpretation. An allegorical interpretation did not, according to their conception, exclude the literal meaning. The relation between the two remained in a certain indeterminacy, which not seldom could lead to violent collisions. "There was lacking," says ADOLF HARNACK in his history of dogma, "a definite rule for how far the letter of Holy Scripture should hold. Has God human shape, has he eyes, has he a voice, does Paradise lie on the earth, do the dead rise with all their limbs, with hair too, and so on?—to all these questions and a hundred like them no certain answer was given, and therefore there was strife between the adherents of one and the same confession. Allegorize all had to, but all had on the other hand also to take certain passages of Scripture literally. But what a difference there was between an Epiphanius and a Gregory of Nyssa, and how many nuances there were between the crude anthropomorphists and the spiritualists! These last for the most part feared the arguments of the former, often also their fists, and they had to be anxious about their own orthodoxy."⁴

AUGUSTINE is certainly the one who has contributed most to displacing the merely literal conception. His Platonic studies have here had decisive influence and have—in conjunction with his profound and strongly agitated inner life—led him to a clearer view of the difference between the spiritual and the material, and thereby led him to utter thoughts in which he stands as the precursor of Descartes and Kant. What in this connection especially interests us is his rejection of all spatial determinations as invalid for the divine. Where he speaks of his own earlier conception, he says: "I did not know that God is a spirit that has no limbs with length and breadth, any more than bodily mass (*moles*). The bodily (*moles*) is less in a part than in the whole, and if it is infinite, it is less in a limited part than in the infinite, and it is not everywhere as a whole (*tota ubiqve*), as God is." "God is present in his wholeness everywhere, and is yet nowhere in

place (*ubique totus, et nusquam locorum*)!" "God dwells further within my being than my own inmost self, and he is more exalted than the highest I can reach (*interior intimo meo, superior summo meo*). "God stands above my soul, but not in the same way as heaven stands above the earth."⁵

When thoughts such as these were appropriated and carried through, they had to lead to strife with the old picture of the world and its childlike opposition between heaven and earth. The Schoolmen of the Middle Ages held fast to the immaterial concept of God, independent of spatial determinations, and from them it passed over to the Mystics, who besides were influenced by Neoplatonic thoughts.—"Lord," Suso's female disciple asks him, "where is God?" The answer runs: "The masters say: God has no Where.... God is a circle whose centre is everywhere and whose circumference is nowhere."⁶ Thus, through inner contradiction, the validity of the spatial relation is abolished.

Towards accounts such as that of the visible ascension one took up in the Middle Ages this position: that one held fast that the events reported had taken place as they were described, but that they had a spiritual meaning which was the essential thing. HUGH OF ST. VICTOR explains that by "the highest" is meant the inmost in us, and that ascending to God means that we sink ourselves into ourselves and there find something that is "higher" than ourselves. But he will not therefore deny that heaven and hell are definite places in the world. His contemporary ABELARD maintains (in his remarkable "Dialogue between a Philosopher, a Jew, and a Christian") that what is said of God in bodily form is to be understood—not, as the common man understands it, bodily and literally—but mystically and allegorically. By heaven's exaltation above the earth is meant rather the exalted character (*sublimitas*) of the life to come than the situation of the material heaven, and that Jesus sits at God's right hand denotes not a spatial position (*localis positio*), but equality of dignity (*æqualis dignitas*). Jesus's ascension has indeed taken place bodily as it is reported, but it denotes nevertheless "a nobler kind of ascent" (*melior ascensus*), namely that which takes place in the souls of believers. Unlearned and simple people would not understand what is not presented in vivid form.⁷

The characteristic Both—And here comes clearly forward. It had its great advantages in a pedagogical respect, since one did not need to make any sharp distinction between idea and reality, symbol and truth. With his bodily eyes the human being could look up to heaven, the seat of power and grace, but the same heaven he had in the inner states in which the divine made known its authority and bestowed its consolation. The evangelical narratives could be taken according to the letter and yet at the same time be interpreted spiritually and edifyingly. The absolute differences of place in the world of

space appeared immediately as the expression of differences of value.

10. There came, however, the time when one had to choose. There arose a conflict between an idealistic conception, which inculcates the purely spiritual significance of religious ideas, and a realistic or materialistic conception, which held to vividness and literalness. Such a conflict is known in many religions. In the *Upanishads*, the idealistic interpretation of the Vedic religion, it is said that Bráhma, the deity, is imperishable, while “name, place, time, and body” perish, wherefore none of these determinations holds for Bráhma. In Xenophanes’s and Plato’s criticism of the Greek popular faith a similar tendency shows itself. Within Mohammedanism it comes forward when, for example, the sensuous and vivid depiction of the joys of Paradise is interpreted allegorically as a presentation of spiritual enjoyments.⁸

When it began to dawn on thought that there are no absolute determinations of place, since every place is determined by its relation to other places, these again by their relation to others, and so forth, the old picture of the world was moving towards its dissolution. It went with the series of places as it went with the series of causes; one could not get the series absolutely completed, so that the picture could be bounded. And when now Copernicus showed that the simplest picture of the world was obtained by thinking of the earth as moving round the sun, so that it was no longer the world’s centre, there fell away the clear and secure frame within which the content of religious ideas had hitherto been able to be localized. It was besides soon shown—by Giordano Bruno—that it was inconsistent to hold fast to the limitation of “the world” when one accepted the relativity of all determinations of place and the Copernican astronomy. An infinite horizon opened.⁹ The difference between heaven and earth fell away, and an Either—Or had to replace the earlier Both—And: only the idealistic meaning of the word “heaven” was now tenable, if this word was to express a religious idea.

To this there now came also another movement of thought. Just as one had hitherto found spiritual differences of value expressed in a vivid way by spatial distances, so one had generally made no sharp difference between the spiritual and the material. With the beginning of natural science this difference came forward more clearly, and it came—with Kepler and Descartes—to stand as a chief mark of the material that it is extended in space. It had now to become a special problem, not merely how the spiritual and the material stand related to one another, but also whether the spiritual world is as comprehensive as the material world, according to the new picture of the world, showed itself to be. The security with which one had hitherto been able to find spiritual things expressed in material forms was quite particularly shaken by this. Formerly one had

been able literally to see “spirits”; after the Cartesian reform of psychology this was no longer possible. The spiritual world came to stand in opposition to the world of space, of extension, and of vividness, however one might think of the inner relation between them. Everything vivid could now at last, that is to say, from a religious point of view, acquire only symbolic significance.

But it was easier for philosophy than for theology to draw this consequence. With thinkers like Bruno and Spinoza the religious ideas underwent an inwardization and an infinitization that corresponded to the new conception of the world and carried further what Augustine and the Mystics had already hinted at. After long resistance and misgiving, theology began to strike into the same road. And often we now see the assertion put forward that the idealistic meaning of such expressions as “heaven” (or “hell,” and so on) is the only valid one, and the only one that the Bible and the Church have ever approved. CARDINAL NEWMAN declares, for example, that the Council of Trent does not teach that Purgatory causes sensuous pain, though he concedes that this was the Latin Church’s tradition, and that he himself has seen in the streets of Naples paintings that represented souls burning in Purgatory. But in an ecclesiastically sanctioned handbook on the doctrine of Purgatory the question is raised: “Is the flame of Purgatory really a bodily flame?” And to this it is said: “Cardinal Bellarmine answers that the general opinion of theologians is that the flame of Purgatory is a true and real flame, of the same kind as our earthly fire.” And it is added that the great majority of Church Fathers, Schoolmen, and theologians teach that Purgatory, like hell, is found at the earth’s centre, and that this doctrine is built on Holy Scripture and has always been maintained by the Church.¹⁰—Here idealism and realism stand sharply over against one another. One may by particular distinctions seek to veil the breach in spiritual development that let an Either—Or replace a Both—And (just as this had in its time replaced the immediate, childlike localization); but history will always bring it forth anew, and it is of the very greatest importance for the right understanding of the religious problem that it not be forgotten.

By the Copernican and the Cartesian reform there have been drawn more definite boundaries than could be drawn before, between thought and intuition, reality and symbolism. The philosophy-of-religion significance of this is easy to see. Of quite special significance is the expansion of the world, the infinite horizons that the material world has gained, and in relation to which the spiritual world now seems to be so limited. How will one—the question arose naturally—now be able to hold fast to the conviction that spiritual values are the highest thing in existence, that about which everything turns?

Now the outer world no longer turns about the home of the only spiritual life we know from experience!—There arose an opposition between psychology and cosmology which the past did not know. Great spirits like JACOB BÖHME and BLAISE PASCAL felt keenly the problem that lay in this, and which in religion's classical times could not be posed.—It is not, however, only for positive religion that a great, perhaps insoluble problem is here posed. For every view of life the same problem must present itself in one form or another. Naturally there are problems at all only for those who have not from indolence or anxiety given up thinking. To the problem itself we shall later return.

2.1.3 The Course of Time

11. The need for intuitive vividness makes itself felt with respect to time as well, and here too it leads to a shortening and a closing-off of the ideas. In this respect, however, we meet with one of the most significant differences that the history of religion anywhere exhibits, in that the idea of a completed course of time has no significance for so religious a people as the Indians, whereas in the faith of Zarathustra and in Christianity it is of quite decisive significance. For the Indians, time was only resultless movement, change and unrest, from which it was a matter of freeing oneself. Historical development therefore acquired no value; the abolition of temporal existence by the attainment of "Nirvana" was the highest thing. A similar trait is found in Greek thought; Plato's doctrine of ideas especially is a classical example of it: true reality is the unchangeable, that which always is what it is; the changeable phenomena of the world of experience, caught up in becoming, are at last only appearance. In the Zarathustra faith of the Iranians, on the other hand, the development of the world stands as a historical process which through a comparatively short span of time (12,000 years) reaches its conclusion, when the great struggle between good and evil—in nature, in human life, and in the world of spirits—has been carried to its end. Here the idea of a world-history in the literal sense of the word appears. All human work and all human conduct of life thereby come to stand in a mighty, cosmic illumination. The course of time, surveyable by the imagination, exercises a concentrating influence on the minds of human beings. There stands a goal before thought, towards which all striving is directed, and the human being stands as the fellow-worker of the gods. How and where this faith in the significance of history first arose is uncertain. It is not certain that it is of Indo-Germanic origin; possibly it is due to influences from the Semitic or pre-Semitic side.¹¹ It is likewise uncertain how far this faith came from the Persians to post-exilic Judaism and through this to Christianity. But the Zarathustra faith stands at any rate as the first great popular religion in which the

idea of life as historical development towards a goal determines the whole conception. The courage of human beings is strengthened in the struggle of life by the great visions of the future, by the thought of a kingdom that is to come and that is to be consummated through a judgment of the world.

In the New Testament this conception prevails in a pronounced way especially in the three first Gospels, in the Pauline epistles, and in the Revelation of John. In the Gospel of John the weight is laid with great emphasis on the point that eternal life is not merely a future but an already present life. He who believes has already passed over from death to life. The judgment, the decision, is first and foremost an inner one; the outer, future decision comes rather to stand as a concluding consequence. With respect to this idealism, which already in the present sees the ideal realized, there is indeed only a difference of degree between the various New Testament writings; but this difference of degree is of great significance; it grounds two different types of doctrine, and it is a psychological and literary-historical riddle that both the writing ("the Revelation of John") in which the consummation of "the kingdom" is most depicted as future, and the one ("the Gospel of John") in which its ideal presence is most profoundly maintained, could in tradition be ascribed to one and the same author. The opposition comes forward in the New Testament all the more strongly because the conclusion and the judgment were expected within the then living generation, whereby the tension between present and future had to be sharpened, and the living, forward-directed expectation came to form a stronger contrast to the inner possession.

In the Zarathustra faith the idealistic conception does not—presumably on account of the sober and practical character of the Iranians—come forward so clearly. But in the New Testament there appears on this point—as with respect to space—a characteristic Both—And. And here there is greater possibility that a Both—And can be maintained. For there is in itself no contradiction in the ideal's having taken root and so far being already present, and its being successively unfolded in its whole extent. The question—a question we shall later come back to—is whether such a longer successive unfolding is foreseen and taught in the New Testament. It is, according to the New Testament conception, only a short time that is to elapse before the conclusion, and it is generally a comparatively short time that lies between the creation and the judgment. The whole course of time lies between these two fixed points; in the interval the great religious events find their place, and the whole time rounds itself off into a natural whole for the imagination. There is a beginning, and there is an end, and there is no dizzying distance between them.—But when the two fixed points of support are taken away—when it is

asked what was before the “beginning” and what will be after the “end”—vividness is abolished, and there easily sets in a dizziness, just as when it dawns on consciousness that space can have no absolute boundaries.

12. It follows from the very concept of time that every moment must lie between two other moments. Thus neither a first nor a last moment can be thought. Just as the causal principle must find application to every link in the causal series, and the spatial relation hold for every place in space, so must the temporal relation too hold for every link in the temporal series. Every course of time that we represent to ourselves—the one from “the creation” to “the judgment” as well—can then only be a wave in time’s great, unsurveyable sea. A completed course of time means a period that is filled out by the realization of a certain result, a certain goal. It is the content that makes time be divided into periods. But the temporal relation spreads itself, by virtue of its own inner law, out beyond the “beginning” and the “end”; and if our thoughts can give no content, and therefore no division into periods, beyond the points of support that have hitherto stood fast for us, then we end at any rate with a question, a problem, just as with the series of causes and of determinations of place.

That the religious consciousness finds an imperfection in the temporal relation is easily intelligible. The misfortune of development in time is always more or less this, that the one period of life comes to stand as a mere means for the other. Means and end are separated, and life is divided between joyless labour and idle enjoyment. Just as little as any individual human being ought to be made a mere means for other human beings, just as little ought single moments within a human being’s life to be mere means for other moments, past and present mere means for the future. This can be avoided if the work and the development themselves acquire immediate value and can thereby themselves become the end or a part of the end. The child is then not merely a future grown human being; childhood becomes an independent period of life with its own peculiar tasks and its own distinctive value. And so must every period of life, every part of the course of time, be conceived. In this way it becomes possible “in the midst of time to live in eternity,” without falling into mystical contemplation. What is external in the differences of time thereby falls away. “Eternity” then stands not as time’s continuation or as a distant time, but as the expression of the continuity of the valuable through the changes of the times. It then becomes possible to look time’s incompleteness and infinity in the face without becoming dizzy and without receiving the impression of the restless and the purposeless. As with causal explanation and with the world of space, the only possible solution of the difficulties in the case of the temporal relation lies in the

direction of an inwardizing conception. It is the inner law and the valuable content, not the external differences, on which the weight must at last be laid. And here is something that can subsist independently of the limited frame to which the religious consciousness, in its mythical and dogmatic forms, is inclined to cling.

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2.2 Concluding Thoughts

By speculative philosophy one obtains not so much answers to the questions that common human understanding poses, as one comes to recognize that the questions themselves, being founded on concepts that have no truth, must fall away.

POUL MØLLER.

13. The final presupposition of the scientific understanding of existence is, as I have sought to show, a principle of unity that lies at the foundation of all connection in the course of time, in spatial extension, and in the causal series. Can thought now give a closer determination of, a concluding conceptual form for, this principle of unity? This question is all the more important because in the reference to a principle of unity there might seem to be a possibility of a connection between the religious and the scientific conception of existence.

We are all compelled to bring our knowledge to a close. There are points at which we in fact cannot get further. But this closing-off may be due to purely factual circumstances. The one grows tired before the other, or the one has not so many intellectual requirements as the other. The closing-off is here different for different individuals, for different ages, different peoples. It may be limitation in time and space that hinders knowledge from getting sufficient material. It is not that kind of closing-off I here ask about; I ask rather about a closing-off that does not rest on special, individual, or historical circumstances, but on the laws of thought itself.

The principle of unity is the necessary presupposition of existence's intelligibility. And since the fact that existence is within certain limits intelligible must be assumed to hang together with existence's own nature, we have a right to speak of a force or a power which brings it about that everything that exists, and everything that happens, stands in inner connection, is held together in a relation of continuity. If one defines God as the principle of existence's intelligibility, and therefore again as the principle of existence's

unity, then there seems here to be a possibility of a concept of God harmoniously compatible with scientific knowledge. In the ideas of God of the popular religions there enters—at any rate at the higher stages—this determination as a more or less prominent element. But it must be well noted that in the formation of religious concepts quite other interests than the purely theoretical and intellectual are at work. Every religious standpoint gathers up in its concept of God the highest valuable thing it knows. Ethical and aesthetic interests, but besides and above all the enthusiasm or feeling of dependence awakened during the struggle of life, drive the ideas forward to the most inward and highest concentration, which finds vent in the exclamation: God!—The religious problem arises only through a spiritual division of labour, by which in particular the intellectual interest is separated from the other interests and seeks its satisfaction by the development of special paths and forms of thought.

It is then no wonder that scientific and religious formations of concepts do not correspond to one another. The philosophical and the religious language do not stand related to one another in such a way that one could without more ado translate a thought from the one language into the other, or find, for a concept formed in the one domain, an entirely corresponding concept in the other.

Not only for the philosophical consciousness, but for the religious consciousness too, the great problem of the relation between unity and multiplicity presents itself. But while philosophical thought holds to unity as the necessary presupposition of the law-governed connection between the manifold elements, the religious consciousness in its mythical and dogmatic forms has a tendency to place unity and multiplicity in an external relation of opposition to one another, as though they were two different beings or powers. It thus forms two different concluding concepts, and it calls them: God and the world; the world is thought as a unity, in that all the multiplicity is gathered into a whole. Towards this formation of concepts philosophical thought stands in such a way that it finds one and the same difficulty in both these concepts, and therefore cannot see anything but that all that has been achieved is that the problem has been doubled; indeed there arises thereby into the bargain a third problem, in the relation of the two beings or powers to one another. If it is so, as I shall now try to show, this becomes of great importance for religious discussion. For from it follows that, because a thinker rejects the religious concept of God, one has no right to presuppose that he merely believes in what in religious language is called “the world.” The concept “world” contains philosophical difficulties similar to those the concept “God” contains, when it is to be absolutely concluding. And often it is the case that thinkers who are regarded as

atheists reject the current concept of “the world” rather than the concept of God. This holds of philosophers like Spinoza and Fichte.¹²—Polemical fanaticism naturally does not let itself be corrected, however often this state of affairs be pointed out.

If God and the world are regarded as two different beings or powers, then they must limit one another. The one ceases where the other begins. The clockmaker and the clock he has made are two different things; in a similar external relation the customary conception places God and the world. But then God cannot be an infinite being. “The world” with its laws and forces is the deity’s barrier. It is properly a polytheistic conception that arises in this way; “the world”—as different from “God”—properly becomes itself a god, and a certain personification of the world then also appears involuntarily, even within views that with great pomp proclaim themselves monotheistic.

14. The concept “world” is, as already remarked earlier, not a legitimate formation of concepts. If this concept is to denote a whole, a law-bound totality, then it is an ideal towards which inquiry steers, but which on account of the inexhaustibility of experience it will never be able completely to satisfy. Our thought is always spelling out what reality is. The mark by which a distinction can be drawn between merely subjective idea and objective reality is the law-governed connection that can be pointed out among the given phenomena. But partly there are always arising new phenomena as links in experience, and partly there show themselves to obtain, among the phenomena already given, far more complicated and mysterious relations of connection than we could at first suppose. We therefore never finish applying our criterion of reality, and the concept of reality therefore becomes an ideal concept.¹³ From the religious side one has as a rule not the patience to be content with the progressive work into which this ideal leads inquiry, namely to find ever deeper connection among ever more phenomena. One breaks off the work and regards the structure as completed. The concept “world” is therefore the expression of a half-thought. At the lowest stage of religious development this concept is not yet found. The idea of a cosmos, an ordered whole of existing things, presupposes a certain degree of thought. By a precipitate closing-off there has then been formed the pseudo-concept of an absolute whole, and after it had been introduced into religious language it has figured there ever since, as though it were a good and defensible concept.

But let us for a moment acknowledge this formation of concepts. The question then becomes that of the relation between the two beings or powers. Everywhere where there is a causal relation there must—as we have seen in what precedes—be presupposed a principle that conditions the connection between the links. If there is nothing that brings them into connection, the causal relation is unintelligible. This must hold also for

the causal relation between God and the world. But then the bond, the principle of unity, which makes their mutual relation possible, would itself be the real deity—or, if one prefers, the real world would then consist of God + “the world,” that is, of the whole that the two together form. We then come again into an incompletable series—a sign that one has been at the last thought we can really form, but has gone past it. This last valid thought is the principle of unity, the principle of conformity to law in existence. If one does not heed it, it avenges itself by reporting again—like the goblin who moves with you—every time one supposes oneself to have made an advance. There is something teasing about all limit-concepts, which comes out especially when one wants in an external manner to tie a knot in the thread of thought instead of holding to the inner connection that makes the thread a thread. Only if there could be given us from the theological side a wholly different epistemology from the one we must now work with would this teasing quality of our limit-concepts possibly be able to fall away. As it is, it follows us right up into the highest theological and metaphysical speculations. Plato already has (in the dialogue *Parmenides*) seen in this teasing quality a difficulty for his doctrine of ideas: if it is the ideas that lie at the foundation of sensible things, then there arises a new question with respect to the relation between the ideas and the things; this relation too must have its idea, and so forth. With Spinoza and Lotze the problem comes forward in the relation between substance and the individual beings (*modi*). I cannot see that theology, by its doctrine of God and the world, helps us beyond this difficulty of principle, which epistemologically is an indirect proof that we stand at a limit-concept. In the principle of unity we have a thought that is concluding *for us*, but at the same time a thought that demands ever new applications in incompletable series and series of series. One is deceived if one would find the concluding thing as a link in a series, instead of in the principle of series-formation itself.

The possibility cannot be dismissed that the incompletable of experience and of knowledge hangs together with the fact that existence itself is not finished, but is in constant development. One easily forgets that experience and knowledge themselves also belong to existence. When we speak of knowing existence, it properly means that the whole of existence is to be expressed by a single part of it or a single side of it. So long as this task is not solved, existence itself as a whole is not finished. And conversely, if existence itself is not finished, our knowledge cannot be finished either. Besides: to know the relation between the part or side of existence we call knowledge, and the rest of existence or existence as a whole, there would be needed a new knowledge—and so forth. Seen from this side too, the problem presents itself ever anew.

It is on the whole a fundamental law for all our concepts that they express relations, and that every concept presupposes a relation to other concepts. It is the inner law of all movement of thought. From this law, which may be called the law of relation, it follows that no concept can be formed of anything that does not stand in relation to something else. All movement of thought consists in pointing out likeness or difference, in finding ground or consequence, in deriving cause or effect. But likeness and difference, ground and consequence, cause and effect find application only where different links can be placed together in mutual relation.¹⁴

Every formation of a concept is a limitation, which is again abolished when thought reflects on the larger connection out of which it has taken that which is gathered up in the concept—and without which the concept's content could not be determined. The law of relation itself testifies to thought's unity, in that different terms of a relation are gathered up in one concept. But it testifies also to thought's constant limitation, since besides the terms that are gathered up in the single concept there are always presupposed other terms, whose closer determination becomes a new task. It is the nobility of our thought that it can see its own limit and at the limit always hear—by virtue of its own law—an *Excelsior!* Every concept of God, Fichte has said, is a concept of an idol. But it is precisely a spark of divinity in human thought that, in the face of all pious attempts to formulate the divine, it can recognize that they are idolatry.

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2.3 Thought and Image

*Und deines Geistes höchster Feuerflug
Hat schon am Gleichniss, hat am Bild genug.*

GOETHE.

15. We do not cease to form ideas, even when we have reached the limit of all knowledge, so that clear and contradiction-free concepts can no longer be formed. The religious need in particular will constantly lead to such formation of ideas. It will appear on closer investigation that the arising of all such ideas is due to *analogy*.

The word analogy properly denotes the same as proportion, but one is accustomed to distinguish between the uses of the two words, so that proportion indicates a quantitative likeness of relation (e.g. $1/2 = 2/4 = 3/6$, and so on), while analogy denotes a qualitative likeness of relation (e.g. red stands to orange as orange to yellow). By the help of

proportion we can discover unknown magnitudes, if only we know that they are terms in a proportion whose other terms are known to us. Analogy, on the other hand, is a highly imperfect aid to our knowledge. It cannot give us any positive knowledge of the unknown terms, but serves especially to express the relation between terms we know beforehand. It moreover passes easily from being a conceptual relation over to being a poetic juxtaposition, and it moves generally on the boundary between thought and poetry.¹⁵

In my work *Den nyere Filosofis Historie* I have sought to show that those philosophers who do not concede the correctness of the way in which critical philosophy marks off the limits of knowledge constantly—with a greater or lesser degree of explicit consciousness—operate with analogies in their attempts to solve the riddles of existence. It is the only aid that is left when experience refuses its service. One then conceives existence in its wholeness, or existence's ultimate ground, in analogy with certain elements, phenomena, or relations within the domain of experience. The character of the different systems, of the different metaphysical world-views, rests essentially on *which* elements, phenomena, or relations one lays at the foundation of one's analogizing.

It is often supposed that there is a forced choice between the two possibilities, that existence's inmost essence is of a spiritual kind and that it is of a material kind. But the division of the existent into spiritual and material is purely empirical. No proof can be given that existence should not be able to appear under other forms than these, so that the relation between these two forms of existence should be an Either—Or (what in logic is called a contradictory relation). Perhaps the great difficulty that shows itself to be bound up with reaching a satisfactory hypothesis concerning the relation between the spiritual and the material hangs together with the fact that existence is not exhausted in those two forms of existence, but that there are many—not to say with Spinoza infinitely many—other forms of existence. It might be that the relation between the two forms of existence we know would only be able to be understood if we knew several other forms of existence. We have at any rate not all the data for the solution of the problem of existence. Let us suppose that we knew only two colours. We should then be inclined to believe that all colour that existed at all must be one of these two. Now we know that light can be refracted in more than two ways—and yet the physics, physiology, and psychology of the colours are so extraordinarily rich in problems! Existence's light can surely be refracted in many more ways than the metaphysical systematizers have imagined. This belief (and this analogy) is at any rate as justified as that on which the idealistic world-view supports itself.¹⁶

When one does not take the probative force of analogies so strictly, it is easy enough to speculate. But one then puts images in the place of concepts, poetry instead of philosophy. Epistemologically it is of great importance that a sharp distinction be drawn between concept and image. The image may have its great value; but when it does not stand as an example or as a vivid sign for a concept, the value the image has rests on its relation to other sides of our nature than the cognitive.

16. Only reluctantly does human consciousness give up immediate intuition, as this appears in the form of sensation, memory, and imagination, in order instead to travel the road of analysis and form concepts, which can with difficulty fully make up for what was had in intuition. But it is once for all the case that the objects of the religious consciousness—when this consciousness has reached a higher stage of development—can no longer be apprehended by immediate intuition. The involuntary formation of images must constantly be altered and corrected anew, and it shows itself at last insufficient to render the eternal, infinite, and exalted essence of the religious objects. The religious consciousness here oscillates between two tendencies. On the one hand it scruples to use sensuous and human expressions of its infinite object; on the other hand it scruples to deprive immediate feeling of the living and gripping expressions in which it involuntarily finds vent. In a religious genius like AUGUSTINE, who was at once thinker and prince of the Church, one can study both tendencies in their mutual conflict. For him (as later for Schleiermacher) the expression “mercy,” used of God, has only figurative significance, because it presupposes a suffering at the suffering of others. But in order that the “souls of the unlearned” (*animæ indoctorum*) should not be hardened, Augustine nevertheless thinks that one ought to use it—thus as a kind of pedagogical anthropomorphism. Only those, he adds, who combine religion and inquiry (*religio et studium*) can dispense with the figurative expressions.¹⁷—But how far now does the figurative extend? Is there properly any expression whatever for religion’s objects that is not figurative?—If we look at religion’s history, we find especially two interesting processes of development which aim at eliminating everything figurative, and which culminate in the rejection of all definite expressions, because these are drawn from limited domains of experience and therefore make finite that of which they are used.

The first process of development lies before us in the Indian *Upanishads*. The Vedanta philosophers came to the conviction that no concept and no image could express the deity’s essence. They set up their metaphysical idealism only in order at last to take it back. The deity is “without end, without age, without shore, not outside and not inside.” It is best denoted in a negative manner (*neti, neti*): “it is neither this nor that!” And silence

is the right answer when it is asked what it is. If it could be beheld by us, it would not be what it is. It is the unthinkable—and yet that by which thought thinks! No twoness, no opposition has validity for it; therefore it cannot be known. Neither sight, word, nor thought can penetrate to it, though it works in sight, word, and thought alike. It is neither being nor non-being; it is neither known nor not-known. Only symbolically can it be expressed. But in order to keep off all sensuous ideas, which are easily brought on by symbols that have a definite meaning, the Vedanta philosophers used as an expression for the highest the syllable *Om*, which means “yes,” but does not lead the imagination in any definite direction.¹⁸

The second process of development takes place in *Neoplatonism* and is propagated from this (with the so-called Dionysius the Areopagite as intermediary) to *Christian mysticism* in the Middle Ages. Although more recent investigations have shown that there is not the complete opposition between Scholasticism and Mysticism that was earlier assumed, there is nevertheless one point in which these two medieval tendencies diverge decidedly from one another, and that is precisely the question whether there are analogies that can rightly be used to think God. The Schoolmen held fast to analogy’s justification; the Mystics rejected it. THOMAS AQUINAS teaches, indeed, that it is impossible to use any expression of God quite in the same sense (*univoce*) as that in which it is used of created beings; but there are said to be expressions that can be used of God not merely by a play on words (*pure æqvivoce*). There is said to be a kind of analogy that lies midway between univocity and mere likeness of word. It is that which rests on a causal relation, as when, for example, both a medicine is called healthy, and the one who is cured by it is said to become healthy. A relation of analogy of this kind is said to obtain between the Creator and created beings. Yet it is not a relation of likeness that could make it justified to bring the Creator and the created under the same generic concept. No, every determination—even the concept of being itself—is used in a different sense of the Creator and of the created: God stands outside every genus (*extra omne genus*).—Very clear the knowledge that is thus supposed to be possible evidently cannot be, and it is not easy to form any idea of it. For analogy is (however much one fences it about) a relation of likeness, and in all comparison there must be able to be a question of generic and specific concepts: juxtaposition by the help of analogy is in reality the formation of a generic concept. When Thomas Aquinas names, as an example of theologically applicable analogy, the one that rests on causal connection, it must be remarked that the more heterogeneous, indeed generically different, the cause is from the effect, the less do we understand the causal relation. Where the causal relation is not purely external and

purely factually imposed, there is a continuity and thereby a likeness between cause and effect which makes it justified to subsume them both under the same generic concept. Such a connection one will also on closer investigation find between the medicine and the state it produces in the organism.—The Scholastic assertion of analogy's justification therefore passes consistently over into the mystical denial of this justification. HUGH OF ST. VICTOR already taught that God is better thought by negative than by positive expressions. Later SUSO called God "*eine namenlose Nichtigkeit*"—"a nothing of all the things one can think or name" (though in himself he is "a most essential something"). And the author of *Deutsche Theologia* says: "If the perfect, sole Good [God] were something, this or that, which the creature understood, then it were not all, nor yet the only one, and it would then not be perfect either. Therefore one calls it Nothing. One means thereby that it is nothing of that which the creature can comprehend, know, think, or name."¹⁹—Mysticism was at once a movement of feeling in the direction of inwardness and an intellectual movement in the direction from image to thought and from thought to thought's limit. In that one experienced, in the strong movements of feeling, states in which no definite ideas could form, one was prepared to exercise sharp criticism of every attempt to express the highest in the form of a concept. Mysticism here meets with critical philosophy, which maintains the insufficiency of ideas in the face of that which does not appear in experience's limited form. Already in antiquity we find this kinship between criticism and mysticism, for there is a certain likeness between Carneades and Plotinus in epistemological philosophy of religion.

17. But neither Scholasticism nor Protestant theology will allow Mysticism and Criticism to be right in holding that all religious ideas are figurative. In a certain sense it is also a question of life or death. For the concept of revelation (in the strictest sense) would fall away if at certain points the difference between image and reality did not fall away. Otherwise the old problem of the relation between knowledge and things themselves would at last arise again, and the full conclusion and rest be excluded.—That expressions such as Lord or Father, used of God as absolute being, are figurative, and that the similitudes underlying these expressions fail at definite points, could not in the long run escape reflection. The Lord is Lord only in relation to slaves or servants. The word God, said Newton therefore, is a relative word (*Deus est vox relativa et ad servos refertur*). And the concept of Father presupposes not only the concept of child but also the concept of mother, although in the history of the popular religions there shows itself a tendency to push out this latter concept.²⁰ And yet both the inwardness of feeling and the need of the imagination lead again and again back to the old images, even though

one gradually acknowledges their symbolic character more readily, at any rate in theory.

When reflection develops, one passes from the more vivid and concrete designations to the more abstract. Such a more abstract designation is “personality.” One gives up the more definite characterization for a more indefinite one, which yet is also drawn from human relations.

Psychologically regarded, the determination of what the concept of personality contains will always come back to two chief traits.—Personality (the self, the I), as we know it, is in the first place characterized by its unity. All elements in its being are gathered up and connected with greater or lesser energy, and that in a more intimate manner than the elements of matter are connected according to the laws of outer nature. The very elements that are connected in personality’s unity are not absolutely produced by it; here it is more or less dependent on the conditions of life. New elements may crop up in it without its wish, though not without its own unconscious or involuntary co-operation, and it then depends on how far and in what way they are brought into connection with the elements that are already worked together.—In the second place, in every personality’s content there will be some elements that occupy a more central place and have a more constant character than others. Such central and constant elements are the ruling ends and interests, which express the will’s kind and direction. This is the real side of personality, which especially conditions the individual’s special distinctiveness.²¹—Seen both from the formal and from the real side, personal life as we know it presents an alternating relation of activity and passivity. Activity shows itself in the working-up of a content received with preponderant passivity. During this working-up the peripheral and shifting elements are more or less energetically expressed and mastered by that which in the individual personality (and in the individual period of life) is the central and constant. We know personality only as striving and struggling, as asserting itself against the resistance and the difficulties caused partly by lack or superfluity of content, partly by conflict among the elements themselves. A personality that produces all its content absolutely “out of itself”—that has no ends still unaccomplished—and that has no real resistance to overcome—is not what we understand by a personality, when we hold to psychological experience.

The dispute as to how far the deity (as this is conceived at higher religious standpoints) can be called a personal being—a dispute often designated as the dispute between theism and pantheism—rests on the fact that from the one side one idealizes and extends the concept of personality by taking away the moment of passivity, while from the other side one denies the justification of calling a being a personality when it itself produces

all its elements and therefore knows no real resistance, so that it cannot struggle, cannot strive, cannot hope.

Personal life is the highest form of existence that experience shows us. And the unity we are always at last led to assume in existence on account of its continuity and conformity to law recalls the unity in our consciousness, the formal side of personality. But for all that it is only an analogy, and one that fails at the most essential point, when one uses our idea of the limited I, which is a single link within the great world-order, to express the incompletable principle that manifests itself in the very fact that there is a world-order. And it becomes so much the more difficult to hold fast to this analogy, the greater the inclination is to think the deity as perfect, as “absolute” in the sense of finished and concluded, so that it (as Andreas Sunesøn says in his Scholastic didactic poem) can receive no increase (*natura dei, cui nil accrescere posset*). By the dogmatic absolutizing and the strong emphasis on unchangeableness, the difficulties in holding fast to the analogy with the concept of personality are sharpened and made into downright self-contradictions.

The difference between a theistic and a pantheistic conception rests, in the individual case, not merely on epistemological arguments. Involuntarily other motives play in as well, and to a great extent the difference rests on a difference in the strength with which the need to form vivid images, especially in the boundary regions, stirs in different individuals. From this side we shall later, in the psychological part of the philosophy of religion, come again to touch on this point.—As regards the expression pantheism, it must be remarked that it is used in a somewhat different manner. According to the one usage (which is maintained as the right one by an authority like EDUARD ZELLER) pantheism denotes a world-view that assumes an inner (immanent) relation between God and the world, whether one then conceives God as personal or not. According to this usage a standpoint like Lotze’s would just as well be called pantheistic as Spinoza’s standpoint. According to the other usage (which I follow) the concept has a narrower extent, in that an immanent world-view is called pantheistic only when it does not ascribe personality to the principle of unity in existence (except in poetic speech).—

To go to still more abstract expressions like force, life, substance (being) does not help; they too denote relations and thus presuppose something to which one stands in relation. Such expressions too must, when they are to be applied in the way the religious consciousness in its mythical and dogmatic forms wishes, undergo such an alteration that nothing but the bare word is left.—

It shows itself then undeniably that all analogies fail at the decisive point. We stand at

thought's limit, and it is no wonder that real concepts can no longer be formed, and that the images may indeed satisfy the individual mood, but do not permit of any consistent application. This unknowable is strongly emphasized by so-called *agnosticism*. But this tendency has an inclination to think that "the unknowable" is wholly different from everything that experience shows, so that none of experience's laws should have any significance whatever for that which is nevertheless assumed to be existence's principle. This is a dualistic assumption that cannot be grounded. Although our finite points of view and forms of thought are unable to give a determination of it, let alone an exhaustive formulation of it, they must nevertheless stand in inner connection with it, and we have no right to declare them meaningless. Our thought, our knowledge, belongs once for all to existence, has arisen within it, and is itself one of the facts that must be taken into consideration before we halt our inquiry into existence's nature. The ideas our experience leads us to develop are indeed probably very subordinate and derived in relation to the great connection into which we belong as single links; but meaningless they do not on that account become. Only we are unable to state what degree and kind of metamorphosis our points of view would have to undergo if they were to be taken up into the highest, most comprehensive connection that we could think.

The expression "agnosticism" was in its time formed by HUXLEY, so that he might have a designation ending in *-ism* like all other decent expressions for views. Were I to find such a designation for the conception I strive to make good, I should prefer to call it *critical monism*.

18. In order that concepts, analogies, and images should be able to be used to express that which at higher stages of development is religion's object, they must be subjected to an idealization and sublimation which for religious feeling easily brings coldness and remoteness with it. The religious consciousness has, to be sure, a tendency to represent its object as exalted as possible, to raise it far out beyond all finite relations. But by merely following this tendency it works against itself, since the inner, living relation to its object is made impossible. Of the Hindus an observer reports: "I have often asked: Where is the temple of the highest God? And the answer, plainly enough given with great astonishment at so unexpected a question, has always been: A temple for the highest God! What is that to mean? There is no such temple, because he can have none. He is without shape and without name, inconceivable, and we cannot worship him. We need a visible object in which our spirit can find rest."²² Within Christianity we find again the same two tendencies. In the Catholic Church there is assumed a whole graduated series of beings to whom one can turn and get one's need of a finite, limited

object for prayer and devotion satisfied, if the highest link in the series seems to us to be too remote and exalted. From God the series goes through Jesus and the Madonna down to the special saint who is active in the special kind of case or takes particular care of the individual person. In Protestantism a limit has been set to this tendency, but it has not been abolished. In a Copenhagen church it was once said in a funeral oration that God cannot help us in our great sorrows, "for he is so infinitely far away"; therefore we must hold to Jesus.

Just as the religious consciousness oscillates between literal and figurative meaning of the expressions it uses, so it oscillates between the tendency to exalt and infinitize its object and the tendency to draw the object down into the finite world as fellow-combatant and fellow-sufferer. Often the strongest feeling, the most burning devotion, turns towards the struggling and suffering God, not towards the eternal and perfect one. If now both tendencies are held fast at once in their extreme forms, there appears *the religious paradox*: God is unchangeable and changeable, eternal and becoming, victorious and beaten, blessed and suffering! Often pronouncedly religious spirits heap up such oppositions by preference, sharpening the contrasts to the utmost, partly in ecstatic admiration of the great, partly with scorn towards the thought that vainly seeks to grasp it. The chief opposition to which everything here leads back is the opposition between unchangeableness and changeableness. The typical difference of the two greatest popular religions rests on their relation to this opposition. And the opposition recurs within one and the same religion. Even he who believes in a God "with whom there is no variation or shadow of turning" may yet come to the result that "God is the most changeable of all beings."²³ The paradox does not first come forward with special dogmas, e.g. the dogma of the God-man, as S. KIERKEGAARD has sharply pointed out in his *Filosofiske Smuler*. The paradox lies properly already in every anthropomorphism, in every image that is to be more than an image. For the assertion that any image whatever suffices is an assertion that the unlimited is limited, the infinite finite. One easily forgets the paradox through the power of habituation, when one has let one's imagination settle itself comfortably in the circle of images one has formed for oneself or lived into by the help of tradition. But as soon as the surge of feeling or the speed of thought becomes stronger, the limited form is burst; and when it is nevertheless to be held fast, or rather, when one nevertheless *will* hold it fast, one approaches a *credo qvia absurdum*.

19. A Both—And has on this point too shown itself to be distinctive of the religious consciousness. But where this Both—And sharpens into the paradox, it becomes clear that the interest which has led to the development of the religious ideas in their pronounced

form cannot have been a purely intellectual interest, not the mere need to understand. In every religious standpoint, especially in the great popular religions, knowledge does to be sure play a part. Religion is in its classical times everything for the human being and satisfies his need for knowledge too. But the need for knowledge is here nevertheless subordinate to the need for life, the need to develop and preserve life. "I seek thee, that my soul may live," says Augustine to his God. Only thereby is it explained that ideas can be developed and held fast which defy the intellectual interest in clear, contradiction-free thoughts. We are led to see that the foundation of religion must be sought in other sides of the life of the spirit than in the life of pure thought.

Religion cannot be made or constructed. It grows out of life, springs from the human being's fundamental mood during life's struggle, from his will to hold fast in spite of everything to the validity of the highest valuable thing that his experiences have led him to know.

The hypothesis that religion is essentially faith in the persistence of value presents itself here naturally, after it has shown itself that religion's essence cannot be to give an understanding or an explanation of existence such as the intellectual interest demands. The riddles that science cannot solve, religion does not solve either. It has been shown that it can give no explanation of the special events (section A)—that its ideas are not fitted for the conclusion of scientific thought (section B)—and that these ideas have the character of the image, not of the concept (section C). If the religious ideas are to have any significance, it can then only be that of serving as symbolic expression for the human being's mood, longing, and wishes during the struggle of life. They are thus of secondary, not of primary, significance and origin. The philosophy of religion here combats dogmatics in a manner similar to that in which art history combats the mythology of art. What drives the artist to shape a figure is—the art historian maintains²⁴—the living joy in figures that life has shown him; he wishes now to give them new birth, perhaps in a more ideal form. But what he *calls* the figure he shapes is a subordinate question, which is often only settled long afterwards.

The intellectual interest will naturally, once it has developed, not be able to refrain from influencing the religious interest. If religion is essentially faith in the persistence of value, then this faith constantly needs ideas in order to become clear about what it means; these ideas will—perhaps slowly, but yet steadily—be worked together towards greater consistency and towards greater agreement with the ideas the human being comes to form by other roads and under the influence of other motives. The question then becomes how the two interests really stand related to one another. The intellectual

interest leads one to conceive existence as a great, unsurveyable system of causal groups and causal series; the religious interest leads one to conceive existence as a home for the development and preservation of values. Can these two points of view be united? How does value stand related to causality, the riddle of life to the riddle of the world?—Perhaps this problem is insoluble, and its solution would be the finding of the philosopher's stone. But the epistemological philosophy of religion has nevertheless, it seems, helped us to see more clearly where the problem lies. It is indeed predominantly by an indirect, negative road that epistemology can illuminate the religious problem, but this road too must be travelled if clarity is to be reached. We turn now to a direct study of religion's essence by the help of psychology. What matters is how far the hypothesis of religion as faith in the persistence of value, to which I have several times pointed, can receive a satisfactory grounding and confirmation.

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Chapter 3

Psychological Philosophy of Religion

20. Properly we have already in the preceding section made use of psychology, since there is a constant reciprocal relation between epistemology and psychology. Epistemology investigates the forms and elements of our knowledge with respect to the question of their usability for understanding existence, while psychology investigates them with respect to their factual character and their factual coming-into-being, whether they have any usability and validity or not. In the case of the religious ideas it has now shown itself that their significance cannot be that of making existence intelligible to us (in the sense in which our intellectual interest takes the word understanding). Then the psychological investigation alone stands here remaining. It may possibly lead us to see what positive significance the religious ideas do have.

The psychology of religion is a part of general psychology, a speciality within it. It stands in a reciprocal relation to general psychology.—It is a means for the latter, in that within its own distinctive domain it collects and works up material of great psychological interest. In the religious domain human beings have made some of their deepest, most intensive experiences of the soul. In religion (if it is genuine and original) all the elements of the life of the soul work with an energy and an interplay such as scarcely in any other domain. Therefore the study of the religious life of the soul is of such great importance for psychology as a whole. It is not merely the history of religion, but also—and quite as much—the individual religious life that draws the psychologist's attention to itself. In the history of religion one does not so easily get to see the forces of the soul in their original working. It occupies itself predominantly with the great types, with the forms of religion common to great groups of human beings. For the psychologist, good biographies, and especially autobiographies, of religious personalities are more instructive than the most learned works on the great popular religions. Thus—to name a few single examples—Augustine's *Confessiones*, Suso's and Saint Teresa's autobiographies belong

to the most important material of the psychology of religion. The history of individual religiosity naturally also belongs under the history of religion; but this has hitherto been predominantly occupied with studying the great types.—But the psychology of religion not merely furnishes material for general psychology. Conversely it also uses the latter's points of view and laws in its own special domain. It seeks to understand the phenomena of religious life by a purely psychological road. Here general psychology is a means for the psychology of religion. And it is especially from this last side that we must regard the psychology of religion here, where it appears as a part of the philosophy of religion. It uses the general psychological methods, so far as the subject permits, and rests on the same presuppositions as general psychology.

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3.1 Religious Experience and Religious Faith

Quid est quod amo, quum te amo?

AUGUSTINE.

(What is it that I love, when I love thee?)

3.1.1 Religious Experience

21. The word experience is here taken in the sense of lived experience, the finding of states, as opposed to the working-up by thought. It will first and foremost be a matter of becoming clear about what and how much can be reckoned as religious experience, and what limits this experience is by its nature subject to. I attempt in what follows to characterize religious experience from a purely psychological point of view.

22. Experience in the sense of lived experience cannot be completed so long as life lasts. It can present a series of individual states, but no completed totality, and no general proposition can appear as a fully confirmed result of experience. Totalities and generalizations are due either to a thinking working-up of what has been experienced, or else to an involuntary emphasizing of a single experience or kind of experience as decisive and all-determining. Prior to the arising of a conscious reflection it will especially be this involuntary emphasizing that lies at the foundation of what comes to stand as the results of religious experience. It lies in the nature of feeling that, when it has been awakened by a single event, it seeks to spread itself over the whole life of consciousness and to colour

all other elements in this, whether they stand in connection with that event or not. By such a *feeling-expansion* (thus I have in my *Psychology* named this phenomenon) inner states which in and for themselves have nothing to do with one another can acquire a common stamp, and a whole can come out of the series of inner lived experiences, although this series has not in itself reached a real conclusion. For different individuals and under different circumstances it may be highly different lived experiences that thus come to determine the mood of a whole inner life. However unavoidable and however significant this feeling-expansion may be, it nevertheless contains sources of error that one must be attentive to when one proceeds to a reckoning-up of what experience and lived experience have really yielded.—Naturally such a feeling-expansion is itself a lived experience; but it is derived in relation to the lived experiences whose result it is a matter of establishing.

In the debate between optimism and pessimism, for example, one will find that single lived experiences, which are assumed to be typical, determine the conception that is maintained. Although from both sides one appeals to observation and thought, the result one reaches is determined not so much by logical generalization or induction as by a feeling-expansion. The endeavour aims at holding the underlying lived experiences fast in their freshness and letting them keep their place at the centre of consciousness, fixing attention on them; then the rest follows of itself.

If faith in the persistence of value is the core of all religion, religion will not be able to be built on immediate lived experience. Immediately we come to know only the individual, definite values, as they appear according to our human and individual nature and under our special conditions of life; but about their persistence no experience can immediately instruct us, any more than it can teach us that what has the highest value for us is also the central thing in the whole of existence. What is experienced and lived through may be a *motive* for believing in the persistence of value, but not the *content* of this faith itself. Personal life, especially as it expresses itself in the great breakthroughs where new directions of life are introduced and new forms of life are born, is for us the highest valuable thing we know. The experiences we make of it we therefore use involuntarily to illuminate the whole of existence for us; it is to us as though existence in such breakthroughs revealed its hidden forces. It is a feeling-expansion that here operates. If we try to transpose it into the form of thought, it is an inference from analogy that we get—and an analogy that lies out beyond the limit where thought passes over into poetry.

23. In all experience a distinction must be drawn between what is immediately given,

what serves to explain it, and what serves to express it. These three moments, the state itself, its cause, and its expression, can lie so close to one another that they cannot be separated except by closer and more exact reflection. The relation between them is a similar one to that between a discovery, the proof of what has been discovered, and its formulation. These three moments too can approach one another, though it may be of great interest to keep them apart.

When one appeals to one's experience, one can provisionally support oneself only on *the lived state itself*. That this state may have a *definite cause* is not lived through in so immediate a manner as the state itself is lived through. Precisely when something has intervened strongly in our life of the soul and called forth great effects there, we shall be so taken up with these effects, which are indeed the very thing we immediately live through, that it will be impossible for us to form a clear and exact idea of the state's cause. The real cause always consists of a plurality of conditions and can only be established by critical investigation. It always rests on an illusion when one supposes oneself immediately to experience "the cause as cause." That a causal relation is present one cannot immediately observe; immediate observation always shows us only that the one follows *after* the other, not that it follows *from* it. The presence of a causal relation is established only when it can be shown that *only* when this definite event goes before does this definite state *unavoidably* follow after. But neither an *only* nor an *unavoidably* can be known quite immediately; they must be ascertained by comparison or by experiment. In doubtful cases it is also comparison and experiment that we resort to, and it is indeed in doubtful cases that the appeal to "experience" especially appears.

We do not begin with doubt, either in the domain of inner or of outer experience. Every rising element of consciousness is from the first taken involuntarily as valid, as the expression of reality. It presents itself with a quality of existence that is shaken only when contradictory elements too present themselves with their quality of existence. If such contradiction fails to appear, no doubt arises, and no criterion of reality or validity is needed. But when it does set in, the question becomes which of these elements possesses the true reality, and this can only be decided by there being found an unavoidable connection between one element and other elements whose validity stands fast beforehand. Thus we proceed in doubt about something in the world around us. The difference between a hallucination and a real event is discovered by the fact that the latter, but not the former, can be inserted as a link in a great, connected causal series that is tied to elements whose validity is not drawn into doubt. The more firmly connected a dream is, the more it stands for us as reality; and the more isolated a real event

stands in our experience, the more easily can we take it for a dream. What thus holds of outer experience holds also of inner. Here too an immediate experience of a causal relation is impossible. In every more deeply penetrating discussion of the significance of religious experience it will at any rate show itself expedient, if not necessary, to get the immediately lived experience itself set out with the greatest possible abstraction from the supposed cause. The strictly immediate lived experience itself cannot be any illusion. The illusory arises precisely only through an incorrect causal explanation which is confused with immediate observation. How causal explanation comes about at all we shall later have occasion to discuss.

If there is present a strongly agitated state or lived experience, it will not be exactly the need to find its cause that first of all announces itself, but rather *the need to find vent in outbursts, in exclamations, in words, or in action*. The individual then seeks after thoughts or images that can satisfy this need and give it a definite direction. It is a need for reaction that here expresses itself—a need for reaction in fear or in thanks, in love or in indignation and hatred. The manner in which this reaction takes place will be determined by earlier lived experiences and by the tradition under whose influence the human being stands. Only in especially original natures does a new formation here take place. It is such natures that become prophets or founders of religions.

By a natural displacement, that which satisfies the need for expression and reaction easily coincides with that which satisfies the need for a causal explanation, as soon as this announces itself. In the pronouncedly religious states the need for knowledge does not stir independently, and therefore not in a critical manner either; the need for expression and reaction, which is one with a need for symbolization, has decidedly the preponderance and will therefore become determinative for the content of the religious idea.

When immediate experience cannot give sure direction as to the cause of the lived experience, it can still less contain reliable information as to whether the lived experience is due to a natural or to a supernatural cause. In exact descriptions of religious states it also often becomes clearly evident that one infers a supernatural cause only because one cannot find any natural cause and does not think that one has oneself been co-operative. Thus Saint Teresa says: "I felt my soul kindled with burning love of God; this love was evidently supernatural, for *I did not know* what thus kindled it in me, and *I had not myself contributed* anything to it." It is a trait that constantly recurs among mystics and pietists, that the more they hold back (or suppose themselves to hold back) their own thought and will, the more will that which is lived through in their inner life be assumed to be

of divine origin.²⁵ There lies here the same dualistic conception at the foundation as with the concept of miracle generally. Psychological miracles stand quite on a line with physical miracles, though the belief in the former may hold out longer than the belief in the latter.

24. Religious ideas can stand in a somewhat different relation to the immediate lived experience. It may happen that the lived experience unfolds as a series of states, and that only afterwards is an idea sought which interprets it (that is to say: explains it or expresses it or both). Such an idea can be formed anew, under the impression of extraordinary lived experiences and in original, creative personalities, although even founders of religions are involuntarily guided by traditions with which their lived experiences fuse, yet in such a way that a wholly new direction in the life of the spirit can be introduced.—Most often the interpretation is drawn without more ado from the circle of transmitted ideas—ideas that were indeed possessed and known beforehand, but not particularly attended to. There are examples of persons becoming clear only afterwards that they had been “converted” or “born again,” by comparing their lived experiences with “the statements of trustworthy believers.”²⁶ The change that is noticed is interpreted by the help of tradition, for which one now first gets a practical use and which one transforms from a dead treasure into a living one. But very often the relation is such that the transmitted ideas themselves call forth the lived experiences. For most human beings religious experience is an attempt to live through, in their inner life, the states that transmitted ideas describe and demand. The ideas are thus fully finished beforehand and are merely to be converted into lived experiences. Most human beings make their religious experiences within religious communities with a more or less developed doctrine of faith. Thereby the extent of the experiences is dammed in beforehand. Lived experiences that cannot find their expression or their explanation within the transmitted circle of religious ideas stand as uncertain, or as dangerous, or even as pernicious. In theological expositions this confessional character, which is so frequent in religious experiences, appears clearly and often with full consciousness.

The older Pietism laid—in contrast to the orthodoxy it stood over against—great weight on the inner experiences. But since the Protestant Church maintains the Bible as the highest norm, the ecclesiastical pietists expressly declared that inner experience was to be subordinated to the Bible’s teaching. In his remarkable work *Theologia experimentalis* (1715) GOTTFRIED ARNOLD taught that religious experience stands under Scripture and does not denote a special principle alongside it. Experience’s significance he saw in this, that it was a practising of, or a living into, what Scripture taught. Experience

is thus not ground, but consequence and fruit, and it is to be “judged according to God’s word.” With the clarity that distinguishes Arnold, he then draws from this the conclusion that experience must occupy a different place in religion from that in science: in religion it comes after faith, in science it goes before faith. More recent theologians (for example HENRY USSING in his work *Den kristelige Vished*) have on the other hand attempted to parallel religious and scientific experience without seeing the consequences, disquieting for themselves, to which this must lead. At any rate they are compelled to concede that the individual cannot by the road of experience come to know everything that he is to believe according to his Church’s teaching. And what significance has “the common experience of the church community” for the individual, and can it rightly be called a common experience when not all make it or can make it? Besides, the Church’s teaching contains a great deal, for example the creation, the day of judgment, and so on, which no one can ever have experienced.

The confessional limitation has made religious experience, and indeed all inner experience, one-sided and imperfect. It has kept the eye away from sides of the inner life that had a full claim to come into consideration. And what in a philosophy-of-religion respect is the most important thing: it has made it psychologically inexplicable how the religious ideas came into being in the first place. Religious experience must surely be able to lead to the formation of new ideas, or at least to the valuing of other ideas than the traditionally sanctioned ones. There must in the domain of inner life be discoveries to make just as well as in the domain of outer life. The conditions of inner life change just as well as those of outer life; that follows already from the fact that there is a constant reciprocal action between the inner life and the outer. One cannot then dogmatically assume that all essential spiritual experiences should already have been made, so that all following generations have now only to practise the forms and thoughts that at a certain definite point of time were laid down. A proof that the world of the spirit is closed will never be able to be given.

25. The life-value of an idea is established both by the fact that experience leads one to form or to choose it as the expression of what has been lived through, and by the fact that holding fast to it and sinking oneself into it helps to keep one’s courage up in life’s struggle, to preserve fidelity to the best we know, and to set us tasks that carry us forward in personal development. Whether therefore an idea stands as the effect of experience or as the cause of experience, it is tested through experience. But it must be well held fast that a complete experiential proof of an idea’s life-value is present only where there has been opportunity to test whether the same experiences could not be

expressed in another way, or whether the same or equally valuable experiences could not be made in the attempt to live in ideas other than this definite one. There must not merely be a test made, but also a counter-test— and for that life very seldom gives the individual opportunity. The individual will as a rule be restricted to experiencing that certain ideas under certain circumstances have helped him or not helped him. He will not be able to prove that he could not have been helped by other ideas than those that helped him. Immediate lived experience can at any rate tell him nothing about that. And just as little can it tell him anything about whether that which did not help him might not be able to help others—or to help himself under other circumstances. Experience will here always preserve a personal-individual stamp, and “common experience” is more or less an illusion, because the different individuals in reality interpret and apply “the common” each in his own way. When there is thus already misgiving about the transition from the individual experience to the confessional, it must awaken still greater misgiving when confessional experience makes a claim to be accessible to all human beings, if only they “will” receive it. Here again there lies at the foundation the presupposition that one knows all possibilities, that is to say here: all personal circumstances and conditions.

26. Hitherto we have investigated religious experience *as* experience, that is, according to the conditions and peculiarities it has in common with other experience. Now we shall enter upon what is distinctive of *religious experience* and makes it different from other psychological experience.

Religious experience is essentially religious feeling. It is the mind’s own inner state during the course of inner and outer events that is its immediate object. But there are other experiences of feeling than the religious. In describing the nature of religious feeling it will be a matter of stating its likeness to and its difference from the most nearly related feelings.

All feeling, that is to say, all pleasure and displeasure, of whatever kind it may be, expresses the *value* which something that happens in the inner or the outer world has for us. And conversely: that has value which is the object of immediate satisfaction, or which can also become a means to such. (Cf. §3.) The concepts of end and means presuppose the concept of value, and value again presupposes a subject that can feel pleasure and displeasure. When we ascribe value to things and states, this property, like all properties, denotes a definite relation to a subject, here to one that can feel pleasure and displeasure. This property is derived in relation to other properties that things and states have; for it must be these properties that make the things and states valuable. Value is thus a property in the second power.

The different kinds of value correspond to the different kinds of feeling. One group of values hangs together with self-assertion, from its most elementary to its most ideal forms. Another group of values hangs together with devotion to beings, relations, and tasks that point out beyond the conditions of isolated self-assertion; to this belong the ethical, aesthetic, and intellectual values. The possibility of a third group of values, the religious values, rests on the fact that the two first groups of values, those of self-assertion and of devotion, are to be acquired and held fast within existence, such as it once for all is. Existence thereby comes to stand for the human being as a battlefield on which the fate of values is decided. It is a great drama that is performed, in which the human being is both fellow-player and spectator. Were he merely fellow-player, his whole energy and all his interest would be taken up by the place he himself is to fill in the drama, and he would not have time, strength, and interest to be more deeply affected by the course of the drama as a whole. Were he merely spectator, his mood at the drama's course would be purely intellectual or aesthetic. But when he is both, he will himself have values that are at stake in the struggle, and besides his own participation in this, the picture he forms of the drama's course will also affect and attune him. He will feel himself so drawn in, with his whole inmost being and with respect to the highest values he knows, to the whole great order and course of things, that there will arise in him a living feeling of displeasure or pleasure, according to the fate the values suffer. In its most immediate form this feeling finds vent in outbursts of hope and fear, admiration and disgust, joy and sorrow. Such outbursts are in all domains the simplest value-judgments there are. *This feeling, determined by the fate of values during the struggle of existence, is the religious feeling.* It is thus determined by the relation between value and reality. This relation—as it stands for the human being—determines the value the human being ascribes to existence. The religious judgments are thus secondary value-judgments, are derived in relation to the primary value-judgments in which the two first groups of values are expressed.

The religious values can—in spite of their derived character—be felt just as immediately and just as energetically as the primary ones. They will themselves be able to be the human being's central values, since the relation between value and reality is the strongest relation of tension in which the human being is placed, and which can therefore lay claim to all his energy; for what is at stake here is at last life or death for everything that has shown itself to have value for the human being. In the religious problem the concept of value appears in the second power, derived to be sure, but in the same sense in which a concentration is derived in relation to the forces that are

concentrated towards one and the same point. In religion's classical times, the time of beginnings and the time of organization, such a concentration of all interests and forces towards one point is the most characteristic trait.

And just as religious feeling, in spite of its derived character in relation to other feelings, can be just as immediate and energetic as they, so it can also appear independently over against them, react back upon them. It by no means stands merely passively related to them. There is here a constant reciprocal relation, and the degree of independence may be highly different on both sides. With greater independence the two first groups will be able to appear only at more developed stages of culture, where the spiritual division of labour has come into force. As we have earlier seen, the religious problem presents itself precisely only where the special values acquire a greater degree of independence over against that concentration of all values which is religion's distinctive character, and which psychologically finds its explanation in the fact that it is the fundamental relation between value and reality that in religion is the really determining thing.

The psychological description and analysis of a feeling must naturally not be confused with the feeling's own reality. In order to describe and analyse we need a scaffolding of concepts and points of view which the real state of feeling itself has no need whatever to know. It appears, or can appear, with a closed character of wholeness; it grows forth in the manner in which an instinct forms itself: under the influence of impressions and lived experiences which the human being cannot always account for, and which only the comparative investigation points out.

The feeling whose possibility and general character has now been described constitutes the most essential distinctive mark of all religions and religious standpoints. In relation to it all ideas are subordinate and conditioned.

One might object to this that in the great historical forms of religion it is after all an essential trait that personal beings, on whom the human being feels himself dependent, are represented as ruling in existence, and that the concept of religion therefore presupposes myth, dogma, and cult.—How one will define the concept of religion is at last a free matter. As with all fundamental definitions, it is grounds of expediency that here decide. Now it is not expedient to define a concept in such a way that one thereby cuts off important questions and problems. The religious problem becomes undeniably very much simplified if one will speak of religion only where myths, dogmas, and cult can be pointed out. But if myth, dogma, and cult always have religious significance only by being borne by a feeling such as that described above, then there shows itself a possibility that this bearing element in religion can also be and work

without procuring itself expression in myth, dogma, or cult. It is then natural to lay the chief weight on it, and the wider extent of the concept of religion therefore becomes the most natural. Great importance this question does not moreover have, since the dispute about it easily becomes a dispute about words. If one would rather avoid the word religion than use it in a wider sense, one might, as I have proposed in my *Psychology*, call the feeling that is determined by the relation between value and reality *cosmic life-feeling*. For just as the organic life-feeling immediately corresponds to and is determined by the course of life in our organism, and acquires a different character according as the organic life in us is checked or furthered, so in the feeling described there will be given a symptom of how it goes with life (so far as we know it and tie our weal and woe to it) in existence as a whole (so far as we can form a picture of it). If one will not take the word religion in the wider sense, one may call religion (in the narrower sense) a *distinctive* kind of cosmic life-feeling.—To use the word religion in the wider sense would only be unfortunate if this usage were used for unworthy accommodation to existing forms of religion. But the criticism of the existing forms of religion becomes precisely sharper if it can be shown that these in many ways come into conflict with religion's own essence and therefore point out beyond themselves. Besides, those who wish to compromise will always be able to find their ways out, and there is no reason to give up a usage that is expedient in a scientific respect because it can be misused for unscientific ends.

In his brilliant book *De l'irréligion de l'avenir* (1887) GUYAU holds fast to the narrower usage as regards the word religion, in that he will not speak of religion where myth, dogma, and cult are lacking. But he then distinguishes between *irréligion* (non-religion) and *antireligion* (religion's opposite), and his endeavour aims at establishing that "the non-religion of the future will be able to preserve the purest thing the religious feeling contained." The question is, it seems to me, whether "the purest thing in the religious feeling" is not precisely the really religious thing itself. The American philosopher of religion J. ROYCE, who stands at a different standpoint from Guyau, says in an interesting essay he has written on the young French philosopher who departed so early: "If Guyau's opinions were my own, I should without hesitation call them religious, because in them—like he himself—I should see the rationally formed consummation of what humanity's religious instinct has sought after."²⁷—We find ourselves here in the domain of fine nuances. I for my part would not have so great a misgiving as Guyau about the wider application of the concept of religion, but would not be quite so sure of my case as Royce.

27. The description of religious feeling attempted in what precedes is confirmed partly by the fact that it lets the difference between religious feeling and other feelings come

out clearly, partly by the fact that starting from it one can with ease explain the different forms that religious feeling can assume.

The more the human being is taken up with the very work of asserting himself, or the more he is absorbed in intellectual, aesthetic, and ethical interests, the more does the really religious recede, if it does not wholly disappear. Existence is then a resistance to be overcome, or an object that is understood or contemplated, or a foundation for tasks of the will.—Especially instructive here is the difference between the intellectual and the religious relation to existence. Existence presents to knowledge an unsurveyable richness and multiplicity; it contains far more than human beings will ever be able to bring under the point of view of what they call values. It realizes forms and stages of existence that go far beyond, and often stand in direct opposition to, what that which from a human standpoint stands as the valuable would demand. Intellectually regarded, this overflowing fullness is a good, because the picture of the world at which our knowledge works thereby becomes the more comprehensive, and because the endeavour is the more strongly awakened to understand the individual form or the individual stage in its distinctiveness and in its definite connection with the whole. The religious interest, on the other hand, aims at seeing this whole richness of forms and stages as the expression of the realization of great values in existence. For the religious interest the great multiplicity contains a danger and a temptation, since the reality of values cannot be pointed out so easily as if the content of existence were less luxuriant. The unsurveyable world seems to be too great for the human values. There may then here come a collision between the intellectual interest, which is always on the track of new differences and new connections and therefore rejoices in the fullness, and the religious interest, which in order to be able to hold fast to the point of view of value has a natural tendency to limit the picture of the world (which became a chief point in the epistemological philosophy of religion). This opposition comes out clearly when one compares two natures like PASCAL and SPINOZA. What terrifies the one, nature's infinity, delights and inspires the other. And yet Spinoza was in his way a religious nature. Intellectual interest can, namely, involuntarily bring with it an evaluation of existence. When existence in all its fullness nevertheless shows itself intelligible, it is indeed from an intellectual point of view a home for values, comes in a manner to meet the human spirit. It procures for us the deep joy of knowledge, which becomes of especially penetrating effect when we understand ourselves as distinctive links in the great connection.

Then arises the intellectual love which was the highest thing for Spinoza, the quiet, inspired contemplation in which everything was at last harmonized for him into a total

picture.—It will be easy in analogy with this to develop the relation between religious feeling and the feelings that stand related to it in a similar manner to the intellectual feeling. The religious relation is everywhere characterized by a striving to hold fast the persistence of the valuable in existence: whatever the valuable may be that the human being sets highest, and whatever the conception may be that the human being has of existence. Life, truth, beauty, and goodness must be presupposed to have been experienced in order that a religious relation should be possible. The religious relation comes into force when these values are compared with the rest of reality. From this one sees at once the opposition and the connection between religious feeling and other feelings. It must here be noted that what I here distinguish between as two different acts, the experience of life, truth, beauty, and goodness, and the experience of these values' relation to factual reality, need not appear at different points of time, but may coincide in one act, so that the human being himself does not become conscious of the difference. It is in the psychological description that we make this difference; it need not be made in life itself. The religious strife gets its sharp sting precisely from the fact that at the classically religious standpoint there exists no valuable life, no truth, no beauty, and no goodness outside religion; this has in its concentrated form taken up all valuable elements, so that these do not come to appear in their independent distinctiveness. This happens, as often remarked in what precedes, only when the religious problem is posed as a consequence of a beginning division of labour in the spiritual domain.

The differences between the religious standpoints may rest partly on the different values that are presupposed to have been experienced, partly on the different conception of existence that lies at the foundation, partly on the different degree of energy with which value and reality are compared, so that the relation between them can become the object of penetrating experience. These three sources of differences all spring from the given description of religion as a feeling determined by the relation between value and reality. Every exhaustive characterization of a given religion or religious standpoint will lay these three points of view at its foundation. Both in what precedes and in what follows there are examples of these points of view's significance.

28. If the conception of the world immediately showed us the highest valuable thing realized, or at least clearly showed us existence as the secure home of the valuable, no special religious feeling would arise. There would be an immediate harmony between explanation and evaluation of existence: what could be pointed out as an operative cause in the world would thereby at the same time have been pointed out as a means to the realization of something valuable. There would, to use an expression from political

economy, be no marginal utility. As it is, on the other hand—since the connection of values with the rest of reality is so great a problem—a distinctive exertion is required in order to hold fast the conviction of the persistence of the valuable.

Nor would any special religious feeling arise if the human being's capacity to work for the valuable (in himself and in existence) were unlimited. Religious feeling presupposes a striving to assert the values in us and outside us—a striving that meets resistance. The human being feels himself dependent and divided precisely in the inmost and most intimate domain. The feeling of dependence first properly arises where there is a striving to press forward. The chained animal will not feel itself dependent except when it strives to reach further out than the chain reaches. When the feeling of dependence is something other and more than a lassitude that may derive from dullness, it presupposes that one has gone to the will's limit. The lion in the cage, pacing up and down along the bars, has gone to the limit and feels its dependence; if it kept still at the back of the cage, it would feel no dependence, but would find existence far simpler and more harmonious than it now does. But in order that a religious relation should arise, it is not enough to go to the will's limit. At the very limit and in spite of the limit the wish for the persistence of the valuable must be held fast. There must form ideas of a world of values whose reality is not given up because human thought and human capacity have found their limits. There may arise an intimation that the principle of this world of values is at last one with the principle of existence's causal connection—that what makes it possible for us to find values in existence is the same as what makes it possible for us to find it intelligible.

In SCHLEIERMACHER's famous description of religion as a feeling of dependence it is not sufficiently emphasized that this dependence is conditioned by an activity, and that it arises at this activity's limit. Nor is it sufficiently emphasized that the dependence is felt with respect to the work for those values that for the human being stand as the highest and as those which in spite of everything persist and can therefore be asserted by human striving.

The role that the consciousness of sin plays in several religions is an example of the character of the religious feeling of dependence. In the consciousness of sin the human being feels the disproportion between the ideal of will that his evaluation has led him to acknowledge, and the reality of his will. It is now sluggishness and lassitude, now dividedness or dispersion, now one-sided or impatient concentration, that makes his inner reality so different from the ideal. In the consciousness of redemption or reconciliation there then dawns, often suddenly, the conviction that the valuable in spite of everything persists, persists in his own inner being and will come to be victorious there.

This inner psychological drama stands, in the highest popular religions, in Buddhism and Christianity, as the real world-drama, to whose unfolding in souls the great cosmic processes at last all minister.

3.1.2 Religious Faith

29. Like all other experiences, religious experience too is shaped in more or less definite ideas, whose content depends on the stage of development and knowledge at which the human being stands. The harmonious or disharmonious relation between value and reality gets its most immediate expression in exclamations. When the human being commands a larger circle of ideas, he will involuntarily compare the feeling that the relation between value and other reality awakens in him with other feelings and experiences, and thereby, through likeness (especially analogy) with, or opposition to, these other experiences, closer expressions and designations for religious experience will be able to be won. Thus there are used in religious language expressions like life and death, health and sickness, light and darkness, truth and falsehood, beauty and ugliness, justice and injustice, to denote the oppositions that are lived through in the religious domain. The expressions are drawn from the domain of the two first groups of values, from the domain of life-preservation, truth, beauty, and goodness.

The religious life of feeling oscillates, like all life of feeling, between pleasure and displeasure, between vehemence and lassitude, between inwardness and outwardness. But since in every personal being there is a more or less pronounced striving after unity and connection, there must in spite of these oscillations be certain chief ideas to which the mind constantly returns, and in which it finds expression for what is essential in its experiences. In the dark and weak moments it seeks to hold fast what it has experienced and thought in the bright and strong moments. It strives to preserve continuity in spite of the oscillations and through the oscillations. In religious faith there is expressed not merely the individual expression of religious feeling, but above all an endeavour to hold fast that relation between value and reality which the most strongly intervening experiences have taught the human being to acknowledge.

In the concept of faith there lies the conviction of a continuity, a persistence out beyond the horizon experience has shown us, and through the interruptions and leaps that experience presents. We believe in a human being when we hold fast the conviction that through all changes he will be like himself, although his life does not lie before us as completed or as fully known. We believe in ourselves when we cherish confidence that we shall not fail the best in us, but shall hold fast our decisive resolutions through all

hindrances. And thus religious faith too is a conviction of a firmness, a trustworthiness, an unbroken connection in the fundamental relation between value and other reality, however much the states of reality, and with them the empirical appearance of values, may change. Faith is akin to faithfulness, and presupposes faithfulness (in the sense of firmness) in faith's object as well. Faith is a subjective continuity in disposition and will, which aims at holding fast an objective continuity in existence. Faith's object is the persistence of value—but the very existence of faith is a testimony to the persistence of value within the individual personality.

Faith arises in its simplest and healthiest forms involuntarily. But that does not exclude its being a matter of will, when one takes the word will (as is done in my *Psychology*) in the wider sense. An unfolding of activity is needed when an expression or an explanation is to be held fast in the face of the oscillations of states, in the face of what is incomplete and often contradictory in experiences. But in its simplest forms this activity can appear as instinctive confidence or secure expectation. Only when the opposition between value and other reality assumes sharper and more glaring forms does faith appear as desire, wish, purpose, or resolution, in that the concentration of all the mind's forces upon the leading and saving thought is undertaken with greater consciousness of what is at stake. In faith, moreover, what perhaps can only be realized through long ages is lived through as present, just as in the moment of resolution we already regard ourselves as acting, although there may be a long road still to the carrying out of the action. Through this anticipation the difference between means and end is abolished; the time of preparation and expectation is no longer merely a means for a later time, but the fruit of the work is lived through in the midst of the time of work, because the work itself is the highest reward. In religion's own language this is expressed by saying that eternal life is lived in the midst of time, does not first come after long ages.

There is thus a close kinship between faith and will. In describing any expression of will that lies beyond the purely instinctive, the chief point will be the holding fast of the idea of a goal that is to be reached, whether this goal is again a means for a more distant goal or not. It is by this moment—the holding fast of an idea across greater or lesser distance and resistance—that the concepts of faith and will pass over into one another, so that they can even be said to be names for one and the same phenomenon of the soul. If any difference is to be made, then faith denotes rather a rest, a devotion—the rest and devotion that lie in concentration upon a single idea. One may speak of a “will to believe,” in so far as a definite striving to attain such a concentration may express itself. Conversely one may also speak of a faith in the will, since a confident devotion to

the endeavour of will and the conviction of its energy may be a necessary condition for the will's work to be done.

Significant differences in the nature of religious faith are conditioned—like the differences in the nature of religious feeling—by differences in values and motives of evaluation, by differences in the knowledge of reality, and by differences in the energy with which value and reality are compared and held together. These differences are not all of equally great importance. It will be easy to see that the last-named difference will be the most important.

The motive of evaluation, which determines what comes to stand as valuable for the human being, can vary from individual to individual, from people to people, from time to time, both in kind and in extent. It may be hope or fear; it may be egoistic, or at any rate individualistic, and sympathetic; it may be simple or composite, and if it is composite it may have a different timbre according to the different relation between the elements that co-operate in it. In respect of extent the difference between egoism, individualism, and sympathy will also be decisive: the circle of values that is to be preserved may be attached either to the individual himself, with more or less conscious isolation, or to groups of human beings and endeavours within which the individual's own persistence and striving stands only as a single link.

The conception of the world gets its significance for religious faith by indicating the roads along which values can be unfolded and preserved. It presents the whole stage on which the great drama takes place in which the fate of the valuable is decided, and the stage determines in many ways the kind and course of the play.

But the properly religious moment arises—if the preceding description is correct—only through the comparing of evaluation and conception of the world. Therefore the most important group of differences that acquire influence on religious faith must be that which arises through the different inwardness and energy with which value and reality are placed together in consciousness. One might call them differences in religious synthesis. Naturally all three moments always work together; but this last is the most central. In what follows I shall bring forward some of the most typical differences that are predominantly determined by the varying of the last-named relation.

30. A characteristic and very frequent type of religious faith is that which is determined by the need for rest. And what makes one weary and tired during the course of life is above all unrest and dividedness. We are affected from so many sides and have trouble collecting our thoughts; we are drawn in so many directions and find it hard to hold the will fast upon a single goal; so many different and shifting feelings are set in motion that

the mind's inner harmony threatens to dissolve. There is inner distress on account of the feeling of the disproportion to our ideal, and there is outer distress in pain, infirmity, and dependence on life's elementary necessities.

In the *Upanishad* it is said: "The Self (Atman), the sinless, that which is redeemed from old age, death, suffering, hunger, and thirst—that whose wishes are right and whose resolve is right—that one should explore, that one should seek to know. Whoever has found and known this Self attains all worlds and all wishes." And in another place: "Save me, for I feel myself in this course of the world like the frog in a dry well!"—Jesus of Nazareth says: "Come unto me, all ye that labour and are heavy laden, and I will give you rest. . . . Learn of me, and ye shall find rest unto your souls."—"Restless is our heart," says Augustine to his God, "until it finds rest in thee!"—

In passionate form this need for rest appears in natures like Saint Teresa, Pascal, and Søren Kierkegaard.

There is indeed in Augustine too a mighty pathos; but one always notices in him the Platonist and the prince of the Church alongside the intensely strained seeker; it is precisely the union of all these elements that makes him so unique a figure in the history of the religious life. Saint Teresa feels the need for union with God so violently that only death can satisfy it: "I did not know where I should seek this life, except in death. Nothing could answer to my wishes; my heart was every moment on the point of bursting, and it was to me as though the soul were being torn out of me." "I thirst to live, and I live dying! I die because I cannot die! The fish that is drawn up out of the water nevertheless sees its torment end; but what death can be compared with the life in which I languish?" For Kierkegaard too it was *life's strife* that it was a matter of being released from; the lines of the hymn he wished set on his grave express it:

"It is a little while, then I have won, then is the whole strife at once vanished."

Here in life the believer is in an alien element; there is a disproportion between the inner and the outer, between life and its conditions. In him too the image of *the fish on dry land* comes forward in one place; it is characteristic of this type that this same image has thrust itself forward both in the ancient Indian of the *Upanishads*, in the Spanish nun of the sixteenth century, and in the Nordic thinker of the nineteenth. This trait is instructive with respect to the psychology of religion. The human being's goal stands as infinite, but the human being must lead his life in the world of finitude, and from this it follows that his existence acquires a convulsive character. In Kierkegaard, and already in Pascal, the opposition is emphasized in a still sharper manner than in Teresa. In Teresa it awakens longing and inward yearning; her "will" is laid claim to by the

highest object, and only her memory and her imagination work to interpret her lived experiences. But both in Pascal and in Kierkegaard it is precisely the will that is again and again summoned up, in order that they may hold themselves up under the cutting disproportion between the true life and the actual conditions of life, and above all in order that thought may hold fast to faith's object and not succumb to doubt.—As an example of this type John Bunyan (the author of *The Pilgrim's Progress*), who has himself described the story of his conversion, must further be named. Deep melancholy, ungovernable motor impulses, restless vehemence here formed the psychological foundation for a series of spiritual struggles, which were brought to an end only after a stage of despair had led over into a state of complete passivity, in which strength could be gathered for a new and higher life. Even after he had won a firm position and had begun his vigorous activity as a curer of souls, he had again and again to summon up his self-control in order to keep the old chaos down.²⁸

31. In opposition to this type, which is characterized by the fact that it is disharmony that lies at the foundation and awakens the need, stands a type whose distinctive character is an inner need for self-unfolding and devotion, which leads out beyond all oppositions and limitations, almost without touching upon them. Religious feeling here becomes properly no distinctive kind of feeling, but a heightening and widening of the feeling with which the valuable is already beforehand embraced. Religious feeling here arises through a further unfolding of the drive for self-preservation. There is here no opposition between self-assertion and devotion, for devotion arises through the human being's commanding far more strength and feeling than his own purely individual interests can lay claim to. In overflowing joy and enthusiasm he then embraces the life of others, at last the whole of existence. Religion springs here from the strength to live and from the joy in life. It seeks rest here too, but not rest from pain and dividedness—rather rest for a yearning that no limited object can satisfy. The happy man will, said Aristotle, see life about him, a life he can share and bear.

In an interesting manner this type comes forward in the modern age in CAMPANELLA, JOSEPH BUTLER, and ROUSSEAU. Characteristic is especially Butler's statement (in a sermon "on the love of God"): "As we cannot remove from this earth or change our whole business upon it, so neither can we alter our real nature. Therefore no other spiritual exercise can be required of us than the exercise of the faculties of which we are conscious. *Religion does not demand new feelings, but only the direction of the feelings we already have*, though they are limited to objects that do not satisfy their nature."—This type lies at the foundation in Goethe (in Faust's confession of faith and in the Marienbad Elegy) and

in Schleiermacher (in his *Speeches on Religion*). It comes forward in a manner recalling the Gospel of John in the English theologian FR. D. MAURICE, for whom hell consisted in separation from God, and who—in contrast to those who “construct all theology out of sin”—says in one of his letters: “How I long to say to myself and to all, that the hell we are to flee is ignorance of the perfect Good and separation from it, and that the heaven we are to seek is the knowledge of it and the participation in it.”²⁹

32. A third type is characterized by the role the intellectual and the aesthetic element plays. For contemplative natures what matters is to win *a total conception* within which the relation between value and reality finds its illumination. Now it is thought’s need for understanding, now the imagination’s need for vivid images, that predominates. Plato’s doctrine of ideas satisfied both requirements for him and gave his mind rest in the contemplation of the eternal ideas as the true reality, in relation to which the sensible world in its constant change stood at last as an illusion. A tendency in this direction occurs already in the *Upanishads*. From Platonism this type has passed over into Christian theology, where it is traced in Augustine, in the mystics of the Middle Ages, and (in slighter forms, to be sure) in more recent speculative theologians, as with us Martensen. A pronounced representative of this type is SPINOZA. Although his thought, so long as it moves on the ground of experience, has a decidedly realistic character, the highest consummation lay for him nevertheless in the contemplation of things “under the form of eternity,” a contemplation that could indeed only be reached through serious work of thought, but which is nevertheless rather of an artistic than of a scientific kind. The attainment of such a contemplation stood for Spinoza as the highest good, as the only thing that could bestow lasting and deep satisfaction. In this contemplation the most inward life was combined with the most serious reflection upon life, and the joy of knowledge that was awakened by it cast its radiance over the whole picture of the world and obscured the disharmonious traits it presented when one remained at the finite and limited standpoint. Every feeling and every experience can give its contribution to this highest spiritual state, and access to this good stands open to everyone who strives. The strife that finite goods can awaken between human beings falls away here, and the joy in it grows the more there are who gain access to it.

Many of the representatives of this type have supposed that in the highest idea or the intellectual contemplation, which for them was the highest thing, they had a result of the highest science. This rested on an illusion, which was founded on an imperfect investigation of knowledge’s conditions and limits. If it is philosophy that these spirits end in, then it is not philosophy as science, but philosophy as art.³⁰ But this type’s great

merit is then precisely to have asserted thought's significance for life, even there where thought moves at its own limit. The art of thought is of great importance for the art of life, and it would lead to spiritual barbarism if this type came to lack representatives.

With the need for contemplation there naturally combines the need for intuition. In Plato and Spinoza the need for visual images seems to have ruled in the imagination; they have been visual. The same holds of the author of the Gospel of John. Although not only the opposition between light and darkness, but also the opposition between life and death, frequently comes forward in his circles of images, it is nevertheless the first opposition that rules, and life and death are themselves often represented as day and night.—In contrast to this, Paul in his highest states has been partly vital (in that the life of ideas was often determined by the life-feeling corresponding to inner organic states), partly motor (in that ideas of movement are frequent in him). The highest could not for him be shaped according to the experiences of the eye or the ear, and the most inward need brings forth unutterable sighs. He has a great capacity to “speak in tongues,” a decidedly motor trait. Life and death appear for him as opposed inner states that are sensed in the limbs. Chasing and struggle, longing and hope, flesh and spirit lie at the foundation of characteristic turns of phrase in the Pauline epistles. Visions and auditory hallucinations are subordinate in relation to sensations of life and movement.—The hallucinations of presence which by some mystics (Saint Teresa and Cécile Vé, for example)³¹ are definitely stated to be different from “imaginative” hallucinations (hallucinations of sight and hearing) probably belong under sensations of life and movement.

In contrast to contemplative or intuitive natures, in whom a concluding total conception easily forms, stand the reflective natures, in whom the activity of thought itself, not its conclusion in a total picture, is the chief matter, and who perhaps even lack the capacity and the need to form and hold fast definite images. Reflection in such natures turns quickly towards the points where the total picture's insufficiency shows itself (where “the similitude” limps), and it perhaps even feels a shudder at the contradiction that arises from the attempt to present the infinite in finite form. Schleiermacher³² is a characteristic example of a reflective type, but at the same time an example of the fact that the intellectual dispositions need not determine the whole type. There is a constant reciprocal relation between the intellectual, the emotional, and the volitional dispositions. In mystics it will especially be the inward feeling that brings with it the conviction of the insufficiency of concepts and images to form an expression. Hereby there arises a certain spiritual kinship between mysticism and criticism, even where they are not united in the same person. Many of the arguments Carneades used against the

dogmatism of the Stoics are found again in the Neoplatonist Plotinus, and in more recent times the combination of mysticism and criticism is not rare either. Living feelings and clear thinking can far more often join hands than one as a rule supposes.

While the last-described form of religious faith is characterized by intellectual dispositions, we come more over into the domain of the will when faith appears as *confident venturing*. Luther and Zwingli have, often in sharp opposition to the Schoolmen's doctrine of faith and knowledge as differing only in degree, strongly emphasized bold confidence (*fiducia*, *Vertrauen*) as faith's essence. Especially in "the Great Catechism" Luther has with energy uttered this thought, so that it even serves him as the foundation for a definition of God: "A God is that from which one is to expect all good, and to which one is to take one's refuge in all distress, so that to have a God is nothing else than to believe and trust him from the heart, as I have often said, that it is the heart's faith and trust alone that produces both a God and an idol. If the faith and the trust are right, then your God too is the right one, and conversely, where the trust is false and wrong, there neither is the right God."³³ In this bold confidence, which indeed presupposes a feeling of disharmony and distress (whereby we are reminded of the first type, see §30), but which aims at this distress's being able to be overcome, indeed at its being overcome, lies Luther's chief thought, the fundamental thought of the new religion he founded without knowing it. If the movement—as in the first type—is to be made again and again from disharmony to harmony, there is no time and strength left over to take part in the interests and works of human life. The bold faith that one is—as regards the essential—well provided for makes it possible, on the other hand, to place oneself in a more positive relation to actual human life and to take part with a full heart in the development of culture. In his little work on "The Freedom of a Christian Man" Luther remarks that the Christian who has made himself the servant of all thereby attains precisely the right to rule over all things. Freedom and the great strength spring from bold confidence in life's ground. This confidence is won (or is presupposed to have been won) through struggle; thereby this type recalls the first and stands in opposition to the second (§31) and the third (§32), which are predominantly characterized by an immediate unfolding of the soul's forces.

33. Yet another type (of the many that are possible besides those now mentioned) must be brought forward. It is characterized by the fact that it gives up its own standard, but otherwise stands nearest to bold venturing (§32). It is determined by *adherence to a model, an authority*; faith is here an echo, a reflex, but an echo that becomes possible through inward devotion to the model. Faith is here therefore grounded not on direct and

independent experience, but on trust in the experience of others. One's own experience is not wholly excluded: it must indeed be experienced that one can lead one's life by building on trust in one's model, find light by being led by the model's light.—Within the relation to the model, which is also a relation of faith, highly different types—thus all those described in what precedes—can come forward again.

There is hardly any human being whose view of life—whether it has the character of religious faith or not—is built right through on his own first-hand experiences. Models and traditions determine us all, and they determine especially also the experiences we come to make and the manner in which we take them up into our life. But where a decisive weight is laid on a certain sum and a certain form of religious ideas as the only valid content of faith, there the dependence on model and authority becomes unconditional and comes at last to stand as the only virtue.

When the Church had by the road of theological speculation worked out a series of doctrines which had to lie far above most human beings' powers of comprehension, it was nevertheless so humane as to declare that in the case of the most speculative doctrines (for example the doctrine of the Trinity) it was not necessary to believe on one's own account, but that it was here enough "to believe something because one believes that the Church believes it." And in this willingness to hold to the Church's faith one found something meritorious, because it sprang from "the love that believes all things." Innocent III and later popes have acknowledged such an "undeveloped faith" (*fides implicita*) in order to secure the unlearned against becoming heretics through innocent errors in theological specialities. It is this kind of faith that has received the name of charcoal-burner's faith, after a tale (reported—somewhat differently—in Luther and in Erasmus of Rotterdam) of a charcoal-burner who, on being asked what he believed, had only this answer: "In what the holy Church believes!"—without his being able to say what it then was that the holy Church believed.³⁴

In his Protestant zeal Luther declared that he who had no other faith than this charcoal-burner's went to hell. But the Protestant Church cannot—as little as any church—dispense with charcoal-burner's faith. When it distinguishes between the individual believer's experiences and "the church community's common experience," and when something is to be believed that by the nature of the case cannot be an object of personal experience, then it is impossible to avoid the acknowledgement of indirect faith (*fides implicita*). It is Protestantism's honour that it has so energetically asserted the individual's duty to make his own experiences and draw his own conclusions; but it has dragged so much along with it from the old Church—for example the doctrine of the Trinity, precisely the

doctrine that gave the medieval Church occasion to set up the concept of *fides implicita*—that it is an illusion when one believes one can dispense with this concept.—Besides, this concept has its great humane and pedagogical significance. All human beings begin their development with childlike adherence to authorities and models. Their first expressions of freedom consist in their experiences leading them to choose other models than the original ones, when they are not confirmed in adherence to these by the course of life. Development can lead to an increasing predominance of the results of independent experience, and in quite a few—the great ones in the world of the spirit—creative self-activity goes so far in depth and extent that they themselves come to stand as models for the race.

The spirit of Protestantism demands that access to free investigation of experience, its foundation and its results, stand constantly open. Traditions and models must be investigated with historical criticism. Psychology must test whether the “experiences” are natural and immediate; logic must investigate the inner coherence of the assumptions; ethics must discuss the genuineness of the values. If this testing is ever cut off, one ends in barbarism or in convulsive attempts to hold fast the absurd. The religious consciousness has a tendency to drag traditions along with it which have neither religious, intellectual, nor ethical significance, dead values that can no longer really be lived through by anyone, but which one dares not throw away for fear that they should draw more with them in their fall. As RUDOLF EUCKEN has said: “one holds fast the impossible in order not to lose the necessary.”

Every personal development begins with childlike adherence to transmitted ideas; but there may be many degrees and nuances in the manner in which one later draws nourishment from the tradition or step by step removes oneself from it. Some natures never notice any difference between their own lived experiences and the transmitted symbols. Others notice a difference but shudder back from it, fearing the apparently self-abandoned “subjectivity,” and throw themselves, with greater or lesser personal truthfulness and intellectual honesty, back into the common forms. There are peculiarly ecclesiastical natures who live and breathe immediately in what is transmitted, and who are always able to find both the end and the beginning of their experiences in the transmitted forms. An immediate unity of word and experience, of name and thing, prevails in them. They have no need for individual symbol-formation, which often hinders spiritual fellowship, but will on the contrary be inclined to make the possibility of such a fellowship, of a church, the criterion of the genuineness of experience and faith. Even for theologians of liberal tendency the possibility of forming a congregation

and founding a cult is the mark that a real religion is present: "Only in the capacity to found a cult does the genuine religion, borne by unbroken conviction, make itself known" (Troeltsch). What matters is then not what the individual has lived through and uttered, but whether a congregation can gather and a tradition form about definite facts and ideas (Kaftan).³⁵—In modern theological discussions the invocation of the congregation therefore plays a great role.—A dominant tendency in the history of religion is so far in agreement with this, in that it designates its task as that of presenting the faith of peoples, of the great masses, and not the faith of the individual great personalities, however significant this may be.

34. It is more individual types that we have hitherto brought forward. I now pass over to the great differences that have found their expression in the highest popular religions. These types have developed under reciprocal action between older religious traditions, racial characters, and the experiences of centuries. There appear here especially two chief types of deep and abiding significance for spiritual development.

The one chief type is characterized by a need to raise oneself above the struggle for existence, *to be freed from change and opposition, from all "twoness" and difference*. With difference follows suffering, with change follows unrest, and the suffering and the unrest bring it about that one sets oneself as an end the attainment of better states—but these are attained only to prepare a so much the more bitter disappointment! This whole surging is to be halted and abolished. Only in the eternal and unchangeable is there rest! But since all ideas are drawn from experience's world of difference and instability, no positive expression can characterize the eternal and unchangeable state that is yearned for. And since all change and movement is an illusion, this very yearning comes at last—when that state is attained—to stand as an illusion. One yearns to be free of all yearning.

This type recalls partly the first (§30), partly the third (§32) of the individual types. *Indian religiosity*, especially as it was concluded in Buddhism's doctrine of Nirvana, is the most characteristic example of it. Nirvana is not pure nothing. It is a form of existence to which none of the properties that ever-shifting experience presents applies, and which therefore, in relation to the states we know from experience, comes to stand as a nothing. It is a liberation from all need and suffering, from hatred and passion, from death and birth. It is attained by the highest degree of concentration of thought and will of which the human being is capable.³⁶—In *Neoplatonism* and in *the mysticism of the Middle Ages* kindred traits are found.—In all religiosity the opposition between the unchangeable and the changeable plays an essential role; but in this chief type it is the wholly decisive

thing.

With the second chief type it is likewise a matter of redemption from strife, but the opposites do not here stand equal, for the human being attaches himself to one of the contending powers, so that redemption is reached through this power's victory, and not merely through the human being's being raised above the sphere where there can be any question of strife at all. Life is a strife between good and evil powers. This strife shall and must be carried to its end; it has a positive reality, and everything depends on which side the human being has attached himself to while the strife goes on.—*The doctrine of Zarathustra and Christianity* are the great representatives of this chief type, whose significance rests on the decisive weight laid on *historical development* and ethical striving. Time and *life in time* acquire here undoubted reality. (Cf. §11.)

There are naturally many intermediate forms between the two chief types and many combinations of them, already for the reason that the one chief type historically works upon the other. The Indian-Greek type has through Neoplatonism worked upon the Christian type, and the collision and reciprocal action of the two types is noticeable in Augustine's thought, so influential for the whole European development. The opposition between the unchangeable and the changeable has a tendency to thrust itself forward in place of the opposition between good and evil. The proposition that God is the most changeable of all beings, which has been uttered by a religious personality within Christianity, could not have been uttered by an Indian or a Greek, scarcely even by Augustine.

Common to both chief types is that there is experienced an opposition between times in which the goal (whether it be redemption from the strife, or victory in the strife) stands as reached or at least as certain and present, and other times in which darkness, dullness, and hopelessness prevail. And these states will mutually heighten one another by *contrast-effect*: for him who has known the high and bright states, where one feels oneself in unity with the highest, dark and depressed states become doubly painful and comfortless, while conversely the former acquire a double radiance by their opposition to the latter. Here there is use for faith (as faithfulness, see §29), in order that there may be continuity in the personal life. The bright moments easily come, in the dark moments, to stand as illusions. What matters then is to hold fast the right connection, in firm conviction that even the dark times can purify and strengthen, and that all value is not extinguished even in times when one must "do without all consolation."—That these oscillations must be stronger and more frequent within the second chief type than within the first is a natural consequence of the two types' distinctive characters

severally. Within the second chief type, where the temporal relation acquires decisive significance, there will be a far greater difference between the different moments, and there will perhaps even be a need to live through and endure extreme states, to oscillate between opposite moods, in order that the consciousness of victory may be the more glorious. In cult this need will especially manifest itself.

35. To the concept of faith corresponds the concept of God. From a purely theoretical (epistemological-metaphysical) standpoint the concept of God can only mean the principle of existence's continuity and thereby of its intelligibility. From a religious standpoint God means—as faith's object—the principle of the persistence of value through all oscillations and all struggles—if one will: the principle of faithfulness in existence. If the religious problem could be completely solved, it would have to be demonstrable that these two principles—the persistence of energy and of value—quite coincide. The analogy between them is clear; but from that there is a great step to their identity, and it is a great question whether this step can be taken in such a way that it leads to a contradiction-free concept. We shall in another connection come back to this question.

Religious experience may be said to be an experience of “God,” in so far as it leads to a faith in the persistence of value in spite of everything and through everything. He who would experience “God” must train his eye to find a valuable kernel behind reality's hard shell, and train his mind in patient hope that such a kernel will always be able to be found. He who would work for “God's kingdom” must work to find, bring forth, and assert the valuable. “Thou feelest him each time thy heart beats with holy desire; thou hearest him in thy best thoughts as an eternal voice.”

Of the justification for using the word God in this manner there holds what was remarked above (§26) about the word religion. Psychologically the kinship between different standpoints is often greater than it might purely dogmatically seem.

As regards the hypothesis of religion's essence as faith in the persistence of value, the investigation in the section of the psychology of religion that we here conclude has on the whole confirmed it, in that a discussion of the nature of religious experience and religious faith has decidedly led us to see its probability. Religious experience acquires its distinctive character by being experience concerning the relation between value and reality, and religious faith acquires its distinctive character by not merely itself being a firm, continuous direction in the mind, but also by asserting a continuity of value through all existence's oscillations. But we shall in a later section (D) return to it in order to test how far the most significant forms of positive religion can be traced back to it.

3.2 The Development of Religious Ideas

3.2.1 Religion as Drive

*Various enough have been the religious symbols, as men stood in
this stage of culture or the other and could worse or better
body-forth the Godlike.*

CARLYLE.

36. The philosophy of religion has neither any ground nor any capacity for investigating religion's historical beginning. Its task is to treat the religious problem as this presents itself for us now, under our present conditions of culture. To that end it uses, among other things, the history of religion; but it interests itself more in the question whether, in spite of the changing forms of religion, a constantly operative foundation for religion can be pointed out, than in the historical origin of religion. And even if one could point out the historical beginning of all religion, this would hardly have any philosophy-of-religion significance. From a being's first beginning one cannot always learn anything with respect to its real nature, for the transformations and displacements that take place during development can bring about properties that could not be observed in the first beginning. A being's real nature consists in the law of its whole development.

For the history of religion too, religion's first beginning in the human race will probably continue to stand as an unsolved problem. Even the lowest-standing savages we know have run through a long development. One merely cuts the knot if one assumes that any of the now existing religions should be the primal religion. And at any rate this primal religion, if it could be found, would not necessarily be the "real" religion, so that if it could for example be shown that religious development in the human race began with fetishism, then all religion should "really" be fetishism. It is an inference of the same kind as that according to which, by Darwinism, the human being is "really" an ape. Inferences of this kind are drawn both from theological and from anti-theological standpoints. It rests on a complete misunderstanding of the nature of all development. From the theological side one has for the most part thought it necessary to assume a primal revelation to the first human beings, a perfect religion which they lost by a falling away; and this primal revelation one then constructed out of one's own religion, which was to be its restitution. The fetishism theory has after all a more natural stamp. For, of two things one, it is nevertheless easier to understand that the more perfect can develop out of the more imperfect than that the more imperfect should spring from the perfect.

For when the perfect contains the possibility of, or the germ of, the imperfect, it is not perfect; whereas the imperfect can, by supplementation or by transformation, develop in the direction of perfection. History shows us no first beginning of religion, but a series of different, lower and higher forms of religion, a series that does not advance evenly, but swings back and forth, even though through all the oscillations a general direction of development can be traced, especially as regards the religious ideas, the most easily accessible side of religion.

When we start from the description of religious phenomena given in what precedes, we must expect that religion everywhere unfolds on the basis of a certain conception of reality. The human being cannot have religious feeling when he cannot to a certain degree arrange his observations of the world. Religious feeling is indeed determined by experience of the relation between value and reality, and thus presupposes that a reality is known. In investigating the development of religious ideas I shall proceed by beginning with the simplest forms of religious idea and advancing to the more composite, everywhere trying to explain to myself the transition from one stage to another on the basis of purely psychological laws.

37. In characterizing the most elementary forms of religion one has often laid too great weight on the ideas, in that one has made primitive religion one with primitive conception of the world. In spite of their great merit in the science of religion, the English investigators, especially TYLOR, SPENCER, and FRAZER, have nevertheless given way too much to the tendency to conceive religion as a matter of knowledge, and in the elementary religions have predominantly laid weight on certain ideas, their associations and their displacements. Elementary or primitive religion was then described as belief in spirits. In contrast to this the French sociological school, especially ÉMILE DURKHEIM, has maintained that belief in spirits is indeed found everywhere where there is primitive religion, but that it is not the foundation but is derived. The foundation is everywhere formed by a deep need to feel oneself at one with what can bear and secure life. It is by virtue of this need that the human being distinguishes between the holy and the profane, the fundamental religious distinction, which at the most elementary stage known, for example among the Central Australians, is a distinction between what conditions the tribe's persistence and welfare and what is indifferent or hostile to it. The individual feels himself at this stage in solidarity with the tribe to which he belongs, and therefore with the totem, the natural object that stands as the expression of the tribe and its conditions of life. Through the tribe's cult its totem is secured, nourished, and honoured, and through the individual's participation in this cult he becomes a partaker in the holy and

in its sustaining power. Cult is a social power through which influence is exercised not only on the minds of human beings, but also on the course of nature, on fertility, rain, and successful hunting.

Through the characterization Durkheim (in his work *Les formes élémentaires de la vie religieuse*)³⁷ has given of the most elementary religion known, I find confirmation on two chief points of the philosophy-of-religion theory I maintain. It shows in the first place that religion's foundation does not lie in the intellectual domain, but must be sought in a need that is not bound up with clear consciousness, a need for the securing and unfolding of life. And it shows in the second place that when we try to interpret this religious need, it is to be conceived as a need to hold fast a persistence of the valuable that is experienced, out beyond the limits within which human beings can work for it.

Since the totem is common to the tribe and stands fast through the changing generations, the idea of the forefathers naturally acquires a prominent place; their souls are assumed to be constantly at work, and a belief in spirits forms on the basis of the customs of the cult and as an attempt to interpret them. In its further development this belief in spirits can become a conception of the world, whose traces can be pointed out right up into the highest religions. This conception of the world, which is found again everywhere on earth among human beings who stand at the lowest stage of development we know, one is accustomed to call (after TYLOR)³⁸ *animism*. Animism is a conception of the world, not in itself a religion. But it acquires interest for the philosophy of religion because it is the most elementary conception of the world that religion has taken into its service. Its distinctive character consists in this, that events—especially striking events—are explained by the intervention of souls, of personal beings. Its arising is due in great part to the influence of dream-ideas: in dreams the savage gets experiences that must stand for him as just as valid as the experiences of waking life, and in these dream-experiences he himself and other beings—human beings and animals, the living and the dead—appear in a freer manner, more independent of space, time, and material conditions, than the experiences of waking life led him to regard as possible. The dream-world, which here stands as indubitable reality, is then consistently used to explain and supplement the world of waking life. Consciousness is especially taken up with the spirits of the dead; in their lifetime these beings had intervened more or less deeply in what went on; it is then natural that one supposes oneself to trace their doings and workings now too, since from the dreams about them one knows that they not merely continue to exist, but even exist under more perfect conditions. The involuntary tendency to personify, to conceive things after the likeness of ourselves and therefore to conceive natural processes as

personal actions, had to be supported by these ideas, even if these alone should not be enough to explain animism.

Animism occurs among all tribes round about on the earth at a certain lower stage of their development. It is the human being's most elementary philosophy. And even in the highest, most fully formed religions, with their ideal conceptions of gods, exact and unprejudiced investigation meets many traces of this circle of ideas.

38. In totemism the individual's ideas are predominantly determined by the tribe's. But within the social tradition individual processes of ideation can nevertheless be traced, and such are indeed also a presupposition of the social tradition's coming into being, even if it hides in the darkness of the ages. The individual does not always hold to the tribe's fetishes (the objects to which a magical effect is attached), but may choose himself a fetish on his own account. It is then a single definite object, a special occasion, that leads the human being to assume a power that decides whether something valuable for him happens or not. In such a process of choice is contained the simplest formation of religious ideas we can imagine. The choice is quite elementary and involuntary, just as elementary and involuntary as the exclamation that is the simplest form of value-judgment. The object that is chosen must in one way or another stand in connection with what strongly occupies the mind. It perhaps awakens the memory of earlier events at which it was present or played a role. Or it presents a certain likeness, often very distant likeness, to objects that formerly helped in distress. Or it is quite simply the first object the human being catches sight of in his state of strained expectation. It fixes attention upon itself and is involuntarily placed in real connection with what is to come about—with the possibility of attaining the goal one has set oneself. It may be both hope and fear that leads to this choice; probably it is from the first predominantly hope, for the human being is sanguine by nature. There is no reason why it should be fear alone that creates gods. It seems, to be sure, to be a rule that evil beings are worshipped rather than good beings; but they may be worshipped in hope that one can make them favourably disposed.

In such phenomena religion appears as *drive*. The first manner in which ideas (as different from sensations) appear is as elements in drive (according to the usage that distinguishes between drive and mere instinct). Drive contains an idea of something that can satisfy a need or in general cause pleasure, and the idea has here therefore immediate practical significance. The thirsty man's idea of water is quite practical, expresses the goal of the yearning and is held fast by the need or by the expectation. Thereby the thirsty man's idea of water is different from the chemist's or from the painter's. Religious

ideas are religious only by this connection with need and expectation, thus as elements in a drive. One and the same idea can therefore look highly different from the religious standpoint and from the theoretical-psychological or the historical-critical standpoint, and one understands the significance of religious ideas only when one holds fast the connection with drive that is their real soil. Fetishism in particular is understood only in this way. When the young Indian is to choose his "medicine" (thus he calls his fetish or talisman), he withdraws into solitude and gives himself up to fasting; the first animal he meets when he again leaves his solitary dwelling becomes his "medicine." A negro goes out of his tent in the morning to set out on an expedition and sees a stone lying glittering in the sunshine; involuntarily he takes it to himself and relies on its help. In such examples the religious idea is formed or chosen by a kind of *improvisation*.

There need be no connection between the different religious improvisations, although habit and tradition will soon exercise their influence. The fetish is provisionally merely the momentary dwelling of a spirit. It is what HERMANN USENER has aptly called a *momentary god*: "In full immediacy the individual phenomenon is deified, without any generic concept, however limited, playing a part. The individual thing that you see before you, and nothing else, is the god!" As examples Usener refers to the custom among the old Prussians and Lithuanians whereby the first or the last sheaf in the field is treated as the dwelling of a god who had to be celebrated if the corn harvest was to be good, and to the bouquet of Saint John's wort that young Lithuanian girls plucked and set on a pole at the entrance to the house, and which was worshipped with reverence. Both the sheaf and the Saint John's wort were originally fetishes. Among the Greeks similar examples are found, as when a hero in Aeschylus swears by his sword.³⁹

The tendency to form such momentary gods can constantly be traced in the involuntary personifying and symbolizing that can make itself felt when one stands in a living and interested relation to things in the surrounding world. One may for example find an omen for the outcome of an undertaking begun in the circumstance that one succeeds in getting the fire to burn in the stove: the momentary expectation that arises during the work with the refractory fuel passes over by feeling-expansion to apply to the greater undertaking with which consciousness is constantly occupied. With this expansion there then follows the idea of the successfully produced fire as a kind of helping and encouraging genius. When one notices the kind of momentary mythologizing that does not occur seldom, one has in it a hint towards understanding the most elementary formation of religious ideas. Only that what is for us now merely a fleeting meteor on consciousness's horizon becomes a guiding star at animism's standpoint.

39. Momentary gods can historically be pointed out only approximately. For on the same occasion the human being naturally returns to the same idea of a god, and this is then not produced anew in each single case, for example at each new harvest. The gods then gradually appear each with certain constant properties and with dominion over certain definite domains. By the constant property and the definite domain the individual god acquires a firmer form in consciousness. Just as development is needed to raise oneself above the individual moment, so development is also needed to raise oneself above the individual special manner of expression and the individual special domain. But it is nevertheless an advance when what is constant in property and domain leads out beyond what is momentary in the simplest ideas of gods. Therefore *the special gods* (A. Lang's departmental gods, Usener's *Sondergötter*) denote an advance in relation to the momentary gods. Thought does not yet, however, raise itself above multiplicity and differences, but assumes a principle, a guiding power, for each distinctive domain. A New Zealand chief said to a European: "Is there among the Europeans only a single one who produces all things? But there is one who is a carpenter, another who is a smith, a third who is a shipbuilder. And so it was in the beginning too. One produced this, another that. Tane produced trees, Ru mountains, Tangaroa fish, and so forth."

Usener has especially pointed out this stage in the development of religious ideas in the older Roman religion, as it was before the Greek influence. In the liturgical books of the Roman priests (the so-called *indigitamenta*) were found lists of the special gods who from ancient times were invoked each on his special occasion and in his special capacity (*dii proprii*, *dii certi*). "For all actions and states that could be of importance to the human being of the time, distinctive gods have been created, and they are named by specially formed words; not merely actions and states as wholes are in this manner deified, but also all more prominent sections, acts, moments within the actions and states." Thus in the cultivation of the field one invoked not merely the earth (Tellus) and the god of fertility (Ceres), but twelve special gods: one for the first working of the fallow, another for the second ploughing, a third for the last drawing of the furrows, a fourth for the sowing, a fifth for the ploughing-in of the seed, and so on and so on.—Among the Lithuanians and the Greeks too such special gods, restricted to a single property and a very limited domain, can be pointed out, and—we may add—they are found among nature-peoples round about on the earth.⁴⁰

Such special gods correspond—like the momentary gods—to a need in the religious consciousness to know a power in its neighbourhood that is exclusively taken up with bringing it the help that is needed. The old special gods often pass under altered names

into the new religions. Christianity's saints often appear with properties and functions that show that they are the heirs of the special gods; often a saint is worshipped at the same place where in antiquity a corresponding special god was worshipped. The saints have their departments like their predecessors, and they satisfy, like these, the need for professional divinities. It is taken from life when a young Roman girl in one of Ludvig Bødtcher's Italian poems answers the question whether she is not afraid of earthquakes: "Ah, Madonna graciously protects our little house well enough, and when the danger really approaches, St. Emidius helps." St. Emidius is precisely the special protector against earthquakes.—An interesting example of continuity in the development of religious ideas Usener gives in the idea of the mother with the child. She is first worshipped as a special goddess under the name of "the child-nourisher" (Kurotrophos)—without a proper name. Later this name (Kurotrophos) became an epithet of different goddesses (Leto, Demeter), and her worship glided over into the medieval worship of the Madonna with the child. This continuity testifies that precisely towards this figure of a god, which represented motherly love, there has been present a distinctive need for adoration.

In the opinion of some, the Jewish people's oldest god is to be regarded as a special god. "The Jahvism of the earlier time," remarks a historian of religion, "was a power hostile to culture. Jahveh meets us above all as destroyer: storm-god in nature, war-god in the life of the people—the god to whom, after a victory won by fighting, everything living is consecrated to death!" Only through reciprocal action with the ideas of gods of other tribes is the Jewish idea of God said to have acquired its universal significance and taken up elements that could make Jahveh a divinity for a people of culture.⁴¹

3.2.2 Polytheism and Monotheism

40. The drive-like personifying that is characteristic of the religious consciousness in its most elementary form does not yet produce ideas of personal beings in the proper sense. A personal being possesses at once several different properties; it is the bond of unity between them, just as it is the bond of unity between the different moments in which its life unfolds. The formation of ideas of such beings presupposes a spiritual development that cannot be present at the most childlike stages. It is a distinctive mark of the ideas of children and savages that they attach themselves to a single side and property of the thing and recognize it by that; hence the baroque juxtapositions and the many confusions to which both the child's and the savage's speech testifies. There must be acquired a capacity to raise oneself above the momentary and the special and to connect the individual experiences into a whole, for a personal being is not exhausted by

a single situation or a single property. It is the capacity to form typical individual ideas that must be present. A typical individual idea is an idea that fits an individual being in all the different states in which it appears. Great art is needed to form such ideas when they are to hold for beings that are of a more composite nature and in constant development, and a complete conclusion of such ideas is often not possible. Our ideas of personal beings as a rule acquire an artistic rounding-off that cannot be fully grounded by observation, and our knowledge of a personal being's distinctive character is rather a faith than a knowledge.

Just as the transition from individual observations and individual ideas to typical individual ideas is psychologically regarded one of the most significant transitions within the life of ideas, so the transition from momentary and special gods to properly personal gods is one of the most significant transitions within the history of religion. It is the transition from animism to polytheism. A more definite distinction is now drawn between the divine beings and the natural phenomena to which they are attached. The figures of the gods themselves acquire a richer and deeper content, and only now can there be any question of a proper faith, since there is now a relation of distance between the god and his manner of revelation which could not be present at the more elementary stages of development. There lies here one of the rare advances in the history of religion that benefits at once science and faith. By the more definite difference between the gods and the individual natural phenomena, these latter can the more readily become the object of objective observation and investigation. If science stands in any debt to religion, this was incurred rather at the transition from fetishism to polytheism, not, as has been supposed, at the transition from polytheism to monotheism. But first and foremost that transition benefited religious faith, since the figures of the gods could now become deeper and richer and be attached in a more inward manner to the life of feeling, when individual natural phenomena no longer stood as the immediately corresponding expression for them. The human being has now begun to live in an invisible world.

The significance of this epoch in the history of religion has already been strongly and aptly emphasized by AUGUSTE COMTE. In later times HERMANN USENER has, on the basis of interesting historical and linguistic investigations, strongly stressed it. When this excellent historian of religion reproaches the philosophers of religion for letting religious development begin with polytheism, Comte's example already shows that this reproach is unfounded. And no less unfounded is the remark that the philosophers "treat concept-formation and the gathering of the individual into species and genus as a self-evident and necessary process in the human spirit." In Aristotle already the problem

of individual concepts appears, and in more recent philosophy it has since John Locke's time been discussed again and again. When in psychology a distinction is drawn between individual ideas (corresponding to a single trait, a single property), concrete individual ideas (corresponding to a phenomenon in a single, definite situation), typical individual ideas (corresponding to a series of different observations of the same phenomenon), and general ideas (concepts of species and genus, corresponding to a series of observations of related phenomena)—there is thereby given a satisfactory framework within which the phenomena of religious history stressed by Usener can also find their place. The transition from the one kind of ideas to the other naturally does not take place without hindrances and always presupposes favourable inner and outer conditions.

Usener has especially shown that only at a certain stage of development, namely at the coming-into-being of polytheism, do the gods acquire proper names. The special gods are named only adjectivally, after the individual properties with which they appear. As an example may be named Apollo, who is characterized as the light-bringer, the god of prophecy, the god of song, the reconciler, or the god of healing. Usener ascribes to the formation of proper names for the gods a decisive significance as a condition of the transition from momentary and special gods to personal gods. But there is here as everywhere a constant reciprocal relation between idea and word. The proper name becomes intelligible only when several properties and states can be gathered up in one idea. The word is a help and a support for holding fast and developing a result won in the life of ideas, but cannot be the exclusive cause. Usener therefore also expresses himself somewhat waveringly. Sometimes he lets "concept-formation stiffen into a proper name," or he lets "language help to pave the way"—here, then, the reciprocal relation between the formation of ideas and the formation of words is acknowledged. With the bare word a significant period in the history of religion cannot begin. The word cannot be the beginning or be in the beginning.⁴²

Historically one naturally cannot sharply point out the beginning of polytheism. When momentary and special gods already presuppose a "personifying" tendency and capacity, and when—especially on account of the influence of habit and tradition—pure momentary and special gods can hardly be pointed out, it already follows from this that there are many transitional links between the stages that we here in theory place in sharp opposition to one another. The same will show itself to hold of the relation between polytheism and monotheism.

41. Neither the development of ideas nor the formation of words gives in and for itself an exhaustive explanation of the transition to polytheism. There constantly co-operates

an influence from the life of feeling. The historians of religion strongly emphasize *the conservative, restraining influence* of cult, and thereby of the life of feeling, for in cult feeling has its immediate foothold. When a cult in a region or among a people has been organized about a special god, it becomes a hindrance to the formation and acknowledgement of more composite ideas of gods. The influence that cult has on the religious life of ideas appears strikingly in the very word God, when we hold to those etymologies of this word that are said to have the greatest probability on their side linguistically, according to which the word properly means "he to whom sacrifice is made," or "he who is invoked."⁴³ The connection between the idea of God and cult brings it about that a thoroughgoing alteration in the former must effect an alteration in the latter, and here now, by the experience of all ages, the organized cult offers a strong, often violent resistance. Old ideas maintain themselves long by being attached to old customs, and old customs can maintain themselves longer than the corresponding ideas. In a village church in Zealand it is said to have been the custom even in the nineteenth century that one made a bow when one passed a certain place on the church wall, but no one knew why one did it, until on the scraping away of the whitewash a picture of a saint was found on the wall: the custom had thus survived Catholicism by three centuries; it was a part of the old cult that had maintained itself. Here it was now a matter of mere habit. But the life of feeling will on the whole only slowly leave the bed once formed for it. It has accommodated itself to the transmitted ideas, and a transitional time full of unrest and disharmony must be lived through before the accommodation to the new ideas can be accomplished. In such a transitional time the two tendencies in the life of feeling, the tendency to remain in the old bed and the tendency to expansion, wage a hard struggle with one another. Or rather: the struggle is waged between the old and the new feelings' tendency to spread over and colour the whole of consciousness; the feelings attached to what is transmitted have namely also an expansive tendency, and they will constantly try to colour and transform the new ideas which they cannot wholly displace;—in case of need the old ideas are transformed after the new, when only in that way can they be preserved.

The restraining and inhibiting influence of feeling on the life of ideas is, however, only the one side of the matter. The new experiences can work so penetratingly that an alteration of the ideas takes place through *selection, idealization, and combination*.—USENER, who otherwise lays the chief weight on the development of words and ideas, therefore also remarks that the different special gods cannot have the same value for consciousness: "The god of the heavenly light that bestows life and blessing, the tutelary

god of the house and of the peace of the house, the saviour, the averter of all evil, must each have far greater significance than a god who makes the harrowing or the weeding succeed well." The special gods that awaken the strongest and most lasting feelings will come to rule over the others.—As objects of particular attention they will acquire a distinctive place; comparison with other divinities will be kept away, and consciousness will on the whole not dwell on what could leave them standing as limited. There thereby takes place an involuntary idealization.—With the selection and the idealization there naturally combines a combination, in that all valuable properties and effects that present any likeness to or contact with a god's original attribute will be referred to him. He stands once for all as the author of something especially valuable, and the new valuable thing that is experienced is then involuntarily referred to him too.—

The history of the light-gods is an interesting example of this development. Light's great significance for everything living, by effecting the more vigorous and healthy course of the life-process and by making activity and security possible, and its ideal significance as a symbol of truth and justice, condition transitions of ideas of the most manifold kind, which are nevertheless always borne by the immediate experiences of the value of light and of the forces symbolized by light.

Quite especially will those gods that stand as guardians of common goods—as the protectors of the family, the clan, or the people—become the object of these different processes. When the human being in his life together with others and in his own inner life experiences the opposition between good and evil, and when this opposition acquires a predominant place in his consciousness, he will also transfer these ideas in idealized form to his gods. The idealizing personification will become of great ethical significance by creating radiant divine models for human life. The transition hereby takes place from nature-religion to ethical religion, a transition that has rightly been called the most important in the whole history of religion, but which takes place according to the same laws as all other transitions. Just as little as human beings would have believed in the thunder-god if they did not experience the power of thunder, just as little would they have believed in good gods if they did not experience the good as a reality in life. The idea of the gods as the bearers of the ethical values in existence presupposes that the human being has himself come to know these values. (Cf. §26.)—

Besides the inhibiting, selecting, idealizing, and combining influence that feeling can exercise on the development of ideas, the significance of *contrast-effects* in the domain of feeling must further be emphasized. The contrast between two moods will react back upon the ideas in which the two moods severally find expression, or by which they

are motivated. If an ideal idea has thus been formed, the ideal will be further raised in power by the opposition between the perfection represented and the human being's own limitation, and conversely this limitation will be represented the more glaringly, the brighter the mood that the idea of the ideal had called forth. This moment is therefore of importance not only in the development of the figures of the gods, but also in the development of the consciousness of sin, which plays so great a role in many religions.

42. Outside the circle of the properly divine ideas, the belief in the transmigration of souls presents a good example of the selecting and transforming influence of the feelings. The idea that souls after death pass over into other bodies has hardly arisen in the first instance from religious motives. It hangs together with general animism and has arisen among different peoples round about on the earth at a very early stage of their development. It is frequent among East Asian peoples; it is found among the Central Australians, the Guineans, and the Zulus; among the Greenlanders and among North American tribes we meet with it too.

Now we find that it plays a very great role in Indian religion after the Vedic age. In the Upanishads it is of great significance, while it is not found in the Indians' earlier religion as this appears in the Vedic poems. It has then been supposed that the doctrine of the transmigration of souls arose because religious thought sought to explain to itself the great inequality which, already as regards original endowments and conditions, shows itself to be present between human beings in an ethical respect. What could not be explained as an effect of the human being's conduct in this life, the old Vedanta thinkers are then supposed to have explained as an effect of his conduct in earlier existences. By a similar road the Pythagoreans and Plato are supposed to have come to the mythical idea of the transmigration of souls. According to this conception, which is espoused by DEUSSEN,⁴⁴ the need for redemption among the Indians has partly created the idea of a transmigration of souls, in order to explain the inequality in inner and outer conditions, and partly developed the idea of absorption into Brahman (and later of Nirvana), so that the two ideas arose independently of one another.

This conception in the excellent connoisseur of Indian philosophy hangs together, however, certainly with his overlooking animism's constant after-effects, which can be traced in the exalted Vedanta doctrine itself. In the Upanishads' emphasis on the significance of the dream-state one notices one of the fundamental thoughts that are distinctive of animism. "In sleep," it is said, "the spirit casts off everything that belongs to the body and floats up and down, creating for itself, like a god, all manner of shapes." Indeed, even the naive consequence of the animistic dream-theory is not lacking, that

one must not too hastily wake the sleeping, since “it is impossible to heal a human being whose spirit has not found its way back to him.”⁴⁵—When even the Vedanta doctrine itself thus contains traces of very elementary ideas that are akin to the ideas of the transmigration of souls, then the most correct explanation of the great role that the doctrine of the transmigration of souls came from a certain point of time to play is perhaps that this doctrine was not produced all at once by an artificial speculation, but that it arose because older ideas (perhaps among subjugated peoples), to which one had hitherto ascribed no religious significance, now—as a consequence of an alteration in the religious life of feeling—were taken up into the circle of the properly religious ideas and interpreted as the expression of religious experience. Under the overwhelming impression of life’s evils and restless doings one could explain to oneself the unhappy conditions of life only as a consequence of the earlier existences to which popular belief testified, and one besides took so dark a view of things that not even death brought peace, when there was no security against a new life in finite form following after. RICHARD GARBE thus connects (in his work on the Sankhya philosophy) the significance that the old doctrine of the transmigration of souls now acquired with a remarkable change in the whole feeling for life of the ancient Indians. “In the old Vedic time there ruled in India a bright view of life, in which we see no germ of the later idea [of life as a burden] that dominated and cowed the whole people’s manner of thought; one did not yet feel life as a burden, but as the greatest of all goods, and one hoped for a life after death as the reward for a pious life. All at once there enters—without our gaze being able to find transitional stages—in place of this childlike joy in life the conviction that the individual’s life is only an agonizing wandering from death to death.”⁴⁶ If this explanation is the right one, there lies here a classical example of how an alteration in feeling works selectively, idealizingly, and intensifyingly upon the ideas. At the same time the contrast-effect here comes out clearly: for in opposition to the constant life-process, not interrupted even by death, with its unrest and despondency, the complete abolition of temporal and finite existence had now to become the goal. The doctrine of redemption of the Vedanta and of Buddhism unfolds in a definite relation of contrast to the doctrine of the transmigration of souls.

A striking analogy to this course of development is presented by the development of Greek religion in the time between Homer and Plato. Here too it was under the influence of a new and darker view of life that the belief in the transmigration of souls was taken up and applied within the circle of religious ideas, and the concern for the soul’s fate in another world, a concern that was unknown in Homer, became prevalent in

wide circles.⁴⁷—The idea of personal immortality has on the whole hardly had religious significance in the first instance; it is due to the circle of ideas from which animism sprang, and has only later, under the influence partly of an altered feeling for life, partly of ethical ideas, furnished motives for the development of religious ideas.

An instructive counterpart to the significance that the doctrine of the transmigration of souls acquired for the Indians and the Greeks at a certain point of their development is afforded by this doctrine's appearance among the Egyptians. The Egyptians assumed, indeed, that the soul after death could pass over into different shapes; but this transmigration of souls was not at all placed in connection with ethical ideas.⁴⁸ One has here had no use for a motive that became of such great effect in Indian and in Greek religion.

43. I now return to polytheism. Its development presents a swarm of psychological and historical processes which the history of religion does not give sufficient material to illuminate, and which psychological analysis, even were it more perfect than it is, would hardly ever be able to unravel. What can be traced nevertheless testifies that in the religious domain no other psychological and logical laws prevail than in the other domains of the life of the spirit.

It might seem to be a psychological absurdity in polytheism that the human being here feels himself dependent on several different divine beings. The one of these seems as though it must come to stand in the way of the other; the thought of the one seems as though it must displace the thought of the other. The religion of drive already, with its momentary and special gods, could call forth this astonishment.—The solution lies in the fact that the human being in the moments of lived experience and emotion is so completely absorbed in what now stands before the imagination that no juxtaposition and comparison, perhaps not even any recollection of other gods, takes place. There is indeed on the whole in the spiritual life a rhythmic alternation of immediate absorption and of reflection. In the moments of reflection we can juxtapose and compare the ideas that have made themselves felt in us in the moments of strong and deep moods. There may then perhaps show themselves contradictions that must be abolished, and that we strive to abolish, in so far as new lived experiences do not seize us so strongly that we forget reflection's difficulties and problems. This holds at all stages of religious development and for all religious standpoints. During this rhythmic alternation the one wave will nevertheless be able to acquire influence on the other. When it is then real difficulties that reflection brings forward, there will slowly take place an alteration in the character of the lived experiences, just as conversely reflection is altered by the experiences of the enraptured moments. There will always be an involuntary tendency

to bring about harmony between the ideas that in the different lived experiences have come to stand as the expression of feeling's object. On polytheism's ground the solution will here lie in the idea of a race of gods or a world of gods, within which each individual god has his definite place. It will be so much the easier here to find a solution because there stand ready to hand obvious analogies from human relations. Partly the family, partly the state can furnish models for the harmonious co-operation of personal beings, and it is not least through these analogies that human beings' ethical-social development acquires influence on the ideas of gods. The relation between gods and human beings too is presented by the help of these analogies, as when the god is called the father and lord of human beings, and when the world is represented as a great state, common to gods and human beings.

Nowhere does the process of religious ideation run its course under the exclusive influence of a people's own experiences. The ideas of other peoples work along with them by reason of peaceful intercourse or conquest. The different worlds of gods collide when the peoples collide, and a historian of religion has even set up the proposition that "religion has never at any time developed except when several different religions have come into contact with one another."⁴⁹ Thereby the course of development of the religious ideas becomes still more complicated and obscure. The possibility of combinations and assimilations, contrast-effects and expansions is thereby increased beyond survey. Here lie a series of problems for the history and psychology of religion of the future.

44. The idea of a world of gods, a divine kingdom, is a station on the road from polytheism to monotheism. When one has found a quite distinctive difficulty in the transition from polytheism to monotheism, it is because one has looked at the matter too externally. Within polytheism there already expresses itself in many ways that need for practical and theoretical concentration whose full consequence is monotheism. And the same psychological laws that lead from the religion of drive to polytheism lead from this to monotheism—in so far, that is, as outside dogmatic speculation (and even there!) there is any real monotheism in the word's strictest sense.

The transition to monotheism can take place under two forms, which nevertheless pass over into one another through many nuances.—In the first place, within the world of gods a single god can become predominant, so that he is raised high above all other gods and above other peoples' gods and at last comes to stand as the only god. With this there will as a rule also follow a purification and deepening of the idea of God; or conversely, a purification and deepening of the idea of God leads in a monotheistic direction.—In the second place, an idea of the divinity can be developed which does not particularly

support itself on a single figure of a god that is deepened and enriched, but is grounded on the divine in all gods—on that in the gods which first makes them gods (to use Plato's expression, *Phaedrus* p. 249 C), and which in the different gods is represented in different ways.

In the first direction the development goes among Assyrians, Babylonians, Egyptians, and Israelites. Jewish prophetism presents the best known, the most fully carried through, and the historically most significant monotheistic process of development.

The development of Jewish monotheism is one with Jahveh's development from special and national god to universal god. It is due to the deep effect that the historical events exercised on the minds of the prophets. The prophet stands in the midst of his people and of its traditions; but in contrast to the people and its spiritual and worldly leaders, it is the people according to its ideal essence and according to its constant persistence beyond the momentary conditions of the time that is the object of his concern. With ecstatic absorption in the great world-events he combines the capacity to assert in mighty images the ideal conception of his people and its significance which he has drawn out of its history. A distinction can be drawn between a predominantly world-historical and a predominantly ethical consideration as the foundation of the development of Jewish monotheism; but common to both is that it is the very endeavour to hold fast under new conditions the transmitted religious ideas that leads to a higher, more ideal development of them: only by becoming a world-god instead of a national god could Jahveh avoid sharing the fate of his people in its downfall as an independent people; and since he came to stand as the upholder of higher ethical ideas than had hitherto been attached to the idea of him, that superiority became possible which stood in so cutting an opposition to the fate of the people whose national god he had been.

The historical consideration first comes forward in Hosea and Amos (c. 760 B.C.). It was not—they teach—by the help of their own gods that the Assyrians conquered, but by the fact that Jahveh wished through their armies to punish his disobedient people. The great unknown prophet who is usually called Deutero-Isaiah (c. 540 B.C.) goes a step further: the people of Israel suffers not merely for its own sins, but in order that it may be purified to bring peace and salvation to all peoples. There forms for the prophet's intimating vision the picture of a figure who wins and brings the highest through the deepest lowliness and abasement, because in inwardness and in fellow-feeling there lies a greater value than in the great unfolding of power among the conquering world-peoples. The historical and the ethical consideration here pass over into one another. In Jeremiah (c. 620 B.C.) the ethical consideration in particular is carried out, though Amos

already knows it too. As the God of righteousness, Jahveh must rule everywhere where righteousness holds or is to hold—thus he must be the God of the whole world, who is not limited by national barriers. And since the true relation to Jahveh is an inner relation in the heart, outer forms and their difference become at last without significance. The time shall come when everyone bears the law in his heart, and already now the prophet praises other peoples' faithfulness to their gods in contrast to Israel's unfaithfulness to Jahveh. Both the universality of the ethical ideas and the inwardness they demand lead out beyond the national limitation.

Jesus of Nazareth set up no new concept of God in relation to that which had worked its way forward in the great prophets. But he himself stood with his personality as surety that the time had come to which the prophets in intimating visions and thoughts had looked forward—the time when an inward and infinite relation to God could come into force. By the deep movement in the minds of human beings that the picture of Jesus's personality awakened, a movement that let all outer conditions and differences vanish in value, it became possible that monotheism could become a popular religion on a larger scale. The one true God was a God such as the one to whom a human being like Jesus could testify, and whose emissary he could be.

In the second direction the development takes place among Indians and Greeks.—Among the Indians it is not any single god that becomes sole ruler, but there is a going back to the very force that makes all gods what they are: the inward yearning and need that finds vent in prayer and sacrifice. By an extraordinarily remarkable development of thought, that which drives the human being to worship gods comes itself to stand as the true divine power.

Bráhma means according to some swelling, thereafter yearning, then prayer, and at last the principle of existence itself, in that the idea passes over from the movement to its goal, from the need to its object;—according to others it means the magically creative word. If it is asked more closely (as the gods themselves ask in the *Upanishads*) what Bráhma then properly is, no other answer can be given than that it is one with Atman, the soul, which the human being knows from his own inner life. There lies here, as we have earlier (§15) seen, the first attempt at metaphysical idealism (c. 800 B.C.). The gods of the popular religion stand under Bráhma as its forms of revelation. The relation of the Indian gods to Bráhma recalls the relation that according to Plato prevails between the Greek gods and "the ideas."—This relation of subordination was acknowledged only after serious struggle. It was provisionally as a "secret doctrine" (this the word "Upanishad" is said to mean) that this monotheistic tendency came forward, and it was, as Deussen

conjectures, first developed by thinkers who had come from the warrior caste, while the Brahmins (the priests) long held fast the literal understanding of the transmitted ritual and only reluctantly went over to an allegorizing that made it possible to unite the new doctrine with the old cult.—Among the Greeks the monotheistic tendency comes forward especially in the philosophers. XENOPHANES (c. 500 B.C.) combats polytheism partly through a comparison of the Greek gods with other peoples' gods, partly through a criticism of anthropomorphism. Each people represents the gods in its own shape: the negroes' gods are black, the Thracians' blond, and if oxen had gods they would represent them in the shape of oxen. In his zeal against all finitizing and degrading ideas Xenophanes raises himself to the thought of a principle of unity that cannot be the object of vivid representation. But he also applies an ethical criticism to the polytheistic popular faith, and it is especially from this side that Plato later continues his work.

In India the thinkers' endeavours after unity were outstripped by the popular need for a manifold representation of the divine, and in Greece the result of thought was likewise unable to become the content of a popular religion. This became possible only where—as in Jewish prophetism and its conclusion in Jesus of Nazareth—the thoughts are developed through the people's own experience, its own fate, and where they are woven into the picture of a personality who stands as a revelation of the highest inwardness and love and thereby himself becomes a symbol of the value of the thought for which he fights.—

The psychology of religion cannot here, any more than on many other points, get further than to point out points of view that can make the transition from polytheism to monotheism intelligible. But there lies here no special psychological mystery, as has sometimes been maintained in a somewhat advertising manner. There may therefore both psychologically and historically be riddles enough left.

But when is the transition from polytheism to monotheism accomplished? When is there a pure monotheism, and is such a thing possible at all? When one represents the divinity as appearing in several "persons," and when it stands in opposition to a "world" that is its limit and its hindrance, can the concept of God then properly be said to be purely monotheistic? When "the world," the other thing that exists besides God, is a real reality, not a nothing, then it has a force that is *not* vanishing in comparison with the divine force, and is so far itself a god within its limits, just as well as "God" within his. The same holds when one assumes a "free" will (in the word's metaphysical, not in its psychological or ethical sense) or believes in a devil. And since assumptions such as these are found in all popular religions, there is no reason to lay so great weight

on the opposition between polytheism and monotheism as one often does. Just as there are monotheistic tendencies in polytheism, so there are polytheistic tendencies in monotheism. WILLIAM JAMES rightly maintains that popular theism has a polytheistic character.⁵⁰

The most energetic attempts to carry through a monotheism have been made by philosophers: by the Vedanta philosophers, by the Eleatics, and by Spinoza. But it has precisely in these attempts of thought shown itself clearly that the problem of the relation between unity and multiplicity in existence cannot be solved by making one of the two terms of the relation the only one. One will then never without witchcraft be able to get the other term forth. Whether the “reborn” knowledge that some theologians have spoken of would here be better placed than natural knowledge will show itself only when the logic of this “higher” knowledge is one day written, which it is not yet.—But a closer discussion of this would lead us back to the epistemological philosophy of religion.

45. The two tendencies that appear, more or less pronounced and in different mutual relation, in every religious circle of ideas—the polytheistic and the monotheistic—point back to the two tendencies in the nature of the religious need that we have already had occasion to point out (§18).

There expresses itself on the one hand a need for gathering and concentration, for absolute devotion, for getting beyond all strife, resistance, and change. This need comes to unfolding in mysticism and monotheism; it meets with the intellectual need for a conclusion in an absolute principle of unity.

But in the religious consciousness there expresses itself at the same time, more or less energetically, and in rhythmic alternation with that first need, the need to have a fellow-combatant at one’s side in the midst of the strife, a fellow-combatant who from his own experience knows what it is to suffer and to undergo resistance. This need will counteract the carrying through of monotheism. And it will be supported by various other motives. There will stir a need for vivid representation, a need for images, which leads to the formation of limited ideas of the divine—or rather to ideas of the divinity as limited, since only the limited can be shaped into an image. It is what has been called “the antinomy of religious feeling,” that the infinite and exalted is nevertheless represented in limited form. The need for images can be so strong that it becomes a shyness of infinity and thereby comes into the strongest opposition to that first need.

The reason why this opposition is not always noticed we already know. The religious consciousness is absorbed in the individual mood and lets it unfold and express itself as fully and wholly as possible. Only where memory, juxtaposition, and comparison become

possible is the opposition or the contradiction between the different ideas discovered. It goes with religious experience on monotheism's ground as it goes with it on the ground of the religion of drive and of polytheism. Religious faith's best—and often only—weapon against criticism of every sort is to demand that all juxtaposition and comparison be kept away. Again and again back to the whole and full moods, to the moments of religious affect! He who for example—as has been demanded—reads the Bible only “on his knees” will escape all criticism's difficulties. He is absorbed in the individual account, the individual content—and even of that he involuntarily takes only what he can use. He will not come to investigate whether the different accounts of Jesus's resurrection agree, and so forth. The problem of how God's omnipotence is compatible with the human being's “free” will naturally falls away when, at the moment one thinks of the one of these things, one does not think of the other at all. When one—as Rasmus Nielsen and Henry Mansel attempted—distinguished sharply between religion and theology, the possibility of this distinction lay in this opposition between states where the great differences are forgotten and states where they are juxtaposed and compared. But without an intellectual asceticism this opposition will not be able to be carried through. There are at any rate those who will not lie on their knees but stand upright and look freely about them in the world, and who do not find that the highest they know suffers thereby. It is orientalism that would force us to our knees; but it is as the heirs of the Greeks that we hold fast the conviction that an upright posture in life's highest questions is possible.

46. But in the opposition mentioned between the different states there may lie the germ of tragic conflicts. Juxtaposition of the ideas that express the opposite tendencies in their extreme form leads, in intellectually developed and yet passionate natures, to the convulsive holding fast of the paradox. In quieter form and more unconsciously it works in what I will call religious bashfulness. For religious bashfulness stems not merely from a natural shyness of expressing oneself about the inmost lived experiences, but also from a certain indefinite intimation that every image and every word in which one would express the highest can always give only something finite and limited, and thereby not merely provokes criticism from others, which is the least of the matter, but awakens in the individual himself doubt about the validity and value of what has hitherto stood for him as the highest. It brings with it for many natures a great spiritual pain to make up the final reckoning on this point, especially where piety towards the transmitted forms works along to keep these outside a juxtaposition and comparison that would otherwise lie near at hand.

By taking these relations into consideration we shall at once understand criticism's unavoidability and its slow influence. Perhaps it is the eternal strife that we here stand before. But it is a strife that must be carried on, and which—even if it should never end—is not at every time fought on the same ground and with the same weapons. The strife's eternity therefore does not exclude progress. The battle of the Einherjar was constantly the same, but the battle of which there is here question is never the same; thereby it stands above the battle in Valhalla. That the strife constantly repeats itself comes from the fact that a change in the life of ideas takes place more quickly than a change in the life of feeling; a theoretical criticism of religious ideas therefore does not reach down to the bottom of the problem; the decisive point is the valuation of the feelings that lie at the foundation of the religious ideas, and that after every critical cut are able to bring forth new shoots on the stem of the religious ideas. A constant relation of oscillation and reciprocal action takes place between the different poles of the life of the spirit.—The valuation of religious feeling itself belongs in the ethical philosophy of religion.

47. An advance will already have been made with the serious and consistent acknowledgement of this constant reciprocal action, which makes a definitive solution impossible. Let us try to take this experience up with us into the religious reckoning. The idea of a finished divinity then becomes impossible. If, on the other hand, the religious consciousness can reconcile itself with the idea of a divinity that is not finished and concluded, but in constant becoming and development—as the religious consciousness itself is, but on a larger scale—then there will be the possibility of a religion of hope, which assumes that new tasks are constantly set, but also new possibilities for the treatment of the tasks. Every state then comes to stand only as provisional, at most as a station on the road—on existence's road in the large, on the individual's road in the small; and one will then not be surprised or offended that “the goblin moves with us,” since the old problems are posed in new shapes. The new dwelling to which “the goblin” follows us may very well be a better dwelling, and why should “the goblin” absolutely be an uncanny being? He expresses a law for our thought and perhaps a law for existence. When the divine unchangeableness consists in, or makes itself known in, the fact that all change takes place according to definite laws, and that the law of development itself is a fundamental law in existence, then the contradiction between unchangeableness and changeableness falls away. The unchangeable is then the law of change itself, and even if the individual law is altered, it happens always by virtue of a higher law. Only a few steps can our thought climb up the graduated series whose possibility here shows itself; but this very

capacity to climb is sufficient to call forth a concluding hope, a faith in the persistence of the valuable, a holding fast of the great *Excelsior!* which is the noblest element in all higher religions, only that the dogmatic formulas so often hinder its full unfolding. If the conclusion we can win were more than a concluding hope, more than a subjective conclusion, then there would be no constant *Excelsior!* But when neither our experience nor our thinking leads to an objective conclusion, the reason for this might indeed be that existence itself is never concluded. That would be the most thorough explanation of the fact that no dogma and no image suffices.

If one will say that this thought leads out beyond what can rightly be called religion, I shall not quarrel about it, but let the word fall, especially if one will give me another in its place. We are free and will not make ourselves slaves of the word.

3.2.3 Religious Experience and Tradition

48. The form and content of religious faith will never be able to be understood from the individual's religious experience alone. The preceding investigation already teaches that: the development from the religion of drive through polytheism to monotheism takes place through long ages and many generations, and each individual stands at a certain point within this development, determined by what goes before and determining what follows after. Even if he has made the deepest and most independent experiences of the relation between value and reality, the manner in which he expresses and explains these experiences will be conditioned by the circle of ideas that stands at his disposal, and will thus be more or less determined by tradition, whether he himself notices it or not. Ideas can be involuntarily interwoven with what he lives through and feels, so that their content itself seems to be immediately lived through. Only on closer investigation is the difference discovered between the immediately given elements and the elements interwoven with them.

To illuminate this relation more closely I shall bring forward a series of historical examples.

49. Among *nature-peoples* already the relation between the individual's lived experiences (especially in ecstatic states) and tradition appears clearly. Among a Siberian tribe the young man who would become a shaman goes out into solitude, roams by night in woods and mountains, and here sees visions in which the tribe's gods and the spirits of the forefathers reveal themselves to him. He now sees what he has previously only heard about. It goes likewise with the shaman when he is about to lose consciousness by whirling himself round: in the ecstatic state thus produced he sees before him what

he otherwise knows only from tradition. A strict and long time of preparation must be gone through by the young Central Australian before he can be initiated into the tribe's secret faith.

What thus holds for the crudest stages of ecstasy and vision holds in principle at higher stages too. The visions that the enraptured and inspired human being receives are determined in detail by the ideas he has had beforehand. One can even produce hallucinations of a definite kind by commanding an individual who has been brought into a hypnotic state to see a certain object before him at a later moment, or by affecting him with definite sense-impressions (colours, tones, tastes, and so on). Charcot and Pierre Janet have in these ways been able to determine their patients' visions. To this comes the fact that the hallucinations that lie at the foundation of the visions are often very indefinite and elementary, so that only by being combined with and interpreted by ideas that the individual involuntarily draws from his own memory do they acquire definiteness and significance. The individual gets, for example, hallucinations of points of light or of a gleam of light and involuntarily forms from these a white figure, which at last perhaps even speaks to him. An example of such a transition of the vision from the indefinite to the definite and articulate is presented by the peasant girl Bernadette's vision, which gave occasion to the worship of the Madonna at Lourdes. Still more clearly this characteristic mark appears in one of Swedenborg's visions. One morning he sank into religious brooding, and when he raised his gaze he saw above him in the sky a radiant light; when he fixed his gaze on it, the light drew aside; heaven opened for him, and among much else wonderful he saw the angels standing in conversation; kindled by a lively wish to know what they said, this too was granted him, so that he first merely heard a sound (*sonus*) that expressed heavenly love, and thereafter formed speech (*loquela*) that was full of heavenly wisdom. Thus both as regards the hallucinations of sight and those of hearing a progressive articulation takes place in the course of the vision's unfolding. And although it was unutterable things the angels spoke of, things of which most cannot be expressed by human speech, Swedenborg was nevertheless able by the help of his earlier visions to understand a good deal of it: it is a kind of Unitarian theology that the angels develop. An orthodox theologian would quite certainly have heard the angels utter other dogmatic views.—

Purely elementary hallucinations are far more frequent than one as a rule supposes; but only under special conditions, with strong movement and tension in consciousness and under the influence of dominant, feeling-toned ideas, do they become proper visions. The value of such visions may be highly different, although the psychological explanation

of them is essentially the same. A hallucination is called a vision only when it has a certain value; but in a psychological respect there is no difference of principle to be made. All visions bear the stamp of the visionary personality's character, memories, and stage of culture. As a single example of how ideas that were previously alive in consciousness can determine an elementary hallucination and give it its significance, I shall (besides the vision of Swedenborg mentioned) adduce a vision of Vincent de Paul which he had when his pious friend Mme de Chantal died: he saw a luminous globe rise into the air and up in the heights unite with another globe of light, whereupon both together were absorbed into a still more radiant globe of light, and an inner voice now told him that it was the pious woman's soul which, in union with the soul of the earlier departed François de Sales, became one with God!—It will therefore especially depend on which ideas prevail beforehand of the visions; and if these ideas are formed and organized, they will be able both to interpret and to soften strong visionary and ecstatic movements in the religious domain. It is a phenomenon that repeats itself again and again in the history of the religious life. Paul saw the heavenly Christ in the shape he knew beforehand, although he had regarded it with other eyes.⁵¹

When the ecstatic *cult of Dionysus* made its way to Greece from Thrace, the oracle at Delphi succeeded in organizing the wild movement by bringing it into connection with the existing cult of Apollo. Whereas those seized by the Bacchic frenzy had previously known virtually no rule other than the promptings of the swarming feeling, they were now brought under the influence of a clearly formed and harmonious circle of images. The Delphic oracle generally, or in other words: the Delphic priesthood, stood as a kind of authority that expounded and ordered the movements of the religious life. Plato calls "the god at Delphi" the interpreter transmitted from the fathers. Since the oracle was consulted by all the Greek states concerning the ordering of cult, the Delphic tradition acquired a significant influence on the development of Greek religion.⁵²

50. In the history of *the Jewish religion* the finding of the book of the law (Deuteronomy) in the Temple under King Josiah (c. 620 B.C.) is an important event. A thoroughgoing organization now stepped forward over against the free individual movements in the domain of the life of cult and of prophetism. A closed priesthood now stood as leader of the religious life, whereas previously the head of the household had attended to the cult for himself and his own. The opposition between clergy and people was sharpened; prophetism was soon succeeded by the priestly system. Judaism got its canonical book, a codified expression of the tradition; it became a religion of the book, something in which Christianity and Mohammedanism later imitated it.⁵³

At the coming-into-being of Christianity the religious traditions co-operated in the people and the time in which Christianity's founder came forward. We are cut off from knowing the inner life of Jesus of Nazareth prior to his public appearance. But however his life of feeling may have unfolded, he used his people's traditions for its interpretation and formation. In the Sermon on the Mount he presented his ethical teaching as an inwardization and spiritualization of the Mosaic law. In the chiliastic expectations, the hopes of a coming kingdom of consummation perhaps transmitted from Parsism to Judaism, he found (or his disciples found, under the impression of his personality) forms and images for the great hope he implanted in the race. Thus even the most significant religious personality that history knows developed by means of tradition and exercised influence upon it. This does not exclude independence, for the old becomes new by being taken up and applied by a deep and original genius.

In the same way as Jesus was placed when he was to form his religious ideas, his disciples were placed when they were to interpret and express the effect that the Master's personality, his life and death, had made upon them. They conceived him either as the expected Messiah (*the three first Gospels*), or as the Logos, the eternal Word (*the Gospel of John*), or as the sin-offering (Paul), or as a spiritual high priest (*the Epistle to the Hebrews*). These are different roads along which they sought to make clear what the Master was for them.

51. The picture we get through the apostolic epistles of the first Christian congregation shows us no fixed organization. Enthusiasm and ecstasy stirred strongly and freely. But if a congregational life was to develop, it was not enough that individuals gave themselves up to inner lived experiences which in violent rapture made it impossible to form definite thoughts and words, so that the outbursts became unintelligible to others. "Speaking in tongues" has consisted in inarticulate and therefore unintelligible outbursts. "The spirit" worked so violently that "the understanding" did not get to speak too. Paul therefore admonishes the Corinthians to limit these ecstatic states, when they hold their gatherings, to such cases where an interpreter can test and interpret them, so that what is lived through in these states may benefit others. *The fourteenth chapter of the first epistle to the Corinthians* gives an insight into these matters (see also 2 Cor. V, 13). The interpreter must probably have been able to enter so far into the state of the one "speaking in tongues" that he could find the thoughts and words through which what moved in the mind in this state could be expressed. An immediate sympathy, an involuntary inference from analogy guided by sure tact, formed the presupposition of the interpretation, just as everywhere where one is to be guided by others' expressions

and movements to understand what goes on in their inner life. But at the same time, certainly, partly the Old Testament writings, partly the apostolic teaching furnished norms for the exposition. Perhaps this lies in the demand set up in the Epistle to the Romans (XII, 6), that the gift of prophecy is to be exercised “in agreement with the faith,” if “faith” here denotes the content of faith. Thus the individual’s inner lived experiences were early brought under traditional norms.

Later on—as the Church became organized—the stream of individual enthusiasm was more and more dammed in.

In the apostolic age it was especially regard for the edification of others that motivated the limitation. But now everything depended on preserving agreement with tradition and excluding heresy. The free individual movements were then pushed back as dangerous—in so far as they did not cease from lassitude. Among lay people the capacity for visions and for speaking in tongues fell away first—quite naturally—later among monks and priests. Comparison and misgiving began to prevail. One did not rely on the immediate promptings, but tested them according to norms that became ever more precise. In the so-called *Pastoral Epistles* (the epistles to Timothy and Titus) “sound doctrine” is already inculcated over against heretical errors. The history of the Church shows how organization and the fixing of dogma advance in the course of the centuries. In place of expansion came organization and articulation. The setting up of a canon (*the collection of the New Testament writings*) was the most important link in this course of development. It is the Church that here, at a certain point of its development, once and for all established which books are to be regarded as genuine testimony to the true doctrine.

Only through the ecclesiastical authorities could it from now on be decided whether a formation of religious ideas was valid, whereas earlier the revelation was constantly continued in the inner life of individuals. The Church now became the guardian of the gifts of grace. It went here as with the miracles: only the Church is to decide whether a religious truth is present. Even as regards religious conduct of life the Church demands that its tradition be followed: when Francis of Assisi wished to renew the apostolic life (after the tenth chapter of the Gospel of Matthew), the Church carried through the formation of an order after the model of the older orders (*exempla antiquorum*). The Church here turned, as so often, against the renewal of the original when this conflicted with the traditions that had formed in the meantime.

The Catholic Church nevertheless maintains that new dogmas can be formed. When the religious need has led to the formation of certain ideas, the Church’s head can declare such a content of ideas to be ecclesiastical doctrine. The new dogma then stands

as the valid expression of something the Church has fundamentally always believed, but of which it has only now become fully conscious. Before the proclamation of the dogma of Mary's immaculate conception, Pius IX sent out a circular in order to learn whether the congregations longed for this dogma, and the result of this approach was such that an inscription could afterwards be set up in St Peter's declaring that the Pope by the proclamation of the dogma had fulfilled the longings of the whole Catholic world (*totius orbis catholici desideria explevit*).⁵⁴ Catholic writers sometimes regard the whole ecclesiastical fixing of dogma—right down to the dogmas proclaimed in the nineteenth century—as further unfoldings of what Jesus in the forty days between the resurrection and the ascension spoke of with his disciples.⁵⁵—The history of the dogma mentioned affords an interesting contribution to the psychology of religion by the clear manner in which the relation between need of feeling (*desideria*) and idea there appears. One felt the need for an intermediate link between the Jesus exalted to God and humanity. And besides, there was felt a need to have the element of womanliness, and especially of motherly love, represented in the religious circle of ideas. In an extraordinarily beautiful and instructive manner *Yrjö Hirn* (*Det heliga Skrinet*, 1909, chs. 11–12) has depicted the development of the worship of the Madonna and thereby given an example of how a religious need leads to cult and through this in the course of time to a dogma.

But as in every psychological process, manifold factors here too work together. No dogma can be explained out of a direct religious need alone. The Church's inner and outer circumstances in particular play an essential role. The Church feels itself bound by its traditions (as it itself understands these), whether it follows them in blind habit or seeks to form new ideas in analogy with, or as a supplement to, the ideas already formed. It combats a "false doctrine" and therefore strives after a formulation that rejects it as sharply as possible. Or it seeks to unite and reconcile contending tendencies by a shrewd compromise, often a shrewd indefiniteness or ambiguity. Or it strives to form ideas that can correspond to its cult, as this has once for all developed. Harnack finds in his history of dogma that it was eleven (11) different factors—namely ten besides the properly religious need—that co-operated in the development of the ecclesiastical dogmas (the content of the present orthodox dogmatics) in the first centuries.⁵⁶ To these many elements there ought perhaps to be added an aesthetic element. It is according to *Yrjö Hirn* not merely religion that works upon poetry, but pictures and poetic works can often only be understood through "the great, anonymous, and collective poetry that one can read out of the whole ecclesiastical system of readings."⁵⁷

52. What thus appears in the history of a religious community shows itself still more

clearly in the religious life of a single personality, when this personality has the capacity and the need to describe its inner development. A great example of this we have in Augustine's *Confessiones*. When Augustine composed this work he stood on the firm ground of ecclesiastical tradition. He believed, by his own statement, in the Gospel only because the Church transmitted it. But the central religious process—a feeling that strives after expression in a content of ideas—can nevertheless be traced in him. The tenth book of the *Confessiones* in particular is characteristic in this respect. Augustine here seeks to become conscious of *what* it is that is the object of his inner need. "What is it that I love, when I love thee?" he asks his God. He goes through a long series of beings and forms that experience presents; but none of them satisfies what his feeling yearns towards. Only in his own inner life, in his own spirit, does he find an analogy he can use. In a profound development, extraordinarily interesting for the history of the fundamental psychological concepts, he points out memory as the distinctive characteristic of the life of the spirit. God must be a being who works after the likeness of the force that works in our memory. And he works indeed also in our inmost soul—far further within me than the inmost that I myself know! In the inner man truth dwells. But (now there is a passing over from the psychological to the ecclesiastical consideration) nevertheless: God is not merely something thus inwardly operative; he is first and foremost himself the object of a memory—the memory of the ecclesiastical preaching (*ministerium prædicationis*), from which fundamentally we know him alone!⁵⁸

Never have deep personal experience, energetic thought, and ruthless faith in authority entered so close and characteristic a combination as in this greatest teacher of the Church. In him too, indeed, the opposition between self-absorption and dependence on outer tradition appears clearly. Go not outside yourself, for truth dwells in your inner life! he exclaims. But it is the Church's tradition that he thinks he owes everything to. As if that did not also come from outside! Yet the strong dependence on tradition is unable to veil the fundamental psychological relation between feeling and idea that is distinctive of the religious domain. Especially in the utterance that was above set as the motto for the first section of the psychology of religion does this fundamental relation appear definitely: a predicate is sought that can serve to determine what makes itself felt in the feeling. If doubt during the spiritual struggles of his youth had not led him to cling to the Church's authority, and if he had not later, when he stood as a churchman, felt so strong a need to assert this authority against "dissolving" elements, the movements of his inner life could have led to freer and more universal results. To this came the fact that he lived in a time when the world—by his own statement—had grown old (*senuisse*

jam mundum);—the boldness for a free and independent shaping of the inner life does not thrive in such a time.—

A certain analogy to the development in the tenth book of Augustine's *Confessiones* is presented by the line of thought in the *Upanishads*. Just as Augustine asks: what is it that I love, when I love thee?—so it is asked in an Upanishad: what is Bráhma? And the answer is: Bráhma is Atman (breath, spirit, soul)! Thus the principle that bears the whole of existence, and which itself (if Bráhma means yearning or willing) is a projection of feeling's need—this finds (at any rate provisionally) its best expression in ideas drawn from the life of the soul itself.⁵⁹ The old Indian thinkers stand in a freer relation to tradition than Augustine was able to; therefore the psychological process appears more clearly in them.

53. In the mystics of the Middle Ages we find interesting examples of the reciprocal action between feeling, the formation of ideas, and tradition.

According to a terminology frequent among the mystics, "the will" or love is placed in opposition to memory and understanding. In the highest states all these faculties slumber, since the will is overwhelmed by overflowing blessedness; all suffering is forgotten, and no search after causes of the state, no comparison with other states, becomes possible. Not even any vision is possible in the highest, ecstatic moments. And in such a state the human being cannot communicate himself to others either. "The will" remains in this state longer than memory and understanding, and as soon as these can work, the formation of ideas and communication become possible. The mystic can then have written down what he thinks he has experienced. But the difference between what is really lived through and the thoughts and words in which it is expressed is very strongly emphasized by the mystics.—"It is felt, but not expressed," says HUGH OF ST. VICTOR, and using the images of the "Song of Songs" he says: "Thy beloved comes invisibly; he comes hiddenly; he comes incomprehensibly; he comes to embrace thee, not to be seen by thee!"—ANGELA DI FOLIGNO speaks of a vision in the following manner: "What did I see? God himself! I can say nothing else about it. It was a fullness, an inner, filling light, against which neither words nor comparisons avail. It was the highest beauty, that which makes all lips close, and which contains the highest good!" When she read what had been written down about what she had lived through at her dictation, she often could not recognize it again.⁶⁰

But although the mystics sharply emphasize the difference between lived experience and description, they nevertheless maintain no less strongly that what they live through agrees with the teaching of the Bible and the Church. It is a psychological riddle how they

can convince themselves of the agreement between the content of their lived experiences and the Church's teaching, when there is so great a difference between lived experience and description; for it is only by the help of a description that the comparison with the Church's teaching can take place. It also appears clearly enough that the agreement with the Church's teaching is expressly willed, not merely found. In the interpretation and description of the lived experiences one watched attentively that nothing came in that conflicted with the teaching of the Bible and the Church. There are express declarations about this from some of the greatest medieval mystics. Suso thus says of himself: "In the working out of his chief work [the Book of Eternal Wisdom] he was not in a state like that of one who is active and dictates, but like that of one who is seized by the divine (*divina patiens*). When what was inspired in him had been formed in writing, he came to himself (*ad se revertens*) and investigated with care (*diligenter rimatus est*) whether there was anything found in it that deviated from the utterances of the holy fathers." The difference between rapture, self-collection, and anxious submission to authority appears clearly here. And self-collection here works not, as in Augustine, to find by the road of one's own reflection an expression for the lived experience, but is used predominantly to see to the agreement with the Church's teaching.—In the female mystics obedience to the Church's authority appears still more definitely than in the male mystics. The apostle Paul had indeed forbidden women to speak in the congregation and referred them to enquiring of the men in religious matters. And since they lacked the male mystics' scholastic education, they had to feel themselves easily uncertain. However sure they were that their highest lived experiences had a divine origin, they nevertheless acknowledge throughout the Church's authority as decisive. Angela di Foligno's visions and lived experiences were written down by a monk who declared that he had added nothing, but had left out "many things that were too exalted to be contained in his wretched understanding"; thereafter the book was repeatedly examined by learned monks. And her confessor even found authority for her strong erotic expressions in the description of the ecstasies: "the Song of Songs belongs to the Bible too!" (This last trait I owe to a young Swedish friend who has particularly occupied himself with the subject).—SAINT TERESA describes how, in order to avoid going wrong, she questions everyone who could instruct her, and she clings—she says—so firmly to her Credo that even if she received all possible revelations, indeed even if she saw heaven open, her faith would not waver concerning the least point that the Church teaches! And if the thought occurs to her for a moment that what she hears might yet be just as true as what the fathers had heard, then she is sure that it is the devil tempting her! The decision

whether her book agreed with the Church's teaching she laid in the hands of a learned and pious Dominican monk.⁶¹

There is here a reciprocal relation present. For just as the lived experiences are interpreted and tested by the help of tradition, so they are also often called forth by living into the transmitted ideas. It is then reading that sets the mystical absorption and lived experience going. Both Hugh and Teresa therefore also mention the significance of reading. One is reminded here how the persons in the van Eycks' and Memling's religious pictures are frequently so absorbed in their books that they forget everything and everyone around them.⁶²

And yet the mystics had also a purely subjective criterion of the validity of their lived experiences: the inner peace and rest in the mind that was produced. So long as the need for submission to Bible and Church was strong and living, this inner peace and rest could indeed only be reached when one had brought one's ideas into agreement with the transmitted teaching. But there was nevertheless a possibility that the immediate trust in the experiences of the inner life, and the intellectual activity in the work of shaping them into thoughts, could become so vigorous that submission to tradition was no longer possible, but the old leather bottles were burst by the new wine. In this way the way can be paved for great religious conflicts, and this way all founders of religions and reformers have gone, often after an honest attempt to find peace within the old forms. It is then discovered that a new living garment must be woven for the divinity. In a Protestant mystic of our own time (discussed in my book "Oplevelse og Tydning," especially pp. 96–100) the opposition between lived experiences and tradition appeared—in contrast to Angela and Teresa—very sharply and decisively.

54. In *the Reformers* too one notices the psychological process in which the immediate experiences of the personal life meet, are shaped, and are limited by ecclesiastical traditions. In Luther's case we have already seen how he—in a manner recalling the line of thought in Augustine—seeks an expression for what moves in him. God is, he says indeed, that in which you have the highest trust. But the closer development of his concept of God Luther wins only by simple adoption of the old ecclesiastical doctrinal determinations. He let the scholastic doctrine of the Trinity stand as it stood, while he set his personal stamp on the religious ideas that stood in immediate connection with his personal lived experiences, thus justification by faith and the sacrament of the Lord's Supper in a form closely akin to the Catholic conception. That Luther thus took up other and more than corresponded to personal lived experience was a half-measure that finds its explanation in his faith in the Church, but which became fateful

for Protestantism's later development. A clear principle that can be consistently carried through Protestantism gets only when it supports itself on the free conscience and the personal experiences that individuals make concerning the relation between value and reality.

Still more clearly than in Luther the psychological foundation of the religious assumptions appears in ZWINGLI. While Luther halts his independent train of thought when he has defined God as the object of the highest trust, Zwingli goes a step further and thereby comes to his absolute doctrine of predestination. Zwingli stresses more strongly than Luther the unconditional certainty of faith that the individual can have of attaining salvation, and to this subjective but unshakable certainty corresponds the faith in divine election. And if this election is to reach its goal, it must stem from a power that makes all resistance give way, an absolute, infinitely exalted power. Even if Zwingli in carrying through this line of thought is also under the influence of his philosophical studies (of Plato and the Stoics), it is nevertheless the personal experience that gives the impulse by which the line of thought gathers speed. Only an experience like Zwingli's could introduce a line of thought of this kind.⁶³

Within Protestantism attempts have been made, still more definitely than the Reformers made them, to trace religion back to the mind's own experience, to let all religion be a cult of the heart. Rousseau and Schleiermacher are the most important representatives of this endeavour. But they too, when they attempt to shape their lived experiences into thoughts and words, are referred to ideas they take up from the spiritual atmosphere in which they live, and these ideas they are inclined to regard as just as immediately given as the lived experiences themselves. Rousseau "felt" immediately "the truths of natural religion," and although Schleiermacher proceeds with greater psychological sense and critical circumspection, the obvious confusion of feeling's expression and its cause is nevertheless found in him too.

Personal experience for the most part stands immediately and naively over against the transmitted ideas and forms in which the religious need of earlier times found expression, and it thinks it takes them as they are. Only a closer consideration discovers the constant displacements that here take place. The mere fact that the emphasis is laid on other elements in the content of ideas than before brings with it a nuance. Something similar happens here as when in the history of art a type of picture is taken up by a new race of artists. Of the older Italian painters' relation to the transmitted Byzantine Madonna type, JULIUS LANGE remarks that they did not place themselves revolutionarily towards it, but little by little carried it over into a wholly different and opposite direction: "Into the

fundamental features of the transmitted lifeless mask they begin to insert their personal opinions about the gracious beauty that was to be characteristic of God's Mother. Thus Guido of Siena. It is still the almost circular contour of the crown of the head, the face's elongated oval. . . . But how fresh, how lively and amiable does this Madonna not look out of her eyes!"⁶⁴ In the history of religion the displacements are not to be pointed out in so vivid a manner. They take place partly by one's letting those elements in the tradition come into the foreground to which feeling particularly finds attachment, partly by certain elements' being involuntarily reinterpreted, understood poetically, symbolically, or rationalistically, or else wholly omitted, without one's being provisionally conscious of thereby deviating from the tradition's original meaning. It was a great relief to Augustine when in his youth he heard that the bodily expressions the Bible uses of God could be understood figuratively, not purely literally, and he later applied the allegorical interpretation confidently on a large scale when there was something in the ecclesiastical teaching from which he could not otherwise wring religious value. That God's spirit at the creation floated over the waters means according to Augustine that the human being by the gift of the Spirit, which is love of God, raises himself above the bodily; that God "created [both] heaven and earth" has for him the symbolic meaning that within the Church there is both a more spiritual and a more literal understanding. *The mystics* went still further along this road, in that they, as has been aptly said of them, "wished to abolish every barrier between themselves and Scripture's content, to know everything [that Scripture relates] as an eternal present." Meister Eckhart for example interprets in a sermon the idea of the raising of the widow's son at Nain thus: the widow is the soul, and the dead son is the reason.—In a similar track the edifying religious discourse moves more or less at all times, led by the endeavour to find in accounts of what happened millennia ago immediate nourishment for the spiritual life of the present. A double meaning is then ascribed to the old utterances, without one's as a rule forming a clear idea of the relation between the two meanings. Even in philosophers of religion in the nineteenth century—in men like Schleiermacher, Hegel, and Coleridge—we find the assurance that the conversion of the content of ecclesiastical tradition into the forms that agreed with their own life of feeling and thought does not alter this content's original meaning. Even SØREN KIERKEGAARD, who wished precisely to deliver the dogmatic content from the speculative evaporations, nevertheless comes to push the objective content of dogma back; he appropriates at any rate only what his passionately strained life of feeling consumes, and in such a meaning (often a reinterpretation) as he can use it in.⁶⁵

Where such an accommodation is no longer possible on account of the inner life's energy, the old forms are burst, and if the religious life is to be continued, new forms must be produced. We then stand—as already remarked—at a breakthrough where something new comes into being. The question then becomes how the psychology of religion is placed towards such breakthroughs and towards the prophetic personalities in whom the new comes into being.

But before I enter upon this question, there is still a general consideration to be made concerning the relation between feeling and idea in the religious domain.

55. Religious judgments differ—in a manner similar to aesthetic and ethical judgments—from other judgments in that the element of feeling, which is never quite absent from any formation of a judgment, plays a quite distinctive role in their coming-into-being. Religious judgments are value-judgments. They express, on the hypothesis I lay at the foundation, the human being's experiences of the relation between value and reality, a relation that can itself acquire its immediate value. In their simplest form religious judgments appear as exclamations in which an inner state of wonder, love, hope, or fear finds vent. In more articulate form the religious judgments appear when consciousness seeks clarity about *what* it really experiences—what it admires, loves, hopes, or fears. What is the significance, it is asked for example, of this wonderful event? Who is this human being who intervenes so deeply in our life? Now the more conscious formation of the judgment takes place. Every judgment is a connection of concepts that has come about by attention's starting from an idea that is given in more indefinite form and seeking a closer determination of it. The starting idea becomes the judgment's subject and finds its closer determination through concluding ideas, which become the judgment's predicate. The psychological process in the judgment's formation takes place through the transition from the first of these ideas to the second. As regards the closer description of this process I must here refer to "*Den menneskelige Tanke*" pp. 71–99.

With value-judgments the starting idea stands in greater obscurity than with other judgments, because the element of feeling has so strong a preponderance. Indeed, when the underlying feeling is new and original, or when for other reasons it stirs with particular strength, virtually all clear ideas may be lacking. Every strong emotion is indeed characterized by ideas' disappearing more and more from consciousness. In what precedes, cases have been brought forward in which all articulation and analysis, and thereby all formation of judgment, was impossible; examples of this were the primitive Christian "speaking in tongues" and the mystical ecstasy. Since the formation of a proper judgment is possible only when there is a starting idea, however obscure it may be, it

must be assumed that such religious judgments as express what has been lived through in strong emotion are formed only in later moments, when the movement has faded, so that the human being can “return to himself” and in memory characterize what has been lived through by juxtaposing it with other lived experiences and by thinking over its significance for the life of the personality.

When great religious personalities have called the object of their highest trust and love *God*, this is understood when by God one means the principle of the persistence of value in reality. What bears and gathers up in itself all values, and stands as the source and consummation of all values, must be the object of the deepest feeling. And it is this that the religious judgments, breaking forth with involuntariness and originality, say: what I here experience is only a single expression, a single testimony, of the power that bears all value in the world of reality. It is then this power itself that I here experience!—The concept of God is *the fundamental predicate* in all religious judgments, the predicate that religious thought seeks after, setting out from the experiences that have been made concerning the relation between value and reality. The conclusion of religious thought would be a complete determination of this fundamental predicate, such that the relation between value and reality became quite clear and transparent. This it would especially become if the principle of the persistence of value and the principle of existence’s law-governed connection could be brought to coincide in one principle. In a form satisfactory to scientific thought such a conclusion is certainly impossible. But the religious problem persists as long as a striving to hold fast the religious predicate-concept, and thus as long as a religious questioning, is psychologically possible.

The history of religion and of philosophy shows that a closer development of the religious predicate-concept (or, to use a Kantian expression, the religious category) most frequently takes place by the help of tradition’s images and forms. Only where the individual has the capacity and the courage for independent formation of images and for speculation does the development strike into wholly new paths, and that will especially happen where a breakthrough takes place in religious development as a whole.

But it is of great psychological importance to hold fast that the predicate-concept or the category is not the first thing, the originally given, but precisely that which is striven towards. Such a determination of the religious category (“God”) is sought that it can be understood what is meant when the individual lived experience is subsumed under it, seen as a single example of its validity, or—by poetic personification—as an action of God. *The primary religious judgments have “God” as predicate, not as subject.* The concept of God, the religious category, is subject to the same rule as all concepts

and categories: our concepts do service as predicates before they can be used as subjects. The simplest judgments are predicate-judgments (judgments without a subject). But there is both during the formation of the judgment and in the exact formulation of the finished judgment such a reciprocal relation between subject and predicate that not only is the subject determined by the predicate it receives, but the predicate is also determined by being referred to this subject. To take an example: when I learn that Amphioxus is a vertebrate, I not only learn something about Amphioxus, but I also learn something about the concept vertebrate, namely for example that its content does not have among its constituents the possession of a brain. Thus the religious category (the concept of God) also gets its closer determination through its applications, that is to say, through the different occasions that lead to setting up this concept. But will it ever become finished, so that one can operate with it as with a clear and distinct concept? That is the great question.

Orthodox and speculative dogmatics have supposed that in the religious predicates they had a key not merely to the understanding of religion's essence, but of existence as a whole, and have attempted to construct a "higher" science by the help of these unconcluded and incompletable ideas. But from the other side too the nature of the religious predicates has been misjudged. A school in the history of religion, which for a time was dominant in the science of religion, supposed that in the purely etymological investigation of the religious designations, especially the names of gods, it had the sufficient method for coming to know religion's essence. Etymology was then to be the true philosophy of religion. By this road one can also obtain interesting information. Thus it is of interest that the very word "God" seems to indicate that the religious fundamental predicate is formed under the influence of the act of cult and means the one towards whom this act is directed. But this example also shows precisely the method's insufficiency; for the religious fundamental predicate is in fact used far beyond the individual occasion that the act of cult gives. The concept of cult must at any rate be considerably extended if it is to become intelligible what lies in the expression mentioned. Religious development is far more complicated, manifold, and deep-going than the purely linguistic, and the relation between the inner states and their expression is in the religious domain still more composite than the relation otherwise is between psychical phenomena and their linguistic expression. It has therefore also shown itself that inner and outer kinship can be pointed out between ideas of gods which among different peoples are expressed in words of wholly different stems, while conversely names of gods that one was inclined purely linguistically to put together denote gods of

wholly different kinds.⁶⁶ The linguistic designation is only a support, which is acquired at a certain point of religious development, but which can thereafter be attached to ideas that remove themselves far from the stage of development at which the religious life of ideas stood when the expression was formed. So long as a religion persists, there are constantly released anew processes that seek a provisional conclusion in the religious predicate-concept, and this can therefore constantly be determined in new ways.

Is there not here something that the human spirit has at all times, more or less inwardly and energetically, wished to seek, but for which it has never found and can never find expression and form? Does there not hide here a riddle, a secret, on which the human spirit constantly broods, and which presents itself in ever new ways, according to the alterations of experience and the differences of personalities?

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3.2.4 The Scientific Conclusion of the Psychology of Religion

56. We have in what precedes come to a point where the psychological method is put to a decisive test. So long as the arising of religious feeling, and the ideas in which it finds expression, are clearly and distinctly determined by the historical circumstances, the psychological method works as well as scientific method in the domain of the humanities is on the whole able to. But where something qualitatively new comes into being—where a deepening or widening of feeling in principle takes place, or where feeling appears with a wholly new nuance—and where new ideas are formed to be feeling's expression—is it there possible to give an exhaustive psychological explanation?—This question presents itself particularly when we stand before the breakthroughs mentioned in what precedes, where the constant reciprocal action between personal experience and tradition does not seem to give the sufficient explanation. The prophetic personalities, who make new experiences and bring forth new symbols, do not seem to be explicable by application of the psychological method, which functions tolerably so long as that reciprocal relation holds good. Such personalities seem to go off at a tangent instead of moving in a closed curve about a given centre: they lead us into wholly new regions in the spiritual world.

This point has so much the greater interest because that tendency in the most recent theology which stands nearest to the scientific way of regarding things lays strong weight on the view that all revelation takes place in the inner life of the prophetic personalities and consists in the life and the originality with which their religious experience appears, and which lets them find thoughts and symbols that can bring clarity and peace in wide circles. While the older theology in a rather external manner placed faith and

faith's object in opposition to one another, there is now a tendency to see in the very coming-into-being of faith in the human soul the greatest miracle, the real revelation, or at least to emphasize that it too belongs to revelation. Theology is here brought into as close a connection with psychology as it has not been since Schleiermacher's time. But so much the more pressingly, then, does the question present itself of the possibility of a scientific conclusion of the psychology of religion.

Before I myself attempt to state psychology's position on the problem indicated, I shall discuss earlier psychologists of religion's position on this point.

57. In his *Esquisse d'une Philosophie de la religion d'après la psychologie et l'histoire*, AUGUSTE SABATIER seeks, as the work's title indicates, to place himself at a purely scientific standpoint. He will use the general psychological and historical methods, and his standpoint as well as his results are therefore in several respects akin to the fundamental thoughts in the presentation I have given in what precedes. Dogma is for him never the original and fundamental thing in religion. It arises comparatively late in religion. The prophets always go before the rabbis. Dogmas are, like all ecclesiastical customs and forms, derived in relation to religious feeling, and it is the task of the psychology of religion to show how this derivation takes place. Thus first and foremost the concept of God is a symbol in which religious feeling has found expression.

In carrying through the psychological-historical method, Sabatier holds fast that it is no explanation to appeal to God's intervention when a single definite phenomenon is to be understood. "Since God," he says, "is the ultimate cause of everything, he is not the scientific explanation of anything whatever." It was the same thought that already at the founding of modern science came to determine its relation to the concept of God (see §5). It is just as justified and just as necessary in psychology as in physics.

But Sabatier nevertheless applies, when he is in difficulties, the theological explanation in the psychology of religion. It is, according to his teaching, God who produces the religious feeling, which feeling then in turn sets the life of ideas in motion and thereby produces symbols and dogmas. "God enters," he says, "into reciprocal relation and contact (*en commerce et en contact*) with a human soul and lets it make a certain religious experience, out of which dogma then proceeds by reflection. What constitutes revelation and is to be the norm for our life is the creative and fruitful religious experience that was first made in the souls of the prophets, of Jesus, and of the apostles." Here I now cannot see anything but that the French philosopher of religion comes into conflict with his own scientific principle: he here explains a special psychological phenomenon by reference to God, although such a reference according to his own definite statement does

not explain any special phenomenon. And when the concept of God itself is a symbolic idea formed on the basis of the experiences of the life of feeling, then the “explanation” of religious feeling that is reached by its help can only be a symbolic explanation, and the gap in the psychology of religion (if there is a gap) is in reality not filled. Every dogma presupposes a religious feeling, and no dogma can therefore be used to explain this.

If one assumes that there is a gap in the series of psychological (and the corresponding physiological) phenomena which can only be filled by the use of theological concepts, then one has the obligation to state definitely where this gap lies. Where is the point at which the supernatural intervention is to take place? All development of the soul shows itself indeed, the better we come to know it, to be so connected and to rest on such an interplay of elements that it is just as difficult to find a gap where an influence could intervene as it is to follow all the transitions and unravel the individual threads. The assumption of a break in continuity brings with it no fewer difficulties than the assumption of a complete continuity. As a rule those who maintain an interruption of continuity do not pose the task sharply enough. It is only seldom that one institutes so energetic a hunt for the point at which the interruption could lie as the older Catholic theologians did when they—with full consistency, but with little taste—urgently discussed whether the supernatural act that effected the Virgin Mary’s freedom from sin was inserted at her very conception or only at some point during the development of the foetus, and if so at which. A similar investigation is incumbent also on a standpoint like Sabatier’s and other modern theological philosophers of religion’s. It has not been made, and it would undoubtedly be hopeless; but at the standpoint named it is a necessity.

Theological philosophy of religion involves itself in an epistemological circle similar to materialism’s. The concept of matter is formed by thought on the basis of sense-sensations, but materialism then uses this concept dogmatically to explain the coming-into-being both of sense-sensations and of thought. Just as sense-sensation and the logical principles stand as the presuppositions that bear our theoretical conception of existence and therefore cannot in turn be grounded by it, so religious feeling stands psychologically as a presupposition that cannot be “explained” by *the* ideas it itself leads one to form.—Perhaps it is due to this analogy between theology and materialism that they so often mutually understand one another better than either of them understands critical philosophy.

58. Half a century already before Sabatier’s book appeared, LUDWIG FEUERBACH had maintained that the psychological method is completely sufficient in the religious domain—that religion is nothing but a psychological product—that all theology is psychology. The

psychological philosophy of religion owes Feuerbach an extraordinary amount, and his brilliant analyses and characterizations stand in many respects still unsurpassed. But with respect to the method and to the critical limitation of the results there are various misgivings to be urged.⁶⁷

Feuerbach is fond of short and striking formulas, which hangs together with the fact that in him the psychologist must often give place to the agitator. When he has found an essential factor in religion's psychology, he is inclined to make it the be-all and end-all. Thus when he lets the wish appear as the theogonic principle, in that it "out of itself and only out of itself" produces the idea of God. Feuerbach here takes no account of the complicated circumstances under which the formation of religious ideas takes place. However great the influence that must be ascribed to feeling, it is nevertheless in the religious domain not merely active in relation to knowledge, but also dependent on it. A significant side of religious development consists precisely in knowledge's quiet influence on feeling. There is here—as I have also in what precedes sought to show—a constant reciprocal relation present, even though the preponderance lies on the side of the elements of feeling.

Without such a reciprocal relation religion would be able to have no practical significance for the human being. As it is, on the other hand, myth and legend can become forms in which the conception of nature and the memory of great personalities exercise their influence on the life of the race, and in the symbolic language of dogmas the content of the weightiest and most important experiences of life can in condensed and concentrated form benefit later generations.

Even with these modifications the proposition that all theology is psychology will not be able to be the object of strict proof, any more than, in the domain of outer nature, the proposition that all material phenomena are due to material causes. But the psychological-historical method nevertheless stands as the only one we can apply, the only one that—where it can in the particular case be applied—can give us a real explanation. Where it cannot be applied, we can get no explanation. What we cannot explain by this method stands as a mere fact that can be described but not explained—whereby of course it must be well attended to that one does not smuggle an explanation into the "description" itself. To assert that all religious phenomena are subject to psychological laws would be just as much dogmatism as to assert that there are phenomena that cannot be explained psychologically at all. Psychology can give us working hypotheses, and we do not give up these hypotheses until better working methods have been pointed out to us—but neither do we confuse them with proved truths. In this spirit I have sought to work in the

preceding investigation of the development of religious ideas. We are on this conception compelled at many points to concede that we stand before “mere facts.” But we add: every “mere fact” is (when it is rightly conceived and described) a problem, so long as it is not placed in close and law-governed connection with our other experiences.

59. As regards now the problem of new formations in the religious domain, as these especially appear in the prophetic personalities, it is not an altogether unique problem, but only a special form of a problem that appears in different degrees and nuances in all domains of experience. The more individual, and the more qualitatively new, a phenomenon is, the more difficult it is to bring it into that continuity with other phenomena which is the condition of scientific understanding. It is the opposition between continuity and quality or individuality that in all domains sets knowledge its tasks. The religious problem is therefore not any altogether distinctive problem, but presents a definite analogy with thought’s other problems.

The concept of personality sets inquiry the double task: to find the continuity within the distinctive little world that each single personality is (for without inner continuity, no personality)—and to find the continuity between the individual personality in its distinctiveness and the rest of existence. It is a task similar to that which natural science has towards the qualitative distinctive characters of forces and substances; but the concept of personality undeniably brings with it far greater difficulties for the humanities than the concept of quality brings for natural science. Personality is itself the most pronounced quality that is known. The humanities are therefore more difficultly placed towards their problems than natural science towards its.

The problem becomes particularly sharpened when it is a matter of such personalities in whom in a distinctive sense something new arises—the men of genius in the word’s widest sense—those in whom a distinctive genius rules, that is to say, in whom the involuntary and half-unconscious life of the spirit produces effects that surpass what clear consciousness and sober work would have been able to accomplish. The prophetic personalities belong to this kind by reason of the life and the originality with which their religious experience appears. It is life’s problem in a special form that is here posed. Whether it is a question of Buddha’s, Socrates’s, or Jesus’s personality, it is one and the same great problem that we stand before.

But because the problem is sharpened, it is not thereby said that it must be treated by wholly other methods than we otherwise apply. It would then at any rate have to be demanded that a new method be stated—indeed, a wholly new epistemology. Merely to lose oneself in wonder does not help, and besides, the astonishment and the admiration

may be quite as great in him who quietly works to find as much psychological and historical connection as he is able in the world of personality, as in the theologizing Romantic who thinks he must at this point assume a wholly different principle of knowledge from the one he otherwise applies. That in the domain of the humanities we more often than in that of natural science experience our knowledge's limitation is something that the study of religion is not alone in teaching us. It is not merely our imperfection, but it is first and foremost existence's fullness, the revelation of existence's inner richness, to which this limitation is due. It is not merely barriers to our inquiry, but material and task for it, that we here find. Where something new breaks forth, it is a testimony that there were more hidden forces present than experience previously seemed to teach; and even if we do not succeed in fitting this new thing into such a continuous series as it is our thought's ideal to form, this testimony nevertheless keeps its own value—and keeps it best when one gives it no dogmatic label. It will be seen that the psychology of religion here in a certain sense takes the concept of “revelation” more seriously than orthodox theology, which always confuses its dogmatic concepts with what is immediately and really given. So long as existence itself is placed in becoming (and that it is must be inferred from the fact that we find neither in the world of the spirit nor in that of nature anything altogether unchangeable and at rest)—so long must something new come forth which—at least provisionally—stands as a kind of paradox. Thereby nothing is altered in principle in our knowledge's position towards existence, any more than in our knowledge's method or in our personal life's relation to our knowledge. Who has said that we should be able to explain everything, or that it would be impossible to live if we do not get everything explained?—

To seek an explanation in the unconscious life of the soul does not help. The unconscious is, like God or the soul, a very indefinite concept. Psychology assumes potential life of the soul with the same right as physics potential energy. But in both places one must build on the work that lies before us, and by which the words soul or energy first acquire a meaning. Besides, in the unconscious life of the soul there lies the possibility both of the lowest and of the highest in the life of the soul as it actually lies before us, and special causes must therefore be sought in each individual case. It was precisely this last point that made *William James*, who himself laid so great weight on the unconscious life of the soul (the back door, as he called it), place himself definitely in opposition to *Myers's* attempt to found all psychology on that concept.⁶⁸

3.3 Dogmas and Symbols

*Du kerkerst den Geist in ein tönend Wort,
Doch der Freie wandelt im Sturme fort.*

SCHILLER.

*(Thou imprisonest the spirit in a sounding word,
yet the free one journeys on in the storm.)*

60. In discussing the development of religious ideas the weight falls quite decisively on feeling's selecting, strengthening, or inhibiting influence. The religious consciousness gets its content through a constant choice of quality. But in this process the relations that obtain among the ideas themselves also co-operate, and besides, the reality ascribed to the content of ideas won may be of somewhat different kinds. In these respects *the myth* is different from *the legend*, and both from *the dogma*, which again is different from *the symbol*. The difference between dogma and symbol is the most decisive for the religious problem in our days; but in the psychology of religion it will also be of importance to consider the relation of both to myth and legend.

Mythology and religion do not coincide. A mythology can develop on religious ground; but religion—when we conceive its psychological nature as has been done in what precedes—need not lead to the formation of myths. On the other hand there are myths that have no religious significance, or that acquire it only later. The myth is formed involuntarily, as a form in which the human being makes vivid to himself relations and events in the world, especially in the outer world. The myth has an animistic character, in that an event is made into a story that takes place between personal beings. Mythology can be taken into religion's service; as religious feeling is awakened, it emphasizes individual constituents of the myth and thereby transforms it more or less. In the Revelation of John, for example, old mythological ideas are taken into the service of a new religious feeling; especially in ch. 12 this is clear.⁶⁹ Mythology can also, independently of every religious motive, be taken into art's service, in that the imagination shapes its originally crude or naive figures and traits into beings and actions with a clear stamp of individuality and brings a more definitely motivated coherence into the narratives.

The legend stands nearer to religion than the myth as a rule does. The legend is the religious saga. Its kernel consists in the idea of a superior personality who has intervened deeply in human life—has awakened enthusiasm, furnished a model, and paved new ways. There then arises under the influence of memory a strong feeling-expansion, and

as a consequence of it a need for making vivid and for giving an account, which can set an image-forming process in motion. At the individual points in this image-forming process, historical tradition and the formation of myth work together, often in a very complicated manner.

In the myth there prevails especially the need to shape images by connecting as many individual traits as possible. The formation of myth has the stamp of luxuriance, spreads according to the laws of association by contiguity. In the legend the central interest in the subject prevails more, the centre-seeking force; it rests more on inwardizing memory than on naive personifying and painting-out. It is due more to analogizing than to combining.—In the myth, things and relations are personified; in the legend one starts from the idea of a personality who is illuminated by traits and relations from other domains, this illumination serving essentially to express his value.—While the immediate feeling of unity with the highest prevails in mysticism, it is in myth and legend the imagination that prevails. And the legend stands again in closer relation to that feeling of unity than the myth, which often strikes into ways and directions that concern rather life's outer circles than its centre. But as the legend can pass over into myth (without its being able to be asserted, however, that all myths have arisen in this way), so the myth can also be taken into the legend's service, especially in such a way that it serves for the working out of individual traits in the legendary personality's character and fate.—

In the myth and the legend immediate intuition prevails, and the association of ideas works involuntarily, only with the limitation that interest in the subject—with the legend, then, in the individual person who calls forth the legendary process—effects. *The dogma* stands related to myth and legend as thought proper stands related to intuition and the association of ideas. The dogma presupposes analysis—comparison, especially distinction. The images are compared, and their individual traits brought forward and weighed. The one image must be brought into agreement with another, either so that they cover one another, or at least so that they become compatible without contradiction. And here in particular an involuntarily developed cult and liturgy can co-operate (as with the dogma of Mary's immaculate conception). In the formation of properly personal gods out of momentary and special gods—in the transition from polytheism to monotheism—and in the development of the ideas of the divinity's different properties and different revelations, there is use for this process of thought. It is during this process of thought that—with greater or lesser consciousness—use is made of philosophical ideas and reflections. Here the points are to be sought where the interweaving of religious and philosophical elements takes place, often so intimately that a later critical investigation can only with

great difficulty distinguish the individual elements again. In the meantime the religious consciousness has often to such a degree lived itself into the results of the dogmatic process of thought that it thinks it here stands before immediate results of experience; it confuses the feelings that the formed dogma (especially in its connection with acts of cult) is able to call forth with the feelings by which in its time the dogmatic process was set going, and it then thinks that in its dogmatically determined experiences it lives through anew what happened at religion's original breakthrough.

The dogma forms an analogy (often also an impulse) to the artistic application and working-up of myth and legend. But it is, as we have already had occasion to remark, not a purely theoretical interest that prevails at the dogma's coming-into-being. The dogma comes into being by reason of a need for fixed ideas in contrast to the myth's and the legend's changing forms and manifold displacements. And this need announces itself not merely in individuals, each for himself. It makes itself felt especially where a community has formed which will guard certain religious ideas and reject "false doctrine." Then there are needed distinctions that were formerly neither necessary nor intelligible. One sets up dilemmas that formerly could not come forward, and one seeks by the road of logical thought to decide these dilemmas by interpretation of the traditions. Where such an interpretation is approved by the religious community's highest authority, the dogma is completed. The concept of dogma therefore presupposes the concept of Church and rests on a distinctive mixture of reflection and authority.

So long as the dogma is still living, the interest of feeling that already stirred at the coming-into-being of the myths or legends it presupposes will always be traceable. When a dogma is formed and asserted, or when a dogma is derived from another dogma, it is not purely disinterested inferences that are drawn. A more or less pronounced religious, or at any rate ecclesiastical, interest will always be co-operative. The ideal of a dogmatics it would be if each single dogma sprang immediately from religious feeling, and yet all dogmas stood in the most beautiful logical harmony with one another. This ideal was set up in the nineteenth century by Schleiermacher and Newman. But it is an ideal that in this definite form becomes possible only on the basis of the sharper distinction between knowledge and feeling that more recent psychology has inculcated. The history of dogma shows us that strict logical thinking and purely religious feeling have not been alone determinative. Partly mere associations of ideas, partly the ecclesiastical interest in mediating and in procuring uniformity in doctrine and cult, have decided the direction of dogmatic development, quite apart from still more "human" motives and means that worked along with them. The dogma is then a product of highly manifold elements.

A distinction has aptly been drawn between dogmas of the first degree, which express a religious experience as immediately as possible, and dogmas of the second degree, which serve partly to connect the dogmas of the first degree with one another, partly to bring coherence between them and the outer conditions of the world.⁷⁰ In Christian dogmatics, for example, the dogma of the Trinity is a dogma of the second degree: it brings connection between the ideas that had formed about God, about Jesus, and about the Spirit prevailing in the congregation.—There might still be reason to speak of dogmas of the third degree. These would be such as established guarantees for the truth of the two first groups of dogmas. To these belong the dogma of the Church, of the infallibility of the Pope or of the Bible. These dogmas of the third degree have a—psychologically easily explicable—tendency to spread at the expense of the two first groups, at any rate to come more and more into the foreground, so that it is through the third degree that one comes into contact with the two first degrees.

61. The difference between the dogma on the one side, the myth and the legend on the other, rests according to the foregoing especially on the fact that the dogma presupposes reflection and authority. But this difference is not complete. In myth and legend already, reflection can often be traced, even though it there expresses itself in a more subordinate, naive, and sporadic manner. Nor is the element of authority quite lacking in myth and legend. These thrive only within a community where the need to communicate can find vent and give the imagination life and strength for vivid forms. And they live in the tradition from generation to generation, whereby they—besides the weight they owe to their subject—acquire a special stamp of venerability that awakens immediate adherence, and which furnishes the greatest strength to the resistance that historical criticism meets when it seeks to reach back to the first origin of all these spiritual processes.

On the other hand the dogma does not quite lack that mark of vividness which is so strongly prominent in myth and legend. The need for images lies deep in the essence of all religion, whether it leads to favouring outer, artistic image-formation or not. In the dogma this need co-operates with the need for conceptual fixing and limitation. Every image points (logically regarded) out beyond itself and has (psychologically regarded) an inclination to draw other images after it; besides, every image has a defect when it is to express a content that is in itself unsurveyable; every similitude limps. Therefore the content of the legends and the myths is fixed in the dogma's form. That the figurative does not thereby fall away, a closer investigation of any dogmatic concept can show.

In the philosophy of religion we cannot therefore make any difference of principle between myth, legend, and dogma, such as every confessional theology must make from

its standpoint. But as the most important of these three forms the legend will come more and more to stand. Its kernel is the effect that a personality outstanding and exemplary in the originality and depth of its spiritual life has made on the human mind. Long after the dogma is extinct, and after the myth has been relegated to the literature of fairy tales, the legend will preserve its value for all personal and serious conduct of life. The Gospels will maintain themselves even when the dogmas that are supposed to be built on them, or that they themselves contain, have been pushed aside.

It is well intelligible that the religious consciousness, when its ideas have once crystallized into dogmas, and when these are fixed by the venerability of tradition and through the experiences they have effected, shrinks from giving up this crystallization. If the dogma is given up, or regarded as mere symbol, then the complete conclusion, the clear definiteness, and the firm foothold are lost, and one stands before the indefinite and fluid. The symbol differs from the dogma in that it more clearly makes known the difference between the original and proper religious lived experience and the ideas in which this experience is expressed. That is philosophically regarded a great advantage, though it is an advantage that the religious consciousness as a rule does not acknowledge. One might perhaps assert that the difference between dogma and symbol is not so great as it often seems, and that the religious consciousness itself acknowledges it. For involuntarily the religious consciousness nevertheless ascribes to the dogmatic truths a different kind of validity from the scientific truths and the experiences of everyday life. Often enough one gets the impression that the Sunday thoughts belong in another region than the weekday thoughts, and often enough one lives in the prose of weekday life as though the Sunday thoughts were “only” poetry. Besides, an investigation of the manner in which the dogmatic ideas are applied in practical religiosity will show that the application is constantly symbolic; it will show itself especially when sermons are preached on the accounts of miracles. But however much the religious consciousness—partly in more prosaic and philistine, partly in more ideal forms—may approach the acknowledgement of the dogmas’ symbolic character, it will nevertheless start and take offence when this symbolic character is definitely asserted. The firm, limited horizon is abolished; the distinction that is made between the lived experience itself and its expression awakens doubt, discord, and unrest; security is gone; it is as though one should now sew without tying a knot in the thread. The very concept of revelation now seems to fall away: for does not this concept presuppose that there is a greater or lesser domain where the image and the thing in itself completely cover one another?—It is from this consideration that the Pope has denounced “modernism” as heresy, just as it

was from it that Luther in his time broke with Zwingli.

It is undeniably a great question whether there can be a religious standpoint where no dogmas, but only symbols, hold. By symbols one must then think not merely of the historically transmitted ones, but also of freely chosen symbols in which the personal experience, delivered from the dogma's barriers, can express its new lived experiences—new leather bottles for the new wine. It is a great question—but great questions can nevertheless sometimes be answered in the affirmative. The answer will depend on what result one comes to concerning the hypothesis that the essential thing in all religion is not a solution of riddles, but a faith in the persistence of value.—

The symbol arises by a kind of analogy of feeling. A feeling that is determined by the lived relation between value and reality seeks expression, and finds this through ideas that already stand as expressions of analogous experiences. It is especially an analogy between the secondary and the primary value-judgments (see §26) that here operates. The religious experiences are expressed by the help of ideas drawn from the domain of self-preservation and of devotion. In his practical relations, during the struggle for life's primary values, the human being forms his circle of ideas, and the religious experiences are shaped by the help of this circle of ideas, without wholly new ideas being formed—or being able to be formed. Thus the idea of the Father is a symbol whose use is due to the influence of experiences of the furthering and shielding that existence can afford to what is humanly valuable; the idea of the devil is a symbol that is applied under the influence of the opposite experiences. In all symbolizing, ideas from narrower but more vivid relations are used to express relations that on account of their exaltedness and ideality cannot immediately be made clear. In religious symbolism the analogy rests on the relation to feeling. But a direct and positive determination is not reached by this kind of analogizing. It brings it “only” to a poetry, not to an objective doctrine.—The word “only” must here be thought of as used from the dogmatic standpoint. I myself stand at a standpoint where it is precisely a sign of the highest that the poetic form is the only possible one.

Where the symbol is genuine, it springs from the immediate experience and the need this has awakened. It is drawn from all domains that are accessible to human experience, but it will especially be the great fundamental relations of nature and human life—light and darkness, power and powerlessness, life and death, spirit and matter, good and evil—that furnish means for symbol-formation. The individual element in existence is raised up to stand as a characteristic mark of the whole of existence—as comprehending this in itself according to the relation experienced in it to obtain between value and reality. The

symbolic conception regards existence *as if* its essence were exhausted in the individual element, the individual experience of a harmonious or disharmonious relation between value and reality. Here there is a kinship between the religious-poetic symbolism and the scientific use of analogy, alongside the difference I have earlier brought forward.

The need from which the free formation of symbols proceeds has stirred in human beings at all times. It lies at the foundation in animism, and it works in myths, legends, and dogmas, in all fairy-tale poetry and in all art. By the acknowledgement of the symbolic in all religious ideas the religious consciousness approaches the artistic conception, for which too the individual phenomenon stands as typical—as a nutshell in which a world-content is hidden. But it approaches quite as much the more primitive expressions of religious life in myth and legend. In common with these it has the immediate relation to experience and feeling, while it separates itself from the dogma on account of the latter's reflected and authoritative character. It does not have dogmatics' suspicion towards the involuntary formation of religious ideas. If only there is immediacy and personal genuineness in the image-formation, the symbolic conception sees no danger in the formation of myth and legend; they are natural forms for human spiritual life at certain definite stages of development; indeed—what is more—they are perhaps the forms in which the most intensive spiritual production of which human beings outside the strictly scientific domain are capable takes place. All conscious art and speculation feeds on the content that first came forth in the form of myth and legend—analyses it and combines its elements in new forms. Therefore religious symbolism, even if it succeeds in freeing itself from the confessional and dogmatic barriers, will certainly always continue to draw from the treasure laid down in myths and legends. At any rate this treasure will assert its place alongside the new production of symbols, whose possibility cannot be dismissed. That the capacity to form new symbols is nowadays so slight finds its explanation partly in dogmatism's having cowed it, partly in the fact that the criticism of dogmatism has developed analysis and doubt at the expense of secure, positive producing. The struggle for and against the dogmas has for so long a time laid claim to the most important spiritual forces that it will perhaps be long before sufficient freedom and strength of spirit can develop, not merely to preserve an upright posture in life's highest questions, but in this upright posture to perform the great spiritual work: to shape the most inward and essential experiences in mighty and unforgettable images. What worked in a childlike way in myth and legend will then come again in manly shape.—That must be the hope who believes in the persistence of value, and who finds contained in the religious phenomena values that must be preserved in new forms

when the forms in which they have hitherto predominantly been clothed fall away. Faith in the persistence of value holds fast that in spite of the division of labour in the spiritual domain which causes the religious problem's coming-into-being, the real values that the spiritual life prior to the division of labour possessed will not be lost. It is a faith in analogy with the faith we have in a friend of our youth: that in manhood's dividing and divided work he will not deny what was essential in the ideals of his youth, however many metamorphoses these must undergo in experience's purgatory.

62. For the closer illumination of the coming-into-being of dogmas and of their transition into symbols, a series of examples of the formation of religious ideas shall here be brought forward, which take place under feeling's constant influence, but are also clearly determined by the ideas' own laws. These examples are especially to show how ideas that first appear in narrower and lower forms can be altered, extended, transferred, and acquire ethical or cosmological significance.

Such a change does not, as the history of religion shows, take place under all conditions. A characteristic difference here appears between Romans and Greeks. The Romans held tenaciously to their special gods, as these had once been represented and worshipped. They were satisfied when they merely had a reliable catalogue of the gods who were to be invoked, and their religious imagination was not so lively and productive that it felt a need for a further flight out beyond the circle of what was transmitted and what was shaped for cult. A richer mythology the Romans got only through Greek influence. Among the Greeks the religious imagination had worked luxuriantly. It supported itself on cult, and it was regulated by cult. But the very customs of the cult are used by the imagination as motives for new formations of ideas—especially when old customs seemed to need explanation, or when it was precisely the ceasing of old customs that seemed to need explanation. In the myth of how Prometheus cunningly gets Zeus to choose the bones of the sacrificial animal while he himself keeps the meat, there is traced a need to explain why human beings themselves ate the best parts of the sacrificial animal. A whole series of myths among Greeks and Romans, Indians and Jews, furnishes an explanation of the ceasing of the old human sacrifices by the gods themselves wishing animal sacrifices instead. Animal worship, which hangs together with totemism, is altered by the animal shape's being demoted from being a real image of the god to representing the god's companion. A remnant of animal worship is had when the god himself appears with more or fewer of the animal's organs or properties, which then naturally receive a symbolic interpretation. The worship of the heavenly light and of the sun is at a later stage motivated by light's symbolic significance as an expression

of purity, truth, and salvation.⁷¹—It has already been mentioned above (§51) how the liturgy (in the worship of the Madonna) can become an intermediate link between legend and dogma.—

An interesting example—probably the very most interesting example in the history of religion—of a transition from liturgy to cosmology is presented by the conception already mentioned (§44) of Bráhman as the principle of the whole of existence. For Bráhman means first yearning, prayer (or: the magical word). The motive for the transition from liturgy to cosmology must be sought in the magical power that was ascribed to prayer: he who can rightly pray gets power over the gods;—prayer, or the force that expresses itself in prayer, must then be the real world-power! Even the gods notice this: they fear the mighty prayer, and they pray themselves! The power of prayer then becomes the god above all gods.—Later on (in the Upanishads) a transition is then made (cf. §52) from cosmology to psychology, in that Bráhman is identified with the soul, which everyone knows from himself.—In both transitions, both in the transition from liturgy to cosmology and in the transition from cosmology to psychology, there works the need to represent the world's inmost ground as one with the highest goal of all striving, or as a striving.—When finally in Indian religion the last step was taken: to declare every expression and every thought insufficient, then free religious symbolism lay so extraordinarily near that it can only be explained by the distinctive Indian conditions of culture that it was not carried through. There set in at this point in the Indian development partly a mere repetition of what had once appeared, partly stagnation, partly a sinking back into fetishism and polytheism. No necessity can be pointed out for its having to go thus under all historical conditions.—

In the opinion of some investigators the idea of a judgment of the world and a coming kingdom of God, as it appears in post-exilic Judaism, can only be explained by the influence of Persian ideas. But even if one accepts this opinion, which has been maintained in detail by ERIK STAVE,⁷² it must nevertheless be held fast that the ideas taken up acquire an altered form and significance through the deeper conception of evil in the world and of the human being's position towards it which had formed beforehand among the Jewish people. Persian dualism had to be sure an ethical character, but the ethical was here nevertheless throughout grown together with more external elements. The struggle against evil was in Parsism to a great extent a liturgical or magical struggle, in that it was carried on by prayer, sacrifice, and purification; to a great extent it was also a work of culture, in that what was harmful in nature was driven back by agriculture, cattle-breeding, and the hunting of beasts of prey. The ethical element did not yet appear

so purely as it appeared—already prior to the taking up of those Persian ideas—among the best in the people of Israel. For the quiet ones in Israel the whole question lay essentially in the domain of the inward life, and in their expectation they looked more and more towards a purely spiritual redemption.⁷³ The thought of God's kingdom became more and more an ethical thought.

When this thought was gradually developed into being the fundamental thought of a whole world-view, thus into having not merely national and ethical but also cosmological significance, that became possible only under the influence of rabbinic and Greek speculation; and at the definitive fixing of the Christian Church's dogmas it was Greek speculation (in part perhaps also, as Harnack has shown, Roman jurisprudence) that in fact furnished the conceptual forms that were used. Plato and Aristotle would hardly have acknowledged their concepts as the Church Fathers and the Schoolmen applied them. But the Christian Church's intellectual requirements were satisfied under the given conditions by this "pagan" thought, or by what was taken for it. There is lacking in this whole development of dogma—however interesting it is from certain points of view—the mighty and inward energy of thought that in India led from liturgy to cosmology, thence to psychology, and thence again to the limit of all thought. It appears far too strongly in this "Christian thinking" that it is alien forms of thought that are being used.—

As a last example of the formation of religious ideas and its relation to the dogmatic I shall refer to the history of so-called "natural" religion.—So-called natural religion is the result of attempts at reduction that have at different times been undertaken with respect to the positive religions, thus by Stoics and popular philosophers in antiquity, and among the so-called Deists in the sixteenth, seventeenth, and eighteenth centuries. It retains a few dogmatically shaped ideas (especially of a personal God and a personal immortality) and regards them as "rational" or else as immediate experiences. Even where—as in Kant and the Kantians—the significant step has been taken of regarding all religious ideas as symbolic, the dogmatic tendency can nevertheless still show itself in this, that one regards certain definite symbols—and these are then as a rule those that the ideas of "natural" religion furnish—as alone justified, necessary, and "correct."⁷⁴ But in principle "natural" religion stands before the same problem as the positive religions: before the problem of a connection between the ethical-psychological ideas and cosmic reality, or between value and reality. When certain symbols are said to be "more correct" than others, this can consistently only mean that they acquire greater worth for us by resting on analogies that lie nearer to us.—

The transition from dogma to symbol hangs closely together with the more definite carrying through of the difference between feeling and idea. This difference (which in a more indefinite manner was known to the Neoplatonists, Augustine, and the mystics) hangs together in turn with the differentiation of human spiritual life, which stands generally as the cause of there existing a religious problem. The evaluation and the explanation of existence no longer immediately coincide: the explanation does not follow without more ado from the evaluation, nor the evaluation without more ado from the explanation.

That differentiation was in turn conditioned chiefly by the coming-into-being of the modern scientific conception of the world. The extension and infinitization of the world-system that became a consequence of *Copernicanism* had to make it impossible to regard human life and its ideals, in the same manner as hitherto, as the central thing in existence. And the clearer conception of the difference between the spiritual and the material that *Cartesian philosophy* brought entailed a criticism of the animism on which religion constantly supported itself. Finally *critical philosophy's* investigation of knowledge's nature and limits marked a decisive turning point as regards the intellectual elements in religion.

So much the more definitely, then, does the question arise anew what is the essential thing in religion, and how far it can preserve its vital force under the new spiritual conditions.

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3.4 The Proposition of the Persistence of Value

*Das Sein ist ewig, denn Gesetze
Bewahren die lebendigen Schätze,
Aus welchen sich das All geschmückt.*

GOETHE.

*(Being is eternal, for laws preserve the living treasures
with which the All has adorned itself.)*

63. In the preceding sections reference has been made in several places to a definite hypothesis about the essential content of all religious myths, legends, dogmas, and symbols. The religious fundamental proposition in which all religion's inmost tendency

can be expressed has been maintained to be the proposition of the persistence of value. If this conception is correct, the religious problem forms an interesting analogy to all other fundamental problems. What again and again sets human thinking in motion in the different domains is the relation between unity and multiplicity, or between continuity and difference. The religious problem stands—if its content is the possibility of asserting the persistence of value—as a distinctive form of the one great riddle that splits into distinctive forms in the special domains. The proposition of the persistence of value is a special form of the principle of existence's continuity. It forms an analogy to the causal principle, which indeed also—in its way—asserts an inner connection in existence in spite of all differences and changes. In particular it forms an analogy to the proposition of the conservation of energy, which sets up a connection in nature amid the interplay of the forces of nature. Naturally this analogy to other problems and propositions is not enough to prove that the proposition named really is the religious axiom. It speaks in its favour, since on account of the human consciousness's identity with itself in all domains it may be conjectured that the human problems must present common traits. But the grounding that may perhaps be said to have been given already in the preceding presentation for the assertion that the proposition of the persistence of value is the religious axiom is nevertheless essentially of a psychological nature. By description and analysis of religious experience and religious faith it was attempted to show that that proposition corresponds to the religious need, in that this aims at holding fast a persistence of the highest valuable things out beyond the barriers experience sets, and in spite of all the vicissitudes experience brings. Or—as it was expressed—faith is faithfulness, and faith's content is that there is faithfulness in existence. Faithfulness is persistence, continuity through all changes. This grounding presupposes that the given description and analysis of religious experience and religious faith is correct. But even if one were to concede this, the grounding given hitherto would be incomplete. An objective historical confirmation is required, a demonstration that the actually appearing forms of religion, especially the great positive religions, as regards their essential content, can be said to rest on the proposition of the persistence of value as on a final presupposition. Such a historical verification of the proposition shall now be attempted; but beforehand I must (in connection with what was developed in section A on religious experience and faith) give the proposition a closer determination.—If it then shows itself that history confirms what the purely psychological investigation led one to conjecture, I shall pass over to discussing how far it is possible to hold fast the proposition of the persistence of value at a standpoint that lies outside all positive religion.

3.4.1 More Precise Determination of the Proposition of the Persistence of Value and of its Relation to Experience

64. Religion presupposes that the human being has experienced that there is something valuable. Whatever else one may think about religion, one must concede that it does not itself produce all values in the first instance. If the human being believes, for example, in another life full of goods or evils, he must indeed know from his own experience that there are goods and evils; otherwise he can connect no meaning with his faith. And when the human being ascribes to his gods certain excellent properties, he must indeed have come to know these properties and their value from experience. If that is not the case, there is no connection between the human being's religious state and his other states, and therefore no connection in human life as a whole either. Religion's content always depends on the human being's experience, and especially on what he has found to be valuable. Which values a human being finds depends in turn on the motive of evaluation that prevails in him. The motive of evaluation may appear as a momentary need that is soon succeeded by another need. Or it may lie in a deep, constant yearning that is one with the instinct of self-preservation. It may be conditioned by the human being as a single isolated being, and thus have an individualistic, perhaps even egoistic character, or it may spring from the fact that the human being cannot separate his cause, his weal and woe, from the great connection in which he feels himself to stand as a member of comprehensive human groups and as a participant in great, common interests. The values in whose persistence the human being believes will be those that for him are the highest; but they may in the different cases, in different human beings and under different historical conditions, be highly different. The Greenlander's faith in the persistence of value is highly different from the Greek's, the Indian's from the Christian's. The egoist and the pleasure-seeker can have their heaven, just as well as the one seized by beauty or the ethical idealist; but these heavens will look very different. These differences strictly speaking do not concern us here, where what matters is to find what is common to all religion—that which brings it about that we ascribe a religion to the Greenlander just as well as to the Greek, to the Indian just as well as to the Christian. The opposition between “lower” and “higher” values is to be sure of great importance for religion; it is this that makes us distinguish between nature-religions and ethical religions, and within the ethical religions again between lower and higher forms. But it does not become decisive for the religious axiom itself.

Since all religion presupposes experience of values, the religious values themselves must in a certain sense be derived, namely conditioned by the interest in the primary

values that the experience of life has led one to know and to assert. Religion presupposes a special experience that in the course of things in the world it is the fate of values that is at stake. A life of the soul of the most elementary kind cannot know religious values, but will be limited to the simplest forms of self-assertion and devotion. The animal cannot (probably cannot) be religious, because it cannot (probably cannot) make special experiences of the fate of its values in the world.

But—as already remarked in an earlier connection—from the fact that the religious values are derived in relation to other values it does not follow that there must always be a temporal distance between the experiences in which they make themselves felt and those in which the primary values make themselves known. Often primary values first come into being in religious form, so that the two kinds of experience are made at once. The difference is due to an abstraction, or at least a differentiation, that need not set in. I can perfectly well immediately conceive a beauty in nature that is new to me as testimony to existence's glory; the primary value and the religious value—beauty as such, and existence as that which makes beauty possible—then appear for me at one stroke.—And even if the difference between the primary and the religious values makes itself felt, the religious value can nevertheless preserve its immediacy and its independence. It is not necessary that the object of religious faith stand merely as a means for the persistence of the primary values in existence. It can itself appear as the highest good, as the object of immediate admiration and enthusiasm, trust and love. The difference between lower and higher religions will rest on whether the religious values stand only as mediate, or whether they appear as immediate. The transition from the lower to the higher forms can here, as in other domains, take place through displacements of motive and of value. What at first has value only as a means can later acquire value as an end; what at first has value from a certain cause can later acquire value from a wholly different cause; and from what originally stands as a final end there can develop effects that far surpass the original end in value. Such displacements are of the greatest importance not merely in the ethical domain, but also in the religious domain. The continuity in humanity's religious development is due to a great process of displacement which was supported by significant historical and personal lived experiences. Often the religious consciousness oscillates between the mediate and the immediate value: when Augustine says to his God, "I seek thee, *that* my soul may live!" then in this utterance he ascribes to the object of his faith only a mediate value; but when in other statements he calls God the highest or only good itself, goodness and truth itself, then the object of his faith appears with immediate value. For Spinoza "the intellectual love of God" arises through the fact that

the full understanding of himself and of his unity with the whole of existence awakens a deep joy of knowledge, and that with this joy there combines the idea that it is due to God (the principle of unity in existence) as cause; but on closer absorption in this thought it presents itself thus, that in the understanding, the joy of knowledge, and the intellectual love, God himself is present as operative, so that the merely mediate relation falls away. All mysticism asserts—in contrast to the external, mechanical, and dualistic character of ordinary religiosity—the immediate character of the religious values. The principle of the persistence of value in existence comes at last itself to stand as the highest valuable thing. On this rests the fact that religion can exercise a reaction upon the other spiritual domains and enter into more or less pronounced opposition to them. There is a reciprocal action between primary and secondary values that makes the religious problem quite particularly complicated. It may be difficult to unravel what in the individual case is the original and what the derived. And above all: when the form in which the persistence of value appears itself has immediate value, the sum of the values whose persistence is in question is of course increased, and the very persistence of religion becomes a part of the religious problem. It is not enough to show that the primary values do not suffer by positive religion's falling away; with it there fall away immediate values, for which equivalents must be pointed out if one will maintain that positive religion can disappear from human spiritual life without any loss being suffered. It would be a confirmation of the religious axiom's validity if such equivalents could be pointed out. The continuity of value would be preserved—and if this is the properly religious thing, "the purest thing in religion," then religion would persist even if positive religion fell away. The religious problem here shows itself in its unavoidability and in its great importance, however one may stand towards the existing forms of religion.

65. We possess much that is valuable which we do not uninterruptedly enjoy. A state that makes us happy need not be uninterruptedly present in its whole strength. There may be stops that do not mean the melody's cessation, but are merely temporary conclusions, stages of rest or of preparation. The pause is itself a member of the melodic sequence and makes its definite effect within it. Such a pause can only be appreciated by one who preserves the continuity with what precedes, and who also lives through what follows. He who arrives just as the pause begins experiences nothing; for him the pause is a nullity. And for him who departs before the pause is succeeded by new tones, it is one with an absolute cessation. The pauses of the world's course may be very long, and only he who can place them in the most intimate connection with what goes before and what follows after can understand the pauses' value and see that they are more than

interruptions. Whether in the individual case we have a pause or an absolute cessation may stand as an insoluble question. If continuity is to be asserted, it can only be by a faith. It may look as though there were absolute losses of value.

We need here—if continuity is to be held fast—the distinction between potential and actual value. Faith in the persistence of value does not presuppose that there is always just as much actual value in existence, if only there is always just as much possibility of value's arising. But if all values passed over into being potential, it would be the same as a dead state of equilibrium setting in. The possibilities would become impossibilities. Religious faith will in its special forms acquire a different character according to the relation it presupposes between actual and potential value in actual existence. It will acquire a bright and optimistic character if it relies on the potential values' being able to be released without all too bitter resistance; a dark and pessimistic character if it assumes that existence is of so tragicomic a constitution that the richness of potential values it contains in and for itself will never be able to be released, or that every single process of release will entail a disproportionate loss of value at other points.

For a complete carrying through and verification of the proposition of the persistence of value it would be required that nothing in the world's course be left standing as mere means, or as mere possibility, let alone as mere hindrance, but that what had mediate value should always at the same time have immediate value, and that all hindrances should at the same time be means. In the religions that assume the divinity to be both almighty and all-good, such a presupposition of the persistence of value lies at the foundation. And it may be said to be an ideal by which every religion can be measured.

It is of distinctive interest to see that the ideal form of the proposition of the persistence of value forms an analogy to, and to a certain extent coincides with, the highest ethical principle. The ethical ideal—as it shapes itself on the basis of universal sympathy—appears in the thought of a kingdom of humanity in which each single human personality always stands as an end and never merely as a means,⁷⁵ thus as one that has immediate value and never merely mediate or potential value. Just as this ethical ideal appears with greater or lesser clarity as a presupposition, or at least as a tendency, in the special ethical rules and laws and at the different stages of development, so that ideal form of the proposition of the persistence of value in existence appears with greater or lesser clarity as a presupposition or tendency in the special forms of religion. And if it should now later show itself that the final measure of value for all religion is of an ethical nature, then this analogy between the religious axiom and the highest ethical principle is of great importance, since it might indicate that religion tends to stand as a projection of

the ethical. In the religious fundamental presupposition itself it then lies that religion must at last be an object of ethical criticism. It must for example be investigated whether the all-goodness with which almightiness is said to be combined really is—goodness!—

Every single religion will naturally lay quite particular weight on the form in which the religious axiom appears in its doctrine and cult. It will have an inclination to confuse the clothes with the person, or at least to make the clothes a part of the person. That the proposition of the persistence of value is the religious fundamental proposition is not disproved by a single religion's refusing to acknowledge that other religions in their way espouse and express the same proposition. This can be shaped and expressed in many different ways, in myths, legends, dogmas, or symbols of highly different kinds. But there must—philosophically regarded—be a distinction drawn between the proposition itself and the special ways in which it is expressed. The burden of proof in any case rests on him who asserts that it can only be expressed in one definite way. The proposition that is to express religion's essence in all religion's different forms must naturally have an abstract character. What matters then is that one does not confuse a philosophy-of-religion proposition with ideas that appear immediately and consciously in and for the religious consciousness. The religious consciousness need not know the proposition in its abstract form, and will perhaps even reject it in this form. Thus the ordinary human consciousness need not know the laws of the association of ideas at all, without this telling against the fact that these laws lie at the foundation of every connection of ideas, are fulfilled in this same human consciousness. Thus we draw our breath without needing to have the least intimation of the physiological laws of respiration.—

66. Where attempts are made to derive reality from value, the religious problem is sharpened. For even if all hindrances, all resistance could be shown to be necessary means for the development and persistence of the valuable, the question will nevertheless always arise why means are needed at all—why the valuable is not immediately and does not immediately rule—why there is a difference or a strife between value and reality. In the problem of evil the religious consciousness has constantly had to struggle with this difficulty, and at this point there is also sharpened, as will show itself, the difficulty for the philosophy of religion in pointing out the fundamental proposition of the persistence of value as a presupposition or as a tendency in all religion.

It might seem as though the hypothesis of the persistence of value must be incompatible with a pessimistic view of life. And if pessimism too is a kind of religion, then it would furnish an objection to our philosophy-of-religion hypothesis.

Pessimism assumes a fundamental disproportion between value and reality. But a

disproportion is also a relation, and when religious experience—on the description given earlier—concerns the relation between value and reality, then pessimism is grounded on religious experience, only that its experience leads to a different faith from that which most frequently appears in religion's history. And yet there must at the foundation of pessimism too lie a faith in the persistence of value: for if all value fell away, the relation between value and reality would naturally fall away too. The pessimist must assume that there is something valuable in the world, but that it persists only under hard struggle and constant suffering, and it is this struggle and suffering to which he has first and foremost directed his attention. Struggle and suffering presuppose life and a need for self-assertion. If all life, all need in existence could be excluded, there would no longer be any question of pessimism. In Leopardi's poem "The Broom" (*La Ginestra*) humanity's relation to merciless nature is presented by the broom-bush's relation to the lava on which it grows. When the lava at some point burns up or overwhelms the bush, the struggle is over. But the plant's life is the valuable thing whose opposition to crude reality calls forth or expresses the poet's mood. The most radical pessimism would, as *Simmel* has shown, be expressed in the assertion that the very fact that there is pain and unhappiness in the world at all makes the world valueless.⁷⁶ But no pessimist can hold fast such an assertion. And when Leopardi does not—any more than Schopenhauer and Buddha—in spite of the strong emphasis on the disharmony between value and reality, point out the way out of stopping life, thus abolishing the valuable, in order to escape the disharmony, there lies in that necessarily a faith in the possibility that the valuable can persist under the constant struggle and suffering. An absolute pessimism has never at any time been presented, either in any religion or in any philosophy. Buddha points to the possibility of attaining Nirvana, which is by no means one with annihilation, and for Schopenhauer the disharmony is abolished in artistic and scientific activity, in compassion, and in religious asceticism. There is in all pessimism something valuable that persists—that can assert itself and perhaps even increase.—An absolute pessimism would hold only for those beings that in some religions are thought to be in eternal torment. But this eternal torment is in no religion the only content, and there are made—as we shall later see—characteristic attempts to show that the highest valuable thing persists not merely in spite of, but precisely by reason of, the eternal torment in a part of existence. Precisely these attempts, which are due to the reflection of pronouncedly religious natures, will furnish a testimony to our religious axiom's historical validity.

One might imagine a pessimistic conception that assumed a constant diminution of value in existence. Such a conception too would be determined by religious experience,

although religious faith is lacking to it. If one wished to lay the weight on the constant tendency to diminution of value, then such a pessimism could be called religion with a negative sign. It would constantly be determined by the relation between value and reality and would not denote the complete opposite of religion. The complete opposite of all religion would be neither pessimism nor optimism, but neutralism: all evaluation beyond the domain of human actions falls away, and the human being stands as a mere spectator at the course of the great world-process, convinced of its infinite indifference to what human beings call value. I consider it very difficult to decide whether such a neutralism can really be given. Even for the mere spectator there will in every intellectually or aesthetically enraptured (let alone in an ethically enraptured) state arise a mood with a religious gleam: it gives existence a distinctive value that the understanding or the contemplation of it causes us joy, and our view of the world is involuntarily stamped by the advance or retreat of such intellectual or aesthetic values.

3.4.2 Psychological-Historical Discussion of the Proposition of the Persistence of Value

67. In two different forms we find in the historical religions the faith in the persistence of value. We meet here with the same chief forms that we already stood before in the description of religious experience and religious faith (§34). They are not complete opposites in their essence, and historically they have in several ways influenced one another; but they stand nevertheless as two types, such that the special forms of religion, the different religious standpoints, approach more or less pronouncedly the one or the other of them. Since it will be impossible to go through all special forms of religion and religious standpoints, I hold to these two types, in the confidence that religious life has in them expressed its most characteristic distinctive features.—Before I pass over to considering them severally, I must nevertheless recall that the presupposition of the persistence of value reveals itself even in the most elementary religion one knows (see §37), namely through the preservation of “the totemic principle.”—

According to the one type the highest value is always actually present. What hides it from human beings' gaze is the motley multiplicity and constant change of the world of experience, and the illusions about the reality of the sensible in which human beings are thereby ensnared. When these illusions fall—which presupposes a serious work of thought and will—human beings become clear about the eternal reality and about their immediate unity with it. All multiplicity (or at least all outer, sensible multiplicity) falls away; the temporal relation loses its significance, and the valuable shows itself as the

only thing that always is and always has been, the only true reality.

According to the other type the valuable persists only through the constant struggle against forces that would check and abolish it. It has besides a development to go through before it exists in its whole fullness;—it has a history. Only when the historical course of the world has reached its conclusion is the valuable all in all. The temporal relation acquires here real and decisive significance; it is not, as for the first type, an illusion that falls away with true understanding. New values really come into being, and the work that must be done in order to have a share in the valuable that persists is just as much a reality as the goal that is reached through the work.

68. The first type appears historically in the Indian Vedanta doctrine, in Buddhism, in Platonism, in the mysticism of the Middle Ages, and in Spinoza's system. The persistence of value is here asserted by the view that what in *time* appears in scattered multiplicity and in successive unfolding is in *eternity* concentrated in an absolute unity. Eternity lies here not *after* time, but *in* time, and it discloses itself in the human being's inner life as soon as the human being reaches the deepest self-collection. This type must consistently assume that there is a relation of equivalence between time and eternity, but this relation of equivalence could not itself have any history, since all differences of time lose their significance, and the very work of becoming a partaker in the eternal could have no reality.

One might think that this type is not suited for a popular religion. And yet Greek religion, as it appears in the Homeric age, is essentially to be referred to this type, even though it here appears in a childlike form. For the Homeric Greek, in the midst of human life's toil and struggle, Olympus stood in an eternal clarity, untouched and unchangeable. Olympus is the gods' eternal and fixed dwelling, always encircled by shining radiance, raised high above the regions that storm and rain visit. In this radiant picture the Greeks saw the valuable's eternal reality expressed, and over its glory they forgot the shadows of their own life, or they took, with melancholy and resignation, the opposition between the Olympian and the earthly as something that was once for all so.

While there is here a naive but insuperable opposition between eternity and time, a more inward and more thought-through relation appears in the Vedanta doctrine, and especially in Buddhism's doctrine of Nirvana. Nirvana is, as already several times remarked, not to be thought of as pure nothing. It is a state of peace and exaltedness, the opposite of desire, hatred, and disappointment, which thrive in the world of sensible illusions. It is a state where holiness is consummated, where the work is performed, and where "this world" no longer exists. In order to reach this state the individual must

withdraw from the ordinary human relations; but this happens with the most inward enthusiasm: "Like swans from the swamp, the understanding ones fly away from house and home in order to be free of sorrows, illusions, and sensible enticements. Bold, with quiet peace in their minds and with senses that have come to rest like the charioteer's tamed horses, they are the greatest of all heroes, envied by the gods themselves. Desire and hatred the Buddhist has cast far from him, as the jasmine bush shakes off its withered flowers. An unearthly blessedness seizes him when he steps into his quiet cell, where he sees through life's vicissitudes and clearly knows the eternal."⁷⁷

Within the Greek world a kindred line of thought comes forward in Plato. Only the world of ideas is true reality, and everything depends on whether the knowledge of the ideas (things' essence and models) dawns on the human being; only then is he freed from all discord and imperfection. Especially in the dialogue *Phaedo* this type appears in a characteristic manner. Through Platonism it has also intervened in the development of Christianity, which otherwise belongs predominantly under the second type. In the Gospel of John there are traits that go in the direction of the first, the Indian-Greek type; but it is not certain that they have arisen through direct influence from it. On the other hand such an influence is both clear and certain in Augustine. In him is found the Platonic concept of the eternal as the unchangeable (*semper stans æternitas*), which is to an equally high degree at every time, and within which nothing arises or perishes. It is found again further in the mysticism of the Middle Ages, as when Meister Eckhart says: "What is eternity? Eternity is a present now that knows nothing of time. The day that passed a thousand years ago is not further from eternity than this hour in which I stand here, and the day that shall come in a thousand years is not further from eternity than the hour in which I now speak." To this belongs also Jacob Böhme's motto: "*Wem Zeit ist wie Ewigkeit, und Ewigkeit wie Zeit, der ist befreit von allem Streit*"—and Spinoza's profound instruction "to see things under the form of eternity."⁷⁸

It is indubitable that all these different standpoints each in its way assert that all true value is imperishable. A difficulty nevertheless arises on a closer consideration of the relation between "time" and "eternity." If the proposition of the persistence of value were to be held fast strictly, "time" and "eternity" would have to stand in a relation of equivalence to one another, be two forms of value between which a conversion could take place without loss.

But that is not how it is. "Time" is at all these standpoints supposed to rest merely on an illusion, an illusion that must dissolve into nothing if the true value is to be—not: come into being, but— unveiled. Therefore the work and the development in time—however

necessary they may be—acquire no real significance, no reality, but are to be regarded as the exertions we make in dreams. The very work of abolishing the illusion, of letting the dream-image sink away into the nothing that it is, and of living oneself into the true reality, is an illusion. At most the work can come to stand as a mere means that is forgotten when the end is reached, a ladder that is pushed away when one has climbed to the height. From these standpoints no immediate and independent value can consistently be ascribed to the work and the development—and thereby to the goods and the tasks that the world of time brings.

There is at the same time lacking here a natural motive for the individual to set himself other ends than his own personal liberation from the illusion. When the individual has himself reached the consummation, has torn asunder the veil of illusion, why should he then linger in the illusory world, even if he could thereby help others to reach a similar perfection to that which he has himself reached? Why should the swan return to the swamp?—When Buddha had reached the consummation in spite of all the hindrances that the evil spirit (Mara, Buddhism's devil) laid in his way, the latter urged him at least not to show others the way of consummation he had found. Buddha did not obey, partly out of "compassion for beings," partly also simply because his perfection suffered no diminution by being communicated to others. But in and for itself the consequence lay nearest which is also uttered both by Buddha himself and in the Buddhist poem *Dhammapada* (the Way of Truth), that he who would reach the highest, which is liberation from sorrow and fear, must love no one, since separation from those one loves causes sorrow.⁷⁹

Besides the dualism between time and eternity, another dualism comes forward at these standpoints. It is namely not everyone who attains Nirvana, and Buddhism therefore quite naturally developed a doctrine of hell, or took it over from popular belief. Nor is it everyone who attains to knowing Plato's eternal ideas or to acquiring Spinoza's capacity to see things under the form of eternity. In one form or another the old Greek opposition makes itself felt between the eternal, radiant Olympus (the analogy to Nirvana, to the world of ideas, to the form of eternity) and a dark human world. Only a few, the favourites of the gods, are raised above this opposition. For the rest there is loss of value all along the line.

The result then becomes, as regards the first religious type, that the proposition of the persistence of value is a tacit presupposition, but that in the closer development of the standpoints it is not unfolded with full consistency. But the objection that thus strikes this type—that the proposition of the persistence of value is only defectively carried through—is no alien objection. It arises through the application of a standard that this

religious type itself acknowledges. Human life outside Olympus and outside Nirvana is nevertheless not absolutely valueless: the Greek has his childlike joy in life, and the Buddhist must at any rate ascribe a real value to the yearning out beyond time that can lead to Nirvana. Olympus and Nirvana cannot then consistently occupy a uniquely privileged position, untouched by what goes on in the finite world. Only through living and positive connection with this can they mean the highest valuable thing. We measure here religion by religion itself, in that we compare a religious standpoint's individual traits with the goal it has itself set. Religion can be attacked from outside, from standpoints alien to its inmost goal, its real tendency; but such a criticism would not help us to find the religious axiom, the fundamental proposition that religion cannot deny without denying itself. If the proposition of the persistence of value is a proposition that no religion can deny without denying itself, then this proposition is the religious fundamental proposition.

69. What distinguishes the second chief type is its historical character. It believes in a world-history. In Parsism this historical character first appears in pronounced form. The struggle between good and evil is carried on in the whole of nature as well as in human life, and one looks towards a great world-struggle after which the consummation is expected. In the Jewish prophets we meet an independent historical faith, grown up under the influence of the inward need to hold fast the hope of the people's future and the conviction of the national God's faithfulness through all vicissitudes. From the tribulations of the time one gazes towards a day on which it may be said: "Behold, this is our God, whom we trusted in, and who has saved us!—Jahveh is a rock of ages!" (Isaiah XXV, 9—XXVI, 4). In post-exilic Judaism's messianic expectations and in Christianity's doctrine of God's kingdom and its speedy coming, the same historical faith is expressed. It has set its significant stamp on the thought of European humanity. Augustine's work on "the City of God" (*civitas dei*) and Bossuet's "*Discours sur l'histoire universelle*" form the religious preparation for what a later age has called the philosophy of history, sociology, or the history of culture.

The temporal relation acquires here positive, decisive significance. The difference between past, present, and future does not rest on an illusion. And definite tasks are set that can only be solved through work and development. There is a real "not yet," as well as a "no longer." It is through the changes of the times and the phases of development that the highest is realized. A comparison between the "Upanishads" and the New Testament is in this respect highly instructive. Whereas there no relation of equivalence could obtain between time and eternity, here there is supposed to be a relation of equivalence between

past and future: life is won by being lost; there shall come thousandfold compensation for what is sacrificed; Jesus has not come to dissolve but to fulfil; the kingdom has been prepared from the foundation of the world, but is an inheritance that is only now to be entered upon. Not even suffering and destruction testify against the persistence of value, for the very suffering in the service of the highest and with the gaze turned towards it testifies to its power. "Thou art victor because thou didst let thyself be sacrificed!" (*victor, qvia victima!*) Augustine calls out to his Saviour.

And in the idea of the kingdom that is to come there lies not merely the significance of history, but also that of solidarity, of the life of community, and the possibility of a more positive form of love of humanity than Buddhism could consistently accommodate. The individual's consummation is tied to that of the others.

There is thus a more realistic stamp on this type than on the first. And with it follows a greater possibility of carrying through the persistence of value, since the world of experience and its conditions do not stand as mere slag containing no valuable ore. The advantage this second type has over the first hangs together with a more complete carrying through of the proposition of the persistence of value.

When there are nevertheless difficulties here too for the demonstration of this proposition, they lie first and foremost in the fact that the work and the development in time stand indeed as real, but yet only as means. They have only mediate, not immediate value. They are only a preparation for what is to come. And that which is to come, the divine kingdom, does not even come as a natural and necessary fruit of the development and the work, but is inserted into time by a supernatural road, so that the bond between past and future is cut through. There is after all no inner relation of equivalence between them, since human work has vanishing significance in relation to the great thing that is to come—indeed easily becomes a hindrance. The work becomes properly negative: what matters is not to immerse oneself in human relations, in the goods and tasks of human life, but to watch and pray in order to be ready when the consummation comes. Life in time becomes a life in expectation, and only that has value which can prepare for the life to come. Hereby there arises a certain likeness between Christianity (that is, primitive Christianity) and Buddhism, for it can in practice lead to the same result to deny the essential continuity between past and future and to declare the temporal relation as a whole illusory.

But at other points too the demonstration of the proposition of the persistence of value meets difficulties within this type. And these points are of special interest, because the religious consciousness has itself been attentive to them and sought to overcome

the difficulties. It is of great philosophy-of-religion interest to see how the attempt to overcome the difficulties is made precisely by virtue of the proposition of the persistence of value. It is the greatest theologian within Christianity's history, Augustine, who undertakes this attempt.

The first point is the dogma of eternal damnation. It is not necessary here to discuss whether this dogma can be derived from the New Testament writings; it is enough that the orthodox church doctrine, both the Protestant and the Catholic, maintains it. It would undoubtedly be easier to carry through a proof that Christianity rests on the presupposition of the persistence of value if it could be established that the New Testament teaches that all are at last saved. But what interests us here is that precisely the dualism of the saved and the damned has for the thinking religious consciousness been able to stand as a necessary consequence of the persistence of value—naturally of the persistence of that value which for this consciousness was the highest value. However the world's course may end, the Christian consciousness holds fast that it serves for God's honour and glorification. Augustine seeks to ground this more closely. Divine justice is satisfied by the wicked being treated according to desert and placed where it belongs to them to be. Indeed, Augustine defends this dualism not merely as ethically necessary, but also as aesthetically necessary. When the world's course ends with the eternal damnation of the many, this might seem to entail an imperfection in existence's definitive state;—but, says Augustine, what seen from the individual part's standpoint is imperfect and causes disgust may very well be a perfection from the whole's standpoint, since for harmony it is merely required that everything come into the right place, and since precisely the opposition between the saved and the damned serves to increase the beauty of the whole (*omnes ita ordinantur ... in pulchritudinem universitatis, ut quod horremus in parte, si cum toto consideremus plurimum placeat*).⁸⁰ That dualism, then, in which an objection to Christianity has so often been found, is for Augustine precisely a testimony to the persistence of the highest ethical and aesthetic values. There expresses itself in his line of thought undoubtedly a striving to hold fast the fundamental proposition of the persistence of value—against an objection that was grounded on this same proposition. He will transform that from which the objection was drawn into a confirmation.—How far the concepts of value that Augustine here applies are valid is a question by itself. For Augustine there was no doubt that God's blessedness and honour were compatible with, indeed even required, that dualism. The consequence that has in more recent times been drawn from Augustine's premises, that God cannot be blessed when the world's course has the character he assumed, lies far from him. Just as little

does it cause him difficulty how some human beings can be blessed when they know that not all are. He has, so far as I know, not touched on this objection. But Thomas Aquinas has later answered it. To be sure, says the great Schoolman, Aristotle teaches that no one can be happy without having his loved ones about him; but that holds only for the earthly life; in the eternal life the individual stands before God, and love of the infinite object fills him so that he has no need to love finite beings; only love of God, not love of neighbour, is necessary to the state of blessedness, so that even if there were only a single soul that came to enjoy God's presence, it would be blessed without having any neighbour to love!⁸¹—In the face of a line of thought such as this one must well remember that the significance that faith in the persistence of value has in the individual case depends on which values are known and presupposed. Love of humanity cannot at a standpoint such as the one here discussed belong to the highest values, and it therefore does not come along either when faith's content is to be determined. There lies in this a confirmation of the conception of religion's essence that I seek to make good.—For the rest, Thomas Aquinas teaches that there is a great difference between the feeling a human being ought to have here in life, where he is still on the way (is a *viator*), and the one he will have in blessedness, where he clearly understands the connection (as a *comprehensor*). For the earthly human being compassion with the damned is praiseworthy, but such a feeling cannot arise in the blessed, who understand God's judgments.⁸² Unfortunately neither Thomas nor any other theologian has succeeded in giving us the "higher" psychology and ethics that are here pointed to, any more than they have succeeded in giving us the "higher" epistemology which in another connection has shown itself necessary for their standpoint. It has not even been possible to show how a "wayfaring" human being, a *viator*, can connect any real meaning with the "higher" standpoint to which reference is made—an ethical meaning one cannot at any rate connect with it.—But, as said, this does not properly concern the religious axiom in its generality.

The second point where a difficulty shows itself for holding fast the theological standpoint we here discuss lies in the dogma of creation.—While Buddhism does not enter upon any explanation of how "the world" comes into being, Christian theology gives an explanation which might seem to contain the assumption of a diminution of value. For the created is inferior to the Creator: it is finite and limited, and there presents itself for it the possibility of a fall which does not exist for the Creator in his eternal and ideal reality. But here too Augustine finds in his concept of justice a way to save the persistence of value: "Who is so out of his mind that he dares demand that the work should stand equal with him who has produced it, the founded with the founder?" "It

would be blasphemous impudence to place nothing on a level with God by demanding that what God has created out of nothing should be of the same nature as that which springs from God's own essence!"⁸³ The diminution of value at the creation falls away for Augustine through justice being satisfied; through its continuity is preserved. We see clearly lying at the foundation in the religious thinker's conception the proposition that I have conjectured to be the religious axiom. In its consequence, however, Augustine's line of thought would lead us to a result similar to that in which Buddhism (and on the whole the first type) ended. The divinity is thought as unchangeable, untouched by creation and fall, as well as by the opposition between the saved and the damned. God does not need the world and is not altered because the world is altered. Not even God's goodness entails need and dependence, for since he is a perfect being that can receive no increase in perfection, his goodness too can persist without needing other beings. This consequence Thomas draws: *Bonitas ejus potest esse sine aliis*.⁸⁴ With what right it is nevertheless still called goodness is a matter by itself. Here it was only to be emphasized that both religious types—in spite of their indubitable striving to hold fast the persistence of value—come up against difficulties they have not overcome—difficulties in which they show themselves as imperfect expressions of the ideal of religion that they themselves acknowledge.

70. The result of the investigation now made of the two chief forms of religion is that in both of them there expresses itself a decided tendency to assert the persistence of value, a tendency that appears quite particularly in the attempts to reject objections drawn from an apparent diminution of value.

When nevertheless neither of the two chief forms succeeds in holding fast the proposition of the persistence of value strictly, this comes not merely from the fact that historical forms of life never fully express their own real essence or idea, because extraneous elements and circumstances co-operate. It comes also from a circumstance that hangs closely together with religion's essence, as this must be if faith in the persistence of value is the religious axiom. It is namely clear that faith in the persistence of value must lay claim to forces and interests that are thereby drawn away from the very work of finding and producing values in the given world. Thereby there constantly arises a greater or lesser relation of opposition between religion and the other spiritual domains. Since the religious relation itself gives rise to evaluation and grounds values, this relation of opposition can also be designated as a relation of opposition between the primary and the secondary values. Quite particularly does this appear in the relation between religion and ethics, and it will be discussed more closely in the ethical philosophy of religion. But

in order that it might be understood why the carrying through of the religious axiom must always be imperfect, reference had already to be made here to the fact that faith in values easily comes to stand in a certain opposition to the work of discovering and realizing values. In the two chief forms of religion this shows itself in the relation to development in time, which does not come to its full, positive, inner validity. Life in time comes at last to stand either as an illusion or as a reality of vanishing significance.

And with this it also hangs together that religion has an inclination to start from too narrow a concept of value, or to start from the assumption that the sum of values has been found once and for all, so that it is now only a matter of preserving it, or at least of living in faith in its preservation. So long as new experiences come, new values can come too, and these religion will only after a certain resistance take up into the sum of that in whose persistence it believes.

In another way too the incompleteness of experience hinders the carrying through of the religious axiom. There will always be new experiences before which this axiom must stand its test. Even if we imagine the sum of values concluded once and for all, this concluded sum will always again be able to be subject to vicissitude, and the religious ideas that were able to express its persistence during the change of earlier experiences do not always suffice without more ado when the experiences acquire a different character. The religious axiom here shares the fate of all axioms.

Finally it is here too of great influence that the religious consciousness expresses itself by the help of more or less figurative ideas. It is only in philosophy-of-religion reflection that we set up the proposition in the form in which we here discuss it. In the religious consciousness itself it appears in concrete, figurative forms, drawn from analogies with more or less limited relations. A glance at the different ideas of God, theories of incarnation, theories of atonement, and ideas of immortality shows that they are due to combinations of images drawn from special domains of experience (family and legal relations, for example). It is then no wonder that when these images are raised out beyond their original connection and thereafter combined with elements from a wholly different connection, no consistent line of thought can arise. In the attempt to erect a structure of thought here, the images' original poetic significance and effect are lost, without any compensation for it being reached in thought's consistency.—

The hypothesis that faith in the persistence of value is the essential thing in all religion has then stood the test as well as could be expected.

Indirectly this hypothesis was prepared in the epistemological philosophy of religion, which showed that religion's significance could not be that of giving a scientific

knowledge of existence. If religious ideas were to have any value, it must then be that of serving as figurative form and expression for other sides of the life of the soul than the intellectual.

Positively the hypothesis was grounded by the psychological investigation of religious experience and religious faith. It showed itself that the relation between value and reality was the domain where religious experience belonged, in distinction from other experiences that either merely concern values or merely concern reality. And it showed itself that religious faith by its nature seeks to hold fast a constant relation between value and reality; it is itself faithfulness, and it presupposes something analogous to faithfulness in existence. There is then an inner connection between religious experience and faith and the assumption of the persistence of value.

This purely psychological grounding now seems to be confirmed by an analysis of the two historical chief forms of religion.

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3.4.3 General Philosophical Discussion of the Proposition of the Persistence of Value

71. If faith in the persistence of value is the essential thing in all religion, first and foremost in all positive religion, it acquires a great interest to investigate how far such a faith is compatible with a strictly scientific conception of the world. A distinction must be drawn between its being *compatible with* scientific inquiry and its being able to be *derived from* this. It is, as I have sought to show, not the pure need for knowledge, but the need to obtain harmony between knowledge (understanding in the scientific sense) and evaluation, thus between reality and value, that can lead to faith in the persistence of value. Although the motives of knowledge and of evaluation are different, their effects may very well be compatible. If we could not and dared not espouse any assumptions about existence other than those that scientific inquiry can find out and prove, the proposition of the persistence of value would have to fall. Science cannot out of itself produce religious faith. Science works its way towards the assumption that all changes in existence are conversions from one form of existence to another, conversions that take place in definite relations of measure. In this direction scientific understanding advances; ever better the new is known as a form of the old; the new is inferred from the old; and to every new phenomenon a preceding one is pointed out, to which it corresponds as effect to cause. The eye is opened more and more to a great continuity in existence.

But even if we were to imagine this ideal of science completely realized, absolutely nothing would thereby be decided with respect to the continuity of value. Existence's processes could be continuous without there being continuity as regards their value. The valuable could be a rare guest, to be found at a few stations in the great process of development, but vanished without trace at all other places. If one thinks that existence's inmost essence is exhausted by the content of experience being shaped according to science's fundamental propositions, there is no place for a faith. But such an opinion cannot be proved. The possibility stands open that the great causal connection which more and more discloses itself to science is frame or foundation for the unfolding of a valuable content, an unfolding that takes place precisely through the laws and forms that scientific inquiry has pointed out. The proposition of the persistence of value need say nothing other and nothing more than this.

72. If the proposition of the persistence of value thus stands as different from the scientific fundamental propositions (without therefore being incompatible with them), then in its relation to experience it presents a certain analogy to them. The scientific fundamental propositions cannot be strictly proved. They stand as fundamental hypotheses, as principles that guide our inquiry and search by indicating to us how we are to ask, and how we are to shape our problems. Indeed, the very fact that we ask at all—that we set up problems at all—is due to a more or less conscious acknowledgement of the scientific fundamental propositions. The causal principle, for example, has the great significance that by virtue of it we ask, in the face of every event, which other events form the presupposition of this event's occurrence. If the causal principle did not lie involuntarily at the foundation in our thinking, we should content ourselves with noting and describing everything that had happened—drawing up a catalogue of existence's changes. When the causal principle in science appears in particular as what we have called the principle of natural causes, this has the significance that we do not think we have understood an event before we have found its unavoidable connection with earlier events that are just as sure and indubitable experiences as the new event is. In a similar manner it stands also with special propositions, as for example the proposition of the conservation of energy. By virtue of this proposition the investigator of nature asks, at every new expression of energy, to which other kind of energy it forms an equivalent, and what quantum of this other kind corresponds to a definite quantum of the new kind. Our scientific fundamental propositions are hypotheses that are at the same time *anticipations*: we anticipate nature's course in our questions and conjectures, and our knowledge advances through the testing and confirmation (verification) of these

conjectures. One philosophical school (the aprioristic, idealistic) lays more weight on the anticipation; another (the empirical, realistic) lays more weight on the verification; but in themselves these two sides of our knowledge do not stand in conflict with one another.

As regards now the verification of the fundamental propositions, of the fundamental anticipations, it will never be able to become complete. It consists in this, that all new experiences show themselves on closer investigation to satisfy the expectations we cherish by virtue of those fundamental propositions. But so long as experience is continued, this investigation will not be able to be concluded. And this becomes of so much the more penetrating significance because the firm, causally determined connection between the changes is the last criterion we have for distinguishing between dream and reality. When we doubt the reality of something that shows itself to us, we test whether we can bring it into unavoidable connection with other things whose reality stands fast for us; if this shows itself impossible, we regard what showed itself to us as illusion or hallucination, unless doubt arises about those other things we regarded as real; in this last case we must test the other things by their connection with things about whose reality we have not (yet) reason to doubt—and so forth. Since the criterion of reality can constantly only be carried through approximately, the very concept of reality is properly an ideal concept. We operate so briskly with it, as with various other concepts, in spite of their unfinished character. Existence does not lie concluded before us—and who knows whether it is concluded at all? Perhaps it is in a constant becoming, so that it is no accident that new content of experience constantly wells forth. Thereby it will be understood that existence is always incommensurable with our knowledge, however great the advances this makes.

As it stands with the fundamental propositions for our understanding of existence, so it stands also with the principles that lie at the foundation of our ethical judgments. The ethical principles state the rules we must follow in our evaluation of human actions if we would remain in agreement with what is the inmost, the central thing in our nature. They are therefore altered when the central thing in us is altered, and their application and confirmation in experience always becomes imperfect, since the great connection in which human actions arise, and in which they intervene, is unsurveyable for us and is placed in constant development.—From an ethical point of view existence's unconcluded character acquires a quite distinctive significance. For if existence were in itself finished, there would be no place for and no ground for an ethics. Of ethical striving there can only be a question when the world's course is unconsummated, and when its continuation

goes in part through human willing and acting. One of the reasons why religion and ethics so easily come into conflict with one another lies precisely in the fact that religion is inclined to assume a finished, once and for all absolutely perfect principle for existence.

In analogy with the fundamental propositions of science and of ethics, the religious consciousness will be able to set up the fundamental proposition of the persistence of value as an anticipation—although the verification will be far more difficult and imperfect than in the theoretical and the ethical domains. The motive for this setting up will essentially be a practical, personal need that is called forth by experience of the relation between value and reality. The proposition will express the expectation that amid the changes of the times and the course of alterations a valuable kernel is preserved in existence, and this expectation will in turn give rise to a striving to find, in the new forms and phenomena in which existence appears, new garments for the old values. It is an expectation and a striving that need not let itself be bound by any dogmatic authority, just as little as it comes into conflict with any scientific presupposition or needs to lead to conflict with any scientific result.

In all domains life anticipates experience. Life begins with a surplus of strength. Life must begin with a great investment of strength in order that the resistance to its unfolding and assertion may be overcome. This holds for the spiritual life as well as for the purely physical. With this hangs together the involuntary anticipation, the bold formation of ideas, that is characteristic of the life of thought. We live in expectation before we live in memory; we look forward before we look back. We are born in faith and begin with confident anticipation. It is then experience's business, through confirmations and disappointments, to dam in and determine the original anticipations. When there is conflict between the ideas we have formed and experience, it may come either from our experience being too limited, or from our ideas being incorrect. The discovery of such a conflict can, in all domains, lead to great crises. What matters then is whether there is a spiritual elasticity that can either extend experience so that it fits the ideal anticipations, or transform the ideas so that they agree with the testimony of unfailing experience. That is life's great art.

The proposition of the persistence of value will often only be able to be held fast by the values themselves being altered, or by their appearing in other forms than before. Faith in the persistence of value can therefore only maintain itself on the presupposition of an uninterrupted spiritual work that is able to distinguish between kernel and shell, not merely so long as it is old, familiar fruits that existence offers, but also when it bears new fruits. It may happen that what was at first shell later becomes kernel, and

conversely.

But if experience here cannot lead further than to limitation and closer determination, can it not lead to a complete cessation of the need that leads to setting up the proposition of the persistence of value? Let us imagine that the need to find events' causes were always disappointed, the causal principle never receiving any confirmation whatever: would it not then at last fall away? All spiritual requirements stir only under certain conditions and fall away with these. Every personal need must struggle to persist, as all life on the whole must. This possibility cannot then be denied as regards the religious need. And the history of religion teaches that a faith properly dies only from lack of conditions of life, not because it is strictly theoretically disproved. As Auguste Comte has said: Apollo and Minerva have never been refuted. It is the whole soil on which the need to hold fast these figures of gods alone could thrive that has changed. The gods die from lack of nourishment, and the nourishment comes from the spirit's living need. But the experience of the history of religion has hitherto shown us only a falling away of special forms or objects of religious faith, not a drying up of the very living spring from which faith sprang.

Whether such a drying up of this spring will happen in a distant future cannot be known. For the present there is no reason to assume it. The religious crisis in which we are placed may be a process of transformation; it need not be a death-struggle.

73. As so often happens in similar cases, this crisis is prepared by changes that severally do not seem to be of significance in principle. It has in the course of the last centuries become clearer and clearer that religion's significance cannot consist in the scientific understanding of existence that it might be able to afford. Negatively this is grounded by the fact that science leads to understanding by other roads and in other forms than religion. Positively it is grounded by the growing psychological insight into religion's essence, which leads to emphasizing the elements of feeling and will as the essential thing in religion, while the significance of ideas is comparatively subordinate. The conclusion of this whole series of changes can only be the assumption of all religious ideas' symbolic or poetic character.

If now the need to hold fast the persistence of value maintains itself after the poetic character of all mythical and dogmatic ideas has been recognized, then continuity in human spiritual development can be preserved at a very essential point. It is not a philosophy that thereby comes to step into religion's place. It is a kind of faith that steps into the place of other kinds of faith. Faith can always only be an *object* for philosophy, not a *product* of philosophy, except in so far as philosophy can point out the psychological

possibility of a certain faith under certain spiritual conditions of life. The philosophy of religion investigates the epistemological, psychological, and ethical conditions to which every kind of faith is subject. But it can construct no faith; it can only describe, analyse, and evaluate the faith that life itself at different standpoints leads one to develop. The philosophy of religion is a comparative science; it investigates the standpoints and forms of faith in their relation to the spiritual conditions of life and in their struggle with these, just as comparative biology investigates organic beings in their relation to and their struggle with the material conditions of life. And it finds—so far as I can see—the possibility and the progressive development of a religious standpoint without myth, dogma, and cult, a fruit of personal experiences that procure expression in a poetry of life which shapes itself differently according to the individual's distinctive character. Even if images and symbols from the classical times of the positive religions are retained, this happens at such a standpoint with historical and psychological justification. In the first place, such reinterpretation as is here necessary is constantly undertaken within the positive religions. And in the second place, the great poetry that is often laid down in myths and dogmas is not the private property of the individual people, the individual church or sect, but belongs to humanity and stands at the disposal of everyone whose experience of life goes in the same or an analogous direction as the experience to which those images owe their first coming-into-being or shaping. But there are those in whom the image- and symbol-forming process takes place at first hand, whether its fruits can acquire significance for the individual alone or for several along with him.

74. The expression *positive religion*, which has often been used in what precedes, needs a closer explanation. It is probably to be understood on the analogy of the expression positive law. What is meant by it is then a religion that has been shaped in definite traditions, in common forms and customs, and it thus presupposes a community with fixed norms. Positive religion stands in opposition to the “natural” religion at which the single individual can arrive by the road of his own conviction, just as positive law stands in opposition to natural law, which is derived by reflection on the conditions of communal life and on the individual's relation to the community. The word positive then means what is laid down (*quod positum est*) in definite forms.

The positive religions that history shows us all have the distinctive feature that they have their centre of gravity in a cult, and that their content consists of myths, legends, and dogmas that are regarded as valid expressions of absolute truth. And it is a general feature of these myths and dogmas that personal beings (one or more) are regarded as the author of the world, or at least of the most remarkable things that happen in the

world. Purely historically regarded it would then be justified to take up this distinctive feature into the definition of positive religion. In my *Ethics* (ch. XXXII) I have also started from this historical definition. But the possibility cannot (as I have also remarked in the work cited) be dismissed that a religious community might be formed whose faith found a poetic, symbolic expression, without any dogmatic conclusion. There may very well develop a common symbolic cult without magical character and a common symbolic circle of images, or one may unite about common great experiences of life whose special shaping is left completely free to individuals, so that it depends on the individual personality's originality and productive capacity how far his symbols are to acquire significance in wider circles. It would be idle to attempt a closer construction of such a standpoint; if it comes, life produces it by its own roads, just as it has produced the old positive religions. The concept of positive religion would then acquire a greater extent (and thereby a smaller content) than one would give it on a purely historical consideration.

The positive religions that history knows can psychologically be conceived as concentrations, syntheses, in which human beings' ideas about existence have been worked together, interwoven with their deepest experiences of life. No proof can be given that the time of such spiritual concentrations is past, even if we for the present live in the time of criticism and analysis. And neither can any proof be given that such concentrations must necessarily have the mythological or dogmatic character that the hitherto known positive religions have had. Spiritual freedom and strength are needed to live on the conviction that our highest ideas can only be similitudes. Conditions have hitherto been less favourable for the development of this capacity; but who dares set a limit to the freedom and strength that will be able to develop in the human race?—

It appears to me therefore unjustified to narrow the concept of positive religion in such a way that the mythical and dogmatic personifications come to stand as a necessary appurtenance. And it would be especially unjustified if our earlier psychological investigation, which led to acknowledging the derived significance of ideas in the religious domain, is correct. Besides, "natural" religion has as a rule also had that appurtenance. But still more unjustified would it be if one wished to regard such personifications as necessary constituents of all religion, whether it appears as "positive" or not. One will not be able to dismiss the question: what value is there in the personal beings one believes in existing, and in one's believing in them? And then the idea of the persistence of value will show itself as the fundamental religious idea, the one that also first gives the ideas of the personal gods a real content and a real significance. And this idea will be able to

preserve its significance even if all personifications acquire only symbolic significance, and even if other symbols could be found than those drawn from human life and the human figure.⁸⁵ There will then be preserved a continuity in human spiritual life, even where this leaves the positively religious standpoint. Whether the standpoint reached when positive religion is left is really a higher one is a matter by itself. It does not become a higher one without more ado because myths, legends, and dogmas are pushed aside. As I have once said in another place: *not* to believe something is about the least that can be said about a human being. The negative—giving up a standpoint—says nothing about the value of the new standpoint, or about whether a new standpoint is reached at all. The standard for “lower” and “higher” at the transition from positive religion to a free religious standpoint must be the same as is applied within the series of religions when the one religion is said to be higher than another. In the ethical philosophy of religion we shall come back to this point.

As I have several times remarked, I do not lay great weight on the name religion. The danger in using the word religion in a more comprehensive sense might be that dishonest accommodation would thereby be favoured. But on the other hand religious life in the present often assumes—and not least in such circles as think they have an exclusive right to be called religious—forms of such a character that it truly does not require great resignation to renounce the use of the name religion.

But however one may name a standpoint that holds fast the faith in the persistence of value without clothing it in dogmatic form, it is a task for the philosophy of religion to investigate more closely how far such a standpoint is possible, and what difficulties it has to struggle with.

75. All evaluation takes place—like all understanding and explanation—from the human standpoint in existence and is determined by the human conditions of life. But this standpoint and these conditions are limited, and their inner connection with the rest of existence cannot be surveyed by us. Only if we imagined humanity and its globe as the central thing in existence would this difficulty not exist; but the Copernican conception of the world has extended the horizon and thereby made the problem of the persistence of value far more complicated than before. The unsurveyable connection into which the history of our highest values is woven makes it not merely impossible to give an objective grounding of the proposition of the persistence of value, but also makes it impossible to give the faith in the persistence of value a definite, let alone a vivid form. Beyond the general thought that what has real value stands in so intimate a relation to the forces that stir in existence that it will in one form or another continue to persist,

we cannot get.—This is a difficulty that is common to all religion. The positive religions nevertheless as a rule start from the assumption that existence is limited, and none of them has given any solution of the doubts that arise when the limitation falls away.

The extension of the horizon must at any rate lead to the conviction that our concepts of value cannot be conclusive. A highest value can as little be pointed out as a first cause. We are often compelled to halt at causes for which we cannot in turn find causes, and thus we are also compelled in our evaluation to halt at values that for us are the highest, and which must therefore be those that directly or indirectly lie at the foundation of all other values we can find. But if in our faith we venture to ascribe significance to the concept of value beyond human existence—which is only possible by the road of analogy⁸⁶—then we must also familiarize ourselves with the thought that *our* highest values can themselves only be elements in a still more comprehensive order of things, a kingdom of values whose fundamental laws and whose extent we can as little represent to ourselves as we can represent to ourselves a comprehensive order of nature of which the conformity to natural law that our science discloses to us should be only a fragment. Faith in the persistence of value therefore presupposes a bold resignation; only thereby can this faith hold itself up even there where our capacity to evaluate has reached its limit, because our experience has reached its limit.

But even if we do not go beyond the purely human domain, it is easy to see that we cannot form definite and vivid ideas of value's future forms. There take place, namely, as a matter of experience, constant displacements of value, as has already been mentioned in an earlier connection. What at first has value only as a means can later acquire value as an end, and what at first has value as an end can later show itself to be an introduction and preparation for new, hitherto unknown and more comprehensive values. There can thus take place subjective displacements of value, in that the motive of evaluation is altered, and objective displacements of value, in that wholly new values come into being. And such displacements are the only forms in which experience establishes a persistence of values. They are the real content of human history. But they show then at the same time at once that it is not the individual, definite value that persists. In order that value may persist, it must be altered, just as the germ must be altered in order to become a plant. There holds in the domain of values an analogy to what anatomy calls epigenesis, in contrast to preformation: just as during growth such thoroughgoing changes take place that the germ is not merely a plant or an animal on a reduced scale, so neither can we without more ado find the later values preformed in the earlier ones. Only experience can show what new forms the values will assume, and this experience extends

far beyond what single individuals and generations will be able to survey.—Another scientific analogy also lies near. Just as little as one can derive from the general thought of the conservation of energy the special conversions of energy that actually take place, just as little can we derive from the idea of the persistence of value what new forms the values will be clothed in. In both places it is experience that alone can instruct us about the new forms' character, and experience is never concluded.

If we were not sufficiently warned beforehand against a dogmatic formulation of the proposition of the persistence of value, the law of displacement will contain an emphatic warning. It is not the definite empirical values in whose persistence we can believe.

We must even go a step further. It follows from the psychological law of relation, according to which every feeling is determined in its character (quality and degree of strength) by a certain opposition to the preceding and simultaneous states and elements, that every value is altered when the relations are altered, and that an unchangeable value would be no value. When the background of the feeling is altered, the feeling too must be altered; and when the background is uniform and unchangeable, the feeling will be weakened and at last fall away. Value can only persist through alterations and conversions. This hangs together with the reality of the temporal relation and of differences generally. Only by a purely mystical road—a road that consistently ends in ecstasy—will one be able (sometimes) to attain to disregarding this order of things. It will nevertheless easily be seen that the law of relation entails that the alterations and differences themselves acquire their great value when they are conditions of value's arising. The religions have generally been inclined to overlook this, even when they acknowledged the significance of the temporal relation. For the sources and conditions of value which precisely changeability and differences contain, they have had but slight eye. With a certain shyness they have looked away from this, and only by a flight from this so essential side of reality have they thought to be able to assert the persistence of the valuable. It is a point where there are still significant experiences to be made and new spiritual lands to be discovered.

The confusion of individual definite values with eternal values is irreligious. But it is an irreligiousness of which most religions make themselves guilty. Their religious postulate then acquires the form: "If the kind and form of worth that I know does not persist, then I do not care about the persistence of value—or rather, then I do not acknowledge that what persists is or has value." It is an egoistic form of religiosity, which is far from rare. Faith in personal immortality in particular is often grounded in this way. As if there could be no meaning in existence even if I were not to be immortal! Of

the individual personality's relation to the great kingdom of values no clear idea can be formed, and neither affirmation nor denial can here be grounded. The special idea that the individual forms for himself on this question will always be assignable to the domain of poetry and symbolism as soon as it goes beyond the general thought that what has real value will persist in one form or another. Such a poetic clothing may (whether it is a positive or a negative decision of the question of personal immortality that puts on this clothing) have its great significance and be indispensable; but the clothes do not make the man, even if the man cannot do without clothes. Towards the life after death the evangelical admonition "Take no thought for the morrow!" is to be applied with greater right than towards our relation to the next day within earthly life. Whether it is precisely the forms of value that we know that persist, experience will show.

76. The preceding consideration has moved within the concept of value. But the question cannot be held back whether the whole difference we make, and must make, between value and reality holds beyond the human standpoint—whether it is not precisely a purely human difference. This difference might indeed hang together with the fact that neither our concept of value nor our concept of reality is concluded and concludable. Our concept of value is empirical, and our concept of reality is ideal. And we can derive neither reality from value nor value from reality. None of the ways in which dogmatics and speculation have tried to undertake such a derivation can stand a closer test. Our thought is then led to the possibility of a principle from which at once value's arising and persistence and reality's connection might spring. But it is a thought that cannot be carried through in scientific form.

Meanwhile the mere possibility of value's persistence beyond the domain of human life seems to presuppose the constant persistence of life of the soul (whether this in turn entails the persistence of the individual ensouled individuals or not). For value presupposes a relation to life of the soul. If we knew a form of existence in which the difference between value and reality fell away, there would not lie so great a problem in this; but when we hold to our experience, we must see how the matter stands when there is a difference between value and reality, and when within reality there is a difference between spirit (life of the soul) and matter.

In this respect it is of importance that it is not possible to derive the spiritual from the material. The criticism of materialism in its different forms has sufficiently established this. Life of the soul stands as a distinctive, irreducible side of existence, however one may think of its relation to other sides of existence. In the common ground, inaccessible to us, from which both the spiritual and the material spring (since the latter can as little

be derived from the former as the former from the latter), there may be a possibility of a continuity beyond the limited extent in which our experience shows us life of the soul in the world, even if here too the special forms in which this continuity appears cannot be represented by us. The main thing is that life of the soul stands as an independent element in existence, not as a superfluous addition or without inner connection with existence's other elements.—Yet even a materialistic conception of the world could very well hold fast a faith in the persistence of value, namely if it assumed that matter always contained conditions for the arising of a life of the soul within which life's earlier course of development could be continued.

But neither must we at this point forget our experience's limitation. We have no guarantee that existence does not have other sides or attributes than the two—the spiritual and the material—which are the only ones our experience presents. Neither an idealistic nor a materialistic conception of the world can therefore be fully carried through. As regards the problem of value, that possibility of the incompleteness of our knowledge of existence's fundamental forms (attributes) entails that the horizon is extended, in so far as more roads and ways become possible for the displacements of values and for their persistence during the displacements than is the case when one starts from the assumption that the opposition between the spiritual and the material is contradictory, so that there is a forced choice between them. Such an extended horizon warns both against narrow-minded doubt and against narrow-minded dogmas.

Let me illuminate this point by the help of an analogy. When sulphur changes its state, passes from solid to liquid and thence again to gaseous state, it also changes colour. But the colour cannot be explained by the state, any more than conversely. If we now knew nothing else about sulphur than its states and colours, the problem of the inner connection between state and colour would be insoluble. But now we also know sulphur's different temperature and know that it is the heating to which both the changes of state and the changes of colour are due. It is such a third thing that we, as regards existence as a whole, do not know. Only if we knew such a thing would the problems of spiritual life, and especially the problem of value, be able to find their solution for us. As it is, the fate of values, as well as of life of the soul generally, stands for us in a fragmentary form which does not make a faith in the persistence of value impossible, but brings it about that it cannot become anything other than a faith.

77. When there is talk of the scientific conception of the world, one often lays too great weight on the general laws of nature, which are to be sure also what strikes the eye most when one compares the modern picture of the world with the old. But the laws

are nevertheless properly abstractions. They denote the forms and rules according to which movement and development in existence take place. But the essential thing is nevertheless that movement and development, both in the spiritual and in the material domain, always have a certain definite direction and thereby a certain definite individual character. Existence is like a great individuality; it stands for us as one of countless possibilities; we must take it as we take the individual human being, who is always more than an example of a general law. An individuality arises through an interplay of laws; it is (to use H. C. Ørsted's word) a *togetherfoldedness* (in contrast both to "singlefoldedness" and to manifoldness), which we must take as experience gives it. However far the boldest hypotheses go back, we constantly find certain definite forces operating in certain definite directions. Even if one could derive all later forces and directions from these—for us—original ones, the original forces and directions nevertheless stand for us as mere facts that must be taken as facts, just as the original dispositions with which a human life begins must be taken as factually given in their individual determinateness. Existence is a *unicum*, and if we have a right to compare it with a drama, then it is a drama with a definite, special exposition and course of scenes, which must be taken as they once for all are.

The investigator of nature and of history seeks to find his bearings in this drama's course. But since only a single scene, perhaps even only a single speech, of this great drama falls within our experience, we cannot construct the whole drama for ourselves. And if we attempted it, the drama we produced would nevertheless in turn show itself to be only a part of a still greater drama. Every mythology, every dogmatics, and every metaphysics leaves—however it may go with the inner coherence and consistency of their constructions—always unanswered questions, partly with respect to what lies before the beginning of the drama they depict, partly with respect to what follows after its close. Neither the foundation nor the consequences are exhausted.

A human individuality too is inexhaustible in its distinctiveness. It is impossible for us to find and connect all its elements so that the "togetherfoldedness" comes forth in its special character. But still more does this hold with respect to existence as a whole, where we do not even, as with a limited individuality, have the reciprocal action with a surrounding world to learn from. The problem of existence acquires its sharp sting precisely from the fact that existence, when we try to conceive it as a whole, must have a special, individual character, and that the individuality we try to ascribe to it cannot stand as conditioned by the relation to anything different from it, as is otherwise the case with all individual forms of existence.

For our general theoretical and practical fundamental propositions this acquires its great significance. If they were to be able to be completely established as holding, existence would have to stand for us as an individual whole whose inner law those fundamental propositions were. Thus the causal principle would only be able to be strictly proved if all phenomena could be referred to their definite place within a great whole; the same holds of the proposition of the conservation of energy, which can only be proved for concluded and isolated wholes. The unprovability of the fundamental propositions hangs together with existence's—for us and perhaps in itself—unconcluded character. The proposition of the persistence of value shares the fate of the other fundamental propositions; only if we could grasp existence in its whole "togetherfoldedness" would it be able to become clear what validity it has. And in every attempt to assert it, it must not be forgotten that every such general proposition means only an incision into or a glimpse of reality from a single side, not an exhaustive determination. Both existence's individual character and its infinity here constantly set us limits.

78. The most serious difficulty for holding fast the religious fundamental proposition arises rather from existence's presenting too many possibilities than from its offering too few. There takes place in existence a constant conflict and struggle between elements and individuals. Countless germs are cast out, but only few take root and carry life and development further. And where development is furthered, it happens under mutual inhibition, through crowding out and pushing aside. Development takes place from a mass of different starting points, and the tendencies of development that these starting points possess by no means stand from the first in harmonious relation to one another. Most frequently a result is reached at one point only through nothing's being reached at other points. Resistance and hindrance can to be sure have their great worth by being releasing forces which free an energy that would otherwise slumber; but it is very far from being the case that the resistance and the hindrance that experience shows us are limited to this.

It is all development's sporadic character that causes the running costs in existence to seem greater than the yield. Existence shows itself prodigal and therefore ruthless. And the prodigality effects, so at least it seems, a loss of value.

The problem of the disharmonious in existence leads back to the problem of unity and multiplicity. It has shown itself impossible to derive multiplicity from unity, and even if it were possible, the problem of disharmony would thereby appear only so much the more glaringly: for if multiplicity—the many sporadic starting points—had really sprung from a principle of unity, how would it then be possible to explain that there

is not always a harmonious, but often a disharmonious relation between the different tendencies of development in the manifold elements and individuals? There might then well be conflicts between them, but not greater than the release of energy required.⁸⁷

It is of no use here to refer to the myth of a fall; that is only to put several riddles in place of the one. For how is a fall possible when every element and every individual in existence has originally sprung from a harmonious principle? And a fall explains at most the disharmony within the human world, not the other disharmonies in existence.

If one will say that the possibility of a fall had to be there if the human being was to be a personality, since such a one develops only through choice between possibilities, then one comes into a serious self-contradiction when one ascribes personality to the divinity and yet will not concede the possibility of a fall in its case. The very possibility of a fall is moreover already the expression of a disharmony: if I have the possibility of committing a piece of villainy tomorrow, then I *am* already a villain today. If one concedes an original possibility of a fall as posited at the creation, then one has also conceded that the disharmony was produced by the creation itself, which indeed from another point of view (cf. §69) must consistently stand as a diminution of value.

No scholasticism can avert this consequence.

There is a side of the matter that is as a rule overlooked in the discussion of this problem. One is inclined to start from the assumption that it is existence's totality, the principle of the whole, that has "right" on its side, and that the individual element or individual whose tendency of development leads to a breach of this totality has the "wrong." But it is a great abstraction when one in this way places the principle of the whole in opposition to the individual elements or individuals. The force that stirs in each of these is after all a part of the whole's force, and the laws that work in a "togetherfolded" manner in the individual being are individualized interplays of existence's general laws. Every single element of existence has so far the same "right" as the whole, and it is not rebellious because it follows its own law, its own tendency of development. It is an oriental line of thought that makes one inclined in advance to find the ground of disharmony in the elements and not also in the principle of the whole. It was against this line of thought that Goethe reacted in the magnificent poem "Prometheus": it was precisely the inner germ of divinity in the individual finite being that he wished to assert in opposition to the customary external concept of God. Only from a dualistic religious standpoint could this poem be regarded as irreligious. The profound religious conception according to which God himself suffers has (however it may arrange the matter for itself mythologically or dogmatically) in reality given dualism its death-blow, without

itself knowing or willing it.—But the settling of the whole account naturally becomes so much the more difficult when regard must be had not merely to the possibility of a total harmony that might arise through the interplay of the finite harmonies and disharmonies, but also to those regions in existence where disharmony prevails, and where one cannot hear how it fades into an all-embracing harmony. Such regions are after all independent parts of existence and cannot be dismissed with the plea that they represent only subordinate passages in the great world-concert. Only an oriental “superman” (of which the supermen constructed in the most recent times are impotent plagiarisms) could sit in his heaven and find harmony in his existence under these conditions. Here lies the great justification and the beneficial effect of Voltaire’s and Schopenhauer’s protests.

When existence, already from a purely theoretical and intellectual standpoint that asks only about scientific understanding, can come to stand as irrational or unfinished, this holds no less from the standpoint of evaluation. It is confirmed here too that religion does not solve the riddles that science cannot solve. The advantage religion perhaps has here over science is that it can more easily lead thought away from the insoluble riddles, so that their sting is less felt; this is an advantage where there is to be willing and acting—where the struggle is to be taken up and courage is to be kept up.— In order to escape the sting that is in the problem we here stand at, one must—to use an image of Bayle—prevent thought from seeing its own shadow, just as Bucephalus could only be steered when it was not frightened by its own shadow on the ground. Consciousness must be occupied with an ideal content, concentrated on a shining thought, in order not to be checked in its striving by the idea of existence’s dark and disharmonious sides: this is a condition for the very struggle against the dark and disharmonious being able to be carried on. But to look away from the problems is not to solve them. And it is then most consistent to concede the insolubility, especially when the case is such that life can be led greatly and beautifully even if one does not get a solution to all riddles. It is not existence’s whole factual constitution that properly concerns us as striving beings, but the conditions for continued development that it presents. Naturally the strength of the resistance and the degree of the disharmony will determine the character of our experience concerning the relation between value and reality. But the proposition of the persistence of value is in itself independent of how little or how much value there is in existence; it says only that the value that is there persists. Only if one lets reality spring from value does the problem’s sting become unbearable. If there is a possibility of asserting and perhaps increasing the value that once for all is found in existence, then

the religious axiom can be upheld.

There are two thoughts that will always be of penetrating significance for our position towards the problem that the disharmonies in the world cause.

In the first place our experience is limited in relation to unsurveyable existence, and it must then constantly be tested whether an extension of experience might not entail a different result. In purely theoretical problems already this thought plays an essential role. When our experience by strict inference leads to self-contradiction, we do not therefore give up the assumption of the validity of the logical principles, but test whether the ground of the self-contradiction did not lie in our experience's being too limited. Often it then shows itself that the contradiction falls away when we can extend experience. Thus objections to the persistence of value too will often fall away when we extend our horizon through the discovery or production of values there where hitherto there seemed to be no possibility of them. It was the most important and just about the only valid thought in Leibniz's well-known attempt to assert an optimistic world-view, that by reason of the idea of existence's infinity we are more favourably placed towards the problem of the disharmonies than the thinkers of antiquity (Plotinus, Augustine).

In the second place life is constantly rejuvenated. Every year has its spring, every generation its youth. New germs therefore constantly come forth, and there is no trace of the world's having grown old. A new section of existence's history constantly begins, in relation to which the earlier series of experiences on which we build our judgments about reality's value is only a prehistory; the whole earlier drama now becomes only an exposition to a greater drama. Existence is not merely unsurveyable, but inexhaustible.

A faith in the persistence of value is therefore in spite of everything psychologically possible. Whether it also really is found, and in what form and what extent, experience must show.

79. To a great extent the living feeling of existence's disharmonies (in us and outside us) rests on contrast-effect. It is the ideal that judges. The opposition between reality and the great ends we can set ourselves conditions the disparaging judgments that are passed on reality as it is. The young person who for the first time meets reality's sluggish and defiant resistance, without being able to acknowledge the value that even such resistance can have, asks in astonishment: is this what it is to exist? And the greater the demands one comes with, not on one's own behalf alone but on behalf of the highest one knows, the greater the darkness one discovers round about one. One might very easily escape discovering the disharmonies if one limited and dulled one's sense for harmony and ideality. Much pain is avoided by him who does not attach his desire to great things and

to comprehensive circles of interests.

It belongs then to the human being's nobility that he can grieve and suffer. It is a sign of what oppositions the human being can contain. It testifies to the deep, powerful unity in human nature. Pain is in itself a symptom of dissolution, and only that can be dissolved which has unity in its being; pain is the feeling that this unity is threatened. And when spiritual life can now be held together and be led in concentrated form in spite of the pain, it shows itself clearly what energy it possesses.

The very fact that the disharmony is felt is then a sign that there are values in existence. Pessimism has an optimistic element as its background. The contrast-effect can to be sure become so strong that one wholly loses the sense for the background's value; but that will only happen when one sinks away into purely passive states.

The last position that can be taken up towards the problem we have here occupied ourselves with lies on the boundary between religion and ethics. Value is not absolutely dependent on its own persistence. What we value as beautiful and good can keep its value whatever its fate may be, and whatever shadows may fall on its way. A thought does not necessarily become less true, a feeling less pure and noble, because they must pay their tribute to time. Value is not always measured by the clock. And if it should be the lot of the good and the beautiful to perish, would they therefore be less good and beautiful? The richer in content life is, the more we forget time. In the very work of finding and producing values there lies a faith in these values' persistence, in so far as this work presupposes the possibility that the values can be released and find their place in existence, whatever and however great this may be. If faith in the persistence of value is the kernel of all religion, then in a standpoint that is wholly absorbed in finding and producing values there is a hidden religion present. One can *be* religious, be in a state of religion, without *having* a religion; and conversely the religion one only *has* stands in a very loose relation to the personality. If one will define God as the principle of the persistence of value in existence, then everyone who (however it may stand with his catechism) works to assert value in existence is a "child of God."

80. It is the task of the humanities to understand and to evaluate spiritual phenomena, not by holding to their fully developed form alone, but by seeking back to the forces from which they proceed, and thereupon investigating whether conditions are present for these forces to be able to continue working under new conditions and in new forms. Just as in outer nature there is an inner connection amid the change of the outer forms, so it will also show itself in the spiritual domain, the more unprejudicedly we immerse ourselves in it. If the preceding investigation has led to a correct result, ideas in the

religious domain belong to the forms that change, not to the kernel itself, although they naturally, so long as they correspond to the whole spiritual stage of life, exercise a great influence on the kernel's condition. Religious life presents, according to the result I have reached, a greater continuity than the religious ideas. As an attempt at understanding existence, at solving the riddles of the world, religion has lost the battle. But it lives in human feeling and need, and from this it will always anew be able to set the will in motion for the finding out and producing of values, just as with the imagination's help it will be able to form images and symbols in which the highest poetry of life is expressed.

But the problem of the persistence of value here returns again in a more special form. Will there not be a loss of value bound up with the transition from dogma to symbol? Spiritual life must after all be able to have a quite different closedness and concentration when the highest ideas it knows—or rather: the ideas of the highest that it knows—appear under vivid forms in whose reality and validity there is unconditional belief, and which can at the same time be common to all individuals, or at least to wide circles. The many reservations and critical misgivings that lead over from dogmatism's standpoint to that of the poetry of life seem as though they must weaken the concentration that life cannot do without. So essential an alteration in the significance of ideas cannot fail to intervene deeply in the life of feeling and will.

There is much in modern spiritual development that testifies to the justification of this question. Not for nothing has the figure of Hamlet become a type in literature right up to the most recent time, even if the dimensions have gradually become rather small, and even if the painful process of dissolution in which the Shakespearean hero is placed on the boundary between instinct and reflection has gradually given place to a self-satisfied decadence that regards the foam as the most valuable product of the surge. The foam has its beauty, but true culture is not merely foam but wave, not merely effect but cause.

The first remark that must be made here is that if there is here a dissolution, it begins already within positive religion itself as soon as its classical times are past. Within the Church already, religious life has lost its unity. Successively one has had to concede that religion does not teach us astronomy, physics, natural history. Biblical criticism (or, by a more correct name, the literary history of the biblical writings) leads ever more clearly to seeing that the Bible does not teach us history either. And in practice it is conceded—for example by the theological reinterpretations of the Sermon on the Mount's clear commandments—that it does not teach us ethics either. The serpent has already here come into paradise. The split is proclaimed, and the problem is set for everyone who will

think. Religion, which in its classical times was everything, now tends towards becoming the last consolation. In its classical form it can now—by those who see clearly⁸⁸—only be held fast by a convulsive exertion which shows that concentration upon it is not so natural as formerly.—The Church will have to go through a course in the use of symbolic ideas if it does not succeed in defeating modern biblical literary history. The figures of the patriarchs will pass over from history to myth or legend, and the task will become to hold fast their religious significance in this new form. They are small lessons that the Church takes on at a time. It was two hundred years in accepting natural science's independence. Time will show how long it will be before it accepts the independence of scientific historical inquiry. And after that comes the turn of psychology and ethics.

Immediate security is abolished as soon as independent seeking comes to play an essential role. Protestantism already denotes so far—in its beginning—a dissolution; later it has been able to acquire a factual security. Only where religion encloses the human being on all sides as an objective power that does not depend on the human being's conviction, only there is there full security. Where self-activity is clearly traced, and where one's own choice expressly makes itself felt, full security cannot be attained. There is therefore something justified in the view that religion is something one cannot oneself acquire or produce. The Russian peasant finds it in order that his Tartar fellow-townsmen have a different religion from himself, but he takes offence at the sectarians within his own religion, and the motivation is this: "The Tartar peasants have got their religion from God, just as they have got the colour of their skin from him; but the Molokans (the Russian Protestants), they are Russians who have themselves thought up their faith."⁸⁹

—It is easier for human beings to find God in fixed, transmitted arrangements than in the inner seeking and yearning that can lead out beyond the outer historical connection, and in which the individual personality seems, to an external way of regarding it, to be quite left to itself.

A self-acquired view of life does not so easily acquire the firmness that a transmitted faith can have, in which the most important work has long since been done, and in which centuries' accumulated experiences of life are laid down in images whose execution and application have been accommodated to the generations' spiritual needs. With becoming and new formations there follow unrest and oscillation on account of the new forms' unfinishedness and untestedness. Only gradually can inward absorption in the new spiritual conditions remedy the dizziness that easily follows on departure from the narrow but secure forms in which life was formerly led.

In many people—by one of those displacements that play so great a role in the life of

the soul—criticism and negation become the main thing, not merely a means of liberation. The nutcracker becomes more important to them than the kernel it helps to get out. An ironic, blasé attitude becomes the consequence and is perhaps regarded as a sign of the most advanced standpoint. It is not from such a form—one of philistinism's many forms—that a transition to a new stage of life becomes possible. Development has there run aground, and the really new must come from a wholly different quarter. But then neither is it of any use to cling to the old forms when life is departing from them. One then becomes homeless in the new world that is being built up round about. From fear of becoming a Hamlet one becomes a Don Quixote.

81. There is no lack of models of an art of life and of thought which through the purgatory of the problems is able to press forward to the free human being's standpoint and realize this in harmonious conduct of life. Spinoza and Goethe, Fichte and Stuart Mill are such models, and there is no reason to believe that their number should not increase. Even in spirits who were not able to reach such an energetic harmony there may be found references and directions to a new ideal of personality in the direction in which those older models already point. Both from Carlyle, Eugen Dühring, and Friedrich Nietzsche there is much to learn. Even where one's own capacity does not suffice on account of unfavourable inner and outer conditions, the need can stir and give its testimony to life's direction.

There is no reason to doubt that new forms of harmonious concentration will be able to be reached when the after-effects and side-effects of dogmatic narrowness and critical blaséness have disappeared. The imagination, which formerly unfolded so vigorously within the mythical and dogmatic frames of the positive religions, will be able with freedom to create its own forms when it is once again pressingly experienced what a wonderful thing life is—what oppositions it contains, and what struggle it demands.

The great models from the past are not lost because their tracks can no longer guide us on our ways. It is once for all so, that what was able wholly to fill an earlier generation's life becomes for later generations only an element in a new whole; but it is precisely one of the most important forms by which the persistence of value becomes possible, that what was first a whole later becomes an element. In this way the Christian view of life has made use of Jewish, oriental, and Hellenic spiritual life, and thus a new view of life will make use of Christianity. The bond of unity for the new view is not finished; but why not hope that it is being woven in silence? Every serious striving can make its contribution to it.

3.5 The Principle of Personality

3.5.1 The Significance and Justification of the Principle of Personality

*La seule chose universelle doit être l'entière liberté
donnée aux individus de se représenter à leur manière
l'éternel énigme.*

GUYAU.

*(The only universal thing must be the entire freedom given to
individuals to represent the eternal enigma in their own way.)*

82. On the boundary between the psychological and the ethical part of the philosophy of religion lies—as regards grounding and significance—the principle of personality, by which we here in the philosophy of religion understand the fundamental proposition of the justification and value of personal differences in the religious domain. The principle of personality has also its great ethical and legal significance, and there is a certain analogy in its grounding and significance in the different places. In “*Personlighetsprincipen i filosofin*” (Stockholm 1912) I have sought to point out its application in the different domains. Its necessity in the religious domain springs partly from presuppositions that also find application in ethics, partly from presuppositions that are distinctive of religion.

A personal being ought never to be treated merely as a means, but must always at the same time, and first and foremost, be regarded as an end. This has its ground in the fact that personal beings within our experience stand as existence's centres of value, that is to say, as the living mid-points where value can be felt and acknowledged. It is personality that, in the world of our experience, gives everything else value. An inhibition of a centre of value must necessarily entail a diminution of value. Therefore every inhibition—every compulsion and suffering—can only have justification as an educative means, a means whose time must one day be past. All authority inhibits, compels, or pains. Therefore authority can always only be a means, and the principle of authority must be subordinated to the principle of personality, just as mediate value must always be subordinated to immediate. The burden of proof must always rest on him who would inhibit, limit, compel, and pain.⁹⁰ Authority draws its justification from being a condition of the full carrying through of the principle of personality; but personality does not draw its justification from any authority. Positive religion, as it has hitherto appeared, always has a greater or lesser tendency to make authority absolute.

In Catholicism especially, the principle of authority appears with full consistency as an absolute principle. Authority here sets its own limits, decides what belongs directly or indirectly under religion and what does not—establishes, for example, that the proofs of God's existence are scientifically valid. Complete intellectual submission to the Church is demanded, and it is a breach with the Church when one attempts to instruct it instead of letting oneself be instructed by it. There arises here an irreconcilable conflict between the principle of authority and the principle of personality.

An inhibition is exercised when the individual personality does not come to work according to its full distinctiveness. Where religious faith is predominantly due to tradition, imitation, or habit, there will easily be forces and elements in the individual's nature that do not come to work along with the rest. Only where he self-actively appropriates and develops his religious conviction can he be present in it with his whole nature. The ideal must therefore be the greatest possible self-activity, and all tradition and authority ought only to be awakening, guiding, and educative. All more deeply penetrating religious tendencies have acknowledged this principle in greater or lesser extent. It is the principle of inwardization. A misapprehension of it violates the very principle of the persistence of value and is therefore irreligious. The greatest possible scope must be demanded for individual differences in the religious domain. It is uniformity and schematism, not differences and distinctive features, whose justification is to be established.

In this grounding, philosophy of religion and ethics meet. But there is also a grounding that is special to the philosophy of religion, and that builds on the religious-psychological investigation undertaken in what precedes.

Individual personalities are not merely centres of value, but centres of experience. It is in them that the relation between value and reality is experienced, and it is such experience that forms the foundation of all religion. It is then of the greatest importance that this experience become as comprehensive and unprejudiced as possible. But it can only become so when individuals are given the right to work with all their capacities and with all sides of their being. There are many values, and reality is unsurveyable, not merely in extent, but in the manifoldness of its qualitative relations. Each individual is, within the world of values as well as within the world of reality, placed differently from others. He must take his section, seize his nuance, and the more he is himself, the more he comes to make experiences that no one else can make. The art of life must therefore be one-sided, just as Julius Lange has shown that pictorial art must be. "A work of art," says Lange,⁹¹ "cannot convey the all-sided conception of the human figure; only

history, through its whole course in all its stages, achieves that. Art is precisely the way of seeing that is determined by the warm relation of feeling to the object and consistently carried through, and is therefore by its nature one-sided.... The individual artist and the individual work of art can never get further than to say something definite about their object according to the subject's relation to it; the warmer, fresher, and more finely to the point, the better." The same grounding that holds for pictorial art holds also for the art of life. All art rests on the principle of personal truth, and personal truth is present only where the individual's whole distinctiveness stamps the work, whether the work is an outer picture, or is the shaping of one's own life of feeling and will, the work of art that every human being is called to produce. Afterwards the comparing and ordering thought can set to work, draw up its catalogues, undertake its reductions and combinations, set up its types and its formulas. But this is a work of the second rank. All dogmatics and all criticism are in the religious domain merely secondary. When a definite religious idea is fixed, it can only be in order to obtain form, expression, explanation for the immediate experience, and here it can always be asked with what right precisely this idea is laid down, and with what right it stands as other and more than as the expression of the individual's experience; criticism and dogmatics can here at once come into conflict. Only by virtue of the absolute principle of authority would certain forms of ideas be able to be declared universally valid and necessary expressions of all religious experience.

Religious-psychologically regarded, Schleiermacher hit the nail on the head when he said: "Immediately, everything in religion is true; for how else should it have come into being? But immediate is only that which has not yet passed through the concept, but has grown forth purely in feeling."⁹²

Dogmatics is the index to life's book, not the book itself.

It is a Nemesis that very often strikes religion, that it thinks it is fighting for the life where it is only fighting for the index.

And criticism has often imitated it in this, by thinking that it has done away with religion when it has established the index's untenability. No index can step into the book's place, and only in the book itself, not in any index whatever, do all the nuances and distinctive features come forth in their natural truth.

83. Historically we also find a growing acknowledgement of the principle of personality in the religious domain.

The penal laws withdraw more and more from this domain. Religious crimes play a smaller role in Greek and Roman legislation than in Jewish law, and likewise a smaller role in the Christian era than in Greco-Roman antiquity, and in modern times than in

the Middle Ages. According to the ancient and the medieval conception, the domains of Church and State wholly or partly coincided, and he who separated himself from the Church became an enemy of the State. The legal and ethical acknowledgement of the principle of personality has exercised its influence on religion; but this would hardly have been possible if within religion itself a development had not taken place in the direction of inwardness and personal truth. Such a development can be traced in Indian religion by comparison between Brahmanism and Buddhism, in the development of Greek religiosity from the time of Aeschylus and Socrates, within Christianity by comparison between the Catholic world and the Protestant. In the most recent times there is here especially to be noted the ever more frequent reference to the significance of the great personalities as founders and models. The model steps more and more into the dogma's place. And a model one follows best by oneself becoming a personality in one's own way, as the model was one in his.

3.5.2 Buddha and Jesus

84. It serves for the illumination and confirmation of the principle of personality that at the source of the two highest popular religions there stand two great personalities, each with its own distinctive character. Buddha and Jesus divide the world between them. An attempt at a psychological characterization of them will then in this connection be natural, however difficult it may be.

The difficulty rests especially on two circumstances.—In the first place, myth, legend, and dogma early took possession of these figures. The very strong light that went out from their personalities overwhelmed their contemporaries and immediate posterity and excluded a purely objective historical account of them. It has gone with them as with the angel who in Dante's "Purgatory" shows the way upward, and who "is hidden by the radiance he himself spreads."—In the second place, antiquity did not have the interest, which in the most recent times has come forward so strongly, in following a personality's development step by step from its childhood to its full maturity. The figures of antiquity stand before us fully finished, without our learning what stages and what crises they have gone through to reach the fixed form in which they appear to us.

I have in an earlier place (§34) given a characterization of Buddhism and Christianity. But it will not be mere repetition when we here occupy ourselves with the founding personalities. There can always be a difference between the source and the stream. At the source the original dispositions appear; the stream is determined by many other circumstances.

85. *Buddha* was a prince's son who in the midst of life's splendour and glory became attentive to suffering, infirmity, and death. This led him to brooding over life, although he was not for his own person struck by life's shadow-sides. Neither by the road of speculation nor by that of asceticism could he find peace. Consummation he reached only when he saw through life as a great illusion begotten and nourished by thirst, drive, desire. From the need to live spring sensuality, hatred, cruelty, besides all pain and all sorrow, and all this falls away when the very need for life is abolished. There are, according to Buddha, five fetters that one must free oneself from: selfishness, doubt, desire, asceticism (as an end), hatefulness. Their origin is the same. If one can free oneself from them, there is attained the state of exalted peace called Nirvana, which cannot be denoted by any positive predicate, because it stands in opposition to every state that human experience knows. According to a legend Buddha speaks thus of Nirvana just before he leaves his palace to become a hermit: "When the fire of sensual desire is extinguished, then it is Nirvana; when the fire of hatred and delusion is extinguished, then it is Nirvana; when pride, false opinion, and all other passion and all anxiety are extinguished, then it is Nirvana." On a later occasion he speaks thus to his disciples: "Some ascetics and Brahmans direct false accusations against me and say: a denier is he; he proclaims destruction, annihilation, the abolition of real life!—What I am not and do not teach, that those dear ascetics and Brahmans falsely accuse me of being and teaching. One thing only do I proclaim, now as before: suffering, and the extirpation of suffering!" Neither virtue nor knowledge was the highest for him, but "the matterless, perfect extinction of all illusions." All further metaphysical questions Buddha rejected, thinking that when a human being has been struck by an arrow, what matters is to heal the wound, and it is a matter of indifference who shot the arrow and what the bow and the string are made of.⁹³

What Buddha taught was in a certain sense nothing new. But there was accomplished in his mind and through his experience of life a distinctive combination and condensation of tendencies that had already stirred in the preceding religious and philosophical development in India. The concept of Nirvana is found already in the Upanishads, on whose doctrines Buddhism is on the whole in the most essential points dependent.⁹⁴ It is an inwardization and a liberation, a practical and concentrated living-into, that characterizes Buddha and leads him to produce a new form of life. Neither cult nor myth, neither asceticism nor speculation now became the decisive thing, but the personality's quiet, inward consummation through exaltedness above everything "material," that is to say, everything finite and changing. All outer differences become indifferent, including

the caste differences that played so great a role in India. Buddha did not come forward as a reformer of the outer conditions. He did not wish to overthrow Brahmanism. But in his personality he furnished a model of personal consummation that led out beyond everything existing. Access to the highest stood open to everyone without regard to caste or sex. The struggle for peace of soul, for inner unity and freedom, was for him the one thing, and for this struggle he awakened an enthusiasm that was consummated in the joy of victory at having overcome the world.

Buddha's greatness is to have set up the ideal of personality as unity and freedom. Personality is not absolutely tied to this or that, is no "matter," but is a world of inwardness which on account of its opposition to everything outer cannot be expressed in a positive manner.

He belongs, psychologically regarded, to the expansive, and disposition plays a greater role in him than emotion. He is a reflective, not an intuitive nature, and in his reflection synthesis, which abolishes all differences, plays a greater role than analysis. He is—in spite of the energy without which Nirvana cannot be reached—a passive nature; or the activity is at any rate laid claim to by the withdrawing process that is to make a completely passive relation to existence possible. He conceives personality's unity in its relation of opposition to all the elements of personal life, not at the same time as the totality within which they can find their place as organized members in a great connection. The concept of personality is in Buddha like the lion's den, into which all tracks led, but out of which none led. In the Buddhist collection of poems *Dhammapada* (the Way of Truth) it is said, quite in Buddha's spirit: "He who is forbearing among the implacable, gentle among the violent, without desire among the desirous, him I call a wise man."⁹⁵

When Buddha had himself reached consummation, after the tempter (Mara, the Indian devil) had vainly sought to hinder him in it, the latter tried a last means, urging him to keep the peace he had won for himself and not to teach others how it could be reached. Characteristic is Buddha's answer: "Whether the Consummate One shows the disciples the truth or not, he is and remains the same. How is that possible? Well, the Consummate One has denied and cut off at the root the illusion that defiles, and that sows repeated existence, hatches pain, produces life, old age, and death!"⁹⁶—Thus he proclaims the truth because he has no ground for not proclaiming it; he stands entirely neutral towards the possibility of proclaiming and of not proclaiming. Thus indeed must he stand who has no wish any more. There therefore comes to be lacking a psychological foundation for the inward love of humanity that the Buddhist movement bears the stamp

of. The individual's consummation stands in decided opposition to the wish for others' consummation. And yet fellow-feeling with human beings must have been a motive for Buddha's break with his princely life. He had not himself been struck by the suffering he saw around him; it was life's general lot that set his feeling in motion. It must therefore be due to an imperfect accounting when he makes non-hatred one with love: hatefulness was indeed one of the five fetters that were to be burst. It is not enough to burst the fetter; it also depends on the use of the free mobility. That the barriers between human beings are broken down is not enough for positive connection. Because the partition between two masses of ice is removed, they do not melt together; the warmth must be added. This warmth has certainly been present already in original Buddhism; but the anxiety about life's unrest, the critical reflection, and the bent towards passivity have stirred so strongly that the sympathetic motives have not come forth to full consciousness. Love is once for all akin to life and hope and is impossible unless the wish's right is acknowledged.—A motive that has not least worked to inhibit positive and active fellow-feeling in Buddha and his first disciples is the thought that when one attaches one's love to an object, the consequence is a greater possibility of pain and sorrow than when the interest embraces only one's own self and its development. For a father who lamented the loss of his son, Buddha is said to have had only this consolation: "Yes, so it is, householder. What one holds dear brings woe and lamentation, suffering, grief, and despair." Thus feeling must be limited so that it shall not assume the form of pain. The thought that through the sorrow and the loss that have love as their presupposition a higher spiritual development can be reached than when love is shunned or limited seems not to have come forward in Buddha. That father went away offended from the Indian sage, and he was right that a "consummation" won in this way cannot express the highest personal value.

Yet love of humanity is motivated by Buddha and his followers in a positive manner by being seen as a consequence of the attained consummation—and so far in a manner that comes into conflict with the pure neutrality Buddha acknowledges towards Mara. There are, on closer view, two motivations, the one purely psychological, the other of a more metaphysical kind.—Love is like an outflowing or radiation of the inner life to others. This conception agrees with Buddha's expansive nature; it was properly inconsistent when Nirvana halted the expansion. In the introduction to the Jataka book, love of humanity (in the English translation: good-will) is named as the ninth perfection, and it is depicted thus: "As water cleanses all in the same way, the evil as well as the righteous, from all manner of dust and dirt, and fills them with refreshing coolness, so shalt thou refresh friend and foe with thy love; and when this ninth perfection is won, a Buddha's wisdom

shall be thine!”—But not merely through such an involuntary outflowing is a certain connection brought about between one’s own consummation and devotion to others—also through the fact that the individual, when all the differences and barriers called forth by illusion have fallen, recognizes himself in all other beings. In one of Buddha’s discourses it is said of him who has won true peace: “In his loving, compassionate, joy-filled, unmoved mind he recognizes himself in everything and irradiates the world in all directions, out of his great, deep, unlimited heart, cleansed of anger and rancour.” Here, then, it is stated that a positive recognition takes place, not merely a negation of barriers, and the liberation from hatefulness here stands merely as the negative condition for the positive expansion that the recognition (the knowledge of all beings’ unity) makes possible.⁹⁷

How self-consummation and love—being a whole for oneself and being a member of a greater whole—are to be united, that is a great task on whose solution humanity is constantly working. In the solution Buddha gave in the sixth century B.C., self-consummation had decidedly the upper hand. This brought it about—in conjunction with his passive tendency and with reflection’s preponderance over intuition—that he properly founded not a congregation but a monastic order. A popular religion Buddhism became only through the legends that were attached to the figure of Buddha, and through the forms of cult that were taken up from the older Indian religion, as well as through a stronger emphasis on active love of humanity. The Mahayana sect in particular has made Buddha the god of gods, whose birth as a human being is a world-event with which all gods and demons are occupied. Clothed in a luxuriant mythological and liturgical form, Buddhism has spread in East Asia. It has, as a modern Buddhist has said, “made Asia mild!” But it has predominantly worked in a damping, lulling, restraining way, where it was not, as among the Japanese, crossed and altered by an actively forward-striving racial temperament, and by the influence of an earlier religion (the Shinto religion) which had particularly developed the feeling of individuality and nationality.⁹⁸

86. *Jesus of Nazareth*, the carpenter’s son, lived in the midst of his people, shared its memories and its hopes, wished and suffered with it. He did not, like the Indian prince’s son, look down on life from a higher standpoint as an observer, but stood in the midst of life, in the midst of the yearning world. He wished to purify, to idealize the wish, not to abolish it. And even though the wish and the struggle for the wish’s realization entail pain, he will not give it up; pain is not always merely an effect whose cause is to be abolished; it can be a cause of the testing of the powers, a means of purification, a way to loftiness. His faith in the persistence of value is carried through by the valuable’s

being won and preserved through struggle and suffering, not by the whole sphere where wish, struggle, and suffering belong being unveiled and abolished as a great illusion. The contrasts here come into their own; Jesus is not so much the man of expansion as the man of struggling oppositions. And he is the man of will, does not withdraw to rest, but will determine his people's fate by leading it into higher paths. He is—likewise in contrast to Buddha—the man of emotion. Even the Johannine Jesus must be characterized thus in comparison with Buddha. He can be violently moved in spirit, shaken in his inmost being; his soul can be terrified and sorrowful unto death, and he can be angered. Jesus's love is not merely mild, involuntary radiation, but is the restlessly seeking and struggling love, is a bearing, not merely an enduring devotion. There is here no fear that love shall bring sorrow by our weal and woe being tied to a far greater circle of interests than our own isolated self-assertion embraces. There is an inner trust in love's power and a feeling of its capacity to widen the mind, which does not let constricting misgivings come forward. And love strives to be consummated in a higher righteousness through the idea of a kingdom within which each individual can find his place.

It is another race and another culture that we here stand before than that in which Buddha appeared. Besides, five hundred years lie between them, and the Jewish prophet built on far more agitated and composite historical conditions than Buddha. But common to them is that their greatness rests on no single new idea or new institution, but on the wonderful concentration with which they gather up the most significant things in their people's development—the inwardness and depth with which the thoughts of the past are shaped by them, the gripping mood with which their personalities are pervaded, and which streams out from them over the world.

Jesus of Nazareth is the man of intuition, of the image, of the vision of the future. In his reflection he is an analyst, asserts the significant differences, sets barriers and points to oppositions. He will have us go through, not around, life's greatest contrasts.

Buddha rejects all images and thoughts as insufficient to express the highest; herein his intellectual energy shows itself. Jesus has here no misgivings—but then neither does he show us where the limit of the figurative lies, and thereby there were called forth among his followers the great doubts and the great struggles. How far does the symbolic extend?—becomes the constant question. It is conditioned by the founder's intellectual character that this question stands unresolved.

In the idea of a kingdom of God, as Jesus expressed it, there lay, as already said, the possibility that individual personalities could reach the highest without the differences being effaced.—Yet there is a point where Jesus's position towards history becomes

analogous to Buddha's. For he does indeed lay great weight on the development towards a future goal, but he maintains at the same time that the goal is not reached in a positive manner through historical work, but that its realization takes place by a supernatural breakthrough for which the human being is to hold himself ready. And since this breakthrough will come speedily, the strained expectation, the constant watching and praying, becomes the essential attitude the human being can take up towards it. What significance the constantly continued historical development and the many-sided culture can then have becomes here at last just as great a problem as in Buddha.

But it was nevertheless of great importance that so great weight had been laid on life in expectation and yearning. Jesus's visions of the future, the apocalyptic in his ideas, have through mighty images taught human beings to look towards great ends that are to be reached through time, not by leaping over time. Through transformations and displacements this contribution has been preserved for the race's continued life, even after the narrow frame in which the contribution originally arose was dissolved. The struggling human will has been able to find its symbols in Jesus's great images. Such a transformation and displacement was, on the other hand, not so easily possible as regards Buddha's ideas; he brought quietives, not motives, and the positive influence on spiritual life and culture had therefore to be far more limited. Buddha's thoughts are like the grains of wheat that are found lying undissolved, but unfruitful, to this day in Egypt's graves, as they were laid down millennia ago. Jesus's thoughts have shown their fruitfulness by perishing in their original form and through the dissolution making their way to growing and working under new conditions and through a series of historical displacements. Buddha has "made Asia mild," but Jesus has taught Europe a great *Excelsior*.

3.5.3 Is the Principle of Personality a Principle of Growth or of Dissolution?

87. Growth and dissolution do not exclude one another, for the grain must be dissolved in order to be able to sprout; but there might nevertheless be processes of dissolution that did not bring new growth with them. It is often asserted that the principle of personality is purely negative and dissolving. It puts, it seems, differences in the place of unity and community. It isolates individuals. And it seems to conflict with every world-view that seeks back to unity behind all oppositions, as all thought and all faith more or less have a tendency to do.

For the present the dissolving effect of the principle of personality will perhaps also

be predominant. But there is also a great deal that shall and must be dissolved in the religious domain if this is to have a future at all. It is especially the hierarchical, tradition-governed character that the religions have hitherto predominantly had. There is still both direct and indirect coercion of conscience that must be got rid of, and this must for the present be at the expense of community in mood and idea. Many will suffer under it, not merely those who cannot stand on their own feet, nor merely the “ecclesiastical natures,” but also those who have a need, in spite of all differences, to feel themselves one with others. Besides, the principle of personality, like all great thoughts, will be able to be misunderstood and misused, so that one thinks to satisfy it by withdrawing oneself from the influence of all models, from all instruction by tradition and others’ experience, and thereby only succeeds in becoming “a fool on one’s own account.”

In contrast to Catholicism, Protestantism emphasizes the principle of personality. It is both its weakness and its strength. It is its weakness, because it cannot come forward with the certainty of authority that the Catholic Church has. Thereby it comes to lack pedagogical authority towards individuals, and it is short of closedness in the struggle against Catholicism’s mighty, more and more centralized organization. But it will more and more become its strength, if freedom and the cause of personal truth have the future before them—and if it makes more earnest than hitherto of carrying through the principle to which it owes its coming-into-being. Catholicism has in the nineteenth century been able to do what Protestantism has never been able and never will be able to do: to produce new dogmas. But if Protestantism could produce new personalities—would that not be more valuable?—From the Catholic side the difference between orthodoxy and a freer religious conception has recently been determined thus: “Does truth exist outside believers? Does it correspond to an objective reality? Does it impose itself from without? Has it immigrated from the Beyond?—Or should it, on the contrary, consist in each individual’s inner life as the fruit of personal conscience, the resultant of individual religiosity, the expression and translation of inward piety—should it in a word be subjective?... Does religious truth come from God or is it worked out in each of us? In the first case it *is*, in the second case it *comes to be*.”⁹⁹ To this it is to be said that if religious truth rests on experience, and is won only by interpretation of this, then it comes to be, and constantly comes to be in everyone. But it can for all that very well “correspond to a reality,” namely to the relation between value and reality. What other relation does “religious truth” express than precisely this? And where does this relation manifest itself except in individual personalities? If it is regarded as extended beyond the limits of human life, that can only happen by the road of analogy and poetry.

So long as personal life persists, new relations between value and reality, and thus new religious truths, will be able to appear. And if by "God" one understands something that is not merely "outside" us but works in all reality, in all values, and thus also in the very relation between value and reality and in the personalities that make experiences of this relation, then it is a false dilemma that is set up when it is said that *either* "truth comes from God" *or else* "it is worked out in each of us."

Protestantism is, as A. Sabatier has aptly said, a method. And the method can be no other than the one that is given with the principle of personality, with the acknowledgement of individual personalities as centres of value and of experience. The Reformers to be sure did not see this. They dissolved the old church community, but a consistently practicable principle for a new community they did not find. Hence the unrest, the strife, and the mobility within the Protestant world.

Catholicism stands related to Protestantism as Ptolemaic astronomy to Copernican. But just as little as Copernicus saw that once he had moved the earth out from the world's mid-point, the consequence would be that no world mid-point at all could be pointed out, just as little did the Reformers see that when they had thrown the Pope down from authority's high seat, no absolute authority in the religious domain could historically be pointed out any more. If one wants authority, it is most consistent to give up Protestantism and seek back to the Church that has most completely carried through the principle of authority.

88. We live quite certainly in what has been called a "critical" age, not in an "organic" one. But it is not therefore merely dissolving forces that are at work. There is nothing that prevents the joining together in smaller groups of personalities about a common direction of thought or spirit, or about a common symbol. And such joining together can often become more inward and freer than where traditional authority is the cohesive force. Besides, the principle of personality itself can stand as the expression of a great truth, one of the highest spiritual values. Whatever a human being's faith is or becomes—the fact that he lives in it with his whole soul, and that his distinctive character unfolds through the discovery and appropriation of what he believes in, gives his faith a value that the best guaranteed system of doctrine would not have. Here is something in which all will be able to come to mutual understanding, however far apart they may otherwise stand from one another as regards the content of their faith. When responsiveness to personal distinctive features grows, one will less and less sacrifice the personal accent for agreement in positive or negative dogmas. Here we stand before an extension of the spiritual world that is quite as significant as the extension of the material world

became in its time. All culture's finest flower arises through sympathetic understanding of others' personal distinctiveness, from which it perhaps follows precisely that they look at essential questions quite otherwise than we ourselves do. Only a few steps have hitherto been taken on this road. But the principle of personality is a positive and fruitful principle, because it proclaims that it is this road we must go, and because it thereby opens the possibility of a deeper feeling of community than the one conditioned by joining together about common dogmas.

Philosophically regarded, the principle of personality testifies, the more it is confirmed in the particular, to existence's richness and fullness. The history of philosophy shows us that it has mostly been acknowledged and valued by thinkers who laid great weight on the thought of unity (Montaigne, Spinoza, Fichte). Existence's principle of unity must be the more powerful, and its working have a deeper and more inward character, the more and the stronger the differences that individual beings present. It is easy enough to believe in a unity when one effaces or disdains the differences. With religious devotion he whose faith in unity has a less abstract character discovers how differently the universal life can shape itself in individual beings. It does not shake his faith; it confirms it. His doubt is directed against the superficial faith in a unity that conceives this either quite abstractly or quite externally; but this doubt springs precisely from a still deeper faith (*alte dubitat, qvi altius credit*).—Ethically regarded something similar holds. The kingdom of personalities on which all ethics spells out or builds will become the richer, the more distinctive personalities in mutual harmony it encloses. The standard of a human community's value consists not merely in the unity and law that prevail, but also in the fullness of distinctive features, of different centres of value and of experience, that it is able to connect.—Purely psychologically regarded, too, something similar holds. The validity of the principle of personality sets tasks for a comparative psychology of greater extent and depth than psychology's older frames gave room for. This holds particularly as regards the psychology of religion. The history of religion has hitherto occupied itself predominantly with the great common views in the religious domain. There is quite as much to learn from the history of individual views of life; and since we are each of us "individuals," not human beings in general, this last instruction, when it can one day properly be given, will become the most valuable.—

A principle that opens such prospects and sets such tasks cannot be merely dissolving. It is one of the most fruitful principles that has ever worked its way forward.

3.5.4 Layman and Scholar

89. By virtue of the principle of personality, each individual's religious conviction must be formed according to his experience of values, of reality, and of the relation between them. A spiritual and universal priesthood holds. But one develops best towards independence and self-activity in reciprocal relation not merely with actual life, but also with other personalities who take life in an independent manner and have access to knowing both the world of values and the world of reality in a more thorough and comprehensive manner than the individual at the beginning of his road is able to. The principle of personality therefore does not exclude models and teachers. The difference between layman and scholar does not fall away. On the contrary, the more the principle of personality penetrates, the better and better will the laity understand that they need the learned, and they will understand better and better how to use what they can learn from these in the right way. They will see the great significance of the learned's work in enlightening us about existence's great connection and about the riches it encloses, and in putting clear knowledge in the place of dreams and dogmas. And yet they will know that the final conclusion of thoughts about life's riddles can only be won on the basis of one's own experience and faith, neither from new enlightenment nor from old dogmatics. And it will be an enrichment of spiritual life when each individual, more or less consciously, makes up his reckoning on the basis of his experiences and his intellectual development. Scientifically regarded, personality itself is the last, perhaps insoluble riddle, the ever distant concluding point: scientific thinking is itself a spiritual activity that can only be exercised by a personality, and the last riddle would not be solved because science explained everything else, if it did not explain its own last presupposition. In my *Psychology* I have sought to illuminate this more closely, and my result I can express in the proposition: "The thought that explains everything becomes its own last—and constant—problem." But in life personality is the first thing, that which bears everything, science included, and sets its seal on everything. From life's involuntary course, in which personality constantly reveals itself from new sides, to the last results of scientific thinking, there is a long series of transitions; but when both life and science understand themselves rightly, there is no breach or leap at any point.

90. The matter presents itself otherwise at the standpoint of the principle of authority. After the time in the Christian Church when revelation was immediately continued through "the proof of the Spirit and of power" in individuals' enthusiasm had ceased, personal experiences were dammed in by ecclesiastical authority. The difference between layman and scholar soon became greater in religious questions than in scientific ones.

Whether the Church referred the layman to the infallible Pope, who was elected by the Church, or to an infallible book, which was due to the Church's choosing and rejecting, he had at any rate to take up a waiting attitude. His faith became a charcoal-burner's faith.

And yet there came a time when the Church's own men felt themselves to be laymen. It was when there arose a question of the validity of tradition, and especially of the Bible's authenticity. The principle of authority leads indeed quite naturally to studying the history of the authorities. But who is now to decide which historical conception of authority's development is the true one? Scientifically the matter is not in doubt. The coming-into-being and development of all traditions and all books can scientifically only be known by the help of philology and historical criticism. Since now priests and theologians are often as little philologists and historians as laymen as a rule are, authority would then at last pass from the ecclesiastical authorities' hands into those of the learned. That one would not hear of. At the Council of Trent it was laid down not merely that the Bible's authority was grounded on the Church's, and that it was the Church's business to decide what was the right tradition, but that the Latin translation of the Bible (the Vulgate), which had for centuries been in use in the Church, should be the foundation of all preaching and all discussion. One did not wish "grammarians and pedants" to stand above bishops and theologians, or that only he who understood Greek or Hebrew should be able to sit in judgment on a heretic.¹⁰⁰—In the Protestant world an analogous situation has come forward and assumes especially in the most recent time very glaring forms. Protestant orthodoxy led to a rule of theologians, since only the theologians versed in the Bible could decide what the right doctrine was. The laymen's reaction against this lay to a great extent at the foundation of the spread that Pietism and Rationalism obtained; one wished to overthrow the many little popes that had come in place of the one great one. But when Rationalism had been organized into a system of doctrine, there arose against it a new lay movement. One found in many circles a nutritive value in the old writings and traditions which rationalist theology did not let come into its own, and besides, Rationalism demanded a reinterpretation of Bible and tradition and a critical attitude towards them, while the laymen preferred to hold to the holy words as they stood. Literalism now became a democratic principle. It was then again, as at Trent, maintained (with us especially by Grundtvig) that "the faith of the unlearned could not be bound to the testimony of the learned."¹⁰¹

But the learned do not cease to inquire, and especially not to investigate the biblical writings' inner and outer connection with the age in which they came into being. To

this comes the fact that the religious ideas are discussed from general philosophical points of view, which with greater or lesser consistency also make themselves felt in theology. There has therefore developed an opposition between the Church and theology which is one of the most remarkable signs of the times in our days. Theology, which is often regarded as science's antipode, comes more and more to stand as one of science's outposts. Or—as a modern theologian has put it—it stands as a buffer between the Church and scientific culture—a buffer at which blows are struck from both sides.

The principle of authority thus makes front on two sides: partly against the layman's free, personal life, which is to be bent into the ecclesiastical forms, partly against science, when this would test these forms' origin and value. But the situation's distinctive character arises especially from the great adherence that the principle of authority has won in the course of the nineteenth century in lay circles. It has shown itself to be a democratic principle: it procures foothold, security, and support for those whose inner and outer conditions do not permit independent seeking with its labours, dangers, and crises. Modern Catholicism's firm hold on the great masses appears more and more clearly. And in the Protestant Church it is more and more laymen and lay preachers who dominate religious life. The control of the priests' orthodoxy is exercised in Protestantism far more by the laymen than by the ecclesiastical authorities. This influence extends to theology too, in that the priests, who are themselves controlled by the laymen, demand influence on the filling of theological professorships. The Church can, as has been said, neither endure nor do without theology.¹⁰²

91. When the Church steps between individuals' personal life and science and would keep them apart from one another, it violates two spiritual powers at once. That does not happen unpunished.

The intellectual radiance that formerly surrounded the ecclesiastical eminences, and through them ecclesiastical life, has vanished. Really seriously carried through religious thinking becomes rarer and rarer. One asks only anxiously whether the traditional dogmas are satisfied. In the Catholic Church one lives on the thirteenth century, in the Protestant Church on the seventeenth. Alongside tradition's dominion there is indeed another trait of a more praiseworthy character that is distinctive of the Church in our days, namely the great philanthropic work it has organized. It is the type of St. Vincent de Paul that comes back again. But the advantages philanthropy may have from no time and strength going to thinking will in the long run hardly be able to outweigh the harm spiritual life suffers from independence being inhibited by the anxiety about free discussion of life's most important questions.

The two spiritual powers that the Church would keep apart from one another will nevertheless find each other. On closer view, the modern development in the Church, characterized by the conscious acknowledgement of the principle of authority in wider circles than before, is after all in agreement with the principle of personality. The lay movement may work inhibitingly and inimically to science for a time; but in itself it is nevertheless a sign that sleeping literalism has been succeeded by living literalism, and between these it is, according to the principle of personality, not hard to choose. Through the stronger weight that is laid on getting each individual to join in, personal life will be able to awaken in far more people than hitherto; and once it has awakened, it will not fail to work transformingly on the old forms and to seek out beyond them. The most significant advances in the spiritual domain often come from quarters from which one would least expect it. The new values very often come not from the world of criticism and analysis, but from circles where one has lived with depth and inwardness in the old values. History does not always go the straight ways.

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Chapter 4

Ethical Philosophy of Religion

4.1 Religion as the Foundation of Ethics

So wie die Völker sich bessern, bessern sich auch ihre Götter.

LICHTENBERG.

Mit ihren Gemeinden wachsen die Götter.

ERWIN ROHDE.

*(As peoples improve, so do their gods.—
With their congregations the gods grow.)*

92. Just as religion in its classical times affords the human being his whole conception and understanding of existence, so it also affords him his ethics—that is, states the highest ends for willing and acting, sets up models, gives commandments and laws. And just as the explanation of nature is built on the operation of supernatural powers, so ethics is built on revelations of the human being's dependence on supernatural powers that determine his fate in this and perhaps also in another world. Ethics rests here, then, on a supernatural history. On the human being's relation to the supernatural world it depends whether he can live rightly in the natural world. This was consistent, for in religion's classical times the human being knows better where he is with the supernatural world than with the natural, and life here in this world is properly only a means for life in another world.

Yet the relation is more complicated than it might seem at first glance.—I have spoken only of religion in its classical times. But the manner in which the relation between religion and ethics appears in such times has a long prehistory.

And if we look at the relation between religion and ethics in its *historical development*, we find a constant reciprocal relation between them, so that it is not merely religion that acquires influence on ethics, but conversely also the human being's ethical development that acquires influence on religion's character and content.—And besides, when the question is of *grounding and justification*, it is nevertheless at last—though indirectly and unconsciously—religion that supports itself on ethical ideas, not conversely, even in the classical times. The value and significance ascribed to religion has as its logical presupposition certain ethical ideas which the religious consciousness feels no need to formulate specially.—

93. Nature-religion already has its ethics, in so far as it makes definite demands on the human being. The divine powers are honoured and obeyed. They demand worship through ceremonies and sacrifices. Human beings' thoughts are to be turned again and again upon them. It is a course in obedience and self-control that human beings here go through: they learn to subordinate themselves, and they acquire at the same time a wider horizon for their life. Since the worship is common to the family, the clan, or the people, it contributes to nourishing a feeling of community that can acquire ethical significance. And since the forms of worship are transmitted from generation to generation, and their observance stands as a sacred duty, there is nourished the feeling of a historical connection that is to be continued. The consciousness of continuity is developed through the inward adherence to "the gods of the fathers." Here in nature-religion already, then, religion exercises its discipline, and here preparatory work can be done that may be of importance for ethical development.

Between nature-religion and ethical religion there are a mass of transitional forms.—Even if the gods are represented as upholders of what is ethically good, it is not thereby said that they themselves follow the law they inculcate. They often uphold the good without being good themselves. This opposition often appears in the popular religions in a very naive manner. It does not occur to the human being to demand the same of his gods as he demands of himself or of other human beings.—Besides, different stages of ethical development struggle with one another within the popular religions, since these on account of their conservative character are reluctant to let go old forms because they have taken up new ideas. When the gods in earlier times demanded bloody sacrifices, perhaps even human sacrifices, it was because they acted according to the tribe's barbaric ethics. With higher development, human beings turn away in their own life from this bloody practice, and one then gives an allegorical interpretation of the old commandments, or one contents oneself with symbolic imitations of the bloody acts.

Perhaps one even denies that the god ever demanded bloody sacrifices (thus the prophet Jeremiah VII, 22–23). There takes place here a characteristic transition from the ritual to the ethical, in analogy with the transition from liturgy to religious speculation that we have discussed in another connection. The religious customs of purification (for example in the Persian and Jewish religion and among the Greek Orphics) come later to stand as symbols of the soul's purification. The Vedanta doctrine (in the Upanishad) is a thoroughgoing symbolic interpretation of the old Brahmanic customs. As the Vedanta philosophers explain the old Brahmanic customs, Plato explains the Orphic customs. Martensen explains the Mosaic prohibition against sowing one's field with two kinds of seed and wearing clothes of two kinds of yarn as aiming at an inculcation of the great difference between the holy and the unholy, an exercise in ethical distinction.

Sometimes the struggle between lower and higher ethical ideas that has taken place in the people's mind is traced in ethical oppositions within the world of the gods. In Babylonian mythology there occurs a characteristic example of this. The god Bel has brought a flood over the human race. But the god Ea has warned a pious man, who with his family has saved himself on a ship. Bel is furious at this, especially since he is not invited to the sacrificial feast the saved ones hold. A dispute then takes place between Bel and Ea: the latter declares it unjust to destroy the good together with the bad, and Bel must at last concede that he is right in this. In monotheistic clothing we have the same trait when Jahveh repents that he has let the Flood come, and declares that he will not do such a thing again. In Nordic mythology "Ægir's Banquet" presents an example of ethical oppositions within the world of the gods and of ethical criticism of gods by gods.—There is a natural transition from ideas such as these to the idea that the evil in the world, which was formerly derived from the gods just as well as the good, stems from gods of lower rank or from the gods' antipodes. The older forms of faith do not know the sharp delineation of the opposition between good and evil. OLDENBERG¹⁰³ remarks on this as regards India: "Ancient India's religious documents teach us, with the completeness and transparency that are peculiar to them, that an embodiment of the opposition between good and evil [such as the one appearing in the opposition between Buddha and Mara] is alien to the oldest forms of faith and must be so, but that it delineates itself ever more sharply in the course of a slow development. The faith of the Rigveda stands close to the pre-ethical period in religious development. And the Vedic gods are indeed predominantly gracious and good, but far from raised above wickedness and cunning... The deepening of the inner life, religion's progressive ethicization, must work ever more powerfully in the direction of abolishing this indefinite position, so that a distinction

is drawn between the positive and the negative among the great powers of existence.” Within Parsism this opposition was, as is well known, sharply emphasized. In Greece Plato saw—so far as one can judge from the work of his old age—in the assumption of an evil world-principle alongside the good the only possibility of asserting the divinity’s goodness in the face of experience of the disharmonious in the world.

Right up into high-flying philosophical and theological speculations the great opposition between nature-religion and ethical religion can be traced. It is in reality an opposition between power and goodness, and every attempt to set up a concept of God works with difficulties that stem from this opposition. It comes forward in the question already discussed by Plato (in “Euthyphro”), whether the good is good because God (or the gods) wills it, or whether God wills the good because it is good. In the Middle Ages this opposition was sharpened in the struggle between the two schools within Scholasticism: Thomas Aquinas taught that God wills the good because it is good, Duns Scotus that the good is good only because God wills it. There power is conditioned by goodness, here goodness by power.

The road that the religious life of ideas thus runs through under the influence of ethical feeling and ethical ideas will naturally lead to the acknowledgement of ethics’ independence in relation to religion.

He who is just because the God he believes in is just must indeed ascribe value to justice itself. Here religion has independent ethics as its logical presupposition, whether it consciously brings out this presupposition or not. Logical presuppositions of our thoughts and actions are brought out only by an express attention and analysis, which appears only when critical self-collection becomes possible. When the question is raised why precisely these definite predicates are ascribed to the divinity, self-collection leads through more or fewer intermediate links over into independent evaluation and thinking, for without such, those predicates will at last have no meaning for consciousness.—

In the world of experience the values must be discovered and produced before their persistence in a higher world can be thought and assumed. The Beyond is always derived in relation to the Here; it is no primary concept. It changes when the Here changes. It is now a continuation, now an elevation of the Here, now determined by an opposition to it. Religion’s content always points back to life in the world of experience and cannot be understood without acquaintance with this life. The discussion will always with inexorable logic lead back to ethics’ conceptual priority in relation to religion.

4.2 Religion as a Form of Spiritual Culture

Ἐὰν μὴ ἔλπηται ἀνέλπιστον, οὐκ ἐξευρήσει.

HERACLITUS.

(If thou hopest not, thou wilt not find out what surpasses all hope.)

There are cases, where faith creates its own verification.

WILLIAM JAMES.

94. It is characteristic of the position of the religious problem in the most recent time that the discussion comes more and more to concern religion's *value* instead of the truth of the individual religious doctrines. Thereby there lies at the foundation the presupposition that the essential thing in religion does not rest on its doctrine's being able to solve the riddles of life and existence, but on its practical influence on human life—on the significance it has as a distinctive form of spiritual culture.

In the eighteenth century's violent religious polemic what was at stake was a struggle against dogmatics and hierarchy. It was especially the Church as a civil authority that one wished to break and crush. One was inclined to regard the dogmas as arbitrarily produced or employed means of procuring for the priests power over human beings' thoughts and thereby over human beings themselves. The polemic of Voltaire, Diderot, and Holbach is borne by this conception. In the nineteenth century—which philosophically regarded already began with Rousseau, Lessing, and Kant—one went back from religion's intellectual expression and outer organization to the inner, generating and moving forces. One distinguished between these original forces and the products they find expression in at a given time and place. But thereby the question had naturally to come forward whether the intellectual forms and outer organizations in which religion has hitherto appeared in history might not fall away and be succeeded by others, without the essential thing in religion needing thereby to fall away. One then took up in various ways the idea of "a third kingdom," in that one saw the possibility of a view of life that lay beyond the oppositions that had hitherto stood so sharply over against one another.

The standard of religion's worth and significance as an expression of spiritual culture must at last be ethical. When one does not start from an all too narrow concept of ethics, the final evaluation of all forms of spiritual development falls under ethics. There is a free cultural community in which the work for material culture and for aesthetic, intellectual, and religious culture, as well as philanthropic work, has its place—a community that has its significant place alongside and in reciprocal action with family and state. It belongs to

ethics' tasks to discuss the value of spiritual and material culture. It is in this connection that religion too, even if it is not the final foundation of ethics, can nevertheless acquire ethical significance. This point must be investigated partly from the psychological, partly from the sociological side.

4.2.1 Psychological Considerations

95. It has shown itself that religion with respect to the *motive of evaluation* is at last dependent on ethics. Religion commends itself to the human being's conscience;—hereby it presupposes that the human being—consciously or unconsciously—has a standard by which he can judge the values religion would uphold. But thereby it is not excluded that religion can be of great importance as a *motive of action*, that is to say, when it is a matter of procuring for the acknowledged values power over the will in the individual moment and in the individual situation.

The distinction between motive of evaluation and motive of action is in my view of great importance for ethics. By the motive of evaluation, ethics' content is determined, the principles and rules that lie at the foundation of our evaluating and our striving. The motive of action, the moving force which in the individual case and in the individual domain leads us to will and to act, need not coincide with the fundamental motive of evaluation. There are many different motives of action that can lead in the direction the motive of evaluation requires be struck out on. Therefore the motive of evaluation need not come into force on every single occasion; one discovers it and goes back to it in doubtful cases, and when out of psychological interest one wishes to make clear to oneself the whole direction of the life of will; but it may even be a sign of perfection that the motive of evaluation is not the immediate motive of action. Popularly this can be expressed by saying that it may be a bad sign when one has to consult one's conscience before acting. The more special motives are as a rule the healthiest and the best. Such special motives are family feeling, friendship, patriotism, joy in work, artistic and scientific enthusiasm. These motives are tested and acknowledged by the original motive of evaluation,¹⁰⁴ but this cannot in all cases step into their place, if life is not to be robbed of its living, manifold content. The character's perfection will show itself in the motive of evaluation's being hiddenly or potentially present, without pressing forward at every moment between the motives of action that the solution of the special tasks requires.

In the difference between motive of evaluation and motive of action lies the possibility of an ethical significance of religious motives, even if the sovereign decision of what

is right and good, thus the determination of ethics' content, is not sought in religion. Where religious motives are present, they will provisionally be to be acknowledged. Possibly they will not be able to be replaced by other motives at all, and attempts to counteract them will perhaps only lead to putting uncertainty and lack of bearing in place of the strength and harmony that were formerly present. Every human being must be taken where he once for all stands, and it then depends on how far he can get in growth from this standpoint. The burden of proof will here naturally rest on him who intervenes in another's inner life in order to alter the motives. What matters first and foremost is not to inhibit the forces that have hitherto driven the work, when one cannot put other forces in their place. All too often criticism abolishes the capacity and the courage to venture, to endure, and to suffer. Religious motives that are able to develop this capacity and this courage thereby establish their justification and procure their own verification.

Very often—if not most often—religious motives have nevertheless only a provisional, pedagogical significance. They have then the significance that bowing to authorities and models has in general—that they lead one into a relation to a matter that can only by this road acquire independent and immediate value. Countless displacements of motive take place in the course of human development, and motives that do not themselves have direct and immediate value can acquire value as intermediate links in the development. Everything that—indirectly or directly—can make life great, firm, and rich has its value, and ethics ought not to imitate dogmatics in anxiously asking after the confession.

96. The investigation of the religious motives of action's value must be undertaken from a purely ethical point of view. And since the religious motives show themselves to have highly different timbre, they must also have highly different value. Where, for example, regard for reward and punishment from the divinity in this or in another life plays an all-preponderant role, we have a very low-standing motive before us, even if the direction in which it works in the individual cases is otherwise to be recognized. Where faith stands above love, or where faith and love come into conflict with one another, there is as a rule a conflict between religion and ethics. Faith separates; love of humanity unites. Among the differences that love of humanity has to struggle with and to overcome are, among others, the differences of faith. How akin religion and ethics are in their essence is seen from the fact that it is the relation between self-assertion and devotion that gives both a religious and an ethical standpoint its distinctive character. Faith is more the expression of self-assertion, love of devotion. A standpoint of faith that pushes love aside at the most decisive points therefore tends more or less pronouncedly

towards egoism. Does the human being seek in his religion only himself—is it for him only a matter of winning security, peace, and salvation for his own I, however it may go with the rest of existence—or does he seek a great harmony, a kingdom of values, so that it depends entirely on this kingdom's law and conditions how it goes with the human being's own I? The religious motives will shape themselves differently according to the answer given to this question. It is characteristic that within the Church one has as a rule had misgivings about unconditional devotion's being emphasized with disregard of all self-regard. Fénelon was in his time compelled by the Church to retract his doctrine of "the disinterested love of God." If the selfish element is emphasized in its independence and predominance, then the result is a supernatural morality of prudence, an "other-worldliness." Ethically regarded, one must on the contrary sympathize with the Saracen woman whom Joinville mentions in his biography of Louis the Saint: she went along the street in Damascus with a pot of fire in one hand and a bucket of water in the other, and when a monk asked her what she wanted with these things, she answered: "To burn up Paradise and quench the fire of Hell, so that human beings may do the good out of love of God." The Church has for pedagogical reasons kept up the selfish element in religious feeling. It is possible that it often cannot be dispensed with; but it is unjustified to ascribe to it a particularly high value, while one condemns the noblest human endeavours as "splendid vices." For similar pedagogical reasons the Lutheran Church has maintained that the threat of the law's severity and God's wrath is to call forth a feeling of sinfulness and anguish of soul, in order that thereby the way may be paved for a fleeing to grace. The question whether true repentance does not arise through the ideal's appearing before the human being's consciousness in all its glory, so that hope of reaching it is awakened rather than fear of the judgment—which presupposes that the Gospel be preached before the Law—came up already at the time of the Reformation, but Luther and Melanchthon rejected it, because one had to accommodate oneself to "the people's," "the ignorant's" powers of comprehension and not enter upon "subtleties" (!).¹⁰⁵ Ethically regarded there is no doubt that the ideal's attraction and hope's bright prospect are healthier and more justified motives than the anguish that the preaching of the Law was supposed to awaken.

Quite apart from the religious motives' timbre, it must besides be maintained that they have ethical value only where they stir in the mind with involuntary power, are not forced on, not arbitrarily made or postulated. Voltaire thought that if God did not exist, one would have to invent him. But such an invented God would hardly even be suited to the police service Voltaire chiefly had in mind. Religious feeling represents a real

spiritual capital only where it springs involuntarily from the mind's inner need. Like all immediate and involuntary feelings it can only be called forth and determined indirectly, and when the sense for personal distinctiveness has at some time grown sufficiently, delicacy in this respect will succeed the spiritual coarseness with which one now so often handles this matter.

Closely akin to the demand for personal truth is the demand for intellectual honesty. Not merely must a religious motive, in order to be justified, be an expression of the human being's personality; but it must also be presupposed that what the individual according to his capacities and his circumstances can do to discuss the validity of the religious ideas that co-operate in the religious motives has been done. Motives that can only thrive at the expense of the love of truth cannot preserve any ethical value. And yet one can to this very day find praise of the religious motives and their social significance without the duty of intellectual honesty being mentioned with a single word.—There lies here a cause of tragic conflict for many natures. There are those who by their inward love of humanity and free sense for personal life's needs are excellently suited to be ethical-religious teachers of the people, but who are hindered from becoming so by the dogmatically stiffened form of ecclesiastical popular life. On the other hand this dogmatic form does not hinder others, who are intellectually thick-skinned and whose life of feeling moves on the surface, from spreading themselves over ecclesiastical posts of dignity.

97. Apart from the influence on special actions, the religious conception that holds fast the persistence of value in existence will have its great significance by affording a bright and great horizon for human striving and activity. I here disregard the special forms in which such an ethical idealism can appear. It is not the philosophy of religion's task to construct religion, but to discuss the significance of what is fundamental in all religion.

Faith in the persistence of value lets us—even if we cannot in detail follow the metamorphoses of value—view existence as the home of potential values, which in part through human work as an intermediate link can be converted into actual values. Through its inmost root, which is the feeling of a highest value that is to be asserted, the ethical consciousness here hangs together with the religious. Religion can here appeal to the fact that however existence's inmost nature and unsurveyable connection may otherwise be constituted, it must nevertheless contain in itself the possibility of the values the human being has come to know or has been able to produce. No proof can be given that the coming-into-being of the valuable in the world is due to an accident. Perhaps it is the case that existence's inmost essence reveals itself precisely only at

those points where something valuable appears, however difficult it may be for us to bring these points into agreement with other points where the opposite of what we can call valuable appears. If we interpret those revelations of value as symptoms that through existence's great process of development a divine work is taking place, then we can conceive our work as a part of this divine work, a part that both in quality and in quantity is determined by our standpoint in existence and by our nature. Light then falls into our workroom. The barriers to our capacity and our drive we then see as the limits within which the work falling to us lies—in so far as they are real barriers, and not merely hindrances that are to be cleared away and so precisely set tasks for our striving. We see ourselves at once in our distinctiveness and independence and in inner connection with a comprehensive order of things.

Such a faith acquires in ethics the same significance that ideas, anticipations, and hypotheses have in the theoretical domain. By anxious clinging to experience one is easily blinded and dulled to the new possibilities: this holds both in the practical and in the theoretical domain. Where there is desire and courage, a great deal becomes possible that would otherwise for ever, or at any rate as regards the individual, continue to be unreal. Here holds the proposition maintained by James, that there are cases where faith can bring about its own verification.

Faith and wish are closely akin. The faith that cannot be proved is a wish that what one believes may be true. But precisely this wish can lead to truth's being found. The wish is on the whole of such great importance in our spiritual economy because it is a form of holding fast something valuable, even if it cannot be realized at once or provisionally or within a surveyable time. Such a wish can have both negative and positive significance. It can keep away ends and actions that conflict with the valuable thing that lives in the wish. And it can sharpen attention to every possibility that presents itself for taking a step in the direction of the valuable's realization. When the wish is held fast, more values can be released, discovered, and produced than when wishless resignation has set in, let alone when pure blaséness spreads.

Faith in the persistence of value then has undoubted value when it comes forward as a practical faith that drives to deeds through the attempt to verify itself. It also contains consolation, in that it raises the mind out beyond the limited and finite. But it is a sign of religion's altered position in spiritual life that it acquires more and more the significance of consolation, and that this point of view is so strongly emphasized. Religion was once the pillar of fire that went before the human race on its great expedition through history and showed it the way. Now it becomes more and more the ambulance that follows

after the column and picks up the weary and the wounded. This too is great. But it is not enough; and when religion is one day rid of its dead values, it will again—in close connection with ethics—be able to become a forward-leading power.

98. When there is talk of religion's ethical significance, one must think not merely of its *motivating force* and of its *capacity to raise and widen the gaze*, but also, and not least, of the *co-operation and concentration of all spiritual forces* which it partly presupposes, partly entails. In the characterization of the great founders of religions it was emphasized that their originality showed itself not so much in individual new ideas as in the deep and inward concentration of all the mind's forces. And this hangs together with religion's psychological essence as a whole, as I have earlier sought to describe it. In religious feeling and faith, aesthetic, ethical, and intellectual elements co-operate with the human being's fundamental drive for self-preservation. It is a central reckoning that the human being involuntarily undertakes through his religious experience. All life's sides and directions are compressed into the living-through of individual moments and deposit their combined result in a prevailing fundamental mood, which in turn, in order to win form and expression, summons up all sides and directions of the life of the soul. Thereby religion in its classical times becomes a form of unity in which imagination and thought, self-assertion and devotion, involuntary and voluntary striving work together—a unique interplay of all faculties and drives. This concentration naturally assumes a different character in the two different classical periods a great religion can have (§1). In the time of beginnings all interests other than the religious itself fall away; here all faculties and drives then co-operate in the passionate striving to hold fast faith's object and to immerse oneself in it. In the period of organization the religious interest does not stand alone, but it decides the manner in which all other interests are satisfied; here work is then done in the special domains in such a way that faith's object immediately determines direction and position towards the individual questions.

The religious problem arises by reason of the division of labour, which also entails a dividedness of the soul's faculties and drives. In place of concentration there then easily enters one-sidedness, dividedness, and disharmony. It now becomes not so easy to find a point of unity where all endeavours meet. Religion itself can now in its transmitted form no longer satisfy the need for spiritual concentration; it has led to a system of dogmas and ceremonies that stands outside life, instead of being life's combined expression. It is then of no use to want to remedy the dividedness by demanding a return to orthodox dogmatics. Yes, give us back the spiritual conditions of life of primitive Christianity and the Middle Ages, so that with the old dogmas we may also get the old harmony! It is a

remarkable blindness to the conditions of spiritual life when one thinks that the one can here be separated from the other.—But many freethinkers too show by their attitude to the religious problem how little sense they have for the deepest human requirements. They believe that such a form of spiritual life as religion was in its classical times, with concentrated interplay of all faculties and drives, can be taken out of life without life's suffering under it. It must be felt in the whole of spiritual life when such a form is lost.

We cannot live on remnants. Protestantism already is a remnant, Pietism and Rationalism still more. But neither can we live on surrogates. What is required are equivalents. And the great question is whether equivalents are here possible.

If one holds fast the proposition of the persistence of value, one must also hold fast the possibility that new forms of concentration in the domain of spiritual life can form themselves, without the gain that the division of labour has brought being lost. It is possible to preserve the hope of this. History shows us a rhythm of critical and organic periods, and for one who lives in a critical age it may easily look as though a new organic period could never come. But it might indeed be that through the forces' dividedness and dispersion we were working our way towards a more perfect concentration than had formerly been known. The "higher unity" of which Hegel spoke so much, and which it fell all too easy to him to find, we can believe in and expect, although we cannot prove its necessity or construct its constitution.

99. In irreconcilable conflict with ethics stand all kinds of religion that make human beings passive and impotent and let them revel in feelings and fantasies without contact with actual life—whether these fantasies are bright, like the chiliastic expectations and ecstasies of the Beyond, or dark, like mania about sinfulness, brooding repentance, and fear of hell. Then marrow and strength are taken from work and life in the world of experience. One then looks merely forward or merely backward, without looking at what lies immediately before one, that which sets life its tasks and causes its happiness. Our view of life can be built neither on a past that cannot be altered, nor on a future that comes only at the end of days—neither on the death that goes before our life, nor on the death that follows after our life. The true religious watchword is here: let the dead bury their dead, and take no thought for the morrow! Our view of life shall be an inquiry into life, a search for values of life that can be found or produced in the present life, and in whose persistence it is worth believing and fighting. We live on realities, not on mere possibilities—let alone on impossibilities.—

However different a view of life from the one here indicated may be from the old religions, it nevertheless preserves the continuity with these. In spite of the sharp

opposition there is a spiritual kinship. Religion's significance does not fall away because it has shown itself that the great riddles are as little solved by it as by science. The foundation consists in inward experience of the relation between value and reality, combined with the need for a mood-filled and imaginative utterance of this experience's content. There will constantly be room and need for a poetry of life in which human life's great experiences find expression. Such a poetry of life is for us the most important thing in the old religions. Such a poetry of life great poets (Aeschylus, Dante, Shakespeare, Goethe) have been able to shape, and every new and great epoch in the history of poetry will bring new forms of it. Our own time's literature cannot satisfy this need; its significance does not lie at this point. But even if we must for the present—besides living with the great ones of the past—content ourselves with humming in our own quiet minds the melody that the experience of life calls forth in us, we need not give up the hope that the old forces will produce new forms.

4.2.2 Sociological Considerations

100. The Church's significance in a social respect consists first and foremost in this, that in its best forms it has been and in part is the representative of a high idealism in the midst of the finite, prosaic, narrow world, where many are able only by its help to raise their heads and catch sight of the stars. It has opened the world of thought and poetry to great throngs who would otherwise have sunk down in life's struggle or gone dully through life without coming into contact with ideal powers. It is religion's concentrated and concentrating force that has enabled the Church to work as comprehensively and deeply as no other community has worked. Thought and poetry went here together with the highest seriousness and the greatest ethical decisions.—I am thinking here particularly of the Christian Church, the one that lies nearest to us, and whose influence can best be followed.

This influence would not be possible if there were not within the Church a certain consciousness that the essential thing in religion is not the dogmas formulated once and for all. These can be pushed aside. It is not necessary directly to abolish them; that has its dangers from the standpoint of ecclesiastical politics or pedagogy; but attention dwells on the central content of life that lies behind. The Church stands as the bearer of a great tradition, of a circle of images in which countless generations have laid down their deepest experiences of life, everything they have felt, suffered, and thought during fate's course in great and in small circumstances. Especially in the church hymns it surges to meet us as the exclamation of thousands, of fear and hope, of sorrow and thanks,

of falling and being raised, during the race's long course of life. The individual feels himself here standing before humanity's great, common memories from the domain of inner experience. He finds here fundamental thoughts by whose help he can find his way better in his own experience. In the ecclesiastical cult the race's great drama is presented, and the individual here obtains a great horizon for the consideration and evaluation of his own life. By participation in cult he lives through in an ideal manner life's great fundamental oppositions, and his feelings are purified and idealized by being attached to the thought of the exemplary events whose memory the Church celebrates.

101. Philosophical ethics sets up a different series of valuable qualities of character (virtues) from theological ethics. The opposition between the two evaluations comes out especially at two points that stand in mutual connection: namely in the place assigned to self-assertion, and in the place assigned to justice. In the closer illumination of this we must within philosophical ethics distinguish between Greek and modern ethics.¹⁰⁶

For Greek ethics the task was to bring harmony between the elements of the life of the soul. Self-assertion stands here in the first line. In order that the human being may be able to subsist as a human being, an inner order must be brought about, so that the one element does not encroach upon the others, but each element comes to function in the right way in the great harmony of the life of the soul. And when now the individual can place himself in a similar harmonious relation to the human community he lives in as his elements stand in to his own life of the soul as a whole—thus when he can subordinate himself as a distinctive member in the greater whole—then he is just.

For Christian ethics obedience, the obedience of faith, became the chief virtue—a natural consequence of the principle of authority. Love became subordinate in relation to it. The greatest sin became pride, which refuses to obey. When egoistic self-assertion is condemned, it is quite as much because it conflicts with obedience as because it conflicts with love. The demand for obedience becomes a demand for unconditional submission to the infinite power, an oriental trait, a reminder that the great religions stem from the East. The free Greek's upright posture, even during prayer, stands in opposition to this orientalism, which also sets its stamp on the feeling of sinfulness and makes this different from the ethical feeling of repentance. Love does indeed press forward again and again in Christian ethics, but with a tendency to ascetic opposition to self-assertion, both others' and the agent's own. The Greek doctrine of harmony stands as sinful egoism.

Modern ethics is a taking up again and an extension of the Greek. Self-assertion stands as loftiness of spirit in the first line. But it has a more active form than among the Greeks. Its opposite is not so much the chaotic in the elements as the sluggishness that

resists extension and development. Self-assertion here does not stand in opposition to love. For high-mindedness has strength enough not merely to bear the individual's own life, but also others'. And the highest virtue becomes justice, within which both devotion and self-assertion come into their own. The ideal is a kingdom of personalities where each individual unfolds his personality in such a way that he precisely thereby helps the others to unfold theirs.—This conception is able to let the ethical elements of abiding value that Christianity has put into the world come into their full right. But so long as obedience is the chief virtue, and so long as love of humanity is limited by dogmatic conditions, so long is there standing conflict between philosophical and ecclesiastical ethics.

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4.3 Primitive Christianity and Modern Christianity

But the greatest of these is love.

PAUL.

102. Christian ethics is not the same at all times. From this springs a difficulty for the philosophy-of-religion discussion of the relation between religion and ethics. Christianity, the popular religion lying nearest to us, we naturally hold to in such a discussion. The other great popular religion, Buddhism, could in this respect only be investigated more closely by one who himself lives along with East Asian cultural life. If we will then hold to Christianity, we must investigate how the relation between religion and ethics varies in the different chief periods of Christianity's history, according to the different relations in which it has stood to culture. For the valuation of Christianity and for the grounding of what is the abiding thing in it, it is then necessary to attempt a characterization of what in the different periods of Christianity's history has appeared as a Christian view of life.

There are three great periods or chief forms of Christianity: primitive Christianity, Catholicism, and Protestantism. It is not difficult to institute a comparison between these forms with respect to their dogmas. But it is difficult to compare the corresponding views of life. For a view of life is not always formulated in definite words; it manifests itself in the whole bearing towards goods and tasks, in the practical relation to the course of culture and history.

103. *Primitive Christianity's* ethics is determined by the living expectation of Jesus's speedy return. In the faith that he would soon come to establish the supernatural messianic kingdom, which was to be history's conclusion, the apostles and their nearest successors overcame the contradiction that lay for them in the fact that Jesus was the Messiah and that he had nevertheless had to suffer and die. The national messianic expectations furnished form and frame for this faith and made it possible to find testimony to it in the old writings.

The consequence was that the gaze turned away from earthly and human conditions. Culture and historical work, life in family and state, in art and science, could not acquire immediate value and positive significance. Quiet but strained expectation was the fundamental mood. "God's kingdom" was not to be realized through long historical work on the firm ground of nature and human life, through the discovery and production of values. One had only to prepare oneself to receive it when it—still within "this generation"—broke forth in supernatural fashion from heaven. This preparation was the one thing needful. Therefore no alteration in the given circumstances! Preferably one ought to abstain from marriage and not marry off one's daughters either; and if one is a slave, one should not seek to become free. As little thought as possible is to be sacrificed on such things, which belong indeed to what is soon to disappear. When it was prayed "Thy kingdom come!" there was not thereby thought, in all indefiniteness, of a share in spiritual goods, but quite definitely of the messianic kingdom's supernatural coming, and the prayer was an inward wish that its coming might be hastened.

It was nevertheless not a life in suffering and cowedness, not asceticism in the sense of self-torment, that this foundation for the whole conduct of life led to. It was not a funeral march, but a march of victory. For the living expectation set all the mind's forces in motion. Great images were shaped for the imagination, and feeling broke through with such force that words often failed, so that there was "speaking in tongues," without the individual himself being able to give an account of what had moved in him. Revelation was not concluded at Jesus's departure, but was continued in the supernatural Spirit's stirrings in individuals' inner life. Alongside the living expectation, chiliasm (the faith in the speedy coming of "the thousand-year kingdom"), enthusiasm is an essential characteristic of the primitive Christian conduct of life. Enthusiasm had the word, and a thoroughgoing ecclesiastical organization was therefore neither possible nor necessary, any more than positive participation in culture and communal life.

Cultural-historical tasks and points of view did not exist at all for the primitive Christian consciousness, which was borne by unusual forces in a single direction. The

virtues and tasks that primitive Christian ethics inculcated had essentially to be those conditioned by expectation and enthusiasm. On this rests its great exemplary and symbolic significance. All human life that is worth anything is led in expectation and can learn from that heroic age of Christianity. And nothing great is performed without enthusiasm. Immersion in the primitive Christian conduct of life and view of life can help to make the soul great. But the positive, real tasks and goods that condition the cultural-historical work, for which our ethical points of view now hold, one seeks in vain in primitive Christian ethics. This lets everything remain as it was, if only it does not hinder the undivided expectation of the Beyond's breaking through.

The primitive Christian standpoint subsisted essentially in the first two centuries. The post-apostolic age held to it decidedly, both as regards chiliasm and as regards enthusiasm,¹⁰⁷ and Tertullian and Origen testify to its subsistence at the end of the second century. As time went on, it was displaced by the speculative development of dogma and by the Church's firmer organization. By the damming in and cooling of the ecstatic expectations and the individual enthusiasm, a more positive relation to culture gradually became possible. But Augustine still had more the feeling of living in the world's old age than at the beginning of a new cultural period. He is inclined to find the description in the Revelation of John of those who sit on the judgment seat in the thousand-year kingdom fulfilled in his own time's prelates (*præpositi intellegendi sunt, per quos ecclesia nunc gubernatur*).¹⁰⁸ A characteristic example of ecclesiastical reinterpretation of primitive Christian ideas! But in the face of the earthly state and purely human ethics he pointed to the kingdom of the Beyond, coming by a supernatural road, as life's only right goal. It then matters nothing in his eyes that asceticism spreads, and that the human race dies out through the increase of the unmarried state. When we thus find in Augustine a wavering between reinterpretation of and holding fast to the primitive Christian ideas, it hangs together with the conflict in him between two different types of religious faith, which I have already earlier discussed. The opposition between the unchangeable and the changeable comes decidedly into the foreground in him and tends to displace the opposition between the present and the supernatural future. The influence of Platonism here works together with the weakening of the enthusiastic expectation. Augustine's chief thought is not so much that all present goods pale in relation to the future goods, as that the finite goods pale in relation to the eternal and infinite good, which is one with God himself. By this last opposition the line of thought in the *Confessiones* is borne.

104. The unsolved problem that primitive Christianity left to the later Church was solved

in Catholicism in a manner that testifies to a strong historical instinct in the Church's leaders. The circumstances of the time made a practical solution compellingly necessary. "One can," says Harnack in his history of dogma,¹⁰⁹ "nowadays in Protestantism hardly form a conception of what significance asceticism had in minds in the fourth and fifth centuries, and to what degree it determined the imagination, thought, and the whole sphere of life." It threatened to burst the Church. And now on the other hand the great, fresh masses of people pressed into the Church, and there was set for it the great task of working as an educating, softening, and organizing power. It had then to adopt a broader way of seeing than the enthusiastic time of beginnings needed to apply; it had to tolerate much that it could not prevent, and to take up elements that did not in themselves lie in its original ideal. Both the "perfect," who saw the standard in the primitive Christian ideal, and the imperfect, who were to have norm and consolation without leaving the ordinary human life, were to belong to the Church. Both the connection with primitive Christianity's ideals and the connection with the present time's realities were to be preserved. One was at once to break with the world and to govern the world.

The solution became, in *Catholicism*, that a distinction was drawn between different degrees of perfection. The monk, the priest, and the layman each denotes his own degree or form of Christianity, and the Church acknowledges them all. The same pedagogical and psychological sense that led the Catholic Church to acknowledge charcoal-burner's faith led it here to the distinction between duty and merit.

The monk satisfies the primitive Christian type. If it is asked where the ideals from the Church's great time of beginnings have gone, Catholicism points to its monks and nuns, who in unconditional absorption in the one thing needful have burst the bonds that most strongly bind human beings' minds to this world. The monk and the nun do more than their duty as human beings would require; they fulfil not merely the general commandments, but also the Apostle's counsels (1 Cor. VII).—The priest stands as an intermediate form between the monk and the layman. By giving up family life he has followed one of the apostolic counsels, while he otherwise lives along in the human world, follows its doings, and intervenes helpfully and consolingly.—The layman lives human life along in its different sides, but preserves himself by the Church's help from being lost in it.

This is the most magnificent solution that has been given of the problem: to assert the primitive Christian ideal and yet to work as a cultural power in a world whose continued subsistence was not foreseen or presupposed when this ideal was set up. Rightly this solution starts from the assumption that if the New Testament is constantly

to contain the highest rule of life for human beings, then the spiritual conditions of life it presupposes must also constantly be assumed to be present. Cardinal Newman has thus declared: "If the present distress of which Paul speaks [1 Cor. VII] does not state the Christian Church's constant condition, *then the New Testament is not written for us*, but must be recast before it can be applied." This was already in Newman's Protestant time a chief point for him. He could not within Protestantism find a satisfactory answer to the question: what have we done for Christ?

—His thoughts moved in a similar direction to *Saint Teresa's*, when she says: "Will you know what gave the apostles the divine fire in their words? It was that they had a loathing for the present life and trod the world's honour under foot.... They had ventured everything for God." And in a vision she heard the Saviour say: "What would the world become if there were no monks!"¹¹⁰

All the same, this solution rests on a compromise. Søren Kierkegaard has rightly said that the meaning in Christianity broke when different classes of Christians were set up. A way out had been opened for withdrawing oneself from the ideal, and it was amply used.

105. *Protestantism* did not from the first make clear to itself the great problem of the relation to primitive Christianity. It was a movement called forth by the need to assert the free conscience's right. Since one found a great deal in the New Testament that Catholicism, on account of its hierarchical system and its entanglement in the world, did not let hold and work, the assumption was not unnatural that it was primitive Christianity that was now coming back. Meanwhile Protestantism came to mean not merely a liberation of religious life and an attempt to go back to Christianity's sources, but at the same time—more or less consciously—a liberation of life as a whole from ecclesiastical authority. Life in the world was no longer to be regarded as lower than the monastic life. It was not by self-made asceticism, but by the mind's inward devotion and trust in God, that the highest could be reached. Life in the world was not merely to be tolerated but tended and developed, and the individual should and could find his calling in working along at this development.

The relation to the primitive Christian ideals and expectations the Reformers properly left standing. A definite guidance for, say, applying the Sermon on the Mount's commandments in the midst of modern human life with its conditions and tasks one did not get. Later, especially the high-church and speculative-theological tendency in the Protestant Church has conceived the matter thus, that primitive Christianity was the ideal leaven that through the long historical process of development was to permeate the

life of the world, produce Christian family and state life, Christian art and science, and thus bring “God’s kingdom” to unfolding. In a distant and dawning background—like the blue mountains far out on the horizon—there then stands the primitive Christian idea of the “return” and the last day. As one has on the whole now learned and experienced much that the New Testament’s authors did not know, so one has in particular seen that it was a mistake when they expected the “return” so soon. But this mistake one regards as inessential, in so far as one does not seek to explain it away. One thinks—like Catholicism—to stand in ethical continuity with primitive Christianity. One will not admit that one has kept of primitive Christianity only what one can use under the new cultural conditions, or rather under the new relation to culture in which one has tried to place oneself. One thinks one is practising New Testament ethics because one clothes one’s ethical principles in the biblical formulas. One overlooks that the relation to culture is in principle a different one from the primitive Christian.

106. In the most recent time, however, there has begun to come greater clarity within Protestant theology about this relation. Penetrating historical studies and a sharper understanding of ethical and cultural conditions have led a series of theological investigators beyond the standpoint that ecclesiastical Protestantism’s spokesmen have otherwise taken up here. In the first rank there are here to be named ALBRECHT RITSCHL (in his *Geschichte des Pietismus*) and ADOLF HARNACK (in his *Lehrbuch der Dogmengeschichte*).

Ritschl sees Protestantism’s distinctive character in this, that Christians stand as those who are to rule over the world in trust in God, not withdraw from the world as the old Church’s ascetics, the Middle Ages’ mystics, and the modern pietists will. Pietism has according to Ritschl hindered the full unfolding of the Protestant programme—especially because it (particularly Reformed Pietism) wished to renew primitive Christianity. As Ritschl conceives Lutheran Protestantism, all its fundamental propositions are indeed to agree with the New Testament, but conversely faith in the validity of all New Testament ideas is not necessary to salvation. And among the biblical ideas that do not oblige to faith, Ritschl expressly reckons “*das Detail urchristlicher Hoffnungen*.”

According to Harnack’s conception, primitive Christianity contained other and more than the real “Gospel,” and only when this other and more has been separated out will the “Gospel” be able to appear in its purity. Luther paved the way for this; but just as little as he separated out the speculative dogmas the Church Fathers had shaped, just as little did he separate out the primitive Christian expectation of the speedy return, which had called forth the flight from the world. The excellent historian of dogma sees clearly that primitive Christian ethics is determined by the expectation

of the last day, and he therefore declares that the “Gospel,” which he finds expressed especially in the eighth chapter of Romans and the thirteenth of 1 Corinthians, must be supplemented with human ethics: “If one could—both in science and in the life of feeling—combine Augustine’s piety, inwardness, and absorption with antiquity’s openness towards the world, with its calm, vigorous activity and its clear and bright mood, then the highest would be reached. . . . Has not Goethe in his period of consummation declared this ideal to be his own and attempted to present it in himself? Does not the significance of evangelical-reformatory Christianity—when it really is something other than Catholicism—lie enclosed in this ideal?”¹¹¹

It is clear that a view of life that takes up essential elements from the Greeks and from Goethe must be a wholly different view of life from the primitive Christian. Goethe comes at last to stand as the one who first brings the full Gospel. Full clarity is not reached at a standpoint like Ritschl’s and Harnack’s. But these men have the great merit—besides the rich instruction their inquiry otherwise brings—that the decisive problem comes forward clearly and definitely, and that the ambiguities in Catholicism’s and ecclesiastical Protestantism’s relation to culture and humanity are exposed.

107. In opposition to all these different standpoints I place what may be called *the ethical-historical standpoint*. According to this, Christianity is a spiritual power that has intervened, and constantly intervenes, deeply in human life. As it goes with so many of the greatest human movements, many traits in its origin and its first development will probably remain standing as psychological and historical riddles, without our having, however, other means and roads to understand these than precisely psychology and history. But there are indeed many other psychological and historical riddles besides these. And what is here of greatest importance for us appears clearly and distinctly enough, namely that Christianity bears in itself the marks of the definite historical conditions under which it came into being. It is an oriental movement; it bears particularly the stamp of Jewish origin, perhaps through that of Persian influence; during its further dogmatic development it has been determined by Greek thoughts, at any rate by Greek conceptual forms. Its later development has taken place under the influence of cultural conditions (intellectual, aesthetic, ethical, and social) that it has not itself produced, and that were not presupposed at its coming-into-being. Therefore it is impossible that it can without more ado be laid at the foundation of a view of life and a conduct of life at all times. It can do so as little as Greek ethics can. But its great significance does not therefore fall away. It stands as a spring of life from which later ages draw what they under their conditions have use for. Thus in reality Catholicism and the different

Protestant tendencies have placed themselves towards it, only that one has for the most part silently pushed aside and drawn forth. What one made use of, one always regarded as “the essential.” And thus human ethics too places itself towards it. It acknowledges the inwardization and deepening of spiritual life that Christianity has brought, and the significance it has had by having through its great model proclaimed the doctrine of love of humanity over the whole earth.

We take from the New Testament—as from all works of the spirit—what we can use in our spiritual economy. There are thoughts, moods, and models that will continue to accompany the race on its way. But *what* we use, and *how* we use it, is determined by our own independent experience of life and by our conditions of life, which both set tasks and afford goods of which at the primitive Christian standpoint there could be no question, partly because they were not known at all, partly because they were incompatible with the only end that was known. Just as little as the Bible teaches us astronomy or natural history, just as little does it give us an ethics, although it contains many significant elements that every ethics can and must take up.

We stand towards Christianity as we stand towards the Greek conception of life. And, of two things one, our conception of life is more closely akin to the Greek than to the primitive Christian. For we would discover and produce the values in whose persistence we believe, in the world of reality itself. The ethical task is an unfolding and a harmonizing of human life, the individual’s and society’s. This task the Greeks already set. Christianity has made it possible to deepen this task. But instead of supplementing the “Gospel” with Greek thoughts, it is rather the Greek thoughts—the first human thoughts about life that European spiritual life has produced—that are deepened and extended by what Christianity has put into the world.

Not merely by this—for to the Greek and the Christian there comes yet a third element or a group of elements: the last centuries’ empirical science and the whole modern ideal and material culture. It is ethics’, not the philosophy of religion’s business to discuss more closely the connection between all these elements in human spiritual life, as this now can and must be lived.

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4.4 We Live on Realities

*Homo liber de nulla re minus quam de morte cogitat, et ejus
sapientia non mortis sed vitæ meditatio est.*

SPINOZA.

(The free man thinks of nothing less than of death, and his wisdom is a meditation upon life, not upon death.)

108. In accordance with the preceding investigation, the relation between religion and ethics presents itself in a very simple manner: religion is faith in the persistence of value, and ethics investigates the principles according to which the discovery and production of values takes place. On this conception both the difference and the connection between religion and ethics appear clearly at once.

At the question which values it then is that are believed in, and from what one knows that what is discovered and produced is valuable, we are referred back from religion to ethics. Within religion's own history this shows itself clearly in the fact that the most important opposition is that between nature-religion and ethical religion. It will thus depend on the ethical standpoint what kind of religion it becomes. I for my part must here refer to the presentation I have given of ethics, and shall now only briefly give an account of some points of view that are of special philosophy-of-religion significance.

Life shall, according to the conception made good in the presentation of ethics mentioned, be shaped as a personal work of art, in that the individual moments and the individual elements (the faculties and drives) are brought into harmony in the individual human being, and in that individual personalities are at the same time—precisely through the individual harmony in individuals' inner life—brought into harmony with one another. The problem is how the individual's self-development can pave the way for the others' self-development, or in other words, how the individual's standing as an end can become a means to the others' end being reached. Under this point of view all cultural work falls, as soon as it is more than mechanical or restless activity. All spiritual and material culture, all individual and social striving finds its place within the ideal that is herewith given. Greek, Christian, and modern spiritual development have each given their contribution to the setting up of this idea. A great horizon opens here: we look back to the spiritual struggles of the past, but we also look forward to spiritual and material work for the deepening and progressive unfolding of what has been won. In the work for this idea's shaping and application, ethics itself becomes religion: for it is a work for the holiest thing there is, and everything that one has called and calls holy must at last be tested by the standard this idea affords.

The concept of the holy reflects in its different applications the stages of religious development. In the most elementary sense the holy is that on which an exalted power

has laid claim. It may be the earth, or its crop, or human beings. But what is thus regarded as drawn under and shielded by an exalted power will, when the transition has been made from nature-religion to ethical religion, more and more become that which is required by the highest ethical ideas the human being is able to form. The holy becomes then at last a concept in which religion and ethics meet. And thus we come to Goethe's definition:

*Was ist das Heiligste?—Das, was heut und ewig die Geister,
Tiefer und tiefer gefühlt, immer nur einiger macht.*

(What is the holiest?—That which today and eternally, felt more
and more deeply, makes spirits ever more at one.)

What can at once be appropriated in the most inward manner by the individual and produce the most inward community between individuals—that is the holiest. We are directed out beyond life's externality and out beyond all that divides, to the highest values. The greatest difference and fullness and the highest degree of unity are here united.

There are many great questions to raise with respect to how this idea is to be applied in the particular case. But in the philosophy of religion it is especially of importance that an ideal such as the one expressed in Goethe's lines has been able to work its way forward and win acknowledgement at all. Existence with all its disharmonies has nevertheless also had room for a development in this direction. It is one of the realities we hold fast and seek to carry further—one of the things that make it possible for our wisdom to become a meditation upon life, not upon death.

109. But how will it go at last? Whence comes the valuable, and whither does it go? How does that which we fight for, and that which makes it possible for us to fight for it, hang together with existence's inmost essence?

Here the ways part—not merely on account of the different answers that are given to these questions, but also on account of the different weight one lays on getting an answer to them at all. I for my part see no reason to demand at any price an answer beyond what science can teach through its ultimate hypotheses. Above all I see no reason to take reason captive for the sake of supposed solutions that in reality only give us the riddles back again in larger dimensions and perhaps even increased by logical and ethical misgivings.

All answers to those questions beyond science's ultimate hypotheses can only have a poetic character, which does not prevent their being able to have religious significance

as the most living expressions that can be found for the relation we experience between value and reality. To say that they have “only” poetic value is properly incorrect. For perhaps it is the case that poetry is a more perfect expression for the highest than any scientific concept would be able to be. By poetry one must not here think of loose moods and fantasies, but of the involuntary and lively form that what is really lived through clothes itself in during strongly moved moments. It is such a process of clothing that lies at the foundation of all myths and legends, all dogmas and symbols, when they are taken in their state of coming-into-being (*in statu nascendi*). There is a poetry of life that springs forth like a spark during the work itself, and that is struck only by the will’s collision with reality’s hard flint. I have once earlier pointed to this in my criticism of Søren Kierkegaard’s conception of the opposition between an aesthetic-poetic and an ethical-religious view of life. It is a poetry that stands in opposition neither to will nor to thought, even though it especially comes into being where thought and will strike against barriers—barriers of which it is only through attempts to be decided whether they denote a resistance that can and shall be overcome, or whether they denote the firm banks between which life’s river is to flow. All high art presupposes such a poetry of life and is its conversion into clear forms. If it has nowadays especially unfavourable conditions of life, the old dogmas have quite as much blame for it as the new doubts.

The philosophy of religion ends with a pointing to this spring, whose preservation and liberation is the most important condition for spiritual life’s future. The epistemological, the psychological, and the ethical investigation meet here in the same result.—It is not, on the other hand, the philosophy of religion’s task to construct a distinctive circle of symbols that should be the one right one. The philosophy of religion interests itself more in the forces that work than in the fixed forms that are deposited during the forces’ working. Thereby the comparison of the forms does not lose its significance; it serves to discover the forces’ kind. More than in the individual symbols or dogmas, the philosophy of religion interests itself in the personal need, the inward feeling, the trustworthy experience, that finds expression in them, and that determines both the choice of symbols and the degree of literalness ascribed to them. When a great religion like Christianity arises, the philosophy of religion sees in it a testimony that love, inwardness, and purity are living powers in human nature.

When the inner forces seem to have vanished, it comes certainly from the fact that trust in the shaping, symbolizing capacity has been weakened by the dominion of dogmatism and scepticism, which so often was a dominion of violence. For the attentive observer these forces stir in secret, in the personal sanctuaries that are closed both to

importunate converters and to wanton mockers.

We live in a time of transition. There is lacking harmony between our faith, our knowledge, and our life. It is an inescapable task that free knowledge and free unfolding of life be brought into harmony with what is for us the highest valuable thing. By the road of speculation and construction this task cannot be solved. There must form a new type of life that neither fears criticism nor expresses its freedom by “mocking its chains,” but which with bold confidence utters its deepest experiences in a “psalm of life.” So long as such a type of life is not reached, many will suffer harm to their souls—now by clinging in morbid overstrain to what does not after all agree with their personal life, or with what intellectual honesty requires—now by being driven by their own secret anguish to fanatical hatred of those who believe otherwise—now by being dried up and dulled by hypercriticism and blaséness—now by dissolving in restless reflection. It is not said that those who suffer the greatest harm feel the greatest suffering.

Life once for all works its way forward through the conflict of opposed forces, and the relation of conflict is different in every single soul. Therefore the art of life, like all art, must be one-sided. And therefore each must seek his place and fight for the part of the truth he can catch sight of. Only through a firm grip can the “higher unity” be won which cannot be dispensed with, although it is not so easy to win as romantic philosophy supposed.

110. Every view of life is at last determined by the values one finds or produces in actual life. Every idea of a world beyond (an over-world) is formed of elements drawn from *this* world. Life needs discipline and rule, but the fundamental thoughts that determine the discipline and the rule must at last be drawn from life itself. Here is a constant circulation which does not exclude a progress, for even an imperfect ideal can make life more perfect than it was before, and the more perfect life will then give rise to still higher ideals. Even a retrogression can be a transition and perhaps a necessary means to a higher ascent, just as the spiral bends only in order to rise anew (*inclinata resurget*).

Just as it was for Goethe poetry’s task “to make reality poetic,” not “to realize the so-called poetic,” so it is religion’s task to make life ideal and harmonious, not to realize arbitrary ideals set from without. Every ideal that has significance will show itself to be a great, concentrated expression of tendencies of life that must have stirred involuntarily before they acquire the form of thought or of image.

In principle it stands fast: only he who has honestly and uprightly worked for the values that can be found and produced in *this* world is prepared for an over-world, if there is such a thing, which only experience will be able to decide. In my late friend

Johannes Fibiger's autobiography it is related that I once, in a conversation concerning the question whether there is another life, am supposed to have said: "It will show itself whether there is." I do not remember this utterance; but it expresses the result I have quite personally come to. The horizon is not closed for me. But the more I have looked about me in the world of thought and in the world of reality, the more it has seemed to me a great responsibility that they take upon themselves who again and again hold up to human beings that *this* life is worth nothing if there is no other. Those for whom it really is a necessity of life to have faith in another life will surely notice this necessity themselves; but they have no right to appeal to their experience unless they have made a serious attempt to find and produce values here in this life—and when will they be able to say that they have done enough in this respect?—No proof has yet been given that the absence of such a faith necessarily excludes any valuable personal quality. The assumptions that individuals in consequence of their personality have formed about what lies beyond the world of experience must not be used as a general standard of personal life's value.

Ethically regarded the demand is: make life, the life you know, as valuable as possible!—Whether a striving to satisfy this demand necessarily presupposes a faith in the persistence of value in a certain definite form is a question different personalities will answer differently according to their different experience. He who can find or produce nothing valuable without a gleam of eternity standing over it stands by no means higher than he who with strength and inwardness works in the service of the valuable, although this valuable is in his opinion subject to the law of perishability. But he who can do without faith in the persistence of value has for his part no right either to look down on him who in the valuable that he finds or produces sees a single link of a great chain of values stretching into the unsurveyable. Such a faith is possible without one's coming into conflict with epistemology or ethics. The last word must here be said by virtue of the principle of personality. Ethics has only to watch that one does not forget life itself in one's anxiety to "save" its values.

If one assumes that value persists, and if one calls the principle of the persistence of value God, then it is clear that nowhere can this principle work more immediately present than in our very striving to find and produce values. When this is held fast, our view of life becomes no Tantalus-like chasing after the unattainable, nor do we end in a mere not-knowing, but the poet's words hold:

*In that thou seekest, thou hast already found him;
in that thou askest, the answer is already won.*

The eternal is in the present, in the valuable moment, “in every gleam of sun”—in the striving that has *Excelsior!* for its motto. In the midst of time to live through eternity is true immortality, whether there is any other immortality or not. The difference between end and means falls away in such moments and in such a striving—as it falls away generally where true personal life is present. Thereby the difference between religion and ethics also falls away, in that the ethical encloses the religious within itself.—

The purely philosophical interest in the way of regarding things that the whole investigation I herewith conclude is an attempt to carry through rests on its striving to assert the continuity in spiritual development. Thereby the religious problem acquires an analogy to all other philosophical problems; and for the philosopher it is in the last resort not the decisive thing whether a problem can be solved or not, but whether it is rightly posed, that is to say, as follows from the human spirit’s nature and from its place in existence. In the long run the philosophical interest will also show itself to be the human interest, the more both become clear about themselves. For the philosopher it is therefore enough when he has done his best to point out and illuminate the problem and the conditions of its solution. He does not lose confidence in the significance of his work, even if only few will concede its validity and its value.

More than to make up his spiritual reckoning with the use of everything he has learned in the school of life and of inquiry, no one is able to do. But if it is done uprightly, it may perhaps have significance for others than the individual himself.

Notes

1. In *Berlingske Tidende* for 29 November 1893 there is found on the paper's front page the Meteorological Institute's explanation of the sad catastrophe at Harboøre. The Institute emphasizes especially three points: 1) After a calm there often arises a storm in the opposite direction to the wind that blew before the calm, and the sea is then stirred up so much the more strongly, precisely on account of the calm. 2) There was low water on Jutland's west coast, while westerly storms further north had piled up all the water by the Norwegian coast, whence it now streamed violently as down an inclined plane towards the Jutland coast. 3) Simultaneously with this the flood tide occurred at the Jutland coast.—On the paper's inside is found the priest's funeral oration over the drowned, in which it is said among other things to the survivors: "The Lord has used this means to convert you. . . . If this is not to help, what means shall he then use?"—The Harboøre priest has hardly known that he was here applying the same line of thought that Bossuet applied in his funeral oration over Henrietta of Orleans, only that in Bossuet's oration it is applied to the English Revolution, in the Harboøre priest's to a tidal flood.—That the example is typical one will not be able to deny. It has its biblical analogy in Deutero-Isaiah's explanation of Cyrus's campaign of conquest against Babylon: Jahveh's intention was thereby to save the people of Israel and awaken faith in the God the prophets proclaimed. (Isaiah ch. 45.)

2. In some ecclesiastical statutes for Denmark from the end of the fifteenth century it is said: "We forbid under penalty of excommunication that it be stated that miracles occur here in the diocese, either in general or with naming of names, unless they have been investigated and approved by apostolic and ordained authority." *Dania*. III p. 348.—In the most recent time so many miracles occur in the Catholic world, especially in France, that the ecclesiastical authorities have need of much acumen (and diplomacy!) to be able to distinguish between real and false miracles—and within the real ones again between those that stem from God and those that stem from the Devil. Cf. Lasserre: *Vor Frue fra Lourdes*. After the 126th French edition. Copenhagen 1894. p. 120 ff. Pesquidoux:

La renaissance catholique en France. Paris 1899. p. 52 f.—According to Thomas Aquinas the miracle, by which is understood “something that surpasses nature’s capacity,” is to serve “to reveal something supernatural.” (Cf. Tessen-Wesierski: *Die Grundlagen des Wunderbegriffes nach Thomas von Aquino*. Paderborn 1899. p. 41 f.) But when now a (ecclesiastically sanctioned) revelation is again required in order to be certain that “something supernatural has been revealed”? And when that revelation is itself a miracle? How can this circle be closed—and how does one get into it?

3. Aristotle: *Metaphysica* Ib (p. 994 a); XII. 6–7 (p. 1071–1073).—Thomas Aquinas: *Summa theologiae*. Pars I. Qv. 2. Art. 3.—Eugen Rolfes (*Die Gottesbeweise bei Thomas von Aquin und Aristoteles*, Köln 1898) goes far further than earlier Catholic theologians in acknowledging Thomas’s dependence on Aristotle. The decisive line of thought is in reality found in Aristotle and is in Thomas only theologically arranged and shaped in several special nuances.—A chief reason why so-called Modernism was condemned by Pius X’s encyclical of 9 September 1907 was that it rejected the cosmological proof of God’s existence. (Gisler: *Der Modernismus* 1912 p. 289–96.)

4. A. Harnack: *Lehrbuch der Dogmengeschichte*. 3. Aufl. 1894. II. p. 75.—Cf. also p. 472 on the Coptic monks who held to anthropomorphism, revelled in apocalyptic images, and defended their bodily God with their cudgels.—Even Augustine believed, according to his own account (*Confessiones* VI, 3), before his acquaintance with Ambrose, that the Catholic Church taught a God who had human shape.

5. *Confessiones* III, 11–12; VI, 4; VII, 16. The expression *totus ubique* recalls Plotinus’s ὅλου πανταχοῦ (*Ennead*. III, 9, 3; V, 5, 9).—Cf. with this what Spinoza calls “that which is in the part in the same way as in the whole” (*Ethica* II, 37–38; 44). Possibly Spinoza got the expression and the concept from Bruno, who is himself here influenced by Plotinus: *Opere italiane*, especially p. 239 f.; 242; 315 (ed. Lagarde). Bruno has (p. 242) the same image as Plotinus for “that which is wholly in the whole,” namely the voice that is heard wholly at every place in a room.

6. *Heinrich Suso’s Leben und Schriften*. Herausg. von Diepenbrock. Regensburg 1829. p. 212 ff.

7. Liebner: *Hugo St. Victore und die theologischen Richtungen seiner Zeit*. Leipzig 1832. p. 292; 483.—Petri Abælardi *Dialogus inter philosophum, judæum et christianum*, ed. Rheinwald. Berolini 1831. p. 101 ff.

8. *Sechzig Upanishad’s des Veda*, aus dem Sanskrit übersetzt von Paul Deussen. Leipzig 1897. p. 626.—Plato: *Republic*, books 2 and 3.—H. Relandus: *De religione Muhamedanica*.

Trajecti ad Rhenum 1717. p. 202 f.

9. Cf. in *Den nyere Filosofis Historie* the sections on Nicolaus Cusanus, Copernicus, and Bruno.

10. Newman: *Apologia pro vita sua*. London 1879. p. 105.—A. Ségala: *Le Purgatoire*. Trad. par F. de Bénéjac. Paris 1880. p. 8–15; 46.—Thomas Aquinas teaches of hell that it is probably beneath the earth, and that hell's fire is of the same kind as the fire here on earth, an *ignis corporeus*. *Summa Theol.* Suppl. Part III. Qv. 97. Art. 5–7.

11. Cf. Edv. Lehmann: *Zarathustra*. First part. Copenhagen 1899. p. 67.—OLDENBERG conjectures that a Semitic or pre-Semitic influence took place before Iranians and Indians separated. *Aus Indien und Iran*. Berlin 1899. p. 71. In that case this influence must later have been developed in different ways by the two different peoples, under the influence of their different fates.

12. Cf. *Den nyere Filosofis Historie*³ II p. 103–106; III p. 140–143.—Note especially the following statement of Fichte (*Appellation an das Publikum gegen die Anklage des Atheismus*. Leipzig 1799. p. 77): “Es ist sonderbar, diese Philosophie [Fichte's own] der Abläugnung der Gottheit zu bezüchtigen, da sie vielmehr die Existenz der Welt in dem Sinne, wie sie vom Dogmatismus behauptet wird, abläugnet.”

13. Cf. *Totalitet som Kategori*. Ch. 6.

14. Cf. *Relation som Kategori*. Ch. 3.

15. Cf. *Begrebet Analogi*. (Especially p. 124 ff.)

16. Cf. *Den menneskelige Tanke* p. 329–338.

17. Augustine: *De moribus ecclesiæ catholicæ*. cap. 27.—Cf. Schleiermacher: *Der christliche Glaube*. § 85: “Gott Barmherzigkeit zuzuschreiben eignet sich mehr für das homiletische und dichterische Sprachgebiet, als für das dogmatische.”

18. *De ældste Upanishader*. Ved Poul Tuxen. II. p. 41; 143–145. *Sechzig Upanishad's des Veda*, übers. Paul Deussen. p. 851.

19. DENIFLE has in his treatise *Meister Eckhardt's lateinische Schriften und die Grundsanschauung seiner Lehre* (Archiv für Literatur- und Kirchengeschichte des Mittelalters. II) shown—especially by the help of the Latin writings of Eckhart first found by him—that the German mystics were disciples of the Schoolmen and themselves practised Scholasticism. But the difference nevertheless remains that Scholasticism attempts to assert analogy's validity for the concept of God, while Mysticism rejects it. Through the

mystics' writings there runs an after-effect of Neoplatonism, against whose Christian representative Thomas Aquinas constantly polemicizes, supported by Aristotle on the one side, Paul on the other.—Cf. Thomas Aquinas: *Summa theol.* Pars I. Qv. 13. Art. 5.—On the mystics' doctrine see Liebner: *Hugo a St. Victore.* p. 193; 195. *Suso's Leben und Schriften*, herausg. von Diepenbrock. p. 394; 410; 424. (P. 394 it is said: "Darum ist das kund allen wohlgelehrten Pfaffen, dass das weislose Wesen auch namenlos ist; und darum spricht Dionysius, dass Gott sei Nichtwesen, oder ein Nicht.") *Deutsche Theologia.* In Danish by L. H. Schmidt p. 106.—When one makes oneself familiar with this mystical doctrine, one will have an easier time understanding the Buddhist concept of Nirvana. For it was naturally not the mystics' meaning that the rejection of all positive determinations should indicate that the divinity was literally nothing (or was not). Both in the mystical concept of God and in the Buddhist concept of Nirvana it is precisely the inexhaustible positivity that bursts every conceptual form and makes every determination impossible.

20. Cf. on the history of the concept of the mother in religion: Ditlef Nielsen: *Der dreieinige Gott.* (1922). p. 324–371.

21. Cf. on the concept of personality my *Psykologi* (abridged edition p. 84–92). *Totalitet som Kategori.* p. 56–59.

22. J. M. Mitchell: *Hinduism past and present.* London 1885. p. 187.—The Greek worship of heroes rested on a similar tendency. The local heroes stood closer to a city's or a district's inhabitants than the great national gods. See Erwin Rohde: *Psyche*² I p. 191 f.; 197 f.

23. "What is dead is unchangeable. The Christians' God is the most living and therefore the most changeable of all beings." (From a letter to Wizenmann, Jacobi's orthodox friend, from a fellow believer, on the possibility of prayer being heard.) Goltz: *Thomas Wizenmann.* Ein Beitrag zur Geschichte des inneren Glaubenskampfes christlicher Gemüther in der zweiten Hälfte des 18. Jahrhunderts. Gotha 1859. II. p. 235.

24. Julius Lange: *Billedkunstens Fremstilling af Menneskeskikkelsen.* (Vid. Selsk. Skr. 6. Række). I. p. 17 f.; 31 f.;—II. p. 56.

25. *Vie de Ste Térése, écrite par elle-même.* Trad. par Bouix. Chap. 29.—Cf. therewith Alb. Ritschl: *Geschichte des Pietismus.* II. p. 47; 228; 279.

26. Examples are found in the material from older and more recent conversion histories collected by Leuba (*A study in the psychology of religious phenomena.* American Journal of Psychology. April 1896).

27. J. Royce: *Studies on Good and Evil.* New York 1898. p. 377.

28. *Upanishad* ved Deussen. p. 196; 317.—*Gospel of Matthew* XI, 28–29.—Augustine: *Confessiones* I, 1 (cf. IV, 18 and VI, 26).—*Vie de St. Tèrese écrite par elle-même*. p. 331; 591.—S. Kierkegaard: *Uvidenskabelig Efterskrift*. p. 370. (Cf. my book *S. Kierkegaard som Filosof* p. 37–42; 111–115).—ROYCE: *The case of John Bunyan* (in his *Studies on Good and Evil*. 1898).—Froude: *Bunyan*. (1895)
29. Cf. *Den nyere Filosofis Historie*. I. p. 141; II p. 194; 289 f.—*J. J. Rousseau og hans Filosofi*. p. 2.—Joseph Butler: *Works*. Oxford 1874. II. p. 181 f.—*F. D. Maurice's Leben*. Deutsch von M. Sell, Darmstadt 1885. p. 157 and elsewhere.
30. Cf. my treatise *Filosofi som Kunst*. (Mindre Arbejder. I. p. 180–188)
31. Cf. *Oplevelse og Tydning*. p. 641; 83–88.
32. Cf. *Den nyere Filosofis Historie*³. III. p. 202–206.
33. Luther: *Catechismus major*. (The exposition of the first commandment and of the third article of faith.)—For Zwingli see Ed. Zeller: *Das theologische System Zwingli's*. Tübingen 1853. p. 147. Zwingli expressly defines *fides* by *fiducia*, or—in his Swiss—*gloub* by *vertruwen*.—On account of the doctrine of predestination this element of unconditional trust comes forward still more definitely in the Reformed doctrine than in the Lutheran. Cf. Zeller *ibid.* p. 27.—Ludw. Feuerbach strongly emphasized this characteristic of Luther's concept of faith as the thing that conditioned its difference from the earlier concept of faith. *Das Wesen des Glaubens im Sinne Luthers*. 2. Aufl. Leipzig 1855. p. 16–21. Later it has been brought out and illuminated by Albrecht Ritschl, especially in his posthumous work *Fides implicita. Eine Untersuchung über Köhlerglauben, Glauben und Wissen, Glauben und Kirche*. 1890. p. 58–62. In his own doctrine of faith Ritschl lays this conception of religious faith as trust at the foundation and finds in it the possibility of separating out the purely metaphysical elements in ecclesiastical dogmatics.
34. Cf. ALB. RITSCHL: *Fides implicita*. p. 1–8; 27; 44 f.—A. Harnack: *Lehrbuch der Dogmengeschichte*³. III. p. 73 ff.; 534 f.
35. Troeltsch in "Zeitschrift für Theologie und Kirche." V. p. 426. Kaftan *ibid.* VI. p. 94.
36. Cf. on Nirvana WARREN: *Buddhism in translations*. p. 59 f.; 283 f.; 372.—The Upanishads prepare Buddhism by the clear recognition that all yearning and all pain hang together with "twoness" and difference. See *Upanishaderne* ved Poul Tuxen I. p. 11; 40.—That the process of redemption itself must, after its conclusion, come to stand as an illusion, because the true good does not come to be but is, is taught already in the Upanishad. See Deussen: *Die Philosophie der Upanishad's* (Allg. Gesch. d. Philos. I, 2) p. 310–322.

37. In my treatise “Sociologi og Religionsfilosofi” (reprinted in *Oplevelse og Tydning* p. 117–141) I have given a characterization and criticism of Durkheim’s work.

38. In the excellent work *Primitive Culture*, and later in his *Text-book of Anthropology*, TYLOR has developed the theory of animism.

39. H. Usener: *Götternamen. Versuch einer Lehre von der religiösen Begriffsbildung*. Bonn 1896. p. 280.—It appears to me that Usener overlooks tradition’s significance. Only the first time the sheaf or the Saint John’s wort is worshipped is a pure momentary god formed. The later times a “generic concept” operates in so far as one lets oneself be guided by earlier years’ custom.—The theory of momentary gods is new only as regards the name and the interesting examples. Earlier already a distinction had been drawn between short-term fetishes and lasting fetishes. See Chantepie de la Saussaye: *Lehrbuch der Religionsgeschichte*. 1. Ausg. I. p. 44.—Cf. on the worship of implements and stones among Indians and Greeks: A. Lang: *Myth, Ritual and Religion* I. p. 225; 275.

40. A. Lang. II. p. 30; 126. H. USENER: *Götternamen*. p. 75 ff. *Sophus Müller: De forhistoriske Tider i Europa*. (Verdenskulturen. II). p. 98.—Cf. already AUGUSTINE: *De civitate dei*. IV. cap. 8–11.

41. Karl Budde: *Die Religion des Volkes Israels bis zur Verbannung*. Giessen 1900. p. 65.

42. Aug. Comte: *Cours de Philosophie positive*². V. p. 71 f.; VI p. 413.—H. Usener: *Götternamen* passim. (Especially p. 73; 316 f.; 321; 334; 343.)

43. I owe this information to my colleague Professor Vilhelm Thomsen. He himself is most inclined to hold to the first-mentioned explanation. There would then be a kinship between the stem in “Gud” and in the word “gyde” (as well as in the Greek χέειν, whose stem χυ = Sanskrit *hu*, whence *huta-*, which can mean both “sacrificed” and “he to whom sacrifice is made”).

44. Deussen: *Die Philosophie der Upanishad’s*. (Gesch. d. Philos. I, 2). p. 282 ff.—MITCHELL too (*Hinduism past and present*. p. 51; 138) holds it probable that the belief in the transmigration of souls arose through an attempt to explain individual differences.

45. *Brihadaranyaka Upanishad* 4, 3, 9–16. (Deussen’s translation p. 408.) In the doctrine of Zarathustra too, remnants of animism can be pointed out. H. OLDENBERG: *Aus Indien und Iran*. p. 172–175. E. Lehmann: *Zarathustra*. I. p. 79.

46. Richard Garbe: *Die Sankhyaphilosophie*. Eine Darstellung des indischen Rationalismus. Leipzig 1894. p. 172–190.

47. See on this Erwin Rohde: *Psyche*². I. p. 211; 278 ff.;—II. p. 38 ff., 62.—Gomperz: *Griechische Denker*. I. p. 101–110.—Oldenberg gives an interesting paralleling of the Indian and Greek development on this point: *Aus Indien und Iran*. p. 75–85.—On the belief in resurrection in its relation to the older Israelite view of life see HERMANN GUNKEL: *Zum religionsgeschichtlichen Verständnis des neuen Testaments* (1903), p. 32 f.
48. Le Page Renouf: *Lectures on the origin and growth of religion as illustrated by the religion of ancient Egypt*. London 1880. p. 182 f.—Breasted: *Religion and Thought in ancient Egypt*. (1912). p. 61 (cf. 79).
49. Tiele: *Elements of the science of religion*. I. p. 236.
50. *Varieties of religious experience* p. 131; 526.
51. On Swedenborg's vision see Emanuel Swedenborg: *Summaria expositio doctrinæ Novæ Ecclesiæ*. Amstelodami 1769. § 119. (There is still to be noted in this vision the delicious trait that when the angels discover that Swedenborg is thinking of the orthodox doctrine of the Trinity, they threaten to close heaven to him, and he must expressly beg them to look more closely and note that he reinterprets the three divine persons as three attributes of one and the same person. He thus instructs the angels and restrains them from precipitate action.)—On Vincent de Paul's vision see Broglie: *St. Vincent de Paul*, Paris 1898. p. 123.—On Paul's vision see H. GUNKEL: *Zum religionsgeschichtlichen Verständnis des neuen Testaments*. p. 90 f.
52. See on this Erwin Rohde: *Psyche*², passim.—Diels speaks (in his edition of Parmenides) of "the highly gifted leaders of the Delphic oracle, who from the eighth to the sixth century B.C. exercised the very most important influence on religion and morals, political and social conditions in Greece and the neighbouring lands." Their names are almost unknown to us. It was due partly to the development of enlightenment ("Sophistic"), partly to that of democracy, that—in spite of the great role that mysteries and prophetism played—no proper hierarchy developed in Greece. Diels: *Parmenides Lehrgedicht* p. 12–13.
53. Cf. Cornill: *Der israelitische Profetismus*². Strassburg 1896. p. 82–92. HØLSCHER: *Die Profeten*. 1914. p. 165–168; 262.—According to the traditional conception, Judaism became a religion of the book far earlier.—Joh. Jacobsen: *Om gammeltestamentlig Teologi*. 1912. p. 59–67.
54. Fr. Nielsen: *Pavedømmet i det nittende Aarhundrede*. II. p. 216–223.—Cf. on the earlier history of the *Conceptio immaculata*: Harnack: *Lehrbuch der Dogmengeschichte*³.

III. p. 584–587.—Especially interesting is the later Cardinal Newman’s position towards the new dogma. (Hutton: *Cardinal Newman*. p. 201 ff.)

55. In an article in *Nineteenth Century* (February 1900) on “the continuity of Catholicism,” the Jesuit father Clarke says: “Before our Lord ascended to heaven, it is related in Holy Scripture that he showed himself to his apostles during the forty days and spoke of the kingdom of God. (Acts I, 3.) Now the kingdom of God is in the New Testament synonymous with Christ’s Church... and in this place there is thought first and foremost of the Church here on earth. We learn then here that our Lord instructed his disciples about the nature of the Church he had founded on earth, its constitution, its government, its discipline, its sacraments, and above all the holy doctrines it was to impart to human beings... Every doctrine laid down by the councils and every infallible utterance of the Pope is merely the unfolding of a hitherto unfolded part of this structure of doctrine.”—Whence this knowledge of what Jesus spoke about with the apostles during the forty days derives, we are not told. It stands as an article of faith that what is to be believed was imparted during that time. As is well known, it is not only from the Catholic side that “the forty days” have been used to smuggle in what one has not otherwise been able to find in the New Testament.

56. *Lehrbuch der Dogmengeschichte*. I. p. 16 f. The eleven factors are: 1) the endeavour to define religion’s end, the good of salvation (*das Heilsgut*); 2) concepts and statements in the canonical writings; 3) transmitted, no longer understood tradition; 4) requirements of cult and constitution; 5) reconciliation with dominant doctrines; 6) political and social conditions; 7) the changing ethical ideals of life; 8) so-called logical consistency, that is to say the abstractly analogous treatment of one dogma after the scheme of another; 9) the endeavour to reconcile different tendencies in the Church; 10) rejection of “false doctrine”; 11) the sanctifying power of blind habit.

57. Yrjö Hirn: *Det heliga Skrinet*. p. XIII f.—Tegnér even regarded religion as circumscribed poetry. (Letter to Hagberg 26 November 1820.) In our time Jacob Burckhardt (*Weltgeschichtliche Betrachtungen* p. 69) has called poetry religion’s organ.

58. See besides *Conf.* X (especially 8; 35–38; 65) also I, 1 (where the relation between invocation and knowledge is touched on); III, 11 (*Deus est interior intimo meo et superior summo meo*); VI, 1 (*Qværebam te foris a me, et non inveniebam deum cordis mei*). Besides: *De vera religione* c. 39 (*Noli foras ire: in teipsum redi, in interiore homine habitat veritas*).

59. *Upanishaderne ved Tuxen*. II. p. 110–115.

60. Liebner: *Hugo a St. Victore*. p. 41; 271; 332. HAURÉAU: *Les oeuvres de Hugues de St.*

Victor. Paris 1886. p. 140 f.—The expression “embrace” or “touch” (*venit ut tangat te, non ut videatur a te*) recalls Plotinus (cf. *Ennead.* V, 3, 16–17 and II, 7, 36). One is involuntarily reminded here of the tale of Amor and Psyche. Both the Greek and the Hebrew erotic have been able to furnish symbols for religious experience.—Angèle de Foligno: *Le livre des visions et instructions*. Trad. par Ernest Hello, 3. ed. Paris 1895. p. 67 f.—Remarkable is the agreement in terminology between Hugh of St. Victor and Saint Teresa. Cf. *Vie de Ste. Tèrese, écrite par elle-même*. Paris 1896. p. 181 f.; 209 f.; 275 f.

61. *Suso's Leben und Schriften*. Herausg. von Diepenbrock. Regensburg 1829. p. VIII f.—*Vie de Ste Tèrese*. p. 280; 382.—Of Saint Birgitta it is related that before her “revelations” were sent out into the world they were subjected to an orthodox theologian’s examination, so that what stemmed from the Devil and not from God might be sorted out. See H. Schück: *Sveriges Litteratur till Frihetstidens början*. Stockholm 1896. p. 95 f.

62. Hauréau: *Les oeuvres de Hugues de St. Victor*. p. 137.—*Vie de Ste Tèrese*. p. 97 f.; 181.—Cf. Julius Lange: *Menneskefiguren i Kunstens Historie*. Copenhagen 1899. p. 266.

63. Ed. Zeller: *Das theologische System Zwingli's*. p. 31 f.

64. Julius Lange: *Menneskefiguren i Kunstens Historie*. p. 299.

65. Augustine: *Confessiones*. VI, 6; XIII, 10; 13.—Martensen: *Mester Eckardt*¹. p. 103.—*Den nyere Filosofis Historie*³. III. p. 182–86; 205 f.; IV p. 79–81.—CHR. SCHREMPF: *Kierkegaard's Stellung zur Bibel und Dogma*. (Zeitschr. für Theologie und Kirche. 1. 1891.)

66. Cf. H. Oldenberg’s characterization of the etymological school in the science of religion in his work *Aus Indien und Iran*. p. 44–55.

67. Already in *Den nyere Filosofis Historie*³. III. p. 269 f. I have indicated this criticism.

68. James in *Proceedings of the Society for Psychical Research*, June 1903. p. 32.—On James’s psychology of religion see my programme *Om nogle religionsfilosofiske Arbejder fra den nyeste Tid* (1903). (Also printed in *Mindre Arbejder* III.)

69. Hermann Gunkel: *Zum religionsgeschichtlichen Verständnis des neuen Testaments* p. 54–58.

70. Dilthey in “Archiv für Geschichte der Philosophie” VI. p. 96 f.

71. Cf. Usener: *Götternamen*. p. 78 f.; 177–187.—Tiele: *Elements of the Science of Religion*. I. p. 173–177; II. p. 85 f.—A characteristic spiritual interpretation of an old barbaric custom is discussed by Cumont: *Die Mysterien des Mitra*. (German trans.) p. 135–138.

72. Erik Stave: *Ueber den Einfluss des Parsismus auf das Judenthum*. Haarlem 1898. p. 185.

73. An extraordinarily beautiful depiction of the quiet ones in the land of Israel (late Judaism) is given by Wetter: *Det romerska världsrikets religioner*. (1917). p. 204–259.

74. Cf. on Kant's philosophy-of-religion standpoint *Den nyere Filosofis Historie*². II. p. 95 f.—Of Kant's successors, Fries has most clearly seen the symbolic and poetic character that, in consequence of the turning point given with Kant, must be ascribed to religious ideas. See his youthful work *Wissen, Glaube und Ahnung* (1804). p. 252–257. (On the dogmas of natural religion: p. 158 f.; 260.) In his later work *Religionsphilosophie* (1832) he has again developed his conception. Note especially the following statement (p. 88): “Das Schönste, welches wir nur auszudenken vermögen, scheint [for religious faith] das richtigste Bild der ewigen Wahrheit zu sein.... Diese religiöse Ueberzeugung ist nicht nur bildlich, sondern in ihrer Ausführung ganz dichterisch. Ihre Wahrheit ist die Wahrheit im tiefen inneren Ernst des Dichters.”—The expression “most correct” can easily lead into dogmatism. More than in Fries himself, a dogmatic tendency comes forward in his disciple Apelt. See his *Religionsphilosophie* (1863) p. 163, where certain definite symbols are laid down as necessary and correct.—Mr cand. theol. Knud Obel, who has helped me with the publication of this work, made in connection with my treatment of the concept of the symbol some remarks that seem to me so interesting that with his permission I set them down here: “At the moment a symbol is formed for a religious feeling, a wholly new feeling arises. In that a vivid symbol is formed for a cosmic relation, there is called forth a feeling that is different both from the one awakened by the relation that is to be symbolized and from the one awakened by the relation the symbol is drawn from—precisely by these two relations' being screwed together in consciousness. The cold universal acquires warmth through the symbol with all the feelings attached to it from the most inward relations of life; but these everyday feelings acquire at the same time, through the idea's extension to the greater relations, a new tone, the chord of exaltedness.”—This is quite rightly thought. But free symbol-formation has as yet played too slight a role in the religious domain for there to be definite and decisive experiences of how the symbol works back on feeling and on consciousness as a whole. We can only illuminate it by the manner in which the finished dogma works back on the religious consciousness. Let one compare, for example, the primitive Christian ideas of Jesus with orthodox religiosity's fixed and fenced-off Christology, and the different way in which the religious consciousness shapes itself in the two cases. There will be an analogy between the symbol's and the dogma's reactions.

75. Cf. my *Etik*⁴. p. 42; 206; 273 f.

76. Georg Simmel: *Schopenhauer und Nietzsche*. (1907). p. 89.

77. *Reden Gotamo Buddho's*. Uebers. von Neumann. II. p. 84.—*Dhammapada*. p. 91 f.; 373 f. (Tuxen's trans.)
78. Augustine: *Confessiones* XI, 13; XII, 18.—Martensen: *Mester Eckardt*. p. 21.—*Den nyere Filosofis Historie* (the sections on Böhme and on Spinoza).
79. *Reden Gotamo Buddho's*. Uebers. von Neumann. I. p. 515 f.; II. p. 90; 475 ff.—WARREN: *Buddhism in translations*, p. 437.—*Dhammapada*. v. 210 ff. (Tuxen's trans.)
80. Augustine: *De vera religione*. cap. 40–41; cf. *Retractiones* I, 7. *De civitate dei* XXI, 17.
81. The consequence that God cannot be blessed has been drawn by Schopenhauer (*Aus Schopenhauers handschriftl. Nachlass*. Leipzig 1864. p. 441), S. Kierkegaard (*Efterladte Papirer* 1854–55. p. 169), and Guyau (*L'irréligion de l'avenir*. p. 388).—The consequence that compassion with the damned would make the blessedness of the saved impossible has been drawn by Schleiermacher (*Der christliche Glaube* § 163, appendix). Such consequences presuppose primary concepts of value other than those of primitive Christianity, of Augustine, and of Thomas.—Thomas Aquinas expressly emphasizes how the blessedness of the saved is felt the more strongly by the contrast with the suffering of the damned: *Quum contraria juxta se posita magis elucescant, beati in regno coelesti videbunt poenas damnatorum, ut beatitudo illis magis complaceat*. (*Summa Theol.* III. Suppl. 94, 1.) Conversely the suffering of the damned is increased by their first (before the day of judgment) seeing and afterwards (after the day of judgment) remembering the joy of the blessed (ib. 98, 9).—That a single human being would be able to become blessed even if all others did not, Thomas grounds thus: *Homo habet totam plenitudinem suae perfectionis in deo... Perfectio caritatis est essentialis beatitudini quantum ad dilectionem dei, non quantum ad dilectionem proximi. Unde si esset una sola anima fruens deo, beata esset non habens proximum, quem diligeret* (*Summa*. Pars II. Quæstio 4. Art. 8).
82. *Summa Theol.* III. Suppl. 94, 3.
83. Augustine: *De moribus Manichæorum*. cap. 4.—*De natura boni* cap. 10.—The doctrine of creation is subject to the same difficulty as the doctrine of emanation.
84. Thomas Aquinas: *Summa Theol.* Pars I. Qv. 19. Art. 31. *Quum nihil ei perfectionis ex aliis accrescat, sequitur, qvod alia a se eum velle non sit necessarium absolute*.
85. Cf. note 30. *Oplevelse og Tydning* p. 98–102. (Cécile V.'s new concept of the divine.)
86. Cf. *Begrebet Analogi*. p. 122; 126; 133 f.
87. Cf. *Den nyere Filosofis Historie*. The sections on Böhme, Bayle, Leibniz, Butler, and Schelling.

88. Cf. my treatise *Pascal og Kierkegaard*. (Tilskueren 1923.)
89. Wallace: *Rusland*. Danish trans. I. p. 132.
90. Cf. the more detailed development of this in my *Etik*⁴. p. 172–179.
91. Jul. Lange: *Menneskefiguren i Kunstens Historie*. p. 334.—Cf. my treatise *Filosofi som Kunst* (1893). (Reprinted in “Mindre Arbejder.” I.)
92. *Reden über die Religion*³. p. 91.
93. Warren: *Buddhism in translations*. p. 59.—*Die Reden Gotamo Buddho's*. Uebers. von Neumann. I. p. 232 f.; 244–248.—II. p. 148–160.
94. Deussen's translation of *Upanishad*. p. 476; 479. (Liberation from Kama, i.e. desire.) The name Nirvana itself occurs in the later Upanishad (ibid. p. 695).—Cf. generally on the relation between Upanishad and Buddhism Deussen's remarks in *Die Philosophie der Upanishad's*. (Gesch. der Philos. I, 2). p. V.
95. *The Dhammapada*. ed. Fausbøll. 2. ed. London 1900. p. 91.
96. *Die Reden Gotamo Buddho's* I. p. 516. According to another account (see *Die Reden Buddho's* II. p. 450 ff.) it was the thought of human beings' dullness and unreceptiveness, of their disinclination to espouse “a doctrine that goes against the stream,” that held Buddha back. But a god opened his eyes to the fact that there were nevertheless many noble, clear-sighted, and sensible people in the world, and his compassion now brought him away from his first resolution.—The conversation between Buddha and a grieving householder, to which reference is made in the following passage in the text, is found in *Reden Buddho's* II. p. 475 ff.
97. Warren: *Buddhism in translations*. p. 28.—*Die Reden Buddho's*, übers. von Neumann. I. p. 447.—There is nevertheless still a psychological riddle left. For while love is named as the ninth perfection, indifference is named as the tenth and is compared with the earth, which shows neither “hatred nor friendliness” towards “the sweet or the foul” that is thrown upon it! And alongside the expansion conditioned by recognition, immovability is named!
98. Cf. Tokiwo Yokoi: *The ethical life and conceptions of the Japanese*. (Journal of Ethics. VI). p. 184; 190 f.—Cf. Baeltz: *Japansk Krigeraand* (Tilskueren. Sept. 1905). p. 717.
99. Georges Goyau: *L'Allemagne religieuse. Le Protestantisme*. Paris 1898. p. 121.
100. SARPI: *Histoire du Concile de Trente*. Trad. franç. par Amelot de la Houssaye. Amsterdam 1686. p. 137–149.

- 101.** On the religious movement in the first decades of the nineteenth century in its relation to the immediately preceding time see *Ledende Tanker i det nittende Aarhundrede*. p. 114–124.
- 102.** “Die Kirchen vermögen die Theologie nicht zu entbehren, und doch auch nicht zu ertragen. Die Theologie haftet an der Wissenschaft und ist doch keine Wissenschaft, sondern eine Verwendung wissenschaftlicher Bildung für kirchliche Zwecke. Dieser Zwiespalt im Wesen der Theologie braucht nicht immer so qualvoll zu sein, wie er in den beiden letzten Jahrhunderten für uns geworden ist. Aber verschwinden kann er nicht.” Troeltsch: *Die Selbständigkeit der Religion*. (Zeitschr. für Theol. u. Kirche. VI). p. 109. (In the same place is also found the expression “Stosskissen.”)
- 103.** *Aus Indien und Iran*. p. 101 f.
- 104.** Cf. on the difference between motive of evaluation and motive of action my *Etik*⁴. p. 27; 60–62.
- 105.** Cf. Joh. Clausen: *Lov og Evangelium i Forhold til Christendomsforkyndelsen, forhandlet mellem Reformatorerne i Wittenberg og Agrikola fra Eisleben*. Copenhagen 1872. p. 51–64.—That Agrikola showed lack of bearing and subtlety in the course of the dispute does not abolish the psychological and ethical justification of his first assertion, when due regard is had to the personal differences among those who are to be influenced.
- 106.** See further my *Etik*⁴ p. 201–206; 273 f.
- 107.** Cf. H. Weinel: *Die Wirkungen des Geistes und der Geister im nachapostolischen Zeitalter bis auf Irenäus*. Freiburg 1899.
- 108.** *De civitate dei*. XX, 9.
- 109.** *Lehrb. der Dogmengeschichte*³. II. p. 9.
- 110.** Hutton: *Cardinal Newman*. p. 110–119.—*Vie de Ste Tèrese écrite par elle-même*. Trad. par Bouix. p. 165; 177.
- 111.** A. Ritschl: *Geschichte des Pietismus*. II. p. 122–125; 308; 448.—A. HARNACK: *Lehrbuch der Dogmengeschichte*³. I. p. 72; III. p. 101 f.—In a similar direction TROELTSCH expresses himself in his treatise *Die Selbständigkeit der Religion* (Zeitschr. für Theologie u. Kirche. V–VI) and SABATIER in his *Philosophie de la Religion* (p. 220; 230; 237 f.; 251 f.).—Cf. on the problem itself my treatise: *Pascal og Kierkegaard* (Tilskueren 1923) and the article *To Præster* (reprinted in “Oplevelse og Tydning” p. 202–208).